Microservices Design Patterns — Capstone Projects

How to use this book

A **capstone** is a project big enough to force you to use several patterns together, but small enough to finish. Reading about a circuit breaker teaches you the state machine. Building one in front of a flaky payment service, watching the dashboards while you kill the service, and then explaining to yourself why the retries made things *worse* — that teaches you the pattern. Each of the 40 briefs below is a design document for such a project.

Picking a project. Start with the Project map. If you are new to microservices, do two or three Beginner projects in a row: they each isolate one pattern and can be finished in a weekend. Intermediate projects combine two or three patterns and introduce real infrastructure (Kafka, PostgreSQL, Kubernetes). Advanced projects are small systems in their own right — four to six weeks of evenings — and are the ones worth putting on a CV or talking through in a system-design interview. Prerequisite chapters are listed for each project; skim them first.

Using a brief. Every project follows the same shape:

1. *What it is*, *The problem it solves* and *Real-world examples* tell you why the project matters and who runs something similar in production (with links you can read).
2. *Requirements*, *The architecture*, *Data model* and *Tech stack* are the design. Treat them as a starting point: you may change a choice, but write down why.
3. *Milestones* are the build order. Do them in order, and do not move on until the "done when" check passes — each milestone leaves you with something that runs.
4. *Deep dive: the hard parts* explains the two to four places where people usually get stuck. Read it before you start the matching milestone.
5. *Testing strategy* and *Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes* are what separate a demo from a design.
6. *Stretch goals* are for when the milestones are done. *Skills practised* links back to the chapter notes, and *In the interview* gives questions an interviewer would ask about this exact system.

Using these projects in interviews. Every *In the interview* section has the same shape. Open with the **30-second answer**: what you built, the one design decision that mattered, the hardest problem and one number. Then make sure you can define every entry under **Key terms** in plain words, because interviewers probe vocabulary first ("what exactly is a compensating transaction?"). Practise the Q&As out loud until you can answer without reading. Replace the brief's targets with your own measured numbers — p95 latency, consumer lag, events per second, data size, how many tests run — since real figures are what make a project credible. Finally, prepare for the two follow-ups that always come: "what would you change at 10x the load?" and "what breaks first?".

Colour coding. In the PDF, the recurring headings are coloured the same way as the chapter notes, so you can scan a brief quickly: *What it is* (definition), *The problem it solves* (problem), *The architecture* (how it works), *Trade-offs* (costs), *Real-world examples* (real world), *In the interview* (interview), *Self-check* (questions to test yourself) and *TL;DR* (the one-line summary).

Levels.

Level	What it means	Typical time
Beginner	One pattern, two or three services, Docker Compose	1–2 weekends
Intermediate	Two or three patterns together, Kafka or Kubernetes, real tests	1–3 weeks
Advanced	A small platform, many patterns, failure testing, scaling decisions	3–6 weeks

Default stack. Unless a brief says otherwise: Java 25, Spring Boot 4.1.1 (Spring Framework 7) with the matching Spring Cloud release train (2025.1.x "Oakwood" is the train that supports Boot 4.1 at the time of writing — check the compatibility table on the Spring Cloud project page), Resilience4j through its Spring Boot 4 starter (`resilience4j-spring-boot4`, added in Resilience4j 2.4) or through Spring Cloud Circuit Breaker, PostgreSQL, Apache Kafka (current version, KRaft mode — no ZooKeeper), Docker Compose

for local runs and Kubernetes (kind or k3d locally) for the advanced projects. The runnable demos in ../../demos/README.md use only the JDK (no Spring, no Resilience4j, no Kafka) and show each mechanism in a single `main` method. Their Gradle build pins a Java 21 toolchain, and each file also runs directly with `java File.java` on Java 25. Several Beginner briefs tell you to start from one and grow it into a real service — the demos use their own toy domains (a banking system for the strangler fig, a charge-and-refund ledger for the saga), so treat them as mechanism sketches, not starter code for the brief's domain.

A note on the briefs. They describe *what* to build and *why*, and they explain the hard parts in prose. They deliberately do not give you the code — writing it is the point. When a brief names a library or a setting, look it up in the official docs linked from the chapter notes; versions change faster than this book.

Project map

#	Project	Level	Time	Prerequisites (chapters)
1	Strangler Facade for a Legacy Bookstore	Beginner	1 weekend	Ch 2, 3
2	Edge Gateway with Spring Cloud Gateway	Beginner	1 weekend	Ch 3
3	Recipe App Backends for Frontends	Beginner	1–2 weekends	Ch 3, 4
4	Mini Service Registry with Heartbeats	Beginner	1 weekend	Ch 5
5	Resilient Weather Client	Beginner	1 weekend	Ch 6, 8
6	Bulkheaded Product Page	Beginner	1 weekend	Ch 6, 7
7	Log-Shipping and Metrics Sidecar	Beginner	1 weekend	Ch 9
8	Externalized Config and Live Feature Flags	Beginner	1 weekend	Ch 13
9	Signup Events with Kafka	Beginner	1–2 weekends	Ch 11
10	CQRS Library Catalogue	Beginner	1–2 weekends	Ch 12
11	Orchestrated Order Saga	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 8, 10
12	Choreographed Travel Booking Saga	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 10, 11
13	Transactional Outbox Relay	Intermediate	1–2 weeks	Ch 10, 11
14	Kafka Retry Topics and Dead-Letter Console	Intermediate	1–2 weeks	Ch 8, 11
15	Product Search Read Model	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 11, 12
16	End-to-End Tracing with OpenTelemetry	Intermediate	1–2 weeks	Ch 3, 9
17	Consumer-Driven Contract Testing Pipeline	Intermediate	1–2 weeks	Ch 3, 4
18	From Eureka to Kubernetes Service Discovery	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 5, 13
19	Distributed Rate Limiter for the Gateway	Intermediate	1–2 weeks	Ch 3, 7
20	GraphQL BFF with Batched Aggregation	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 3, 4, 6
21	Feature Flag Service with Gradual Rollout	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 2, 13
22	Chaos Lab for Resilience Tuning	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 6, 7, 8
23	Database Strangling with Change Data Capture	Intermediate	2–3 weeks	Ch 2, 11
24	Event-Sourced Wallet	Intermediate	2–3 weeks	Ch 11, 12
25	Zero-Trust Token Relay Gateway	Intermediate	2 weeks	Ch 3, 9
26	Monolith-to-Microservices Migration with Parallel Run	Advanced	4–6 weeks	Ch 2, 3, 11
27	Service Mesh Platform with Istio	Advanced	3–4 weeks	Ch 5, 6, 8, 9
28	Multi-Tenant SaaS Platform	Advanced	4–6 weeks	Ch 3, 7, 13
29	Food Delivery Platform	Advanced	5–6 weeks	Ch 10, 11, 12
30	Ride-Hailing Dispatch with Event Streams	Advanced	4–6 weeks	Ch 5, 11, 12
31	Payments Platform with Idempotency and Reconciliation	Advanced	4–5 weeks	Ch 8, 10, 11

#	Project	Level	Time	Prerequisites (chapters)
32	Active-Active Multi-Region Deployment	Advanced	4–6 weeks	Ch 5, 6, 13
33	Durable Workflow Engine	Advanced	4–6 weeks	Ch 8, 10
34	Observability Platform with Tail Sampling and SLOs	Advanced	3–4 weeks	Ch 6, 9
35	Adaptive Load-Shedding Gateway	Advanced	3–4 weeks	Ch 3, 6, 7
36	Flash-Sale Inventory Reservation System	Advanced	4–5 weeks	Ch 7, 10, 11, 12
37	Progressive Delivery with Automated Canary Analysis	Advanced	3–4 weeks	Ch 2, 9, 13
38	Event Schema Governance Platform	Advanced	3–4 weeks	Ch 11, 12
39	Cell-Based Architecture with a Cell Router	Advanced	4–6 weeks	Ch 3, 5, 7
40	Golden-Path Microservice Platform	Advanced	5–6 weeks	Ch 2–13

1. Strangler Facade for a Legacy Bookstore

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1 weekend · **Prerequisites:** Ch 2, Ch 3

What it is

A small "legacy" bookstore monolith (one Spring Boot app with catalogue, cart and orders in one database) plus a **strangler facade** — a reverse proxy that sits in front of it and decides, per request, whether the old monolith or a new extracted service answers. You extract the catalogue into its own service and move traffic to it gradually. A *reverse proxy* is a server that receives client requests and forwards them to one of several backends, so the client never knows which one answered.

The problem it solves

Rewriting a monolith in one go ("big bang") means months with no shipped value and a terrifying cut-over day. The strangler fig pattern replaces the system one capability at a time behind a stable front door, so each step is small, testable and reversible. This project makes you feel the core mechanic: routing is the migration lever, and rollback is a routing change, not a redeploy.

Real-world examples

- Martin Fowler named the pattern after strangler fig vines that grow around a host tree: StranglerFigApplication.
- Shopify used it to pull store-settings logic out of a very large `Shop` model step by step: Refactoring Legacy Code with the Strangler Fig Pattern.
- AWS documents the facade-plus-routing approach for decomposing monoliths: Strangler fig pattern — AWS Prescriptive Guidance.

Requirements

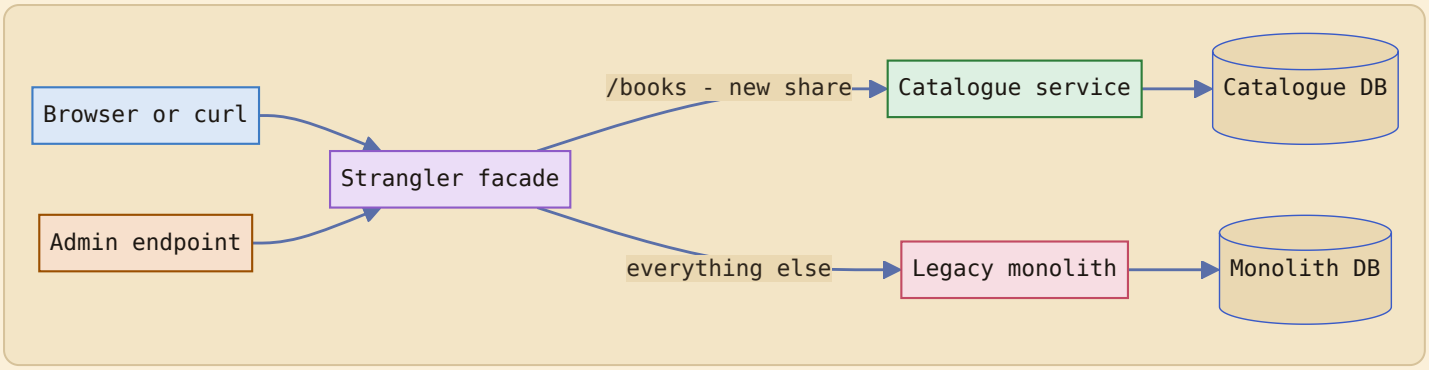
Functional

- Monolith exposes `GET /books`, `GET /books/{id}`, `POST /cart/items`, `POST /orders`.
- New catalogue service exposes the same `/books` contract (same JSON shape).
- Facade routes `/books/**` by a rule: off, a percentage of users, or all users.
- The same user always hits the same backend (sticky by user id hash).
- The routing rule can be changed at runtime through an admin endpoint, with no restart.

Non-functional

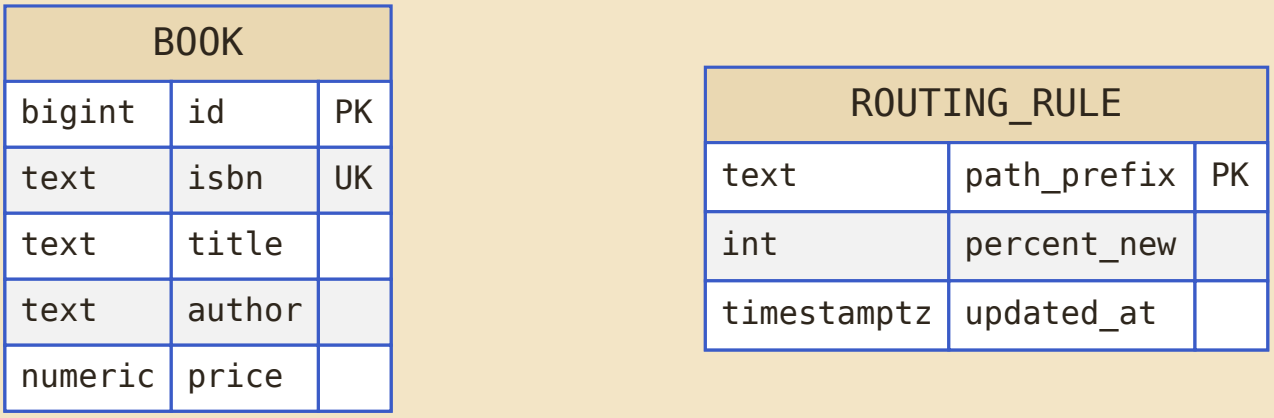
- Facade adds under 5 ms p95 latency on a laptop.
- Rollback (100% back to the monolith) takes effect within 1 second.
- Every response carries a header naming which backend served it, for debugging.

The architecture



- **Strangler facade** — a Spring Cloud Gateway app (or a plain servlet proxy) that holds the routing rule in memory.
- **Legacy monolith** — keeps serving everything not yet migrated, including writes to books for now.
- **Catalogue service** — the first extracted capability. It reads from its own database, which you seed by copying the monolith's `books` table.
- **Admin endpoint** — flips the migration percentage. Later projects replace this with a config server (Project 8).

Data model



`BOOK` exists in both databases during the migration. `ROUTING_RULE` lives only in the facade's memory or a tiny table.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Facade	Spring Cloud Gateway (Web MVC variant)	Routes and predicates out of the box
Services	Spring Boot 4.1.1 on Java 25	Matches the rest of the book
Databases	PostgreSQL, one per service	Shows data ownership early
Runtime	Docker Compose	One command to start all four containers

Milestones

1. **Run the monolith.** Start from the in-process demo StranglerFigDemo.java to see the routing idea, then build the real monolith. *Done when* `curl /books` returns seeded data.

2. **Put the facade in front at 0%.** All traffic passes through unchanged. *Done when* the response header says `served-by: monolith` for every call.
3. **Extract the catalogue service.** Same JSON contract, own database. *Done when* a diff script shows identical responses from both for every book.
4. **Route by percentage with sticky users.** *Done when* 1,000 simulated users at 20% split roughly 200/800 and the same user id always lands on the same side.
5. **Rollback drill.** *Done when* setting 0% sends all new requests to the monolith within a second, with no restart.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Sticky routing. Random per-request routing makes a user see two different catalogues if the data drifts. Hash the user id (or a cookie) into 0–99 and compare to the percentage, so raising the percentage only ever *adds* users to the new side.

Data that both sides need. The monolith still writes books (admin edits) while the new service reads them. For this beginner version, a nightly copy is fine and you accept staleness. Project 23 replaces that with change data capture.

Contract parity. The new service must return exactly what clients expect, including field names, null handling and error codes. Write a comparison script that calls both and diffs the JSON — this is a cheap form of the "parallel run" in Project 26.

Testing strategy

Unit-test the hash-and-compare routing function with fixed user ids. Use Testcontainers (throwaway Docker containers started by a test) to spin up PostgreSQL for each service's integration tests. Add one end-to-end test that flips the percentage through the admin endpoint and asserts the `served-by` header changes.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

The facade is now a single point of failure — run two instances behind a load balancer in anything real. Two copies of book data can drift, so decide which side is the source of truth for each field. The pattern costs an extra network hop. If the new service is down, the facade should fall back to the monolith for read-only paths (a nice first taste of Project 5).

Stretch goals

- Route by header (`X-Beta: true`) for internal testers before any percentage.
- Shadow traffic: send a copy of requests to the new service and log differences without returning its answer.
- Delete the monolith's catalogue code once at 100% for a week — the real finish line.

Skills practised

- Incremental migration and routing: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig
- A single entry point: Ch 3 — API Gateway

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** I put a strangler facade — a small Spring Cloud Gateway reverse proxy — in front of a legacy bookstore monolith and extracted the catalogue into its own service with its own PostgreSQL database. The key decision was routing by a hash of the user id, so a 20% rollout always shows the same users the new service and raising the percentage only adds users. The hardest part was data: the monolith still wrote books, so I made it the source of truth and copied data to the new service on a schedule. Rollback is a routing change that takes effect in under a second with no redeploy.

Key terms to know:

- **Strangler fig pattern** — replacing a legacy system one capability at a time behind a stable front door. Here the catalogue is the first capability moved.
- **Reverse proxy / facade** — a server that receives client calls and forwards them to one of several backends. The facade is the only thing clients see.
- **Big-bang rewrite** — replacing the whole system in one cut-over. The approach this project avoids.
- **Sticky routing** — the same user always goes to the same backend, here by hashing the user id into 0–99 and comparing it with the rollout percentage.
- **Source of truth** — the one system whose copy of a record wins. The monolith owns book writes during the migration.
- **Contract parity** — the new service returns the same JSON, status codes and null handling as the old one. Checked by a diff script.
- **Rollback by routing** — undoing a migration by sending traffic back to the old system instead of redeploying.
- **Shadow traffic** — copying requests to the new service and comparing results without returning them to users (a stretch goal).

Q: Why not rewrite the whole monolith at once?

A: A big-bang rewrite delivers no value until cut-over and puts all the risk on a single day. Strangling ships one capability at a time, each step can be tested on real traffic, and each step can be undone by changing a route.

Q: How do you roll back a migrated capability?

A: Set the percentage for that path back to 0 through the admin endpoint. Because the facade owns the routing decision, no deploy is needed — but it only works while the old code path still exists and its data is still current, which is why you delete monolith code only after a quiet period at 100%.

Q: Why hash the user id instead of routing each request randomly?

A: Random per-request routing can show one user two different catalogues on consecutive page loads if the data has drifted. A stable hash puts each user on one side, so bugs reach a fixed, small group, and moving from 20% to 30% only adds users rather than reshuffling everyone.

Q: What is the hardest part in practice?

A: Data, not code. Both systems need the same book records during the migration, so you must pick one owner per entity and a sync mechanism. Here a scheduled copy is enough and staleness is accepted; in a real system you would use change data capture (Project 23).

Q: How did you prove the new service is a safe replacement?

A: A comparison script calls `/books` and `/books/{id}` on both backends for every book and diffs the JSON, including error cases like an unknown id. I also had an end-to-end test that flips the percentage and checks the `served-by` header changes.

Q: The facade is in front of everything. What happens if it crashes?

A: Every request fails, so it is a single point of failure. It must be stateless (the routing rule loaded from config or a small table), run as two or more instances behind a load balancer, and be kept free of business logic so it rarely needs changing.

Q: What if the new catalogue service is down?

A: For read-only paths the facade can fall back to the monolith, which still has the data. That is a first taste of a circuit breaker with a fallback. For writes you would not fall back silently, because the two databases would diverge.

Q: What changes at 10x traffic, or with ten capabilities to move?

A: The facade needs horizontal scaling and its overhead (target under 5 ms p95) matters more. With many capabilities, the routing rules move into a config server or flag service (Projects 8 and 21) and each team migrates its own path. Data synchronisation becomes the bottleneck long before the proxy does.

Q: In Spring Cloud Gateway, how would you route `/books/**` to the new service?

A: Declare a route with a `Path=/books/**` predicate. With the current 2025.x release train the Web MVC gateway's properties live under `spring.cloud.gateway.server.webmvc.routes` (the older `spring.cloud.gateway.mvc` prefix is deprecated). The percentage logic is a custom predicate or filter that hashes the user id.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying the strangler pattern is "about routing". Routing is the easy part — the real work is data ownership and keeping both sides consistent.
- Claiming rollback is always instant. It is only instant while the old path is still deployed and its data is fresh.
- Forgetting that the facade itself must be highly available and kept thin.

TL;DR

Put a routing facade in front of a monolith, extract one capability, move users across by sticky percentage, and prove you can roll back in one second.

2. Edge Gateway with Spring Cloud Gateway

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1 weekend · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3

What it is

An **API gateway** for three tiny services (users, products, orders): one public host and port that routes requests by path, checks an API key, adds a request id, logs every call, and aggregates one "order details" view from two services. An *API gateway* is the single front door that clients call instead of calling each service directly.

The problem it solves

Without a gateway, every client must know every service's address, and every service must re-implement authentication, logging and CORS (browser cross-origin rules). Change one internal address and every mobile app breaks. A gateway hides the topology and centralises cross-cutting concerns, at the cost of one more hop and one more thing to keep alive.

Real-world examples

- Netflix built Zuul as its edge gateway, handling routing, filtering and resilience at the front door: Open Sourcing Zuul 2.
- Chris Richardson's catalogue describes the gateway as a single entry point with optional request aggregation: Pattern: API Gateway.
- Spring's own gateway, used in this project: Spring Cloud Gateway reference.

Requirements

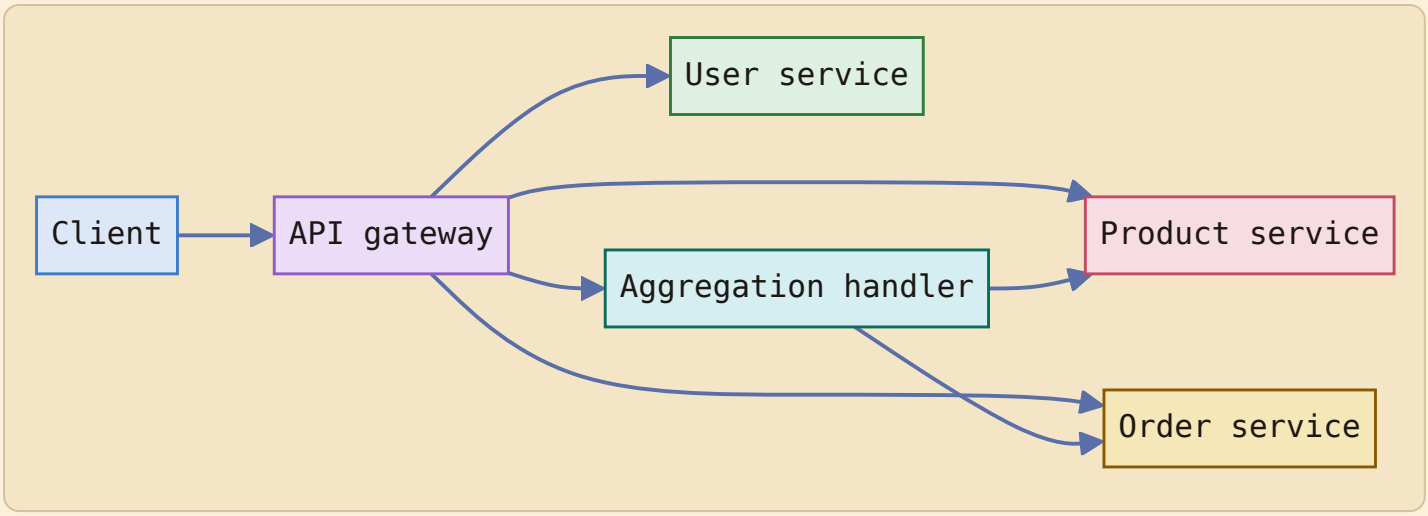
Functional

- Route `/api/users/**`, `/api/products/**`, `/api/orders/**` to the matching service, stripping the `/api` prefix.
- Reject requests without a valid `X-Api-Key` with HTTP 401.
- Add an `X-Request-Id` header (a UUID) if the client did not send one, and pass it downstream.
- `GET /api/order-details/{id}` calls orders and products and merges the result.
- Log method, path, status and duration for every request.

Non-functional

- Gateway overhead under 10 ms p95 for simple routes.
- Aggregated endpoint calls downstream services in parallel, so its latency is roughly the slowest call, not the sum.
- Downstream timeouts of 2 seconds — no request hangs forever.

The architecture



- **API gateway** — Spring Cloud Gateway with route definitions in `application.yml` and two custom filters (API key, request id).
- **Aggregation handler** — a controller inside the gateway that fans out two calls and merges them. Keep it thin: no business rules here.
- **Services** — three minimal Spring Boot apps with in-memory data.

Data model

Type	Fields	Notes
`ApiKey`	key, clientName, enabled	Loaded from config at startup
`OrderDetails`	orderId, status, items with product name and price	Built by the aggregator, never stored

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Gateway	Spring Cloud Gateway	Declarative routes, filters, timeouts
Fan-out	Java 25 virtual threads	Two blocking calls in parallel, simple code
Services	Spring Boot 4.1.1	Same stack everywhere
Run	Docker Compose	Four containers, one network

Milestones

1. **Three services on their own ports.** *Done when* each answers directly with curl.
2. **Path routing.** *Done when* only the gateway port is published and all three services answer through it.
3. **Filters.** API key check and request id. *Done when* a missing key gets 401 and the request id appears in all four logs.
4. **Aggregation.** *Done when* `order-details` returns merged JSON, and with an artificial 300 ms delay in each service, total latency is about 300 ms, not 600 ms (compare with the sequential-versus-parallel numbers printed by ApiGatewayDemo.java, about 270 ms down to about 125 ms for three calls).
5. **Timeouts.** *Done when* a service that sleeps 10 seconds causes a 504 from the gateway after 2 seconds.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Filter order. The request id filter must run before logging, and authentication before routing, or you log requests without ids and forward unauthenticated calls. Gateway filters have an explicit order — set it deliberately.

Aggregation creep. Once you can merge two calls in the gateway, it is tempting to add business logic there. Resist: the gateway becomes a mini-monolith that every team must change. If aggregation grows per client, that is what BFFs are for (Project 3).

Partial failure. If products is down, should `order-details` fail or return the order without product names? Decide and document it. Returning partial data with a flag is usually kinder to users.

Testing strategy

Use WireMock (an HTTP server that returns canned responses) to stand in for downstream services in gateway tests. Assert routing, header propagation, 401 handling and the 504 timeout. One Compose-based smoke test runs the whole stack.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

The gateway is a single point of failure and a bottleneck, so it must be stateless and horizontally scaled. Every concern you add (auth, logging, transformations) adds latency. A slow downstream can tie up gateway resources — timeouts are the minimum defence, and bulkheads (Project 6) the next.

Stretch goals

- Per-client rate limiting with Redis (preview of Project 19).
- Response caching for `GET /products/{id}` with a 30-second TTL.
- Replace API keys with JWT validation.

Skills practised

- Routing, filters, aggregation: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Timeouts as the first resilience step: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker

In the interview

30-second answer: I built an edge gateway with Spring Cloud Gateway in front of three services: it routes by path, strips the `/api` prefix, rejects requests without a valid API key, adds an `X-Request-Id`, logs every call and serves one aggregated "order details" endpoint. The key decision was keeping the gateway free of business rules, so it stays a thin, stateless front door. The hardest problem was latency of the aggregate: I call orders and products in parallel on virtual threads, so with 300 ms per service the endpoint takes about 300 ms, not 600 ms. Every downstream call has a 2-second timeout, after which the gateway answers 504.

Key terms to know:

- **API gateway** — the single public entry point that routes requests to internal services and handles cross-cutting concerns.
- **Cross-cutting concern** — something every service needs, such as authentication, logging, CORS or rate limiting. Here: API key check, request id, access log.
- **Route, predicate, filter** — a route maps a matching request (predicate, e.g. `Path=/api/users/**`) to a backend, and filters change the request or response on the way (e.g. `StripPrefix=1`).
- **Request aggregation** — one gateway endpoint that calls several services and merges the result (`/api/order-details/{id}`).
- **Correlation / request id** — a unique id attached at the edge and passed downstream so you can follow one request through all logs.
- **Timeout and 504 Gateway Timeout** — the gateway stops waiting after 2 s and tells the client a downstream service did not answer.
- **Virtual threads** — lightweight Java threads that make blocking parallel calls cheap. Used for the fan-out.
- **Partial failure** — one of the aggregated services fails. You choose between failing the whole response or returning partial data with a flag.

Q: What belongs in a gateway and what does not?

A: Cross-cutting concerns — routing, authentication, rate limiting, logging, request ids, simple aggregation — belong there. Business rules do not, because then every team has to change and redeploy a shared component, and the gateway turns into a mini-monolith.

Q: Gateway versus load balancer?

A: A load balancer spreads traffic across copies of one service, usually without understanding the application. A gateway understands paths, headers and identity and routes to many different services. In practice a load balancer often sits in front of several gateway instances.

Q: How do you stop the gateway being a single point of failure?

A: Keep it stateless, run several instances behind a load balancer, and push any shared state, such as rate-limit counters, into a store like Redis. Health checks remove a bad instance from rotation.

Q: Why does filter order matter?

A: Filters run as a chain. If authentication runs after routing you forward unauthenticated calls, and if the request-id filter runs after logging your logs have no ids. I gave each filter an explicit order: request id first, then auth, then logging and routing.

Q: What happens when the products service is down during aggregation?

A: Without a decision, the whole endpoint fails. I return the order with product fields missing and a `partial: true` flag, because an order status without names is still useful. A circuit breaker can then stop calling products while it is down.

Q: How do you make the aggregated call fast?

A: Run both downstream calls in parallel, so total latency is roughly the slowest call rather than the sum. With virtual threads you can write plain blocking `RestClient` calls inside two tasks and join them, which keeps the code simple.

Q: What breaks first at 10x traffic?

A: Usually connection pools and slow downstreams, not the gateway's CPU: a slow service holds connections and threads until timeouts free them. Next is any per-request work like token validation. You scale gateway instances horizontally, add per-route timeouts and bulkheads, and add rate limiting (Project 19).

Q: How did you test it?

A: WireMock stands in for the downstream services, so tests can assert routing, prefix stripping, header propagation, 401 on a missing key and 504 on a delayed stub. One Docker Compose smoke test runs the real stack end to end.

Q: Which Spring Cloud Gateway starter do you use with Spring Boot 4.1?

A: In the 2025.x release trains the starters were renamed to `spring-cloud-starter-gateway-server-webmvc` (servlet stack, works well with virtual threads) and `spring-cloud-starter-gateway-server-webflux` (reactive). I used the Web MVC one because the rest of the stack is blocking.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Putting business logic or per-client shaping in the gateway. That belongs in services or BFFs.
- Saying a gateway "adds no latency". It adds a hop and every filter costs time — measure it.
- Forgetting timeouts. A gateway without timeouts lets one slow service tie up all its resources.

TL;DR

One front door that routes, authenticates, tags and aggregates — and the discipline to keep business logic out of it.

3. Recipe App Backends for Frontends

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1–2 weekends · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 4

What it is

A recipe platform with two clients — a web app and a mobile app — and a **Backend for Frontend (BFF)** for each. A *BFF* is a small server owned by one client team that calls the shared backend services and returns exactly the shape that client needs. The shared services are recipes, reviews and users.

The problem it solves

One general-purpose API serves everyone badly. The web page wants full recipes with all reviews. The mobile list screen wants a title, a thumbnail URL and an average rating — and on a phone network every extra kilobyte and round trip hurts. A BFF lets each client get a tailored response in one call without bending the shared services.

Real-world examples

- Sam Newman's write-up that popularised the name and the "one BFF per user experience" rule: Backends For Frontends.
- Phil Calçado describes how SoundCloud arrived at the pattern while splitting its monolith: The Back-end for Front-end Pattern.
- Microsoft's architecture guide covers when to split per client: Backends for Frontends pattern.

Requirements

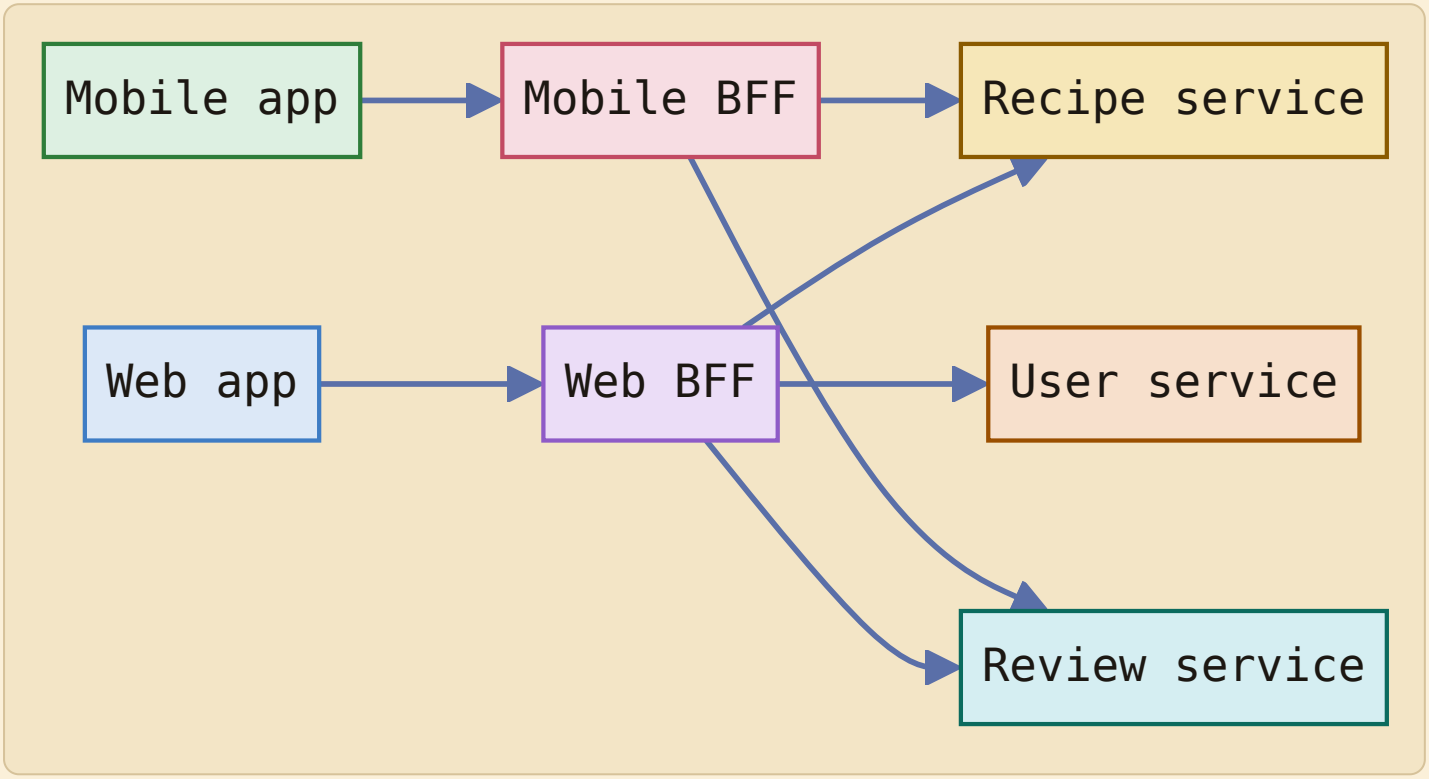
Functional

- Recipes service: CRUD for recipes (title, steps, ingredients, image URL).
- Reviews service: list reviews by recipe, average rating.
- Web BFF: `GET /recipes/{id}` returns full recipe, author name, all reviews.
- Mobile BFF: `GET /feed` returns 20 cards (id, title, thumbnail, average rating) and `GET /recipes/{id}` returns steps and only the top 3 reviews.

Non-functional

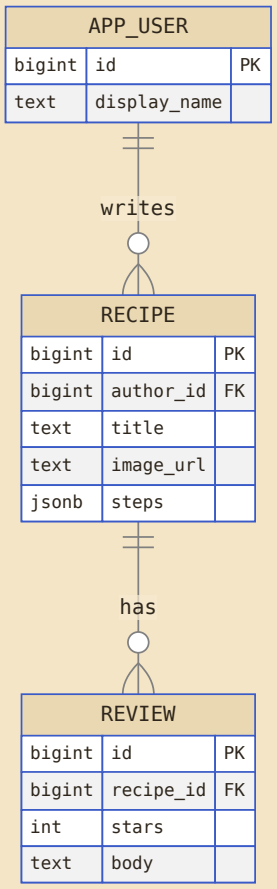
- Mobile feed payload under 5 KB for 20 cards (measure it).
- Each BFF makes downstream calls in parallel. p95 under 150 ms locally.
- BFFs hold no database of their own.

The architecture



- **Web BFF / Mobile BFF** — separate Spring Boot apps, each with its own response DTOs (data transfer objects — plain classes shaped for the wire).
- **Shared services** — know nothing about clients. They return general data.
- An optional gateway (Project 2) can sit in front of both BFFs for auth.

Data model



In a real split each table belongs to its own service database. The relationships are logical, not foreign keys across databases.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
BFFs	Spring Boot 4.1.1 with `RestClient`	Simple synchronous client, virtual threads for fan-out
Services	Spring Boot + PostgreSQL	Realistic persistence
Thumbnails	URL with size parameter	The mobile BFF picks a small size
Run	Docker Compose	Five services

Milestones

1. **Shared services with seed data.** *Done when* 50 recipes and 500 reviews load.
2. **One generic API used by both clients.** Measure payload size and calls per screen. *Done when* you have the "before" numbers written down.
3. **Web BFF.** *Done when* the detail page needs one call.
4. **Mobile BFF.** *Done when* the feed is under 5 KB and the detail call returns top 3 reviews only. Compare with the BFF demo, where the mobile BFF returns about 7% of the shared payload.

5. **Independent deploy.** *Done when* you change the mobile response shape without touching the web BFF or any service.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Duplication between BFFs. Both BFFs will call recipes and reviews. Some duplication is the price of independence. Share a small client library for calling services, not the response-shaping code.

The N+1 call trap. A feed of 20 recipes that calls reviews once per recipe makes 21 calls. Add a batch endpoint to reviews (`GET /ratings?recipeIds=1,2,3`) so the BFF makes two calls. This is the same problem DataLoader solves in Project 20.

Who owns the BFF? The pattern works when the client team owns its BFF. If one backend team owns all BFFs, they become a bottleneck and you have rebuilt a shared API.

Testing strategy

Unit-test mapping code (service DTO to client DTO). Use WireMock for downstream services so BFF tests do not need the stack. Add a payload-size assertion test for the mobile feed so it cannot silently grow.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

More deployables to run and monitor. Logic can leak into BFFs and diverge — keep business rules in services. Each BFF is a new failure point for its client only, which is actually a benefit: a broken web BFF does not take mobile down.

Stretch goals

- A third client (smart-TV) to test whether a new BFF is cheap to add.
- Cache the feed for 30 seconds in the mobile BFF.
- Graceful degradation: return cards without ratings if reviews times out.

Skills practised

- Per-client backends: Ch 4 — BFF
- Edge routing and aggregation: Ch 3 — API Gateway

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a recipe platform with two Backends for Frontends — one for the web app and one for the mobile app — in front of shared recipe, review and user services. The key decision was letting each BFF shape responses for its own screens: the web detail page gets everything in one call, and the mobile feed returns 20 small cards under 5 KB. The hardest problem was the N+1 call trap — a feed of 20 recipes calling reviews 20 times — which I fixed with a batch ratings endpoint so the feed needs two downstream calls. Both BFFs fan out in parallel and stay under 150 ms p95 locally.

Key terms to know:

- **Backend for Frontend (BFF)** — a thin server owned by one client team that calls shared services and returns exactly what that client needs.
- **DTO (data transfer object)** — a plain class shaped for the wire. Each BFF has its own response DTOs.
- **Over-fetching / under-fetching** — getting more data than the screen needs, or needing several calls to get enough. BFFs fix both.
- **N+1 call problem** — one call to get a list plus one call per item. Solved here with `GET /ratings?recipeIds=…`.
- **Fan-out** — calling several services in parallel and merging. Both BFFs do this.
- **Graceful degradation** — returning a useful response when a non-critical part fails (cards without ratings).

- **Payload budget** — a measured limit on response size (5 KB for 20 mobile cards), enforced by a test.
- **Team ownership** — the client team owns its BFF, so it can change shape without waiting for a backend team.

Q: BFF versus API gateway?

A: A gateway is one entry point for all clients and handles cross-cutting concerns like auth and rate limiting. A BFF is one backend per client type and shapes data for that client. They are often combined: gateway first, then BFFs behind it.

Q: When is a BFF overkill?

A: With one client, or several clients that need the same data in the same shape. Then a single well-designed API is simpler, and every extra BFF is one more service to deploy, monitor and secure.

Q: How do you prevent BFFs from duplicating business logic?

A: Keep rules (pricing, permissions, rating maths) in the domain services and keep BFFs to orchestration and mapping. Share a small HTTP client library between BFFs, but not the response-shaping code — that is meant to differ.

Q: What is the N+1 problem and how did you fix it?

A: Fetching 20 recipes and then calling reviews once per recipe makes 21 calls, and latency grows with the list size. I added a batch endpoint to the review service that accepts many recipe ids and returns all averages in one response, so the feed makes exactly two calls.

Q: What happens if the review service times out?

A: The mobile feed still returns cards, with ratings left empty and a flag, rather than failing the screen. For the web detail page the reviews section is marked unavailable. Each downstream call has its own timeout so one slow service cannot hold the page.

Q: Why separate BFF deployables rather than one service with `/web` and `/mobile` endpoints?

A: Independence: the mobile team can change and deploy its response shape without coordinating with web, and a crash or bad deploy in one BFF does not affect the other client. The cost is more services to run.

Q: How did you prove the mobile payload stays small?

A: I measured the "before" numbers with the generic API (payload size and calls per screen), then added a test that builds the feed from WireMock stubs and asserts the serialized JSON is under 5 KB, so it cannot silently grow.

Q: What changes at 10x users?

A: BFFs are stateless, so you scale them horizontally. The pressure moves to the shared services, so you add short-lived caches in the BFF (for example the feed for 30 seconds) and batch endpoints. Many clients each with a BFF can also become a maintenance load — at that point some teams switch to GraphQL (Project 20).

Q: How do you call two services in parallel in a Spring Boot 4 BFF?

A: With virtual threads enabled (`spring.threads.virtual.enabled=true`), plain blocking `RestClient` calls in two tasks are cheap:

```
try (var ex = Executors.newVirtualThreadPerTaskExecutor()) {
  var recipe = ex.submit(() -> recipes.get(id));
  var reviews = ex.submit(() -> reviewsClient.top3(id));
  return map(recipe.get(), reviews.get());
}
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Describing a BFF as "a gateway per client" that also handles auth and rate limits for everyone. Its job is shaping data for one client.

- Saying one backend team should own all BFFs. That rebuilds the shared-API bottleneck the pattern exists to remove.
- Ignoring the N+1 problem — fan-out per list item is the most common BFF performance bug.

TL;DR

Two thin backends, one per client, each returning exactly what its screens need in one call.

4. Mini Service Registry with Heartbeats

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1 weekend · **Prerequisites:** Ch 5

What it is

A tiny **service registry** written from scratch — a lookup table of which service instances are alive and where — plus a client library that registers itself, sends heartbeats, and looks up other services by name. *Service discovery* is the act of finding a live instance's address from a logical name like `payment-service`.

The problem it solves

In containers and the cloud, instances come and go and their IP addresses change. Hard-coding `http://10.0.3.17:8080` breaks the moment that container restarts. A registry gives every service a stable name. Building one yourself teaches the core ideas that Eureka, Consul and Kubernetes hide: leases, heartbeats, eviction and client-side caching.

Real-world examples

- Netflix Eureka, the registry behind Spring Cloud Netflix: Netflix/eureka on GitHub.
- HashiCorp Consul offers a registry with health checks and DNS: Consul documentation.
- The pattern description: Pattern: Service registry.

Requirements

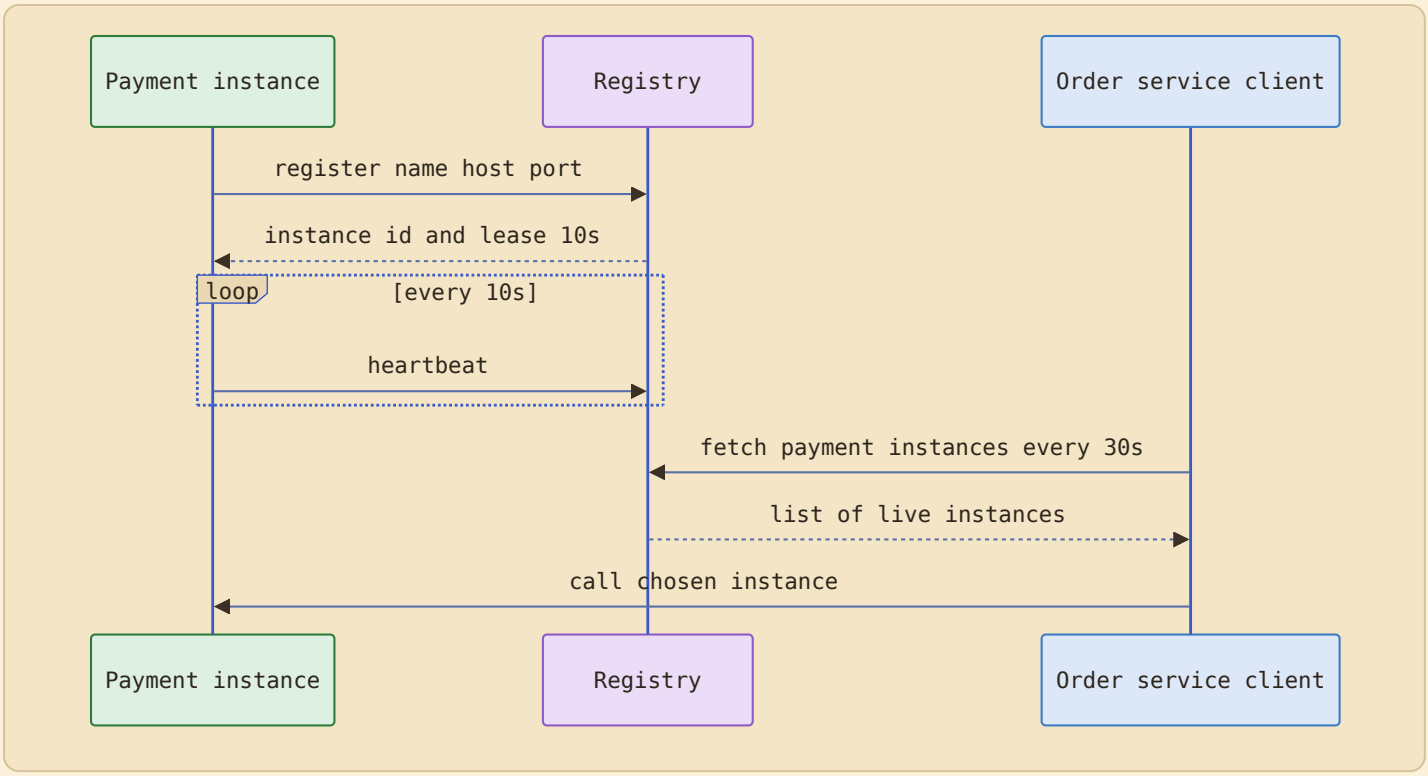
Functional

- `POST /register` with name, host, port. Returns an instance id and lease length.
- `PUT /heartbeat/{id}` renews the lease.
- `GET /services/{name}` returns live instances.
- Instances with no heartbeat for 3 lease periods are evicted.
- Client library: registers on startup, heartbeats every 10 s, deregisters on shutdown, picks an instance round-robin.

Non-functional

- Lookup under 2 ms from the client's cache.
- A dead instance disappears from lookups within 30–40 seconds.
- If the registry is down, clients keep using their last-known list.

The architecture



- **Registry** — a Spring Boot app holding a `ConcurrentHashMap` of instances, with a scheduled eviction task.
- **Client library** — a small jar used by both demo services. It caches the instance list locally.
- **Demo services** — order and payment, with payment scaled to three instances.

Data model

Type	Fields	Notes
`Instance`	id, serviceName, host, port, lastHeartbeat, status	Status UP or DOWN
`Lease`	durationSeconds, expiresAt	Renewed by heartbeat
Client cache	name to list of instances, fetchedAt	Survives registry outages

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Registry	Spring Boot 4.1.1, in-memory map	Small enough to read in one sitting
Client	Plain Java 25 + `HttpClient`	No framework magic hiding the mechanics
Scale	`docker compose up --scale payment=3`	Real changing addresses

Milestones

1. **Register and look up.** Start from the in-process ServiceDiscoveryDemo.java. *Done when* three payment instances show up in `GET /services/payment`.
2. **Heartbeats and eviction.** *Done when* `docker kill` on one instance removes it from lookups within 40 s.
3. **Client cache and round-robin.** *Done when* order spreads calls evenly across three payments.
4. **Registry outage.** *Done when* stopping the registry does not stop order calling payment.
5. **Graceful shutdown.** *Done when* stopping payment normally removes it immediately, not after 40 s.

Deep dive: the hard parts

The stale window. Between an instance dying and eviction, clients still route to it. Close the gap from the client side: on a connection error, mark that instance bad locally and retry another. This is why real clients combine discovery with retries.

Self-preservation. If the registry suddenly stops getting most heartbeats, it is more likely the registry's network is broken than that every service died. Eureka stops evicting in that case. Implement a simple rule: if more than half the instances would be evicted at once, evict none and log a warning.

Registry high availability. One registry is a single point of failure. Clients' cached lists soften this, but new instances cannot register. Real registries replicate between peers.

Testing strategy

Unit-test eviction with an injected clock (a `Clock` you control) so tests do not sleep. Integration test: start registry and two clients, kill one, advance time, assert it disappears. Chaos test by hand: kill the registry while load runs.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Client-side discovery (the client picks the instance) gives smart load balancing but puts logic in every client language. Server-side discovery (a load balancer or Kubernetes Service picks) keeps clients dumb. Heartbeat intervals trade network chatter for freshness.

Stretch goals

- Health checks pulled by the registry instead of pushed heartbeats.
- Two registry peers that replicate registrations.
- Zone-aware choice: prefer instances in the caller's zone.

Skills practised

- Registries, client vs. server-side discovery: Ch 5 — Service Discovery
- Retrying another instance on failure: Ch 8 — Retry

In the interview

30-second answer: I wrote a service registry from scratch: instances register with a name, host and port, get a 10-second lease, renew it with heartbeats, and are evicted after three missed lease periods. A small client library registers on start-up, deregisters on shutdown, caches the instance list and picks instances round-robin. The key decision was caching on the client, so lookups take under 2 ms and calls keep working when the registry is down. The hardest part was the stale window between an instance dying and being evicted, which I closed by marking an instance bad locally on a connection error and retrying another.

Key terms to know:

- **Service discovery** — finding a live instance's address from a logical name like `payment`.
- **Service registry** — the lookup table of live instances. Here a `ConcurrentHashMap` in a Spring Boot app.
- **Lease** — a registration that expires unless renewed. Each instance gets a 10 s lease.
- **Heartbeat** — the periodic "I'm alive" call that renews the lease (`PUT /heartbeat/{id}`).
- **Eviction** — removing instances whose lease has expired. A scheduled task runs it.
- **Client-side vs server-side discovery** — the caller picks an instance (this project) versus a load balancer or Kubernetes Service picking for it.
- **Client cache** — the local copy of instance lists, refreshed every 30 s and kept during registry outages.

- **Self-preservation** — refusing to evict a large share of instances at once, because a mass loss of heartbeats more likely means a network problem at the registry.

Q: Client-side or server-side discovery?

A: Client-side lets the caller choose instances smartly (round-robin, zone-aware, skip known-bad ones) but needs a library in every language. Server-side, like a Kubernetes Service, hides discovery behind a stable virtual address so clients stay simple, and it is the usual default today.

Q: What happens when the registry goes down?

A: Clients keep using their cached lists, so existing traffic continues. New instances cannot register and dead ones are not removed, so the lists slowly go stale. That is why production registries run as replicated clusters.

Q: Why heartbeats rather than registry-driven health checks?

A: With heartbeats the registry does no outbound work, so it scales to many instances cheaply. Pull-based health checks are more accurate about real readiness (an app can heartbeat while its database is down). Many systems combine both.

Q: How long can a client keep calling a dead instance, and how do you shorten it?

A: Up to eviction time (three missed 10 s heartbeats) plus the client's 30 s cache refresh. I shorten it on the client: a connection error marks that instance bad locally and the call is retried on another. Graceful shutdown also deregisters immediately.

Q: What is self-preservation and why would you want it?

A: If the registry suddenly misses heartbeats from most instances, the likeliest cause is its own network, not every service dying. Evicting them all would make clients think nothing is running. My rule: if more than half would be evicted at once, evict none and log a warning — Eureka has a similar mode.

Q: How did you test eviction without slow tests?

A: I injected a `java.time.Clock` into the registry and used a controllable test clock, so a test can "advance" 40 seconds instantly and assert the instance is gone. A separate manual test kills containers and the registry under load.

Q: What changes at 100x instances?

A: Heartbeat traffic grows linearly: 10,000 instances every 10 s is 1,000 writes per second. You lengthen intervals, replicate the registry, and switch clients from polling full lists to receiving deltas. At that scale most teams use the platform's discovery (Kubernetes, Consul) rather than their own.

Q: Why use a `ConcurrentHashMap` and what is the gotcha?

A: Heartbeats, lookups and eviction run on different threads, and `ConcurrentHashMap` allows safe concurrent reads and updates without one global lock. The gotcha is that a check-then-act sequence ("if expired, remove") is not atomic across two calls — use `computeIfPresent` or `remove(key, value)` so a heartbeat that arrives during eviction is not lost.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying discovery gives you up-to-date addresses. It always lags reality, so clients still need timeouts and retries on another instance.
- Forgetting the registry is itself a single point of failure without replication or client caching.
- Confusing a heartbeat (the instance says it is alive) with a readiness check (someone verifies it can serve).

TL;DR

Build a registry with leases and heartbeats, give clients a cache, and see why discovery is really about stale data.

5. Resilient Weather Client

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1 weekend · **Prerequisites:** Ch 6, Ch 8

What it is

A "what to wear today" service that calls a public weather API and wraps the call in **Resilience4j** — a Java library of fault-tolerance decorators — with a timeout, a retry with exponential backoff and jitter, a circuit breaker, and a cached fallback. A *circuit breaker* tracks recent failures and, once a threshold is crossed, stops calling the dependency for a while so callers fail fast.

The problem it solves

Every remote call can be slow or fail. Without protection, a slow weather API makes your service slow, threads pile up waiting, and your service fails too. Retries help with brief blips but hammer a provider that is already struggling. This project wires the three classic tools together and lets you see each one's effect in metrics.

Real-world examples

- Resilience4j's circuit breaker docs explain the sliding window and state machine you will configure: CircuitBreaker.
- AWS explains why retries need backoff and jitter to avoid synchronized retry storms: Timeouts, retries and backoff with jitter.
- Netflix Hystrix popularised circuit breakers in Java and is now in maintenance mode, which is why Resilience4j is the usual choice: Netflix/Hystrix.

Requirements

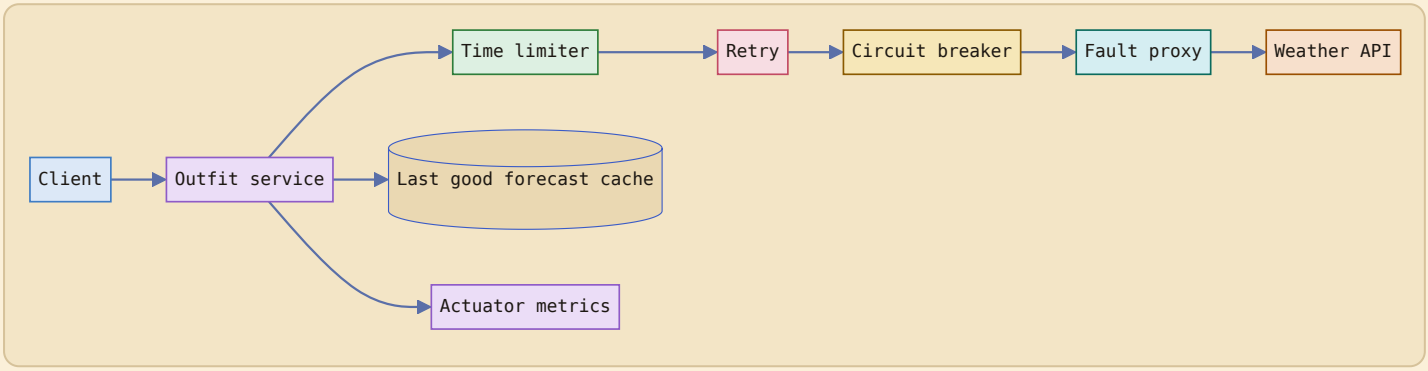
Functional

- `GET /outfit?city=Oslo` returns a suggestion based on temperature and rain.
- Calls the Open-Meteo forecast API (free, no key) through a fault-injecting proxy you control.
- On failure, returns the last good forecast for that city with `stale: true`.

Non-functional

- The endpoint answers within 1.5 s in all cases (timeout 1 s plus fallback).
- At most 3 attempts per request, backoff 100 ms base, full jitter.
- Breaker opens at 50% failures over the last 20 calls, waits 30 s, then lets 3 trial calls through.

The architecture



- **Decorator order** — retry wraps the breaker, so each attempt is recorded by the breaker and an open breaker stops further retries at once.
- **Fault proxy** — a tiny service (or Toxiproxy) that adds latency or returns 503 on demand.
- **Cache** — an in-memory map keyed by city. Redis is a stretch goal.
- **Actuator metrics** — Spring Boot exposes Resilience4j metrics so you can watch the breaker state.

Data model

Type	Fields	Notes
`Forecast`	city, tempC, rainMm, fetchedAt	Cached per city
`Outfit`	items, reason, stale	Response DTO
Breaker state	CLOSED, OPEN, HALF_OPEN	Owned by Resilience4j

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Resilience	Resilience4j via Spring Cloud Circuit Breaker	Standard in Spring, configurable in YAML
HTTP	`RestClient`	Simple, blocking, pairs with virtual threads
Metrics	Spring Boot Actuator + Micrometer	Breaker state and call counts
Faults	Toxiproxy or a 30-line Spring app	Repeatable failures

Spring Framework 7 also ships basic `@Retryable` and `@ConcurrencyLimit` annotations. Use Resilience4j here because you need the breaker too.

Milestones

1. **Naked call.** Run the in-process CircuitBreakerDemo.java and RetryDemo.java first. Then call the API with no protection. *Done when* a 10 s proxy delay makes your endpoint take 10 s.
2. **Timeout.** *Done when* it takes at most about 1 s.
3. **Retry with jitter.** *Done when* a proxy that fails every second call yields almost no user-visible errors, and logs show randomised waits.
4. **Breaker.** *Done when* a fully failing proxy opens the breaker and the proxy log shows zero calls during the open period.
5. **Fallback.** *Done when* the endpoint returns stale data with a flag while the breaker is open.

Deep dive: the hard parts

What counts as a failure. A 400 (your bad request) should not open the breaker or be retried — retrying cannot fix it. Configure retry and breaker to record only timeouts, connection errors and 5xx.

Retry plus breaker maths. With 3 attempts per request, one user request can produce three breaker failures. That makes the breaker open sooner than you think. Either accept it or put the breaker outside the retry and compare.

Half-open. After the wait, the breaker lets a few calls through. If they succeed, it closes. If the provider is only half recovered, you flap open and closed. Watch the state metric over time to tune the trial-call count.

Testing strategy

Use WireMock scenarios to return failure, failure, success and assert the retry count. Test the breaker by forcing failures and asserting it is OPEN and the stub was not called. Never test with real sleeps longer than needed — keep wait times tiny in test config.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Retries multiply load: 3 attempts at each of 3 layers is 27 calls. Breakers can open on a few slow calls if the window is too small. Stale fallbacks are only safe for data where "slightly old" is acceptable — weather yes, account balances no.

Stretch goals

- Move the cache to Redis so all instances share fallbacks.
- Add a bulkhead (Project 6) so weather calls cannot use all threads.

- A Grafana dashboard with breaker state, retries and latency.

Skills practised

- Breaker states and thresholds: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker
- Backoff and jitter: Ch 8 — Retry

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a "what to wear" service that calls a public weather API through Resilience4j: a 1-second time limiter, up to three attempts with exponential backoff and full jitter, a circuit breaker that opens at 50% failures over 20 calls, and a fallback that returns the last good forecast flagged `stale: true`. The key decision was decorator order — retry outside the breaker — so every attempt is counted and an open breaker cuts retries short. The hardest part was deciding what counts as a failure: only timeouts, connection errors and 5xx are retried or recorded, never a 400. With a fault proxy failing every request, the endpoint still answers in under 1.5 s.

Key terms to know:

- **Timeout / time limiter** — the maximum time to wait for a call (1 s here). The first and most important protection.
- **Retry with exponential backoff** — try again after waits that grow (100 ms, 200 ms, 400 ms).
- **Jitter** — randomising each wait so many clients do not retry at the same instant. Full jitter picks a random wait between 0 and the backoff.
- **Circuit breaker** — a state machine (CLOSED, OPEN, HALF_OPEN) that stops calling a failing dependency for a while so callers fail fast.
- **Sliding window and failure-rate threshold** — the breaker judges the last 20 calls and opens at 50% failures.
- **Half-open state** — after 30 s the breaker lets 3 trial calls through and closes only if they succeed.
- **Fallback** — the answer returned when the call fails: the cached forecast with `stale: true`.
- **Idempotent operation** — safe to repeat with the same effect. GET weather is, so retries are safe.
- **Fault injection proxy** — Toxiproxy or a small app that adds delay or 503s on demand, to test the protections.

Q: Why add jitter to backoff?

A: Without it, all clients that failed at the same moment retry at the same moments too, creating synchronized spikes that hit a recovering service. Random jitter spreads the retries out over time.

Q: Which errors should you retry?

A: Transient ones — timeouts, connection resets, 502/503/504, and 429 after honouring `Retry-After`. Never validation errors like 400 or auth errors like 401. Non-idempotent operations (like "charge card") only if you send an idempotency key, so a repeat cannot double-charge.

Q: Retry inside or outside the circuit breaker?

A: Usually retry outside, so each attempt goes through the breaker and is recorded, and an open breaker makes the remaining attempts fail immediately instead of hitting the provider. The side effect is that one user request can count as three breaker failures, so the breaker opens sooner — accept it or tune the window.

Q: Explain the three breaker states.

A: CLOSED: calls pass through and results are recorded. OPEN: calls are rejected immediately (here for 30 s) without touching the provider. HALF_OPEN: a few trial calls go through; if enough succeed it closes, otherwise it opens again.

Q: Why is the timeout the first thing you add?

A: Without a timeout, a slow provider ties up a thread per request until it answers, and threads or connections run out — your service fails because theirs is slow. A timeout bounds the damage, and retries and breakers only work if calls actually end.

Q: When is a stale fallback wrong?

A: When "slightly old" is harmful. Yesterday's weather for an outfit suggestion is fine; a cached account balance or stock level could cause real errors. For those, fail clearly instead, and always mark fallback data as stale.

Q: How do retries go wrong at scale?

A: They multiply load: 3 attempts at each of 3 layers is 27 calls for one user request, just when the provider is struggling. Retry at one layer only, cap attempts, use jitter, and consider a retry budget (only a small percentage of traffic may be retries).

Q: How did you test the breaker and retries?

A: WireMock scenarios return failure, failure, success, and I assert the stub received exactly three calls. For the breaker I force failures, assert the state is OPEN through the Resilience4j registry, and assert the stub received no further calls. Test configs use millisecond waits so nothing sleeps for real.

Q: Spring Framework 7 has `@Retryable` built in. Why use Resilience4j?

A: Spring Framework 7's `@Retryable` (package `org.springframework.resilience.annotation`, enabled with `@EnableResilientMethods`) does retries with delay, multiplier and jitter, and `@ConcurrencyLimit` limits concurrency. It has no circuit breaker, so for breaker plus retry plus time limiter with metrics, Resilience4j is still the tool:

```
@Retryable(includes = IOException.class, maxRetries = 2,
           delay = 100, multiplier = 2, jitter = 50)
public Forecast fetch(String city) { ... }
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Retrying everything, including 4xx errors and non-idempotent writes.
- Treating the circuit breaker as a retry mechanism. It does the opposite — it stops calls.
- Leaving out the timeout and assuming the breaker alone protects you from a slow dependency.

TL;DR

Timeout, then retry with jitter, then a breaker, then a fallback — and metrics that prove each one does its job.

6. Bulkheaded Product Page

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1 weekend · **Prerequisites:** Ch 6, Ch 7

What it is

A product-page service that assembles a page from four downstream calls — price, stock, reviews and recommendations — and isolates each call in its own **bulkhead**: a separate, bounded pool of threads or permits, so that one slow dependency can use up only its own pool. The name comes from the watertight compartments in a ship's hull.

The problem it solves

If all four calls share one thread pool, a slow recommendations service holds every thread while it waits, and price and stock — the parts customers actually need — stop responding too. This is resource exhaustion, and it is how one non-critical service takes down a whole page. Bulkheads cap the damage.

Real-world examples

- Microsoft's pattern page describes partitioning connection pools and consumers per dependency: Bulkhead pattern.
- Resilience4j provides semaphore and thread-pool bulkheads used in this project: Bulkhead.
- Envoy applies the same idea at the proxy layer with per-cluster connection and request limits: Envoy circuit breaking.

Requirements

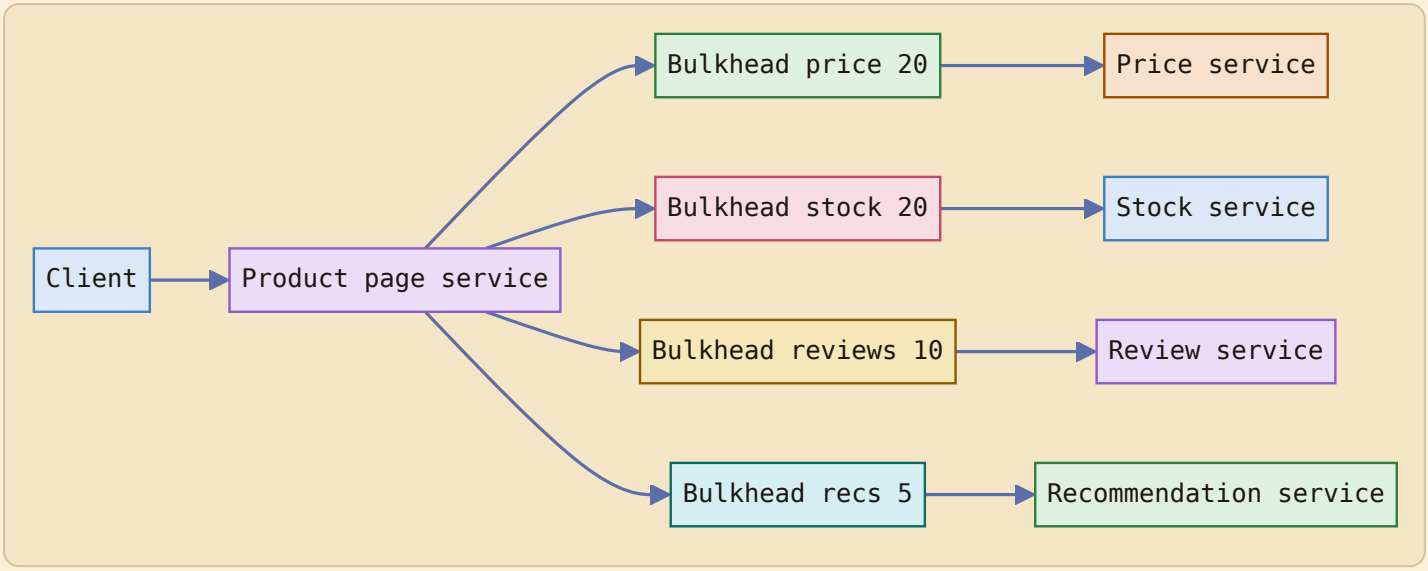
Functional

- `GET /product/{id}/page` returns price, stock, reviews and recommendations.
- Each section can be missing. The page marks missing sections rather than failing.
- Price and stock are critical: if either is unavailable, return 503.

Non-functional

- With recommendations delayed by 5 s, the page still answers in under 300 ms p95 at 50 requests per second.
- Bulkhead sizes: price 20, stock 20, reviews 10, recommendations 5 concurrent calls.
- Rejected calls (bulkhead full) fail in under 1 ms rather than queueing.

The architecture



- **Product page service** — fans out four calls in parallel and assembles the result.
- **Bulkheads** — Resilience4j semaphore bulkheads (a semaphore is a counter of permits: take one to start a call, give it back after). With virtual threads, permits rather than thread pools are what limit concurrency.
- **Downstream services** — four stubs with a configurable delay endpoint.

Data model

Type	Fields	Notes
`ProductPage`	productId, price, stock, reviews, recommendations, degradedSections	Missing sections listed by name
`BulkheadConfig`	name, maxConcurrentCalls, maxWaitMs	One per dependency, in YAML

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Isolation	Resilience4j semaphore bulkhead	Works with virtual threads
Timeouts	Resilience4j time limiter, 200 ms per call	Bulkhead plus timeout releases permits
Load	k6 or Gatling	Repeatable load at fixed rate
Metrics	Actuator, Prometheus, Grafana	Available permits per bulkhead

Milestones

1. **Shared pool baseline.** Run BulkheadDemo.java first. Then build the page with a fixed pool of 20 threads shared by all calls. *Done when* a 5 s recommendations delay makes the whole page time out under load.
2. **Per-dependency bulkheads.** *Done when* the same test leaves price and stock fast.
3. **Degraded responses.** *Done when* the page returns with `degradedSections: ["recommendations"]`.
4. **Timeouts plus bulkheads.** *Done when* permits are released after 200 ms even if recommendations never answers.
5. **Dashboard.** *Done when* Grafana shows the recommendations bulkhead at 0 available permits while the others are healthy.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Sizing a bulkhead. Use Little's law: concurrent calls needed equals arrival rate times latency. At 50 requests per second and 40 ms normal latency, you need about 2 permits — so 5 gives headroom while still capping damage when latency jumps to 5 s.

Virtual threads change the shape. With platform threads, a thread-pool bulkhead was natural. With Java 25 virtual threads, threads are cheap, so the scarce resource becomes downstream connections and the dependency itself. A semaphore limits concurrency without a pool.

Bulkheads need timeouts. A bulkhead stops new calls, but the 5 calls already inside hold their permits until the slow service answers. A timeout frees them.

Testing strategy

Integration test with WireMock delays: assert that with recommendations delayed, the page returns in under 300 ms and lists the section as degraded. Assert that price failure returns 503. A k6 script provides the load test and checks p95.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Too-small bulkheads reject good traffic during normal spikes. Too-large ones protect nothing. Each bulkhead is per instance, so total load on a dependency is permits times instances. Partial pages need UI support — the front end must handle missing sections.

Stretch goals

- Add a circuit breaker per dependency and compare rejection behaviour.
- Bulkheads per tenant instead of per dependency (preview of Project 28).
- Adaptive sizing based on observed latency (preview of Project 35).

Skills practised

- Resource isolation: Ch 7 — Bulkhead
- Fail fast and fallbacks: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** I built a product-page service that fans out four calls — price, stock, reviews and recommendations — and gives each its own Resilience4j semaphore bulkhead (20, 20, 10 and 5

permits) plus a 200 ms time limiter. The key decision was treating price and stock as critical (503 if either fails) and the other two as optional sections listed in `degradedSections`. The hardest problem was that a bulkhead alone does not free permits held by calls stuck on a slow service, so I paired every bulkhead with a timeout. With recommendations delayed by 5 s, the page still answers in under 300 ms p95 at 50 requests per second.

Key terms to know:

- **Bulkhead** — a bounded pool of threads or permits per dependency, so one slow dependency can use up only its own share. Named after ship compartments.
- **Semaphore bulkhead** — a counter of permits: take one to start a call, return it after. Used here because it works with virtual threads.
- **Thread-pool bulkhead** — a separate thread pool per dependency. The older style for platform threads.
- **Resource exhaustion** — a slow dependency holds every shared thread or connection, so unrelated calls stop too. The failure this project prevents.
- **Little's law** — concurrency = arrival rate × latency. Used to size each bulkhead.
- **Graceful degradation** — returning the page with missing optional sections instead of failing.
- **Fail fast** — a full bulkhead rejects in under 1 ms instead of queueing.
- **Critical vs optional dependency** — price and stock must succeed; reviews and recommendations may be missing.

Q: Bulkhead versus circuit breaker?

A: A bulkhead limits how much of your capacity one dependency can occupy at once. A breaker stops calling a dependency that is clearly failing. Bulkheads protect you against slowness, breakers against repeated failure, and you normally use both.

Q: How do you size a bulkhead?

A: Start from Little's law: at 50 requests per second and 40 ms normal latency you need about 2 concurrent calls, so 5 permits gives headroom while still capping the damage when latency jumps to 5 s. Then validate under load and watch the available-permits metric.

Q: Do bulkheads still matter with virtual threads?

A: Yes. Threads stop being scarce, but connections, memory and the dependency's own capacity are still finite, and unbounded virtual threads can pile thousands of waiting calls onto a slow service. You limit concurrency with a semaphore instead of limiting threads.

Q: Why does a bulkhead need a timeout?

A: The bulkhead stops new calls once it is full, but the calls already inside keep their permits until the slow service answers — maybe never. A 200 ms time limiter ends those calls and returns the permits, so the bulkhead recovers.

Q: What happens when the bulkhead is full?

A: With `maxWaitDuration` at 0, the call is rejected immediately with a `BulkheadFullException`. I catch that and mark the section degraded. Queueing instead would just move the waiting from the dependency into your service.

Q: What happens if the price service fails?

A: Price is critical, so the whole page returns 503 rather than showing a product without a price. That rule is explicit in the code and tested, because "partial page" is only acceptable for optional sections.

Q: What changes at 10x instances of the page service?

A: Bulkheads are per instance, so the total load on recommendations is permits × instances — 5 permits on 50 instances is 250 concurrent calls. You size against the dependency's real capacity divided by instance count, or move limits to a shared layer such as the service mesh.

Q: How did you prove the isolation works?

A: A baseline with one shared pool of 20 threads: delaying recommendations by 5 s made the whole page time out under k6 load. With per-dependency bulkheads the same test kept price and stock fast, and an integration test with WireMock delays asserts the page returns in under 300 ms with `degradedSections: ["recommendations"]`.

Q: What does the Resilience4j semaphore bulkhead config look like?

A: In YAML, one instance per dependency:

```
resilience4j.bulkhead.instances.recs:
  max-concurrent-calls: 5
  max-wait-duration: 0ms
```

Then wrap the call with `@Bulkhead(name = "recs", fallbackMethod = "noRecs")` or the functional `Bulkhead.decorateSupplier`.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying bulkheads make a slow dependency faster. They only stop it from harming the others.
- Forgetting that limits are per instance, so total load scales with the number of replicas.
- Using a bulkhead without a timeout, so permits stay held forever by hung calls.

TL;DR

Give each dependency its own small compartment so a slow recommendation service cannot sink the product page.

7. Log-Shipping and Metrics Sidecar

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1 weekend · **Prerequisites:** Ch 9

What it is

A deliberately simple application (a Python or Java "quote of the day" service that knows nothing about logging infrastructure) paired with two **sidecars**: a log shipper that reads its log file and forwards structured logs, and a small metrics adapter that scrapes a status endpoint and exposes Prometheus metrics. A *sidecar* is a helper process deployed next to the main app — same host or same Kubernetes pod — sharing its network and files.

The problem it solves

Every service needs logging, metrics, TLS and config, and re-implementing them in every language is wasteful. A sidecar moves these concerns out of the app into a separately built, separately upgraded process. This project shows the mechanics: shared volumes, localhost networking, lifecycle coupling.

Real-world examples

- Microsoft's description of the sidecar pattern and when not to use it: Sidecar pattern.
- Kubernetes now has first-class sidecar containers with ordered start-up: Sidecar Containers.
- Dapr runs its building blocks as a sidecar next to each app: Dapr sidecar overview.

Requirements

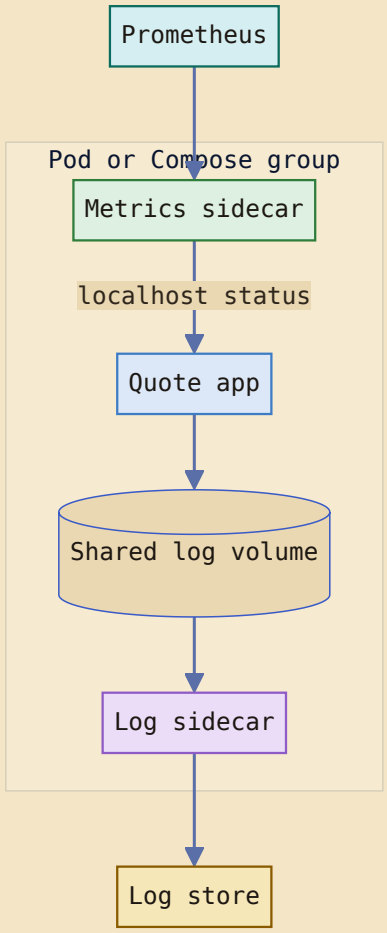
Functional

- App writes plain-text logs to `/var/log/app/app.log` and exposes `GET /status` with counters.
- Log sidecar tails the file, parses lines into JSON, adds `service` and `pod` fields, and ships to a log store.
- Metrics sidecar reads `/status` every 15 s and exposes `/metrics` in Prometheus format.
- Both run unchanged next to a second, different app.

Non-functional

- Sidecars use under 50 MB memory each.
- No log loss across a sidecar restart (it resumes from a saved file offset).
- App start-up is not blocked if a sidecar fails.

The architecture



- **Quote app** — the "legacy" app you are not allowed to change.
- **Shared log volume** — an `emptyDir` in Kubernetes or a named volume in Compose.
- **Log sidecar** — Fluent Bit with a tail input and a parser.
- **Metrics sidecar** — a 100-line Spring Boot or Go adapter. This is the "adapter" flavour of sidecar.
- **Log store and Prometheus** — Grafana Loki and Prometheus, shared by all pods.

Data model

Item	Shape	Notes
Raw log line	`2026-10-01T10:00:00Z INFO quote served id=42`	What the app writes
Shipped record	JSON with ts, level, msg, id, service, pod	Parsed by Fluent Bit
Offset file	file inode and byte position	Lets the shipper resume

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Log shipper	Fluent Bit	Small, common sidecar choice
Metrics adapter	Spring Boot 4.1.1 + Micrometer	Familiar stack
Store	Grafana Loki, Prometheus, Grafana	Free and local
Run	Compose first, then kind (Kubernetes in Docker)	Shows both models

Milestones

1. **Run the demo.** SidecarDemo.java shows a sidecar absorbing a concern. *Done when* you can explain its output.
2. **Shared volume in Compose.** *Done when* the log sidecar prints parsed JSON from the app's file.
3. **Ship to Loki.** *Done when* you query logs by `service` label in Grafana.
4. **Metrics adapter.** *Done when* Prometheus graphs quotes served.
5. **Kubernetes pod.** *Done when* the same three containers run in one pod with the sidecars declared as native sidecar containers.
6. **Reuse.** *Done when* a second app gets logs and metrics by adding the same sidecars, no code change.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Lifecycle. If the app starts before the log shipper, early lines are still in the file, so that is fine. But on shutdown, the shipper must flush after the app stops. Kubernetes native sidecars start before and stop after the main container — that is exactly why they were added.

Log rotation. When the file rotates, a naive tailer either loses the tail of the old file or rereads the new one from the start. Tracking file identity (inode) plus offset solves it.

Resource accounting. Sidecars add CPU and memory to every pod. Across 500 pods, a 50 MB sidecar is 25 GB. Measure and set requests and limits.

Testing strategy

Write a script that generates 100,000 log lines, restarts the sidecar halfway, and counts records in Loki — the count must match. Test the metrics adapter with a fake `/status` endpoint and assert the Prometheus text format.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Sidecars cost resources per instance and add a process that can crash. Writing to stdout and letting the platform collect logs (a node-level agent) is often cheaper than a per-pod log sidecar — the sidecar wins when the app can only write to files or needs per-app config.

Stretch goals

- A third sidecar: a TLS-terminating proxy (Envoy) in front of the app.
- Compare per-pod sidecar with a node-level DaemonSet collector — measure memory.
- Add trace context to logs (preview of Project 16).

Skills practised

- Sidecar, ambassador and adapter shapes: Ch 9 — Sidecar
- Externalizing sidecar config: Ch 13 — Config Externalization

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** I took a small "quote of the day" app that knows nothing about logging infrastructure and added two sidecars next to it: Fluent Bit tails its log file from a shared volume, parses lines to JSON and ships them to Loki, and a small adapter turns its `/status` endpoint into Prometheus metrics. The key decision was keeping the app completely unchanged, so

the same sidecars work next to a second app with no code change. The hardest problems were lifecycle and log rotation: I used Kubernetes native sidecar containers so the shipper starts before and stops after the app, and tracked inode plus offset so a restart loses no lines. A test of 100,000 lines with a sidecar restart halfway ends with exactly 100,000 records in Loki.

Key terms to know:

- **Sidecar** — a helper container deployed next to the main app, sharing its network and volumes and scaled with it.
- **Adapter sidecar** — a sidecar that translates the app's output into a standard format (here `/status` to Prometheus `/metrics`).
- **Ambassador sidecar** — a sidecar that proxies the app's outbound calls (e.g. an Envoy proxy). A stretch goal.
- **Pod** — the Kubernetes unit of containers that share a network namespace and volumes.
- **Shared volume / emptyDir** — a directory both containers mount. The app writes logs, the shipper reads them.
- **Native sidecar container** — an init container with `restartPolicy: Always`, which Kubernetes starts before and stops after the main containers.
- **Log rotation and offsets** — when a log file is renamed and a new one started, the shipper uses inode plus byte offset to avoid losing or rereading lines.
- **Node-level agent (DaemonSet)** — one log collector per node reading all containers' stdout. The cheaper alternative to a per-pod sidecar.

Q: Why put logging in a sidecar rather than a library?

A: A sidecar works for any language, is upgraded independently of the app, and keeps the app simple — this app is not even allowed to change. A library is cheaper at runtime but must be built and kept up to date in every language you use.

Q: What does a sidecar share with its app?

A: The network namespace (it reaches the app on `localhost`), any volumes you mount into both, and lifecycle — it is deployed, scheduled and scaled together with the app.

Q: When is a sidecar a bad idea?

A: When per-instance overhead is too high: a 50 MB sidecar on 500 pods is 25 GB of memory. Also when the app can write to stdout, because a node-level DaemonSet collector is cheaper, or when a latency-critical path cannot afford an extra local hop.

Q: Why were native sidecar containers added to Kubernetes?

A: Ordinary containers in a pod start and stop in no guaranteed order, so a log shipper could stop before the app flushed its last lines, and a Job would never finish because the sidecar kept running. Native sidecars are declared as init containers with `restartPolicy: Always`: they start first, keep running, and are stopped after the main containers exit.

Q: How do you avoid losing logs when the shipper restarts?

A: The shipper saves the file identity (inode) and byte offset it has processed to a small database file on a volume. On restart it resumes from there, and on rotation it finishes the old file before switching. I proved it with the 100,000-line restart test.

Q: What happens if the sidecar crashes?

A: The app keeps running and keeps writing to the file — app start-up and serving must never depend on the sidecar. Kubernetes restarts the sidecar, which resumes from its saved offset, so you get delayed logs rather than lost ones.

Q: What changes at 100x pods?

A: Sidecar memory and CPU add up linearly, so you set requests and limits and compare with a DaemonSet collector. The log store becomes the bottleneck: you add labels carefully (high-cardinality labels hurt Loki) and may sample or drop debug logs.

Q: How do you test the metrics adapter?

A: Point it at a fake `/status` endpoint with known counters and assert the `/metrics` output is valid Prometheus text format with the expected names and values. Micrometer does the formatting, so the test focuses on the mapping.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying sidecars are free. Each one costs memory and CPU in every pod.
- Claiming containers in a pod start in a defined order without native sidecars.
- Choosing a per-pod log sidecar when the app could log to stdout for a node-level agent.

TL;DR

Keep the app ignorant of infrastructure, and bolt logging and metrics on beside it through a shared volume and localhost.

8. Externalized Config and Live Feature Flags

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1 weekend · **Prerequisites:** Ch 13

What it is

A **Spring Cloud Config Server** backed by a Git repository, serving configuration to three services, with live refresh: change a value in Git, and the services pick it up without restarting. Two of the values are **feature flags** — on/off switches that change behaviour at runtime. *Externalized configuration* means settings live outside the deployable artifact, so one build runs in every environment.

The problem it solves

Settings baked into the jar force a rebuild and redeploy for every change, differ silently between environments, and leak secrets into source control. Central, versioned config gives one place to change values, an audit trail (Git history), and the ability to flip a feature for all services at once.

Real-world examples

- Spring Cloud Config, the server used here: Spring Cloud Config reference.
- Microsoft's description of an external configuration store and its caching concerns: External Configuration Store pattern.
- Kubernetes ConfigMaps provide the platform-native version: ConfigMaps.

Requirements

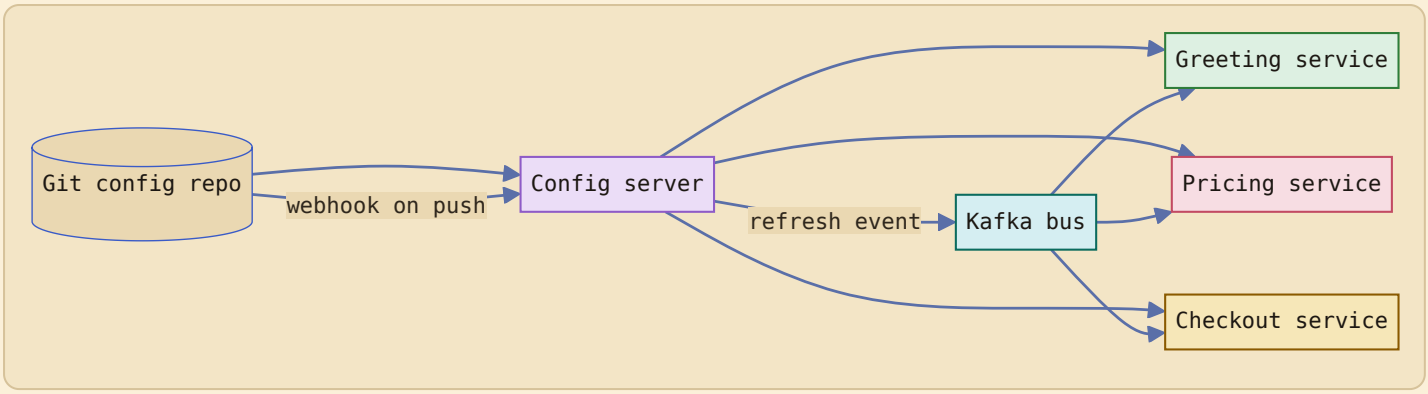
Functional

- Config server serves `application.yml` (shared), `{service}.yml`, and `{service}-{profile}.yml` from Git.
- Services: greeting, pricing, checkout. Each reads its settings on start-up.
- `greeting.message` and `pricing.discount-percent` refresh live.
- Feature flag `checkout.express-enabled` turns an express-checkout endpoint on or off everywhere at once.
- Secrets (a fake payment API key) are not stored in plain text in Git.

Non-functional

- A Git change reaches all services within 30 seconds.
- Services start even if the config server is down, using a local fallback.
- Config server answers in under 50 ms.

The architecture



- **Git repo** — plain YAML files, one folder per environment if you like.
- **Config server** — reads Git, serves config over HTTP, and decrypts `{cipher}` values.
- **Kafka bus** — Spring Cloud Bus broadcasts a "refresh" message to all instances when Git changes, so you do not call each one.
- **Services** — use `@RefreshScope` beans (rebuilt on refresh) or `@ConfigurationProperties` (re-bound on refresh).

Data model

Key	Example	Refreshable
`greeting.message`	"Hello from config"	Yes
`pricing.discount-percent`	10	Yes
`checkout.express-enabled`	false	Yes
`spring.datasource.url`	jdbc URL	No — needs restart
`payment.api-key`	`{cipher}...`	Yes, decrypted by server

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Server	Spring Cloud Config Server	Git backend, encryption, profiles
Client	Spring Cloud Config client with `spring.config.import`	Current Boot way to load remote config
Broadcast	Spring Cloud Bus over Kafka	One refresh for all instances
Run	Docker Compose with a local Gitea or a bare repo	No external dependency

Milestones

1. **Run the demo.** ConfigExternalizationDemo.java. *Done when* you can explain why the flag flips everywhere at once.
2. **Server plus one client.** *Done when* changing Git and calling refresh changes the greeting.
3. **Profiles.** *Done when* `dev` and `prod` profiles give different discounts from the same jar.
4. **Bus refresh.** *Done when* one push updates three services, each scaled to two instances.
5. **Encrypted secret.** *Done when* Git holds only ciphertext and the service sees plain text.
6. **Server down.** *Done when* services start with fallback values and log a warning.

Deep dive: the hard parts

What can and cannot refresh. A database URL is used to build a connection pool at start-up — changing the property does nothing to the existing pool. Classify every key as live or restart-required and document it.

Consistency during refresh. For a few seconds some instances have the new value and some the old. For a discount, a customer could see two prices. Either accept it, or include the config version in responses so you can spot mixed states.

Bootstrap failure. If the config server is down at start-up, a service with `optional:` import starts with local defaults. Without it, the service refuses to start. Choose per service — a payments service may prefer to fail rather than run with wrong config.

Testing strategy

Integration test with an embedded config server pointing at a temp Git repo: commit a change, trigger refresh, assert the new value. Test the fallback path by starting the client with the server unreachable.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

The config server becomes critical infrastructure — run two instances. Live config is powerful and dangerous: a typo reaches every service in seconds, so require pull requests on the config repo. Secrets are better in a dedicated secret store (Vault, cloud secret managers) than encrypted in Git.

Stretch goals

- Validate config with JSR-380 annotations and refuse bad refreshes.
- Show the current config version on an Actuator endpoint.
- Replace the server with Kubernetes ConfigMaps and Spring Cloud Kubernetes and compare.

Skills practised

- Central config, refresh, profiles: Ch 13 — Config Externalization
- Event broadcast with Kafka: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I set up a Spring Cloud Config Server backed by a Git repo that serves config to three services, with live refresh: a push to Git triggers a webhook, and Spring Cloud Bus broadcasts a refresh over Kafka so every instance re-binds its settings within 30 seconds. Two values are feature flags, including one that turns express checkout on or off everywhere at once. The key decision was classifying each key as live-refreshable or restart-required, because properties like the datasource URL are only read when the pool is built. Secrets are stored in Git only as `{cipher}` values, and services start with local fallbacks when the config server is down.

Key terms to know:

- **Externalized configuration** — settings live outside the deployable, so one build runs in every environment.
- **Spring Cloud Config Server** — serves `application.yml`, `{service}.yml` and `{service}-{profile}.yml` from Git over HTTP.
- **`spring.config.import`** — the Spring Boot way for a client to load remote config, e.g. `optional:configserver:http://config:8888`.
- **Profile** — a named environment (`dev`, `prod`) that selects a different set of values from the same jar.
- **`@RefreshScope`** — a bean that is rebuilt on refresh. `@ConfigurationProperties` beans are re-bound instead.
- **Spring Cloud Bus** — broadcasts a refresh event to all instances over Kafka, so you trigger one refresh, not one per instance.
- **Feature flag** — a runtime switch that changes behaviour without a deploy (`checkout.express-enabled`).
- **`{cipher}` values** — encrypted strings in Git that the config server decrypts before serving.

Q: How do you change config without restarting?

A: Load it from an external store, then on a change event re-bind `@ConfigurationProperties` beans and rebuild `@RefreshScope` beans. The event is broadcast to all instances by Spring Cloud Bus, triggered by a Git webhook or a call to the bus refresh endpoint.

Q: What cannot be refreshed live?

A: Anything consumed once at start-up to build infrastructure — a database URL, pool size, server port. Changing the property does nothing to the existing connection pool. I documented every key as live or restart-required.

Q: What if the config server is down?

A: Running services keep their current config. A new instance with `optional:configserver:` starts with local defaults and logs a warning; without `optional:` it refuses to start. I chose per service — a payments service may rather fail than run with wrong settings. The server itself runs as two instances.

Q: What happens during a refresh, while instances disagree?

A: For a few seconds some instances have the new value and some the old, so a customer could see two different discounts. Either accept that for low-risk values, or include the config version in responses and logs so mixed states are visible.

Q: Config versus secrets?

A: Config can be visible and versioned in Git. Secrets need encryption, access control, auditing and rotation, so they belong in a secret manager like Vault or a cloud secret service. Encrypted values in Git are a step up from plain text but still leak if the key leaks.

Q: Live config sounds powerful. What is the risk?

A: A typo reaches every service within seconds. I protect against it with pull requests and review on the config repo, validation of properties with Bean Validation (`@Validated`) so bad values fail the refresh, and Git history for fast reverts.

Q: What changes at 10x services?

A: The config server is on every start-up path, so it needs high availability and caching of the Git clone. Refresh storms — hundreds of instances re-fetching at once — can overload it. Many teams move to Kubernetes ConfigMaps plus a flag service (Project 21) instead.

Q: How did you test refresh?

A: An integration test starts an embedded config server against a temporary Git repo, commits a change, triggers refresh, and asserts the new value is visible in the client. A second test starts the client with the server unreachable and checks it uses fallback values.

Q: Show the client set-up.

A: In `application.yml` of each service:

```
spring:
  application.name: pricing
  config.import: "optional:configserver:http://config:8888"
```

and bind values with a `@ConfigurationProperties(prefix = "pricing")` record or class, which Spring re-binds on refresh.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Assuming every property refreshes live. Infrastructure built at start-up does not.
- Storing secrets in plain text in the config repo.
- Forgetting the window where instances run different config versions.

TL;DR

One Git-backed config server, live refresh across all instances via a bus, and a clear list of which settings need a restart.

9. Signup Events with Kafka

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1–2 weekends · **Prerequisites:** Ch 11

What it is

A user-signup service that publishes a `UserRegistered` **event** to Kafka, and three independent consumers that react: a welcome-email sender, an analytics counter, and a loyalty-points service that grants sign-up points. An *event* is a record of something that already happened. *Kafka* is a distributed log: producers append messages to a *topic*, which is split into *partitions*, and consumers read at their own pace, tracking their position with an *offset*.

The problem it solves

If signup calls email, analytics and loyalty directly, signup is slow (it waits for all three), fragile (any one failing breaks signup) and tightly coupled (adding a fourth reaction means changing signup). Publishing one event decouples them: signup does its job and moves on, and new reactions subscribe without anyone else changing.

Real-world examples

- Kafka's own documentation explains topics, partitions, consumer groups and offsets: Apache Kafka documentation.
- Microsoft describes event-driven architecture styles and their trade-offs: Event-driven architecture style.
- Spring for Apache Kafka, the client used here: Spring for Apache Kafka reference.

Requirements

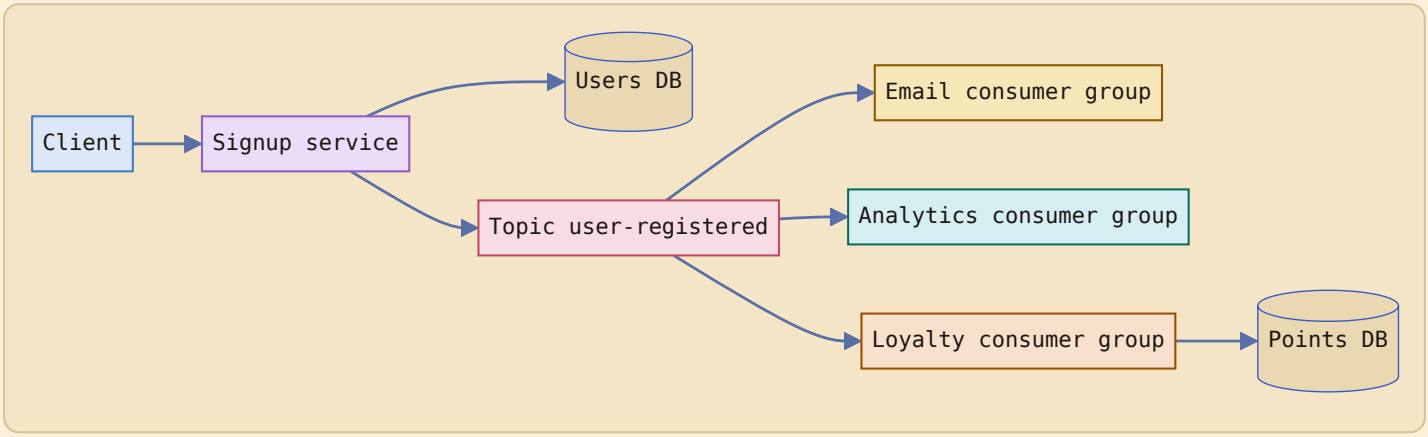
Functional

- `POST /users` stores a user and publishes `UserRegistered` with userId, email, country and timestamp.
- Email consumer "sends" (logs or uses MailHog) a welcome email.
- Analytics consumer counts signups per country per hour.
- Loyalty consumer grants 100 points exactly once per user.

Non-functional

- Signup returns in under 100 ms even if every consumer is down.
- Consumers catch up after a 10-minute outage with no lost events.
- Events for the same user are processed in order (key by userId).

The architecture



- **Signup service** — saves the user, then publishes. (Project 13 fixes the gap between those two steps.)
- **Topic** — 3 partitions, key = userId.

- **Consumer groups** — each reaction is its own group, so each receives every event. Instances within a group share partitions.

Data model

APP_USER		
uuid	id	PK
text	email	UK
text	country	
timestamptz	created_at	

POINTS_LEDGER		
uuid	user_id	PK
int	points	
uuid	source_event_id	UK

`source_event_id` is unique so a redelivered event cannot grant points twice.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Broker	Kafka in KRaft mode, one broker locally	Industry-standard log
Client	Spring for Apache Kafka	`KafkaTemplate`, `@KafkaListener`
Format	JSON with an `eventId` and `type`	Simple to start, Avro in Project 38
Inspect	Kafka UI or `kafka-console-consumer`	See offsets and lag

Milestones

1. **Synchronous baseline.** Run EventDrivenDemo.java. Then make signup call three HTTP endpoints. *Done when* stopping loyalty breaks signup.
2. **Publish an event.** *Done when* signup succeeds with all consumers stopped.
3. **Three consumer groups.** *Done when* each logs every event.
4. **Catch-up.** *Done when* a consumer stopped for 10 minutes processes the backlog on restart, and lag returns to 0.
5. **Idempotent loyalty.** *Done when* replaying the topic from offset 0 grants no extra points.

Deep dive: the hard parts

At-least-once delivery. Kafka consumers commit offsets after processing. If a consumer crashes after granting points but before committing, it will see the event again. So consumers must be *idempotent* — processing the same event twice has the same effect as once. A unique constraint on the event id is the simplest way.

Ordering and keys. Kafka only guarantees order within a partition. Keying by userId puts all events for a user in one partition, so "registered" is always seen before "deleted".

The dual-write gap. Saving the user and publishing are two separate systems. If the app crashes between them, the user exists but no event is sent. Note it here and solve it properly with the outbox in Project 13.

Testing strategy

Use Testcontainers for Kafka and PostgreSQL. Test that publishing produces a message with the right key. Test the loyalty consumer by sending the same event twice and asserting points = 100. Test catch-up by producing 1,000 events before starting the consumer.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

You gain decoupling and resilience but lose a simple call stack: debugging "why didn't the email go out?" means checking lag and logs across services. Consistency is eventual — the points appear a moment after signup. Consumer lag (how far behind the latest offset a consumer is) is the key metric to alert on.

Stretch goals

- Scale the email consumer to 3 instances and watch partitions rebalance.
- Add a fourth consumer without touching signup.
- Replace JSON with Avro and a schema registry.

Skills practised

- Producers, consumers, decoupling: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Idempotency under retries: Ch 8 — Retry

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a signup service that stores a user and publishes a `UserRegistered` event to a Kafka topic keyed by user id, with three independent consumer groups reacting: a welcome email, an analytics counter and a loyalty service that grants 100 points. The key decision was events instead of direct calls, so signup returns in under 100 ms even with every consumer down, and a new reaction is just a new consumer group. The hardest part was at-least-once delivery: consumers can see an event twice, so the loyalty ledger has a unique constraint on the event id. Replaying the topic from offset 0 grants zero extra points.

Key terms to know:

- **Event** — an immutable record of something that already happened (`UserRegistered`).
- **Topic, partition, offset** — a topic is a named log split into partitions, and each consumer tracks its position as an offset.
- **Message key** — decides the partition. Keying by user id keeps one user's events in order.
- **Consumer group** — a set of instances that share a topic's partitions. Each group gets every event, so three groups means three independent reactions.
- **At-least-once delivery** — every event is delivered, possibly more than once, because offsets are committed after processing.
- **Idempotent consumer** — processing an event twice has the same effect as once. Here via a unique `source_event_id`.
- **Consumer lag** — how far a consumer's committed offset is behind the newest offset. The key metric to alert on.
- **Dual-write problem** — saving to the database and publishing to Kafka are two systems, and a crash between them loses the event. Fixed by the outbox in Project 13.
- **Rebalance** — Kafka reassigning partitions when consumers join or leave a group.

Q: Why events instead of direct calls?

A: The producer does not wait for or know about consumers, so it stays fast and available even when they are down, and new consumers can be added without changing it. The cost is eventual consistency and harder debugging.

Q: How do you handle duplicate events?

A: Make consumers idempotent — record processed event ids or rely on natural unique keys so reprocessing has no extra effect. In the loyalty service, inserting a ledger row with a duplicate `source_event_id` fails the unique constraint, and I treat that as "already done".

Q: How does Kafka preserve order?

A: Only within a partition. Choose the key so that events that must stay ordered share a partition — all events for one user use the user id as key. Across partitions there is no global order.

Q: Why is delivery at-least-once and not exactly-once?

A: The consumer processes, then commits its offset. If it crashes in between, it restarts from the last committed offset and sees the event again. Kafka transactions give exactly-once only for read-process-write within Kafka; side effects like sending email or writing to PostgreSQL still need idempotency.

Q: What is the dual-write gap in your signup?

A: Signup saves the user, then publishes. If the app crashes after the commit but before the send, the user exists and no event is ever sent, so they never get points or email. The fix is a transactional outbox: write the event to a table in the same transaction and relay it afterwards.

Q: What happens if the loyalty consumer is down for 10 minutes?

A: Events stay in the topic (retention is time- or size-based, not consumption-based), lag grows, and on restart the consumer reads from its last committed offset and catches up. Nothing is lost as long as the outage is shorter than retention.

Q: What changes at 10x signups?

A: Throughput scales with partitions: one partition is consumed by at most one instance in a group, so 3 partitions cap each group at 3 useful consumers. You add partitions early (adding later reshuffles keys to partitions), scale consumers, and watch lag per group.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Testcontainers runs real Kafka and PostgreSQL. I assert the published record has the user id as key, send the same event twice to the loyalty consumer and assert points equal 100, and produce 1,000 events before starting a consumer to test catch-up.

Q: What does a Spring Kafka producer and consumer look like?

A: Send with the key so ordering holds, and listen in a named group:

```
kafka.send("user-registered", user.id().toString(), event);

@KafkaListener(topics = "user-registered", groupId = "loyalty")
void on(UserRegistered e) { ledger.grantOnce(e.eventId(), e.userId(), 100); }
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying Kafka guarantees global ordering. It is per partition only.
- Claiming Kafka gives exactly-once to external systems. Side effects still need idempotent consumers.
- Ignoring the dual write between the database and the broker.

TL;DR

One signup event, three independent reactions, and the two habits that make it safe: keys for order and idempotent consumers.

10. CQRS Library Catalogue

Level: Beginner · **Time:** 1–2 weekends · **Prerequisites:** Ch 12

What it is

A library-lending service split into a **command side** (borrow, return, add copy — writes to normalised PostgreSQL tables) and a **query side** (a denormalised "book availability" read model optimised for the search and browse screens). *CQRS* — Command Query Responsibility Segregation — means using different models for changing data and for reading it. A *projection* is the code that turns write-side changes into read-model rows.

The problem it solves

The write model wants normalised tables and strict rules ("a member may hold 5 books"). The browse screen wants one flat row per title with "3 of 5 copies available, next due back 12 Oct" — which, from normalised tables, needs several joins and aggregates on every page view. Reads usually outnumber writes many times over. CQRS lets each side be shaped for its job.

Real-world examples

- Martin Fowler's introduction, including his warning that CQRS adds complexity most systems do not need: CQRS.
- Microsoft's CQRS pattern page discusses separate read stores and eventual consistency: CQRS pattern.
- The microservices.io entry links CQRS to event-driven projections: Pattern: CQRS.

Requirements

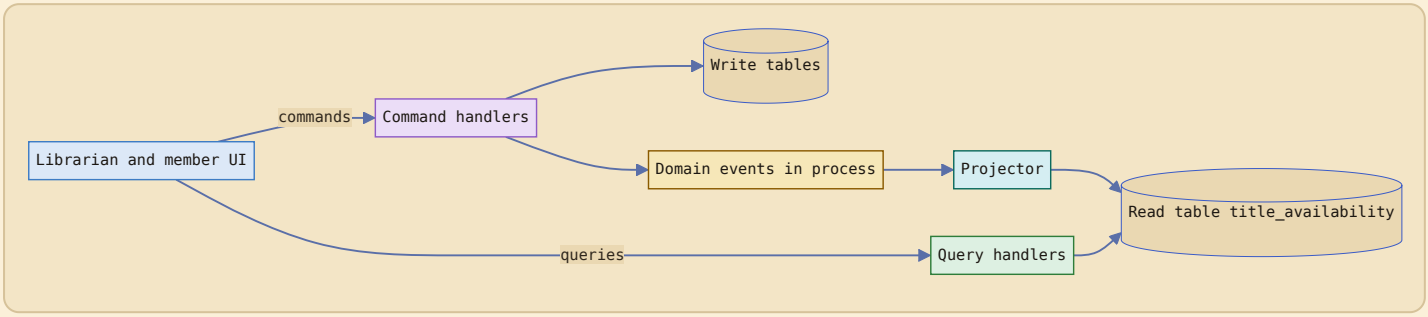
Functional

- Commands: `AddCopy`, `BorrowCopy`, `ReturnCopy`. Enforce max 5 loans per member.
- Queries: search titles by keyword, show availability count and earliest due date per title.
- The read model is rebuilt from the write tables on demand.

Non-functional

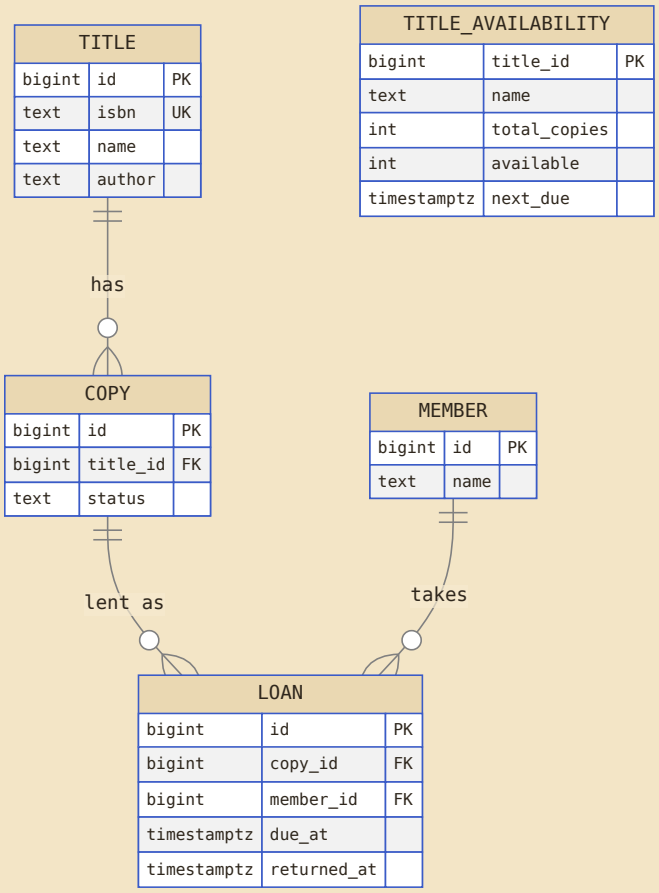
- Browse query under 20 ms p95 for 100,000 titles.
- Read model lag under 1 second after a command.
- Command handlers return only success or failure plus an id — never read-model data.

The architecture



- **Command handlers** — validate rules and update normalised tables in one transaction.
- **Domain events** — `CopyBorrowed`, `CopyReturned`, published with Spring application events after commit (in-process, not Kafka, to keep it beginner-sized).
- **Projector** — updates the read table. Can also rebuild it from scratch.
- **Query handlers** — simple selects on the read table, with a PostgreSQL full-text index.

Data model



`TITLE_AVAILABILITY` is the read model: no joins needed to render the browse screen.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
App	Spring Boot 4.1.1, one deployable	CQRS does not require microservices
Store	PostgreSQL, same database, separate tables	Simplest start
Events	`@TransactionalEventListener(phase = AFTER_COMMIT)`	Project only committed changes
Search	PostgreSQL `tsvector` index on read table	No extra infra

Milestones

1. **Run the demo.** CqrsDemo.java shows the stale-read window. *Done when* you can explain it.
2. **Write side only.** *Done when* borrowing a sixth book is rejected and browse uses a join query — record its latency at 100,000 titles.
3. **Read model plus projector.** *Done when* browse reads only `title_availability` and is faster.
4. **Rebuild.** *Done when* truncating the read table and running rebuild restores identical rows.
5. **Show lag.** *Done when* a deliberate 2 s projector delay makes the UI show "updating" rather than wrong data.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Read-your-own-writes. A member borrows a book and the next page still shows it available. Fixes: return the new state from the command response for that one screen, or have the UI wait for the projector to reach the command's version.

Projection correctness. Incremental updates (`available = available - 1`) drift if an event is missed or applied twice. Make projections idempotent by storing the last applied event id per row, and keep a full rebuild as the safety net.

Not over-engineering. Here, both models live in one database and one app. That is legitimate CQRS. Separate databases and Kafka (Project 15) buy scale and independence at a large complexity cost.

Testing strategy

Unit-test command rules. Property-style test: run a random sequence of borrow and return commands, rebuild the read model, and assert it equals the incrementally maintained one. Measure query latency in an integration test with seeded data.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Two models means two things to keep in sync and to explain to new developers. Eventual consistency needs UI handling. In return, reads scale independently (read replicas, caches, search engines) and the write model stays clean.

Stretch goals

- Move the read model to a separate database fed through Kafka.
- Add a second read model: "member dashboard" with current loans and fines.
- Event-source the write side (Project 24).

Skills practised

- Command and query separation, projections: Ch 12 — CQRS
- Events as the bridge between models: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a library-lending app with CQRS: commands (borrow, return, add copy) enforce rules like "at most 5 loans" on normalised PostgreSQL tables, and a projector keeps a flat `title_availability` read table that the browse screen queries without joins. The key decision was keeping both models in one app and one database, with in-process events published after commit — CQRS without the cost of Kafka or separate stores. The hardest part was projection correctness: I made updates idempotent per event and kept a full rebuild, and a property test checks the incremental read model always equals a fresh rebuild. Browse stays under 20 ms p95 at 100,000 titles.

Key terms to know:

- **CQRS** — Command Query Responsibility Segregation: separate models for changing data and for reading it.
- **Command** — a request to change state (`BorrowCopy`). Returns only success or failure plus an id.
- **Query / read model** — a denormalised table shaped for one screen (`title_availability`).
- **Projection / projector** — code that turns write-side events into read-model rows.
- **Domain event** — a fact like `CopyBorrowed`, published here with `@TransactionalEventListener(phase = AFTER_COMMIT)`.
- **Eventual consistency** — the read model catches up shortly after a write (target under 1 s).
- **Read-your-own-writes** — a user sees their own change immediately, even if the read model lags.
- **Rebuild** — truncating and regenerating the read model from the write tables. The safety net for projection bugs.

Q: Does CQRS require event sourcing or separate databases?

A: No. The minimum is separate models for reads and writes. Separate databases, Kafka and event sourcing are optional extras that buy scale and independence at a real complexity cost.

Q: How do you deal with stale reads?

A: Show the user their own change from the command result, version the read model so the UI can wait until it reaches the command's version, and design screens that tolerate a short delay — for example showing "updating" rather than wrong data.

Q: When is CQRS not worth it?

A: For simple CRUD where reads and writes look the same and load is low. The extra model is pure cost there: more code, more things to keep in sync, more to explain to new developers.

Q: Why publish events after commit rather than inside the transaction?

A: If you project before commit and the transaction then rolls back, the read model shows a loan that never happened. `AFTER_COMMIT` projects only committed changes. The catch is that a crash right after commit can skip the projection, which is why the rebuild exists.

Q: How do projections drift and how do you stop it?

A: Incremental updates like `available = available - 1` go wrong if an event is missed or applied twice. I store the last applied event id or version per row and skip anything older, and keep a full rebuild that must produce identical rows.

Q: Where are the business rules enforced?

A: Only on the command side, inside one transaction on the normalised tables — for example counting active loans before inserting a new one. The read model is never used to make decisions because it may be stale.

Q: What changes at 100x reads?

A: Reads scale independently: add read replicas, a cache, or move the read model to a search engine fed through Kafka (Project 15). Writes stay small and strict. Moving to a separate store means the in-process event becomes a published one, with all the delivery problems that brings.

Q: How did you prove the read model is correct?

A: A property-style test runs a random sequence of borrow and return commands, rebuilds the read model from scratch, and asserts it equals the incrementally maintained table. An integration test seeds 100,000 titles and measures query latency.

Q: How do you enforce "max 5 loans" safely when two borrows arrive at once?

A: A plain count-then-insert can let two concurrent transactions both see 4 loans. Lock the member row first (`SELECT … FROM member WHERE id = ? FOR UPDATE`) so the second borrow waits, then count and insert — or keep a loan counter on the member row with a check constraint.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Equating CQRS with event sourcing or with microservices.
- Making decisions from the read model, which may be stale.
- Ignoring the read-your-own-writes problem and blaming users for "seeing old data".

TL;DR

Keep strict, normalised tables for borrowing and a flat projected table for browsing, and handle the short gap between them honestly.

11. Orchestrated Order Saga

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 8, Ch 10

What it is

An e-commerce checkout built from four services — order, payment, inventory and shipping — each with its own PostgreSQL database, coordinated by a **saga orchestrator**. A *saga* is a sequence of local transactions, one per service, where each step has a *compensating transaction* that semantically undoes

it if a later step fails. An *orchestrator* is a central component that tells each service what to do next and records progress in a durable state machine.

The problem it solves

When each service owns its data, you cannot wrap "create order, charge card, reserve stock, book courier" in one database transaction. Two-phase commit (2PC), a protocol where a coordinator asks every database to prepare and then commit, is rarely available across services and blocks everyone when the coordinator stalls. A saga gives you all-or-compensated outcomes with only local transactions.

Real-world examples

- The original 1987 paper by Garcia-Molina and Salem that defined sagas for long-lived transactions: Sagas (PDF).
- Chris Richardson's pattern page comparing orchestration and choreography: Pattern: Saga.
- Microsoft's reference guide, including the problem of lost isolation between concurrent sagas: Saga distributed transactions pattern.

Requirements

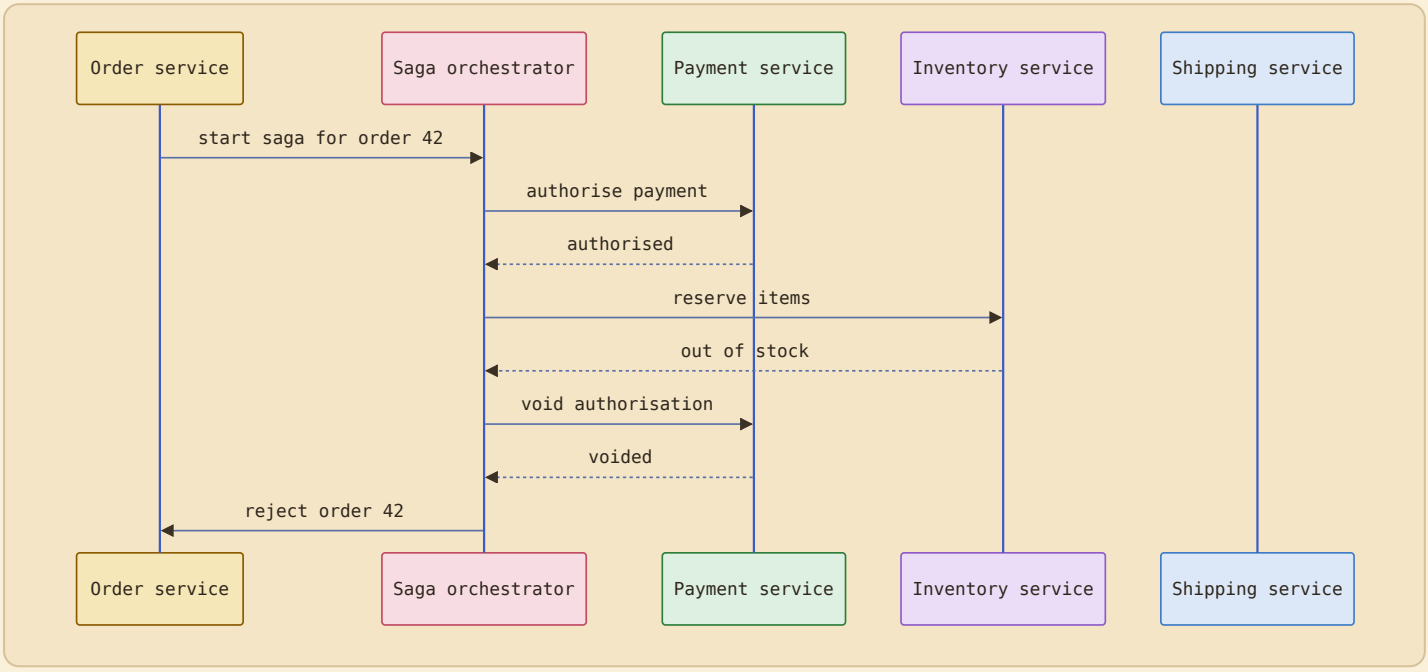
Functional

- `POST /orders` starts a saga and returns the order id with status PENDING.
- Steps: create order (PENDING) → authorise payment → reserve inventory → schedule shipment → mark order APPROVED.
- Compensations: release inventory, void payment authorisation, mark order REJECTED.
- `GET /orders/{id}` shows status and the saga's step history.

Non-functional

- Orchestrator survives a crash mid-saga and resumes from the last recorded step.
- Every step and compensation is idempotent — safe to send twice.
- 200 sagas per second on a laptop with p95 completion under 1 second.
- Stuck sagas (no progress for 60 s) are surfaced on a dashboard.

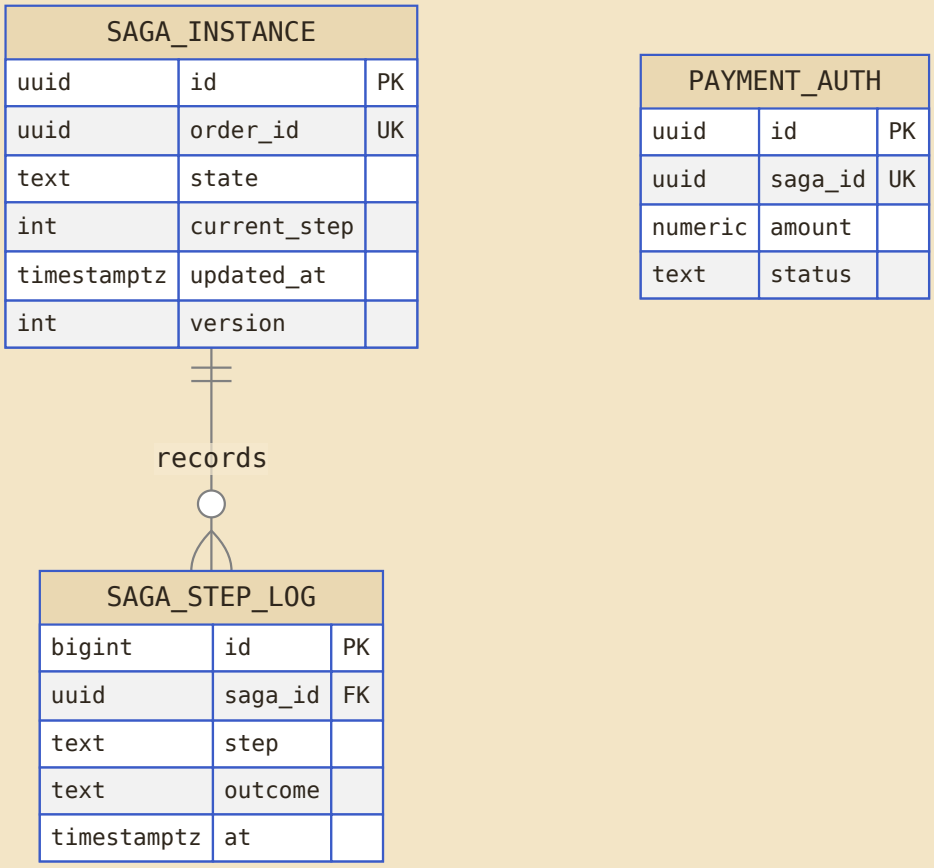
The architecture



- **Saga orchestrator** — its own Spring Boot service with a `saga_instance` table holding current state. It sends commands over Kafka topics (one command topic per participant) and listens on a reply topic.

- **Participants** — each consumes its command topic, runs one local transaction, and replies. Each knows nothing about the overall flow.
- **Order service** — owns the order and starts the saga. Using the outbox (Project 13) to publish the start command is a stretch goal.

Data model



`PAYMENT_AUTH.saga_id` being unique is the idempotency guard: a second "authorise" for the same saga returns the existing result.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Orchestrator	Spring Boot 4.1.1 + a hand-written state machine	You learn the mechanics
Messaging	Kafka command and reply topics	Durable, replayable
Stores	PostgreSQL per service	Database-per-service rule
Retries	Resilience4j or Spring Kafka retry	Transient failures in steps

Milestones

1. **Happy path.** Read SagaDemo.java first — it uses a charge and a refund rather than an authorisation and a void, but the reverse-order compensation is the same. *Done when* an order goes PENDING → APPROVED across four services.
2. **Compensation.** *Done when* forcing inventory to fail produces a voided authorisation and REJECTED order, visible in the payment ledger as authorise then void.
3. **Crash recovery.** *Done when* killing the orchestrator after step 2 and restarting it completes the saga, with no double charge.

4. **Idempotent participants.** *Done when* replaying every command topic from the beginning changes nothing.
5. **Timeouts and stuck sagas.** *Done when* a participant that never replies causes compensation after a deadline, and a dashboard lists stuck sagas.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Persist before you send. The orchestrator must save "now waiting for inventory" before it sends the command, in the same transaction as writing the command to an outbox table. Otherwise a crash between "sent" and "saved" leaves the saga unsure whether the step happened. On restart, it re-sends, and idempotent participants make that safe.

Compensation is not rollback. A voided authorisation still appears in payment history, and a sent email cannot be unsent. Design compensations as new business actions. Order your steps so the hard-to-undo ones come last — the *pivot transaction* is the step after which the saga only goes forward.

Lost isolation. Between "reserve stock" and "compensate", other sagas can see the reserved stock as taken. That is usually fine. When it is not, use *semantic locks* — a status like PENDING that other operations respect — or re-read values before committing.

Retries versus compensation. A payment gateway timeout is not a business failure. Retry transient errors with backoff first, and compensate only on a definite "no" or after a deadline.

Testing strategy

Component tests per participant with Testcontainers Kafka: send a command twice, assert one effect. Orchestrator tests drive the state machine with fake replies, including out-of-order and duplicate replies. A chaos test kills the orchestrator at random points during 1,000 sagas and checks the invariant: every order is APPROVED with exactly one payment, or REJECTED with net zero charge and no reservation.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Orchestration makes the flow readable in one place and easy to change, but the orchestrator is a central service that must be highly available and can attract business logic. Partition sagas by order id so several orchestrator instances can share load. Failure modes: stuck sagas, compensations that themselves fail (retry them forever and alert), and duplicate commands (idempotency).

Stretch goals

- Replace the hand-written engine with Temporal and compare code size (preview of Project 33).
- Add a parallel step: reserve inventory and run a fraud check at the same time.
- Expose saga history as a timeline in a small UI.

Skills practised

- Orchestration, compensation, pivot steps: Ch 10 — Saga
- Retrying transient failures: Ch 8 — Retry
- Command and reply messaging: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a checkout across four services — order, payment, inventory and shipping, each with its own PostgreSQL database — coordinated by a saga orchestrator that sends commands over Kafka and stores progress in a `saga_instance` table. If inventory says "out of stock", the orchestrator runs compensations in reverse: void the payment authorisation, then reject the order. The hardest problem was crash safety: the orchestrator saves its new state and the outgoing command in one transaction, and every participant deduplicates by saga id, so a restart re-sends safely. A chaos test that kills the orchestrator during 1,000 sagas ends with every order either approved with exactly one payment or rejected with a net-zero charge.

Key terms to know:

- **Saga** — a sequence of local transactions, one per service, where each step has a compensating action if a later step fails.
- **Compensating transaction** — a new business action that semantically undoes an earlier step (void an authorisation, release stock). Not a database rollback.
- **Orchestrator** — a central service that tells each participant what to do next and records progress in a durable state machine.
- **Two-phase commit (2PC)** — a protocol where a coordinator makes all databases prepare, then commit. Avoided here because it blocks and is rarely available across services.
- **Pivot transaction** — the step after which the saga can only go forward. Put hard-to-undo steps (like shipping) after it.
- **Idempotent participant** — a repeated command has no extra effect. `PAYMENT_AUTH.saga_id` is unique.
- **Lost isolation** — other transactions can see a saga's intermediate state (stock reserved, then released).
- **Semantic lock** — a status like PENDING that other operations respect, to limit the effects of lost isolation.
- **Command/reply messaging** — the orchestrator sends commands to each participant's topic and listens on a reply topic.

Q: Why not use two-phase commit?

A: 2PC needs every participant to support a shared transaction protocol, holds locks while it waits, and blocks everyone if the coordinator fails between prepare and commit. Kafka and most cloud services do not take part in it anyway. Sagas use only local transactions and accept eventual consistency.

Q: What if a compensation fails?

A: Compensations must be retryable and idempotent, because "giving up" leaves money or stock in a wrong state. Retry with backoff, and if it keeps failing, park the saga in a FAILED_COMPENSATION state, alert, and let a human fix it — never silently drop it.

Q: Orchestration or choreography?

A: Orchestration when the flow has many steps or changes often, because the whole sequence lives in one place and is easy to read, test and monitor. Choreography for short flows where services should stay fully independent. The cost of orchestration is a central service that must be highly available and can attract business logic.

Q: How does the orchestrator survive a crash?

A: It never sends a command before recording it: new state and the outgoing command go into the database in one transaction (an outbox), and a relay publishes it. On restart it reads saga state and re-sends anything not yet acknowledged, and participants deduplicate.

Q: Why authorise and void rather than charge and refund?

A: An authorisation only reserves the money; voiding it before capture usually leaves no charge on the customer's statement. A refund after a real charge is visible, slower and may cost fees. Ordering steps so the reversible ones come first makes compensations cheaper.

Q: A payment gateway times out. Do you compensate?

A: Not immediately — a timeout is not a "no", the authorisation may have succeeded. Retry the same command with the same idempotency key, and only compensate on a definite failure or after a deadline. Compensating on a timeout risks voiding something you did not know existed, or leaving a charge behind.

Q: What changes at 10x the saga rate?

A: The orchestrator becomes the bottleneck, so run several instances and partition sagas by order id — the Kafka key decides which instance owns a saga. Optimistic locking on the `version` column catches two instances touching the same saga. The `saga_step_log` table grows fast and needs archiving.

Q: How do you find stuck sagas?

A: Every saga row has `updated_at`. A scheduled job finds sagas with no progress for 60 seconds and either times out the step (triggering compensation) or flags them on a dashboard. Tracing headers on every command make it easy to see where it stopped.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Component tests per participant with Testcontainers Kafka send each command twice and assert one effect. Orchestrator tests drive the state machine with fake, duplicate and out-of-order replies. The chaos test kills the orchestrator at random points and checks the invariant across all orders.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Calling compensation a "rollback". The original action happened and stays in history — compensation is a new action.
- Saying sagas are ACID. They give atomicity through compensation but no isolation.
- Compensating on timeouts instead of retrying with an idempotency key first.

TL;DR

A durable state machine that commands four services step by step and runs compensations in reverse when one says no — with idempotency everywhere.

12. Choreographed Travel Booking Saga

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 10, Ch 11

What it is

A trip-booking system — flight, hotel and car — implemented as a **choreographed saga**: there is no central coordinator. Each service listens for events, does its local work and publishes its own event, and the overall flow emerges from those reactions. Compensation also travels by events: `CarBookingFailed` makes hotel and flight cancel their bookings.

The problem it solves

Same consistency problem as Project 11, but with a different trade: no orchestrator to run, scale or become a bottleneck, and services stay fully decoupled. The cost is that the flow is not written down anywhere, which makes it harder to follow and to change. Building both versions is the best way to understand the trade-off.

Real-world examples

- Microsoft's saga guide explains choreography and the risk of cyclic dependencies between participants: Saga distributed transactions pattern.
- The microservices.io saga page gives a choreography example with events per step: Pattern: Saga.
- Microsoft's compensating transaction pattern covers ordering and idempotency of undo steps: Compensating Transaction pattern.

Requirements

Functional

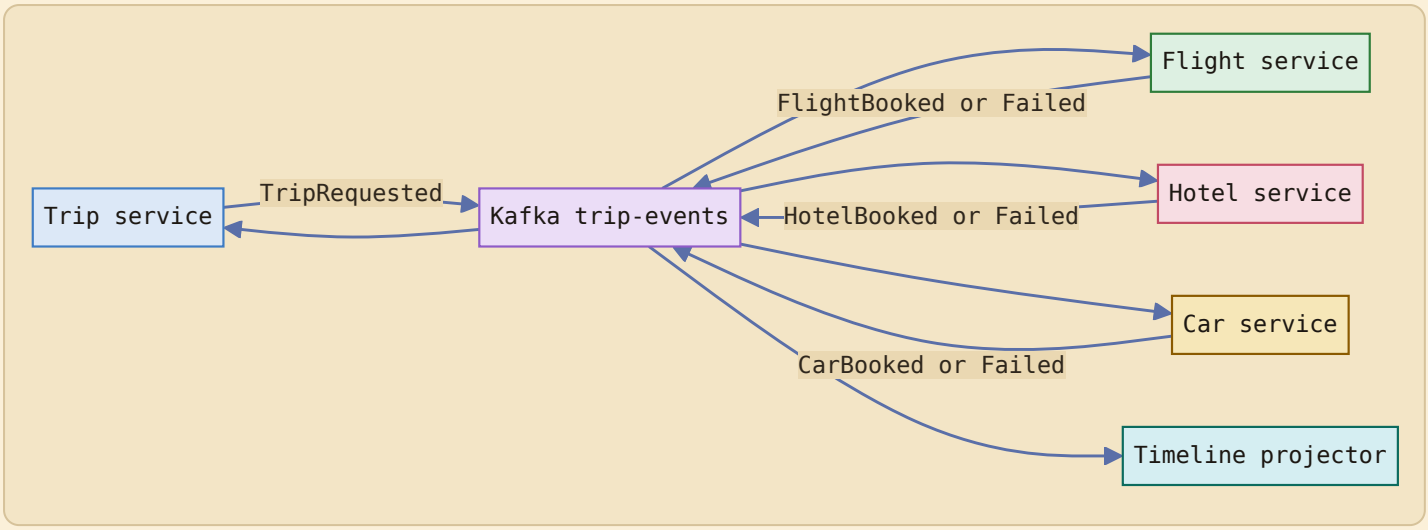
- Trip service publishes `TripRequested`.
- Flight reacts → `FlightBooked` or `FlightFailed`. Hotel reacts to `FlightBooked` → `HotelBooked` or `HotelFailed`. Car reacts to `HotelBooked` → `CarBooked` or `CarFailed`.
- Trip service listens to all outcomes and sets CONFIRMED or CANCELLED.
- On any failure, earlier steps cancel via their own listeners.
- A "trip timeline" view built from all events.

Non-functional

- Each service deployable and scalable alone, no shared database.

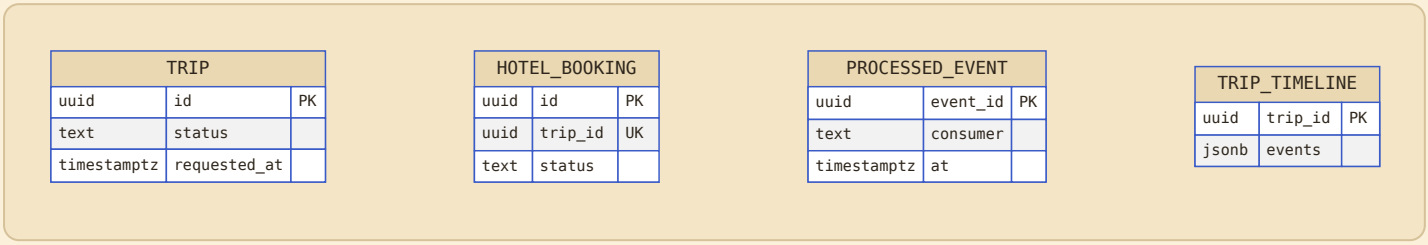
- A trip reaches a final state within 5 seconds in 99% of cases, or is flagged.
- All handlers idempotent and safe under redelivery.

The architecture



- **One topic, keyed by trip id** — all events for a trip land in one partition and stay in order. Every service reads it and ignores types it does not care about.
- **Services** — each owns its bookings table and its reaction rules.
- **Timeline projector** — reads every event into a per-trip history. This is your only "whole flow" view, so it is essential, not optional.

Data model



Each service has its own `PROCESSED_EVENT` table, written in the same transaction as its business change — the *inbox* that makes handlers idempotent.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Services	Spring Boot 4.1.1 with Spring Cloud Stream or Spring Kafka	Functional event handlers
Broker	Kafka, single topic `trip-events`	Ordering per trip
Event format	JSON envelope: eventId, tripId, type, occurredAt, payload	Uniform handling
Observability	Timeline projector + tracing headers	Reconstruct the flow

Milestones

1. **Happy path by events.** *Done when* a trip reaches CONFIRMED and the timeline shows four events in order.
2. **Failure at the end.** *Done when* forcing car failure cancels hotel and flight and sets trip CANCELLED.
3. **Idempotency.** *Done when* duplicate deliveries (simulate by re-publishing) cause no double bookings.
4. **Timeouts.** *Done when* a hotel service that is down for 2 minutes leaves the trip flagged as PENDING_TOO_LONG, then completes when hotel returns.

5. **Compare.** *Done when* you have written one page comparing this with Project 11: lines of code, places changed to add a "travel insurance" step, and debugging effort.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Where is the flow? In choreography, the sequence lives in subscriptions spread across services. Adding "insurance after car" means changing car's outcome handling or trip's completion rule — and finding that out means reading every service. The timeline projector and a documented event catalogue are how teams cope.

Cancellation fan-out. When car fails, both hotel and flight must cancel. If each listens for `CarFailed` directly, both now know about car. Alternatively, trip publishes a single `TripCancelled`, and each service cancels its own booking. The second keeps participants ignorant of each other — prefer it.

Racing events. A `TripCancelled` (user gave up) can arrive while hotel is still processing `FlightBooked`. Same partition order helps, but the handler must check current status: if the trip is cancelled, book nothing, or book then immediately cancel.

Cyclic dependencies. If hotel listens to flight and flight listens to hotel's failure, you have a cycle that is easy to break with a careless change. Draw the subscription graph and review it like code.

Testing strategy

Component tests: feed events into one service, assert the events it emits. An end-to-end test with Testcontainers runs all four services and drives random failures across 500 trips, checking the invariant: CONFIRMED trips have three bookings, CANCELLED trips have zero active bookings. Contract tests on event schemas (Project 17) catch accidental field renames.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

No coordinator to scale or lose, and each service is independent. But the flow is implicit, adding steps touches several services, and debugging needs tracing and timelines. Failure modes: a service silently ignoring an event type after a rename, cycles, and sagas that never finish because one event was dropped — always pair choreography with a timeout watcher.

Stretch goals

- Add parallel steps: hotel and car both react to `FlightBooked`, and trip waits for both.
- Generate a sequence diagram per trip automatically from the timeline.
- Move the same flow into an orchestrator and run both side by side.

Skills practised

- Choreography and compensation: Ch 10 — Saga
- Event streams and consumer groups: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Timeline as a read model: Ch 12 — CQRS

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a trip-booking system for flight, hotel and car as a choreographed saga: there is no coordinator, each service reacts to events on one Kafka topic keyed by trip id and publishes its own outcome. On any failure the trip service publishes a single `TripCancelled` and each service cancels its own booking. The key decision was that single cancellation event, so participants never need to know about each other's failures. The hardest part was visibility — the flow lives in subscriptions across four services — so I built a timeline projector and a timeout watcher; across 500 trips with random failures, every confirmed trip has three bookings and every cancelled trip has zero.

Key terms to know:

- **Choreography** — services coordinate by reacting to each other's events, with no central controller.

- **Domain event** — a fact like `FlightBooked`, published to `trip-events` with an envelope (eventId, tripId, type, occurredAt).
- **Compensation by event** — a cancellation event that each service handles locally to undo its own step.
- **Inbox / processed-event table** — a table of handled event ids written in the same transaction as the business change, making handlers idempotent.
- **Partition key** — trip id, so all events for one trip stay in order within one partition.
- **Timeline projector** — a read model built from every event, giving the only end-to-end view of a trip.
- **Timeout watcher** — flags trips that never reach a final state (PENDING_TOO_LONG).
- **Event catalogue** — documentation of every event type, producer and consumer.
- **Cyclic dependency** — services reacting to each other in a loop. A risk to review in the subscription graph.

Q: What is the biggest risk of choreography?

A: The flow becomes invisible and spread across services, so a change in one handler has surprising effects elsewhere and failures are hard to trace. Mitigate with an event catalogue, distributed tracing, a timeline view and a timeout watcher.

Q: How do you know a choreographed saga has finished?

A: One service — here the trip service, which started it — listens for terminal events and owns the final status. A timer flags trips that never reach CONFIRMED or CANCELLED, because one dropped or ignored event can otherwise leave a trip pending forever.

Q: How do you stop services knowing about each other?

A: React to domain events, not to other services' internal failures, and use one `TripCancelled` that everyone handles locally. If hotel and flight both listened for `CarFailed`, adding a fourth step would mean changing every earlier service.

Q: Orchestration versus choreography for this flow — which would you pick in production?

A: For three steps that rarely change, choreography is fine and has no central service to run. Once I added a fourth step (travel insurance), the comparison showed changes in several services, so for flows that grow or need clear monitoring I would move to an orchestrator. Many teams use orchestration inside a domain and choreography between domains.

Q: What happens when a cancellation races with a booking?

A: A `TripCancelled` can arrive while hotel is processing `FlightBooked`. Same-partition ordering helps, but each handler still checks the trip's current status: if it is cancelled, book nothing, or book then cancel immediately. Handlers must be written for any order of events they can legally see.

Q: What if the hotel service is down for two minutes?

A: Events wait in Kafka, the trip stays pending and the watcher flags it. When hotel comes back it reads from its committed offset and the saga continues. Because handlers are idempotent, redelivered events cause no double bookings.

Q: What changes at 10x trips?

A: Throughput scales with the topic's partitions and each service's consumer count. One shared topic means every service reads every event type, which wastes work at scale — you may split topics by type while keeping the trip-id key. The timeline projector also needs storage planning.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Component tests feed events into one service and assert the events it emits. An end-to-end test with Testcontainers runs all four services, injects random failures across 500 trips and checks the invariant. Contract tests on event schemas catch renamed fields that would make a consumer silently ignore an event.

Q: How do you write the idempotent handler?

A: Insert into the processed-event table and do the business change in one transaction; a duplicate event fails the primary key and is skipped:

```java
@Transactional
void on(FlightBooked e) {
  if (!inbox.tryInsert(e.eventId(), "hotel")) return; // already done
  bookings.bookHotelFor(e.tripId());
}
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying choreography has "no single point of failure, so it is always better". You trade a central service for an invisible flow.
- Forgetting the timeout watcher — choreographed sagas can stall forever on one lost event.
- Having each participant listen for other participants' failure events, which couples them.

TL;DR

Flight, hotel and car react to each other's events with no coordinator, and you learn exactly what you give up when the flow is nowhere in code.

13. Transactional Outbox Relay

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 1–2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 10, Ch 11

What it is

A reusable **transactional outbox** for Spring services: business changes and the events describing them are written to the same PostgreSQL database in one transaction, and a separate **relay** process reads the `outbox` table and publishes to Kafka. You build two relays — a polling relay and a change-data-capture relay using Debezium — and compare them. *Change data capture (CDC)* means reading a database's own change log (in PostgreSQL, the write-ahead log, via logical replication) to see every committed row change.

The problem it solves

"Save to DB, then publish to Kafka" is a *dual write*: two systems, no shared transaction. If the app crashes in between, the database says the order exists but no one hears about it. If you publish first, consumers may hear about an order that was then rolled back. The outbox turns two writes into one local transaction plus reliable, at-least-once delivery.

Real-world examples

- The pattern as described by Chris Richardson: Pattern: Transactional outbox.
- Debezium ships an outbox event router that turns outbox rows into properly keyed Kafka messages: Outbox Event Router.
- Spring Modulith's event publication registry is a built-in outbox-like mechanism for Spring apps: Spring Modulith events.

Requirements

Functional

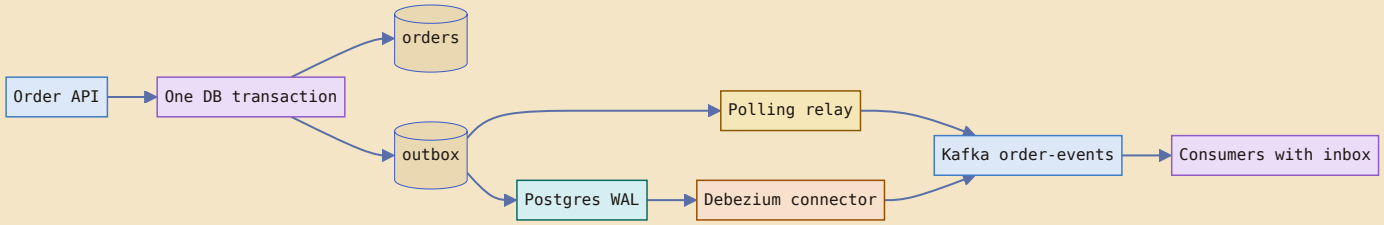
- An order service writes `orders` and `outbox` rows in one transaction.
- Outbox row: id, aggregate type, aggregate id, event type, JSON payload, created time.
- Polling relay publishes unpublished rows in order and marks them sent.
- Debezium relay streams inserts from the outbox table with the outbox router.
- Consumers deduplicate by event id.

Non-functional

- Zero lost events across crashes of the app, the relay or Kafka (prove it with a test).
- End-to-end latency from commit to Kafka: polling under 1 s, CDC under 200 ms p95.
- Outbox table stays small: sent rows deleted or partitioned away after 7 days.

- Per-aggregate ordering preserved.

The architecture



- **Order API** — the only change to normal code is inserting an outbox row alongside the business row.
- **Polling relay** — a scheduled job: select a batch with `FOR UPDATE SKIP LOCKED`, publish, mark sent, commit. `SKIP LOCKED` lets several relay instances share work without blocking each other.
- **Debezium connector** — runs in Kafka Connect, reads the WAL through a logical replication slot, and routes each outbox row to a topic named after its aggregate type, keyed by aggregate id.
- **Consumers** — keep an inbox table of processed event ids.

Data model

ORDERS		
uuid	id	PK
text	status	
numeric	total	

OUTBOX		
uuid	id	PK
text	aggregate_type	
text	aggregate_id	
text	event_type	
jsonb	payload	
timestamptz	created_at	
timestamptz	sent_at	

INBOX		
uuid	event_id	PK
timestamptz	processed_at	

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
App	Spring Boot 4.1.1, Spring Data JDBC	Explicit SQL, easy to reason about
CDC	Debezium PostgreSQL connector on Kafka Connect	Reads the log, no polling
DB	PostgreSQL with `wal_level=logical`	Required for CDC
Tests	Testcontainers: Postgres, Kafka, Connect	Real failure testing

Milestones

1. **Show the bug.** *Done when* a test that kills the app between save and publish finds an order with no event.
2. **Outbox write.** *Done when* every order insert has a matching outbox row in the same transaction (rollback test proves neither persists on failure).
3. **Polling relay.** *Done when* the crash test finds zero lost events and the duplicate count is logged.
4. **Debezium relay.** *Done when* events arrive in Kafka keyed by order id with latency under 200 ms p95.
5. **Housekeeping and metrics.** *Done when* old rows are cleaned up and a dashboard shows outbox backlog and relay lag.

Deep dive: the hard parts

At-least-once, not exactly-once. The relay can publish and crash before marking a row sent, so the row is published again. The outbox guarantees "never lost", not "never duplicated". Consumers must be idempotent — this pairing (outbox plus inbox) is the standard answer.

Ordering with multiple relay workers. Two workers with `SKIP LOCKED` can publish events for the same order out of order. Either run one active worker per partition of aggregate ids, or have each worker lock by aggregate. Debezium preserves commit order from the log, which is one of its advantages.

Replication slot hygiene. A logical replication slot keeps WAL on disk until the connector confirms it. If Debezium is down for a day, the database disk fills. Monitor slot lag and set alerts — this is the most common production incident with CDC.

Commit order versus id order. With polling, a transaction that started earlier but committed later can have a smaller id than rows already published. A relay that tracks "last id published" skips it forever. Use the `sent_at IS NULL` flag rather than a high-water mark, or accept a small delay window.

Testing strategy

Failure-injection tests: kill the relay after publish but before mark (expect a duplicate, no loss), kill Kafka during publish (expect retries, no loss), roll back the business transaction (expect no event). A soak test publishes 100,000 orders with random kills and compares the set of order ids in the database with the set in Kafka.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Polling is simple and needs no extra infra but adds load and latency. CDC is fast and ordered but brings Kafka Connect, replication slots and new operational skills. Both double-write to your database. Failure modes: outbox growth, slot disk usage, duplicate delivery, and schema changes to the payload breaking consumers.

Stretch goals

- Package the outbox as a Spring Boot starter used by Projects 11 and 12.
- Compare with Spring Modulith's event publication registry.
- Add an `InboxRepository` that deduplicates and processes in one transaction.

Skills practised

- Reliable event publishing: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- The building block of every saga: Ch 10 — Saga
- Idempotency under redelivery: Ch 8 — Retry

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a reusable transactional outbox: the order service writes the business row and an `outbox` row in one PostgreSQL transaction, and a relay publishes the outbox to Kafka. I built two relays — a polling relay using `FOR UPDATE SKIP LOCKED`, and a Debezium CDC relay reading the write-ahead log with the outbox event router — and compared them. The key point is the guarantee: an event exists if and only if the change committed, delivered at least once, so consumers deduplicate with an inbox table. Crash tests found zero lost events, and CDC delivered under 200 ms p95 versus under 1 s for polling.

Key terms to know:

- **Dual write** — writing to two systems (database and broker) with no shared transaction. A crash between them loses or invents events.
- **Transactional outbox** — storing the event in an `outbox` table in the same transaction as the business change.
- **Relay** — the process that reads outbox rows and publishes them to Kafka.

- **Polling relay and `SKIP LOCKED`** — a scheduled job that locks a batch of unsent rows. `SKIP LOCKED` lets several relay instances take different rows without blocking.
- **Change data capture (CDC)** — reading the database's change log (PostgreSQL WAL through logical replication) to see committed changes.
- **Debezium outbox event router** — a Kafka Connect transformation that turns outbox rows into Kafka messages keyed by aggregate id.
- **Replication slot** — PostgreSQL keeps WAL until the slot's consumer confirms it. Unmonitored slots fill the disk.
- **Inbox / idempotent consumer** — consumers record processed event ids so duplicates have no effect.
- **At-least-once delivery** — never lost, sometimes duplicated.

Q: What problem does the outbox solve?

A: The dual write between a database and a broker. Writing the event in the same database transaction guarantees an event exists if and only if the change committed — no orders without events, and no events for rolled-back orders.

Q: Does it give exactly-once delivery?

A: No — at-least-once. The relay can publish and crash before marking the row sent, so the row is published again. Consumers deduplicate by event id with an inbox table; outbox plus inbox is the standard pairing.

Q: Polling or CDC?

A: Polling for simplicity and low volume: no new infrastructure, but it adds query load and latency. CDC for low latency, commit-order delivery and high volume, at the cost of operating Kafka Connect and replication slots.

Q: Why not just publish to Kafka inside the database transaction?

A: Kafka is not part of the database transaction. If you publish first and the commit fails, consumers act on an order that does not exist; if you commit first and crash before publishing, the event is lost. Kafka transactions only cover Kafka itself.

Q: How can a polling relay publish events out of order?

A: Two ways. Several workers with `SKIP LOCKED` can publish events for the same order in parallel, so lock or partition by aggregate. And a transaction that got a smaller id but committed later can be skipped by a relay that tracks "last id published" — so I select by `sent_at IS NULL` instead of a high-water mark.

Q: What is the most common production incident with CDC?

A: A replication slot holding WAL while Debezium is down: PostgreSQL cannot delete the log, so the disk fills and the database stops. Monitor slot lag and disk, alert early, and have a runbook for dropping and re-creating the slot.

Q: What changes at 10x write volume?

A: The outbox table becomes a hot table: index `sent_at IS NULL` (a partial index), delete or partition sent rows daily, and batch publishes. Polling query load grows with volume, which is where CDC wins because it reads the log rather than querying the table.

Q: How did you prove no events are lost?

A: Failure-injection tests kill the relay between publish and mark (expect a duplicate, no loss), stop Kafka during publish (expect retries), and roll back the business transaction (expect no event). A soak test with 100,000 orders and random kills compares the set of order ids in the database with the set in Kafka.

Q: What does the polling query look like?

A: Lock a batch of unsent rows so other relay instances skip them:

```
SELECT * FROM outbox WHERE sent_at IS NULL
ORDER BY created_at LIMIT 100
FOR UPDATE SKIP LOCKED;
```

Publish them, then `UPDATE outbox SET sent_at = now()` for those ids and commit.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Claiming the outbox gives exactly-once delivery.
- Forgetting the consumer side — without idempotent consumers, the outbox's duplicates cause double effects.
- Ignoring outbox table growth and replication-slot disk usage.

TL;DR

Write the event in the same transaction as the data, relay it to Kafka by polling or CDC, and deduplicate on the other side.

14. Kafka Retry Topics and Dead-Letter Console

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 1–2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 8, Ch 11

What it is

A non-blocking error-handling pipeline for Kafka consumers: a failed message is moved to a **retry topic** with a delay (for example 10 s, then 1 min, then 10 min), and after the last attempt to a **dead-letter topic (DLT)** — a parking place for messages that could not be processed. Plus a small web console to inspect, fix, replay or discard dead letters.

The problem it solves

A Kafka consumer processes a partition in order. If one message keeps failing and the consumer retries it in place, the whole partition stops — every later message waits behind one bad record (the *poison pill*). Dropping it loses data. Retry topics let the main flow continue while the failed message waits its turn elsewhere, and the DLT gives humans a way to handle what code cannot.

Real-world examples

- Uber describes the retry-topic and DLQ design it built for its Driver Injury Protection program: Building Reliable Reprocessing and Dead Letter Queues with Apache Kafka.
- Spring for Apache Kafka has built-in non-blocking retry topics: Non-Blocking Retries.
- AWS on why backoff and limits on retries matter: Timeouts, retries and backoff with jitter.

Requirements

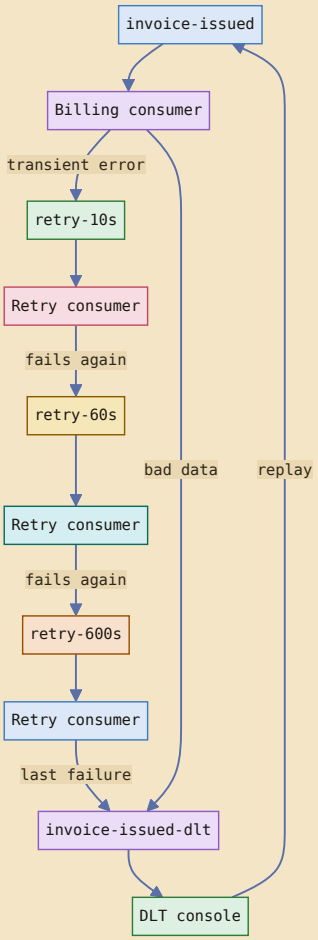
Functional

- A billing consumer processes `InvoiceIssued` events and calls a flaky tax-rate service.
- Transient errors go through retry topics with delays 10 s, 60 s, 600 s.
- Non-retryable errors (bad data) go straight to the DLT.
- The DLT record keeps original topic, partition, offset, error class, message and attempt count in headers.
- Console: list DLT messages, filter by error, view payload, edit and replay to the original topic, or discard with a reason.

Non-functional

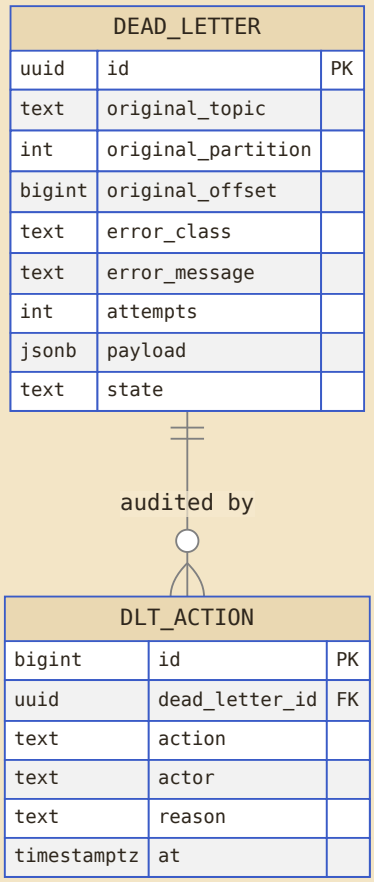
- One failing message never delays others by more than 1 s.
- No message lost between topics (prove with counts).
- Console replay is audited: who, when, what changed.

The architecture



- **Retry topics** — each consumer waits until the message's due time before processing (Spring Kafka pauses the partition rather than sleeping).
- **DLT** — retained for 30 days.
- **Console** — a Spring Boot app with a simple UI, reading the DLT from the beginning into a PostgreSQL table so operators can search it.

Data model



Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Retry plumbing	Spring Kafka `@RetryableTopic`	Declarative delays and DLT
Classification	Exception types: transient vs. permanent	Decides retry or DLT
Console	Spring Boot + server-rendered pages	Small, internal tool
Faults	WireMock tax service with failure modes	Repeatable

Milestones

1. **Blocking baseline.** *Done when* one poison message stops a partition and lag grows for all later messages.
2. **Retry topics.** *Done when* the poison message travels through three retry topics while others flow normally.
3. **Classification.** *Done when* validation errors skip retries and land in the DLT immediately.
4. **Console.** *Done when* an operator can fix a field and replay, and the message is processed successfully.
5. **Accounting.** *Done when* a soak test with 10% random failures ends with processed + dead-lettered = produced.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Ordering is given up. Moving a message to a retry topic means later messages for the same key may be processed first. For invoices that is fine. For "account opened" then "account closed", it is not. If order matters per key, park all later messages for that key too, or block in place for that key only.

Retry storms on outages. If the tax service is down for an hour, every message goes through all retry topics and lands in the DLT. Retrying cannot help a hard outage. Pair with a circuit breaker that pauses the consumer while the dependency is down.

Replay safety. A replayed message is a duplicate from the system's point of view — the consumer may already have partially processed it. Idempotent processing with a stable event id is mandatory, and the console should warn when replaying something already marked processed.

Testing strategy

Integration tests with Testcontainers: assert a message lands on the right retry topic with correct headers, and in the DLT after the final attempt. Use short delays (100 ms) in tests. Test the console replay end to end. Count-based soak test for loss.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Retry topics multiply topic count and operational surface. Long delays hold messages for a long time — tell the business. The DLT can silently fill up if no one watches it, so alert on DLT inflow rate, not just size.

Stretch goals

- Pause the main consumer automatically when a breaker opens.
- Bulk replay with a rate limit.
- Per-key ordering mode that parks later messages for a failing key.

Skills practised

- Retry with backoff and limits: Ch 8 — Retry
- Consumer behaviour and ordering: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Pausing on outages: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker

In the interview

30-second answer: I built non-blocking error handling for a Kafka billing consumer: a message that fails with a transient error moves to retry topics with delays of 10 s, 60 s and 600 s, and after the last attempt — or immediately for bad data — to a dead-letter topic. A small console lets operators search dead letters, edit and replay them, or discard them, with every action audited. The key decision was classifying exceptions into transient and permanent, so validation errors skip retries. The hardest trade-off was ordering: retry topics give up per-key order, which is fine for invoices but not for every domain. A soak test with 10% random failures ends with processed plus dead-lettered exactly equal to produced.

Key terms to know:

- **Poison pill** — a message that always fails. Retried in place, it blocks every later message in its partition.
- **Blocking vs non-blocking retry** — retrying in place on the main topic versus moving the message to a separate retry topic.
- **Retry topic** — a topic where failed messages wait until their due time before being retried.
- **Dead-letter topic (DLT)** — where messages go after their final failed attempt, with headers recording origin and error.
- **Transient vs permanent error** — a timeout may succeed later; malformed data never will. Decides retry or DLT.
- `@RetryableTopic` — Spring Kafka's annotation that creates retry topics, delays and a DLT declaratively.
- **Replay** — sending a fixed dead letter back to the original topic. Must be idempotent and audited.

- **Partition pause** — Spring Kafka pauses consumption of a retry partition until the message is due, instead of sleeping the thread.

Q: Why not retry in place?

A: Kafka processes a partition in order, so an in-place retry blocks every later message in that partition, and one poison message can stall a whole stream. Retry topics move the failure aside and keep the main flow moving.

Q: What goes into a dead-letter topic?

A: Messages that are permanently bad or exhausted their retries, with headers recording original topic, partition, offset, exception class, message and attempt count. That is enough to diagnose the problem and replay to the exact source.

Q: What do you lose with retry topics?

A: Per-key ordering: later messages for the same key may be processed before the retried one. For invoices that is fine; for "account opened" then "account closed" it is not. If order matters per key, park later messages for that key too, or block in place for that key only.

Q: What happens when the tax service is down for an hour?

A: Every message fails, runs through all three retry topics and ends in the DLT — retries cannot fix a hard outage and only add load. Pair the consumer with a circuit breaker that pauses consumption while the dependency is down, so messages wait in the main topic instead.

Q: Why is replay dangerous?

A: A replayed message is a duplicate from the system's point of view — it may already have been partly processed. Processing must be idempotent by event id, and the console warns when replaying something already marked processed. Every replay records who, when and what changed.

Q: How do you decide which exceptions are retryable?

A: Timeouts, connection errors and 5xx from dependencies are transient. Deserialization errors, validation failures and missing required fields are permanent and go straight to the DLT. In Spring Kafka you list permanent ones with `exclude` (or `notRetryOn`), and deserialization errors are non-retryable by default.

Q: What changes at 10x volume?

A: Retry topics need as many partitions as the main topic so retry consumers keep up, and the topic count multiplies across services. Watch DLT inflow rate rather than size, because a sudden rise means a new bug or outage. Bulk replay needs a rate limit so it does not flood the consumer.

Q: How did you prove nothing is lost?

A: Testcontainers tests assert a failing message lands on each retry topic with correct headers and in the DLT after the final attempt, using 100 ms delays. The soak test injects 10% random failures and checks processed + dead-lettered = produced.

Q: Show the Spring Kafka set-up.

A: `attempts` counts the first try, so 4 attempts means 3 retries. Spring Kafka 4 (the Boot 4 line) replaced Spring Retry's `@Backoff` with its own `@BackOff` and renamed the attribute to `backOff`. A multiplier of 6 gives 10 s, 60 s, 360 s; exact custom delays like 600 s need a `RetryTopicConfiguration` bean.

```
@RetryableTopic(attempts = "4",
  backOff = @BackOff(delayString = "10s", multiplier = 6),
  exclude = InvalidInvoiceException.class)
@KafkaListener(topics = "invoice-issued", groupId = "billing")
void on(InvoiceIssued e) { billing.process(e); }

@DltHandler void dead(InvoiceIssued e) { console.record(e); }
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying retry topics keep ordering. They give it up per key.
- Sending every error through retries, including bad data that can never succeed.
- Having a DLT that nobody monitors — it silently becomes data loss.

TL;DR

Move failures aside with delayed retry topics, park the hopeless ones in a DLT, and give humans a safe, audited way to replay them.

15. Product Search Read Model

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 11, Ch 12

What it is

A catalogue where products, prices and stock are owned by three different services, and a **search read model** — a denormalised index in OpenSearch — is built by consuming their events from Kafka. Shoppers search and filter against the index, never against the source services. This is CQRS across service boundaries: the read model joins data that no single service owns.

The problem it solves

"Find red running shoes under 80 euros that are in stock, sorted by rating" needs product attributes, price and stock together. Calling three services per search result is slow and couples search to all three. A local join is impossible because the data lives in three databases. A projected index built from events gives fast, rich queries while each service keeps ownership of its data.

Real-world examples

- Chris Richardson describes CQRS views fed by events from several services: Pattern: CQRS.
- OpenSearch, the open-source search engine used here: OpenSearch.
- Microsoft's CQRS guidance on separate read stores and eventual consistency: CQRS pattern.

Requirements

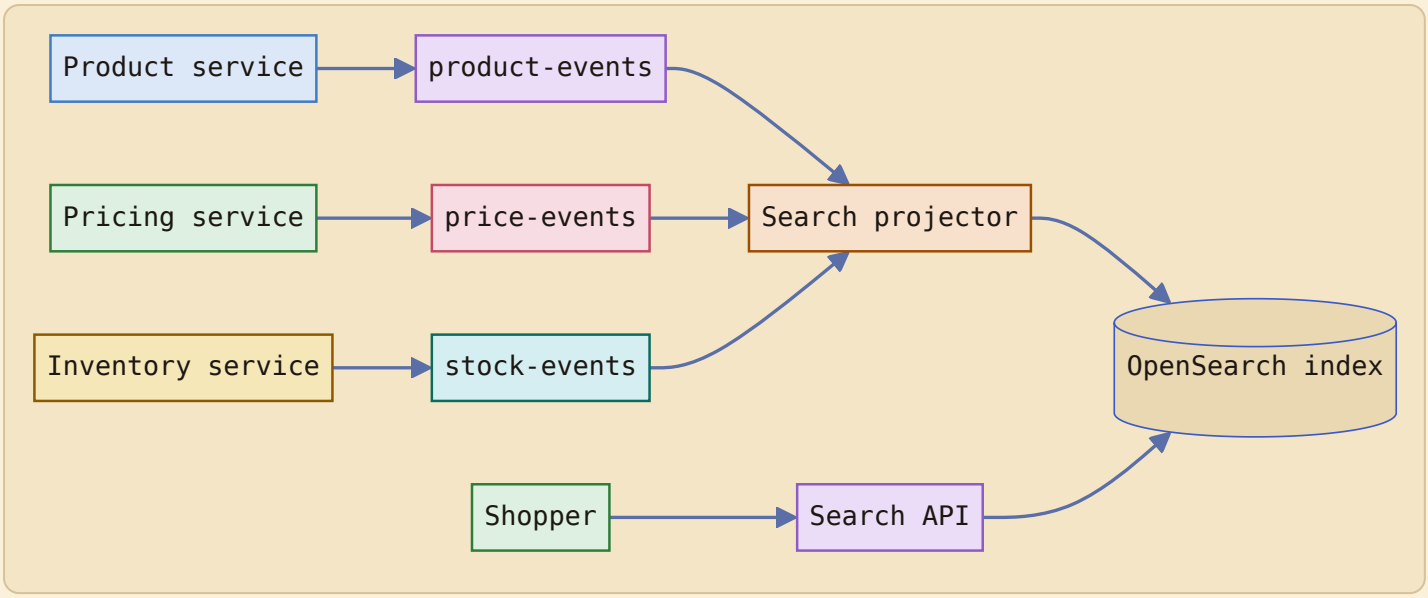
Functional

- Product service publishes `ProductCreated` and `ProductUpdated`. Pricing publishes `PriceChanged`. Inventory publishes `StockChanged`.
- Search projector merges them into one document per product.
- `GET /search?q=&color=&maxPrice=&inStock=&sort=` with facets (counts per colour and brand).
- Full rebuild of the index from Kafka (topics retained or compacted) without downtime.

Non-functional

- Search p95 under 100 ms for 1 million products.
- Index freshness: under 2 s from event to searchable.
- Rebuild of 1 million products under 30 minutes, while the old index keeps serving.

The architecture



- **Source services** — publish via the outbox (Project 13). They do not know search exists.
- **Compacted topics** — Kafka *log compaction* keeps the latest message per key forever, so the topic itself is a full snapshot you can rebuild from.
- **Projector** — consumes all three topics, applies partial updates to documents, and records the source version of each part.
- **Index alias** — the search API queries an alias (a pointer name), so a rebuilt index can be swapped in atomically.

Data model

Index field	Source	Notes
`productId`	product	Document id
`name`, `brand`, `color`, `description`	product	Text and keyword fields
`price`, `currency`	pricing	Numeric for range filters
`inStock`, `stockQty`	inventory	Boolean filter
`productVersion`, `priceVersion`, `stockVersion`	each source	Reject older updates

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Index	OpenSearch, single node locally	Full text, facets, range filters
Projector	Spring Boot 4.1.1 + Spring Kafka	Batch consume, bulk index
Topics	Compacted, keyed by productId	Rebuildable snapshot
Load data	Generator for 1 million products	Realistic latency numbers

Milestones

1. **Events from three services.** *Done when* each publishes keyed events to compacted topics.
2. **Projector merges documents.** *Done when* a search returns a product with name, price and stock from three sources.
3. **Out-of-order safety.** *Done when* replaying a stale `PriceChanged` does not overwrite a newer price.
4. **Facets and filters.** *Done when* p95 is under 100 ms at 1 million documents.

5. **Zero-downtime rebuild.** *Done when* a new index is built from offset 0 into `products_v2`, the alias swaps, and searches never fail during the swap.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Partial documents and versioning. Events from three topics arrive in no global order. A price update can arrive before the product exists. Upsert partial documents, and store each source's version so that an older event never overwrites a newer one — compare versions per field group, not per document.

Rebuilding while live. The live projector keeps updating `v1` while a second projector fills `v2` from the start of the topics. Once `v2` catches up to the current offsets, switch the alias and stop the old projector. Changes during the switch are covered because both are consuming.

Bulk efficiency. Indexing one document per event is slow. Batch events from a poll, merge updates for the same product in memory, then send one bulk request. This alone can make rebuilds many times faster.

Testing strategy

Projector unit tests with shuffled event orders must produce the same final document. Integration tests with Testcontainers Kafka and OpenSearch. A freshness test measures time from publish to searchable. A rebuild test runs searches in a loop during the alias swap and asserts no errors.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

The index is eventually consistent: a shopper may see "in stock" for an item that just sold out, so checkout must re-check with inventory. OpenSearch is a new system to operate. Failure modes: projector lag (alert on consumer lag), mapping changes that require a rebuild, and compacted topics growing if keys are never deleted (use tombstones).

Stretch goals

- Personalised ranking using a separate "popularity" event stream.
- Search-as-you-type with an edge n-gram field.
- A second read model (category page counts) from the same topics.

Skills practised

- Read models across services: Ch 12 — CQRS
- Event streams, compaction and replay: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I built product search over data owned by three services: product, pricing and inventory publish events to compacted Kafka topics, and a projector merges them into one OpenSearch document per product. Shoppers query the index, never the source services. The hardest problem was ordering across three topics: each part of the document carries its source version, so a stale `PriceChanged` never overwrites a newer price. Schema changes are done by rebuilding into a new index from offset 0 and swapping an alias with no failed searches, and search stays under 100 ms p95 at 1 million products.

Key terms to know:

- **Read model across services** — CQRS where the read side joins data owned by several services.
- **Projector** — consumes the three topics and upserts partial documents in OpenSearch.
- **Log compaction** — Kafka keeps the latest message per key, so a topic is a full, rebuildable snapshot.
- **Tombstone** — a message with a null value that tells compaction to delete a key.
- **Per-source versioning** — `productVersion`, `priceVersion`, `stockVersion` so older events cannot overwrite newer data.
- **Index alias** — a pointer name the search API queries, swapped atomically to a rebuilt index.
- **Facets** — counts per value (colour, brand) returned with search results, via aggregations.

- **Bulk indexing** — batching many document updates into one request, merging updates for the same product first.
- **Eventual consistency** — the index lags the sources (target under 2 s), so checkout must re-check stock.

Q: How do you search across data owned by several services?

A: Each service publishes change events, and a projector builds a denormalised search index. Queries hit the index, never the services, so search is fast and the services keep ownership of their data.

Q: How do you handle out-of-order events?

A: Carry a version from the source and apply an update only if it is newer than what the document holds for that part. Versions are compared per field group (price, stock, product), not per document, because the three topics have no shared order.

Q: How do you change the index schema?

A: Build a new index (`products_v2`) from the start of the replayable topics while the live projector keeps updating v1. When v2 has caught up to current offsets, swap the alias in one atomic call and stop the old projector.

Q: Why compacted topics rather than normal retention?

A: With time-based retention old events are deleted, so you cannot rebuild from the topic. Compaction keeps the latest value per product forever, which is exactly what a rebuild needs, and stays bounded by the number of products rather than the number of changes.

Q: A shopper sees "in stock" but the item just sold out. Is that a bug?

A: No, it is the eventual consistency of a read model. The index is for finding products; the decision is made at checkout, which calls inventory directly and can refuse. The UI should handle that case gracefully.

Q: Why not call the three services at query time?

A: One search can return hundreds of results, so you would make hundreds of calls, latency would be the slowest service, and search would fail when any service is down. You also cannot filter "in stock under 80 euros" without having all the data in one place.

Q: What breaks first at 10x events?

A: The projector: one OpenSearch request per event is far too slow. Batch each poll, merge updates per product in memory and send one bulk request. Then add partitions and projector instances, and alert on consumer lag as the freshness signal.

Q: What happens if the projector crashes?

A: Offsets are committed only after the bulk request succeeds, so on restart it reprocesses from the last commit. Version checks make reprocessing harmless, and search keeps serving the existing, slightly stale index.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Unit tests apply the same events in shuffled orders and assert the same final document. Integration tests use Testcontainers Kafka and OpenSearch. A freshness test measures publish-to-searchable time, and a rebuild test runs searches in a loop during the alias swap and asserts no errors.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Querying source services at search time "for freshness", which recreates the coupling the read model removes.
- Using one version per document, which lets a newer price be overwritten by an older product event.
- Trusting the index for decisions like stock reservation.

TL;DR

Turn three services' events into one fast search index, guard against out-of-order updates with versions, and rebuild behind an alias.

16. End-to-End Tracing with OpenTelemetry

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 1–2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 9

What it is

Distributed tracing for a five-service system (gateway, order, payment, inventory, notification) using **OpenTelemetry (OTel)** — the vendor-neutral standard for traces, metrics and logs. A *trace* is the full story of one request across services. It is made of *spans*, each timing one operation (an HTTP call, a SQL query, a Kafka publish), linked by a shared trace id. You instrument HTTP and Kafka hops, collect spans through an OTel Collector, and view them in Jaeger or Grafana Tempo.

The problem it solves

A user says "checkout took eight seconds". Each service's logs say it was fast. Without tracing you cannot see that the time was spent waiting on a retry loop inside payment, or in a Kafka topic with lag. Tracing stitches one request's path together across process boundaries, including asynchronous hops.

Real-world examples

- Google's Dapper paper, the design most modern tracers descend from: Dapper, a Large-Scale Distributed Systems Tracing Infrastructure.
- The W3C standard header (`traceparent`) that carries context between services: Trace Context.
- OpenTelemetry for Java, including the agent and SDK: OpenTelemetry Java.

Requirements

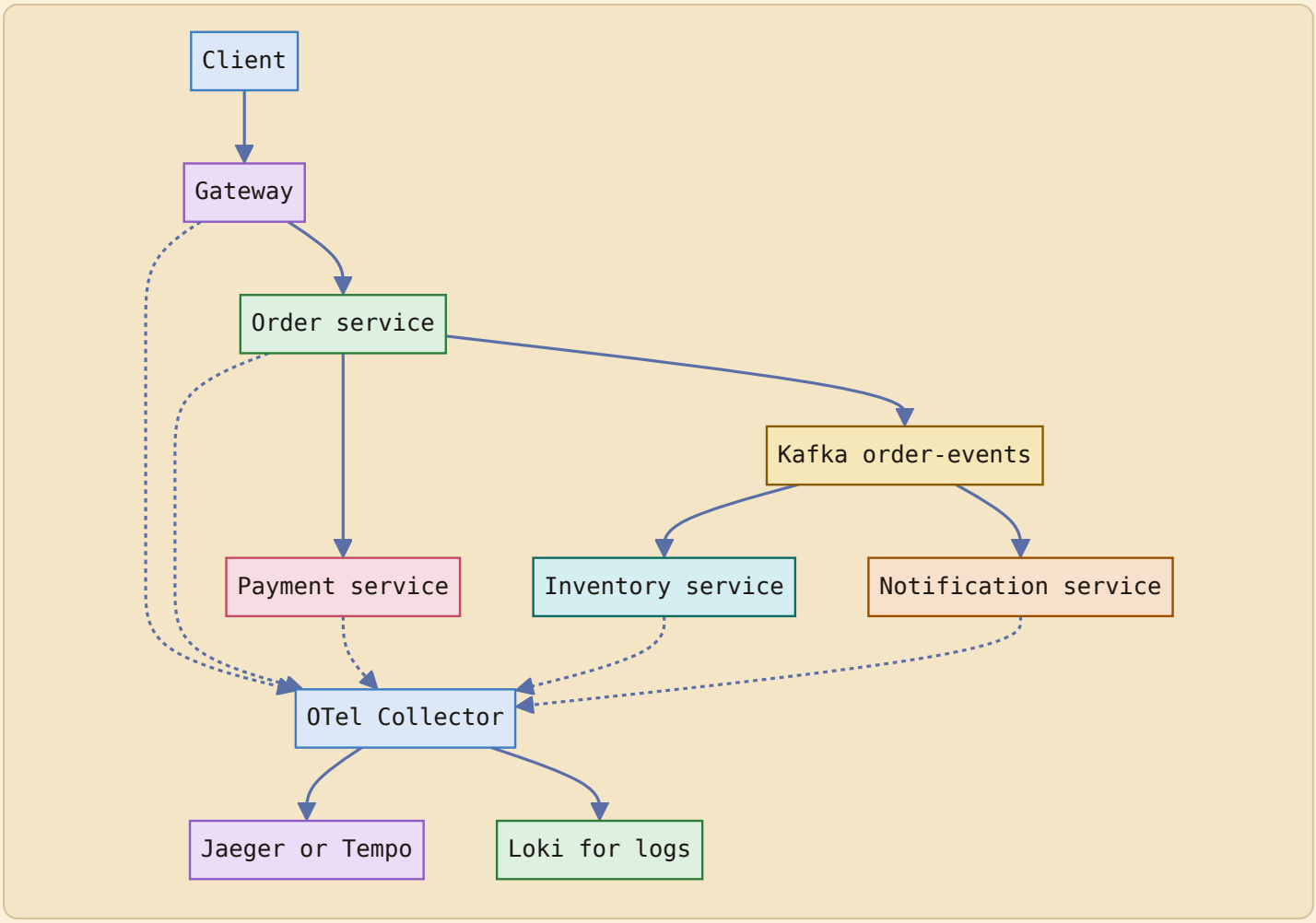
Functional

- Every inbound request gets a trace, propagated through HTTP calls and Kafka messages.
- Spans for HTTP server and client, JDBC queries and Kafka produce and consume.
- Custom spans for business steps ("reserve stock") with attributes like order id.
- Logs include trace id and span id, so you can jump from a log line to its trace.
- Errors mark spans with status ERROR and the exception.

Non-functional

- Tracing overhead under 5% CPU and under 2 ms p95 added latency.
- Head sampling at 10% in "production" profile, 100% in dev.
- Collector buffers spans if the backend is down for 5 minutes.

The architecture



- **Instrumentation** — Spring Boot's Micrometer Tracing with the OpenTelemetry bridge, or the OTel Java agent. Try both and compare.
- **Propagation** — `traceparent` HTTP header, and the same header in Kafka record headers.
- **OTel Collector** — receives spans over OTLP (the OTel wire protocol), batches them, and exports to backends. It can run as a sidecar or a shared deployment.
- **Backends** — Jaeger or Grafana Tempo for traces, Loki for logs, Grafana to link them.

Data model

Concept	Key fields	Notes
Trace	traceId (16 bytes)	Shared by every span of one request
Span	spanId, parentSpanId, name, start, end, status, attributes	One timed operation
Context	traceId, spanId, flags (sampled)	Carried in `traceparent`
Span link	other trace and span ids	Connects a consumer to a producer when batching

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Instrumentation	Micrometer Tracing + OTel bridge, or OTel Java agent	Built into Spring Boot, or zero-code
Collector	OpenTelemetry Collector	Vendor-neutral pipeline
Backend	Jaeger or Grafana Tempo	Free, local
Logs	Logback pattern with trace id, Loki	Correlation

Milestones

1. **Single service traces.** *Done when* order's HTTP and SQL spans appear in Jaeger.
2. **HTTP propagation.** *Done when* gateway → order → payment is one trace with three levels.
3. **Kafka propagation.** *Done when* inventory and notification spans join the order's trace via record headers.
4. **Logs correlation.** *Done when* clicking a trace in Grafana shows its log lines.
5. **Find the slow span.** Add a hidden 2 s retry loop in payment. *Done when* someone unfamiliar with the code finds it from the trace in under a minute.
6. **Sampling.** *Done when* the production profile keeps about 10% of traces, and errors are still visible (preview of tail sampling in Project 34).

Deep dive: the hard parts

Context across threads. Trace context lives in a thread-local or scoped value. When you hand work to another thread (an executor, a `CompletableFuture`), the context is lost unless the executor is wrapped. With virtual threads and structured concurrency (preview in Java 25), check that context flows — test it explicitly.

Async hops. A Kafka consumer that processes messages in batches has many parent traces for one piece of work. Use *span links* rather than forcing one parent. Decide whether a consumer span continues the producer's trace (simple, good for one-to-one) or starts a new one linked to it (better for fan-out and long delays).

Cardinality and cost. Attributes like user id on every span are useful, but metrics derived from spans explode if they include high-cardinality labels. Keep high-cardinality values on spans only, never on metric labels.

Testing strategy

Use the OTel in-memory span exporter in tests to assert that a call produces the expected spans with the right parent ids. An integration test sends one request through the stack and queries Jaeger's API for a trace with spans from all five services. A benchmark compares p95 with tracing on and off.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Tracing costs CPU, network and storage. Head sampling (decide at the start) is cheap but can drop the rare slow or failed requests you care most about. Missing propagation in one hop breaks a trace in two, which is worse than useless for debugging — enforce instrumentation in a shared starter.

Stretch goals

- Baggage: carry tenant id in OTel baggage and add it to every span.
- Service graph and RED metrics (rate, errors, duration) generated from spans.
- Trace a request through a database trigger or a sidecar proxy.

Skills practised

- Observability as a sidecar or collector: Ch 9 — Sidecar
- Request ids at the edge: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Tracing asynchronous flows: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I added OpenTelemetry tracing to a five-service system — gateway, order, payment, inventory, notification — so one checkout request is one trace across HTTP calls and Kafka messages. Spans go over OTLP to an OTel Collector, which batches and buffers them and exports to Jaeger or Tempo, and every log line carries the trace id so Grafana jumps from a trace to its logs. The hardest parts were keeping context across thread hand-offs and Kafka hops, which I solved with context-propagating executors and `traceparent` in record headers. I proved it with a hidden 2-second retry loop in payment that a newcomer found from the trace in under a minute, with tracing adding under 2 ms p95.

Key terms to know:

- **Distributed trace** — the full path of one request across services, identified by a 16-byte trace id.
- **Span** — one timed operation (HTTP call, SQL query, Kafka publish) with a parent span id, status and attributes.
- **Context propagation** — passing trace id and parent span id to the next hop, here in the W3C `traceparent` header for HTTP and Kafka.
- **OpenTelemetry (OTel)** — the vendor-neutral standard and SDKs for traces, metrics and logs.
- **OTLP and the Collector** — OTLP is OTel's wire protocol; the Collector receives, batches, buffers and exports telemetry to backends.
- **Head sampling** — deciding at the start of a trace whether to keep it (10% in production here).
- **Span link** — a reference from one span to another trace, used when a batch consumer has many parents.
- **Log correlation** — trace and span ids in every log line, so logs and traces join up.
- **Cardinality** — the number of distinct values of a label. High-cardinality values belong on spans, not metric labels.

Q: How does a trace follow a request across services?

A: Each service reads the trace context from the incoming `traceparent` header, creates child spans under it, and writes the context into outgoing HTTP headers or Kafka record headers. If any hop forgets to propagate, the trace splits in two.

Q: Head versus tail sampling?

A: Head sampling makes the keep-or-drop choice when the trace begins, before anyone knows whether the request will fail or be slow, so it is cheap but drops errors as often as successes. Tail sampling decides after seeing the whole trace, so it can keep all errors and slow traces, at the cost of buffering complete traces in the collector (Project 34).

Q: How do you trace through Kafka?

A: Put the context in record headers when producing; the consumer extracts it and either continues the trace as a child (simple, good for one message one action) or starts a new trace with a span link back (better for batches, fan-out and long delays).

Q: Why send spans to a Collector instead of straight to Jaeger?

A: The Collector decouples apps from the backend: it batches, retries and buffers when the backend is down (5 minutes here), can sample or drop attributes centrally, and lets you change backends without redeploying services.

Q: Where can trace context get lost inside one service?

A: When work moves to another thread — an executor, `CompletableFuture` or `@Async` — because context is stored per thread. Wrap executors with context propagation (Micrometer's context-propagation library does this for Spring) and test it, including with virtual threads.

Q: What happens if the tracing backend is down?

A: The app is unaffected: SDK exporters are asynchronous with bounded queues and drop spans when full rather than blocking requests. The Collector buffers for a while; beyond that, traces are lost — acceptable for telemetry, which must never take the business down.

Q: What changes at 100x traffic?

A: Storage and network cost: at 100% sampling, spans can outweigh business data. You lower head sampling, move to tail sampling to keep errors, scale Collectors horizontally, and drop noisy spans like health checks. Attribute cardinality starts to matter for any metrics derived from spans.

Q: How did you test tracing?

A: With the OTel in-memory span exporter I assert that a call produces spans with the right names and parent ids. An integration test sends one request through the stack and queries Jaeger's API for a trace with spans from all five services, and a benchmark compares p95 with tracing on and off.

Q: How do you enable it in Spring Boot 4?

A: Spring Boot 4 has a `spring-boot-starter-opentelemetry` that brings Micrometer Tracing with the OTel bridge and OTLP export. Set the sample rate and turn on Kafka observations:

```
management.tracing.sampling.probability: 0.1
spring.kafka.template.observation-enabled: true
spring.kafka.listener.observation-enabled: true
```

Custom business spans use `@Observed` or the `ObservationRegistry` API.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Thinking a request id in logs is the same as tracing. Tracing adds timing, parent/child structure and async hops.
- Saying head sampling keeps all errors. It cannot know about errors yet.
- Putting user ids or order ids on metric labels, which explodes metric storage.

TL;DR

Instrument every hop — HTTP and Kafka — with OpenTelemetry, ship spans through a collector, and turn "it was slow somewhere" into one clickable timeline.

17. Consumer-Driven Contract Testing Pipeline

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 1–2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 4

What it is

A CI pipeline where API consumers (a web BFF and a mobile BFF) write **contracts** — executable examples of the requests they send and the responses they rely on — and the provider (a product service) must pass all of them before it can deploy. *Consumer-driven contract testing* flips the usual direction: the people who use an API state what they need, and the provider proves it still delivers. You use Pact with a Pact Broker, and add Spring Cloud Contract for one Kafka message contract.

The problem it solves

With many services, end-to-end tests that start everything are slow, flaky and run too late. But unit tests on each side cannot catch "provider renamed `price` to `amount`". Contract tests catch breaking changes in seconds, on each side independently, and the broker answers the key deployment question: "can I deploy this version of this service to production right now?"

Real-world examples

- Martin Fowler's site explains the idea and its origin: Consumer-Driven Contracts.
- Pact, the most widely used tool, with its broker and `can-i-deploy` check: Pact documentation.
- Spring's tool, which can also test messaging contracts: Spring Cloud Contract reference.

Requirements

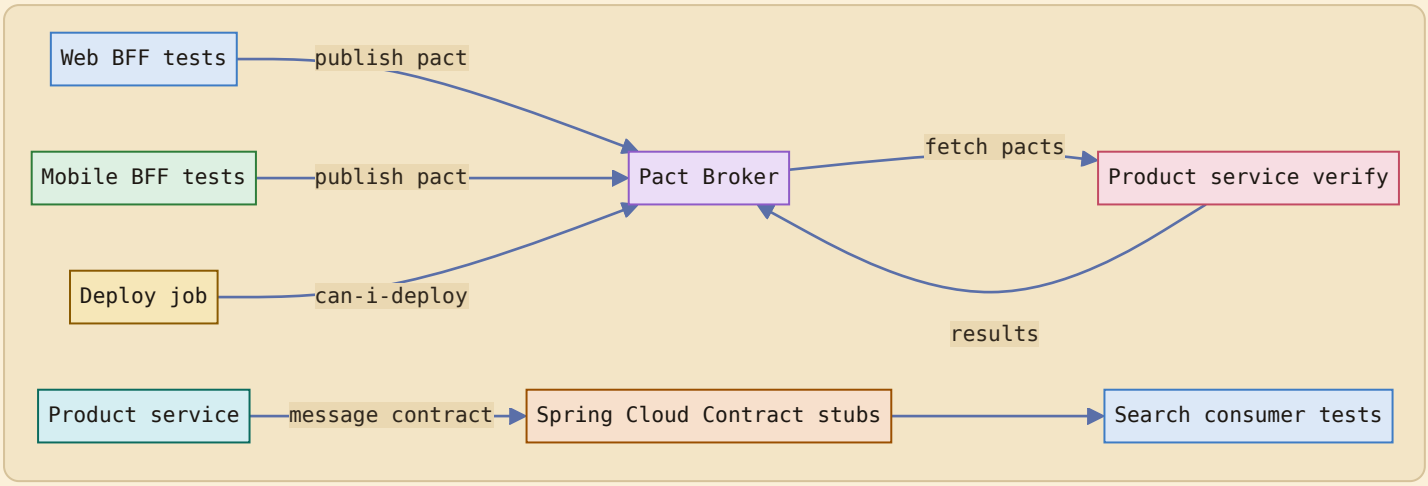
Functional

- Web BFF and mobile BFF each publish a Pact for `GET /products/{id}` with only the fields they use.
- Product service verifies all consumer pacts in its CI build against its real controller.
- The broker records which versions are in which environment.
- `can-i-deploy` gates deploys of both consumers and provider.
- One message contract: product service's `ProductUpdated` event consumed by search.

Non-functional

- Contract tests run in under 60 s per service.
- A breaking provider change fails CI before merge, not after deploy.
- No shared test environment needed to verify compatibility.

The architecture



- **Consumer tests** — run against a Pact mock server and record the interaction.
- **Pact Broker** — stores contracts and verification results with version and environment tags.
- **Provider verification** — replays each interaction against the real product controller with provider states (test data set-up hooks such as "product 42 exists").
- **Deploy gate** — CI asks the broker whether this version is compatible with what is deployed.

Data model

Item	Fields	Notes
Pact	consumer, provider, interactions, consumer version	JSON file
Interaction	description, provider state, request, response matchers	Matchers check type, not exact value
Verification	provider version, pact version, success	Stored in broker
Environment record	service, version, environment	"Deployed to prod"

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
HTTP contracts	Pact JVM with JUnit 5	Consumer-driven, broker workflow
Broker	Pact Broker in Docker	Version matrix and `can-i-deploy`
Messaging contract	Spring Cloud Contract	Generates stubs for Kafka messages
CI	GitHub Actions or a local runner	Shows the gate in action

Milestones

1. **First consumer pact.** *Done when* the web BFF test produces a pact file with only the fields it reads.
2. **Provider verification.** *Done when* product service CI verifies it with provider states.
3. **Break it on purpose.** Rename a field. *Done when* provider CI fails with a clear message naming the consumer.
4. **Broker and `can-i-deploy`.** *Done when* the deploy job refuses an incompatible version.
5. **Message contract.** *Done when* search's consumer test runs against a stub generated from product's contract.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Match on shape, not values. A contract that asserts `price == 19.99` breaks whenever test data changes. Use matchers ("a decimal", "a string matching this pattern") so contracts express what matters.

Provider states. The provider must be able to set up "product 42 exists and is out of stock" quickly. Keep a small state hook per state that inserts data or configures mocks behind the controller. Too many states signal that consumers are testing business logic rather than the interface.

Evolving contracts safely. To remove a field, first check the broker for consumers that still use it. To add a required request field, you must coordinate. The broker's matrix turns "who uses this?" into a query rather than a meeting.

Contracts are not functional tests. They prove the interface fits, not that the provider computes the right price. Keep provider unit and integration tests for behaviour.

Testing strategy

This project is mostly tests, so test the pipeline: a script that makes a breaking and a non-breaking change in turn and asserts CI's verdict. Measure total contract-test time per service.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Contract tests need discipline from consumer teams and a broker to run. They do not catch problems in flows across many services, so keep a few end-to-end smoke tests. They work best for internal APIs where you know your consumers — for public APIs, use versioning and schema checks instead.

Stretch goals

- Webhook from the broker that triggers provider verification when a new pact arrives.
- Bi-directional contracts: verify an OpenAPI spec against consumer pacts.
- Contract tests between gateway routes and services.

Skills practised

- Client-specific APIs: Ch 4 — BFF
- Interfaces at the edge: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Event schemas as contracts: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a CI pipeline where two consumers — a web BFF and a mobile BFF — write Pact contracts describing exactly the fields they use from the product service, publish them to a Pact Broker, and the provider must verify all of them before it can merge or deploy. A `can-i-deploy` check gates every deploy against what is already in each environment, and Spring Cloud Contract covers one Kafka message contract. The key decision was matching on types and shapes rather than exact values, so contracts do not break when test data changes. A deliberate field rename now fails provider CI in under 60 seconds with a message naming the consumer that would break.

Key terms to know:

- **Contract** — an executable example of a request a consumer sends and the response it relies on.

- **Consumer-driven contract testing** — consumers state what they need and the provider proves it still delivers.
- **Pact and the Pact Broker** — Pact records contracts from consumer tests; the broker stores contracts, verification results and which versions are in which environment.
- **Provider verification** — replaying every consumer interaction against the real provider controller.
- **Provider state** — a set-up hook such as "product 42 exists" that prepares data before an interaction is replayed.
- **Matchers** — rules like "a decimal" or "a string matching this pattern" instead of exact values.
- `can-i-deploy` — a broker query: is this version verified against the versions of its counterparts already deployed to the target environment?
- **Message contract** — a contract for an event payload (here `ProductUpdated`) rather than an HTTP call.

Q: Why contract tests instead of end-to-end tests?

A: They are fast, run per service without a shared environment, and pinpoint which consumer a change breaks. End-to-end tests are slow, flaky and only fail after everything is assembled. I still keep a few end-to-end smoke tests for whole flows.

Q: Who writes the contract?

A: The consumer, describing only the requests it makes and the fields it reads. The provider verifies every consumer's contract in its own build, so it learns exactly which changes are safe.

Q: What does `can-i-deploy` check?

A: That the version you want to deploy has successful verifications with the versions of its counterparts already recorded in the target environment. If the mobile BFF in production still needs `price`, the provider version that removed it is blocked.

Q: How do you remove a field safely?

A: Ask the broker which consumers still use it. Ask those teams to stop reading it and publish new pacts, wait until the versions using it are no longer deployed, and only then remove it. The broker turns "who uses this?" into a query instead of a meeting.

Q: Why match on type instead of exact values?

A: A contract that asserts `price == 19.99` breaks whenever test data changes, and teaches nothing about compatibility. A type matcher says "a decimal is present", which is what the consumer actually depends on.

Q: What do contract tests not catch?

A: Wrong business behaviour (the provider returns a decimal, but the wrong price) and problems in flows across many services. Contracts prove the interface fits; unit and integration tests prove the logic.

Q: What happens with 30 consumers instead of two?

A: Provider verification time grows with the number of pacts, so you verify only pacts for versions that are deployed or on main, and a broker webhook triggers verification when a new pact arrives. Too many provider states is a sign consumers are testing business logic.

Q: When are consumer-driven contracts the wrong tool?

A: For public APIs where you do not know your consumers. There you use versioning, an OpenAPI spec and backward-compatibility checks on the schema instead.

Q: How did you prove the pipeline works?

A: A script makes a breaking change (rename a field) and a non-breaking one (add a field) in turn, then asserts CI fails and passes respectively. I also measured contract-test time per service to stay under 60 seconds.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying the provider writes the contract. That is plain API documentation, not consumer-driven.

- Treating contract tests as functional tests of business rules.
- Asserting exact values instead of using matchers, which makes contracts brittle.

TL;DR

Consumers state what they need, providers prove it in CI, and a broker blocks any deploy that would break someone.

18. From Eureka to Kubernetes Service Discovery

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 5, Ch 13

What it is

A migration of a Spring Cloud system that uses **Eureka** (client-side discovery) and Spring Cloud Config onto **Kubernetes**, where discovery is server-side: a *Service* object gives a stable DNS name and virtual IP in front of a changing set of pods, and the platform load-balances. You run both side by side during the move, then remove Eureka.

The problem it solves

Many Spring Cloud systems were built before Kubernetes was common. Once on Kubernetes, running Eureka duplicates what the platform does and adds a component to operate. But a careless switch breaks calls mid-migration. This project teaches both discovery models and how to move between them safely.

Real-world examples

- Netflix's Eureka registry, still used via Spring Cloud Netflix: Netflix/eureka.
- Kubernetes Services and the DNS names they create: Service and DNS for Services and Pods.
- Spring Cloud Kubernetes, which maps discovery and config onto Kubernetes APIs: Spring Cloud Kubernetes.

Requirements

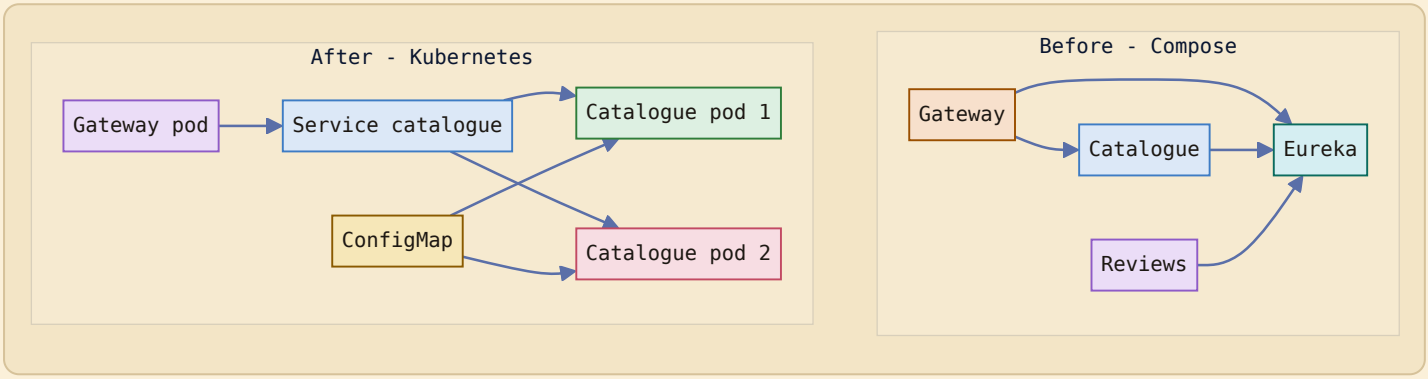
Functional

- Three services (gateway, catalogue, reviews) using Eureka and Config Server on Docker Compose.
- Move them to a kind cluster with Kubernetes Services, readiness probes and ConfigMaps.
- During migration, services resolve each other by Kubernetes DNS while Eureka still runs.
- Remove Eureka and Config Server with no failed requests.

Non-functional

- Zero failed requests during each rolling update under 100 requests per second.
- A pod that is not ready receives no traffic.
- Config change reaches pods within 60 s.

The architecture



- **Before** — the client asks Eureka for instances and picks one with Spring Cloud LoadBalancer.

- **After** — the client calls `http://catalogue:8080`. Kubernetes DNS resolves the name to the Service's virtual IP, and kube-proxy (or the CNI) routes to a ready pod.
- **ConfigMap** — mounted as files or read through Spring Cloud Kubernetes, replacing Config Server.
- **Probes** — readiness says "send me traffic", liveness says "restart me".

Data model

Object	Purpose	Key fields
Deployment	Desired pods	replicas, image, probes, strategy
Service	Stable name and virtual IP	selector, ports
EndpointSlice	Current ready pod IPs	Maintained by Kubernetes
ConfigMap	Non-secret config	data keys
Secret	Credentials	Base64 data, restricted access

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Cluster	kind or k3d	Local Kubernetes
Manifests	Kustomize	Overlays per environment, built into kubectl
Discovery	Kubernetes DNS + Services	Server-side, no client library
Config	ConfigMaps + Spring Cloud Kubernetes	Live reload
Load	k6 during rollouts	Proves zero failed requests

Milestones

1. **Baseline on Compose.** *Done when* the Eureka system runs and a load test passes.
2. **Containers on Kubernetes, still with Eureka.** *Done when* all pods register with an in-cluster Eureka and the load test passes.
3. **Switch callers to DNS names.** *Done when* gateway calls `http://catalogue` and Eureka can be stopped without errors.
4. **Probes and graceful shutdown.** *Done when* a rolling update at 100 requests per second has zero failures.
5. **ConfigMaps.** *Done when* Config Server is gone and a ConfigMap change updates a value live.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Graceful shutdown. When Kubernetes deletes a pod, removing it from endpoints and sending it SIGTERM happen at about the same time. In-flight requests and stale endpoint caches in callers can still hit it. Enable Spring Boot graceful shutdown and add a short pre-stop sleep so endpoints update before the app stops accepting connections.

Readiness is not liveness. If the readiness probe checks the database and the database blips, all pods go unready and the Service has no endpoints — a total outage caused by the probe. Readiness should reflect "can I serve", and liveness only "am I stuck". Never put downstream checks into liveness.

Losing client-side features. Eureka plus LoadBalancer gave zone preference and per-client retries. Kubernetes Services do simple connection-level balancing. Long-lived HTTP/2 or gRPC connections stick to one pod. A mesh (Project 27) or client-side balancing on headless Services restores request-level balancing.

Testing strategy

Run k6 during every change (rolling update, scale up, scale down, config change) and assert zero non-2xx responses. Test probe behaviour by making the app report unready and checking the endpoint disappears. Validate manifests with `kubectl apply --dry-run=server`.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Kubernetes discovery is simpler and language-neutral but less configurable per client. DNS caching in the JVM can hold old IPs — Service virtual IPs avoid that, headless Services do not. ConfigMap updates to mounted files are eventually consistent and env-var config never updates without a restart.

Stretch goals

- Headless Service plus client-side balancing for gRPC.
- Topology-aware routing to prefer same-zone pods.
- External Secrets operator for secrets from a vault.

Skills practised

- Client-side and server-side discovery: Ch 5 — Service Discovery
- Config on the platform: Ch 13 — Config Externalization
- Incremental migration: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig

In the interview

30-second answer: I migrated a Spring Cloud system that used Eureka for client-side discovery and Config Server onto Kubernetes, where a Service gives each app a stable DNS name and virtual IP and the platform load-balances. I moved in steps — first pods still registering with Eureka, then callers switched to `http://catalogue`, then Eureka and Config Server removed for ConfigMaps — with k6 load running at every step. The hardest part was zero-downtime rollouts: correct readiness probes, graceful shutdown and a short pre-stop sleep so endpoints update before the pod stops. Rolling updates at 100 requests per second finish with zero failed requests.

Key terms to know:

- **Client-side discovery (Eureka)** — the caller asks a registry for instances and picks one with Spring Cloud LoadBalancer.
- **Server-side discovery (Kubernetes Service)** — the caller uses a stable name; DNS resolves it to a virtual IP and kube-proxy routes to a ready pod.
- **EndpointSlice** — the Kubernetes object listing the current ready pod IPs behind a Service.
- **Readiness probe** — "send me traffic". An unready pod is removed from the Service's endpoints.
- **Liveness probe** — "am I stuck?". Failing it makes Kubernetes restart the container.
- **Graceful shutdown and preStop hook** — finish in-flight requests on SIGTERM, after a short sleep so callers stop sending to the pod first.
- **Rolling update with surge** — replace pods a few at a time, creating new ones before old ones go.
- **ConfigMap** — non-secret config stored in Kubernetes, mounted as files or read through Spring Cloud Kubernetes.
- **Headless Service** — a Service without a virtual IP, whose DNS returns pod IPs directly, for client-side balancing.

Q: Do you need Eureka on Kubernetes?

A: Usually not. Services and DNS give discovery and basic load balancing in any language. Keep a registry only if you have instances outside the cluster or need cross-cluster discovery.

Q: How do you get zero-downtime rolling updates?

A: Readiness probes so new pods get traffic only when ready, a surge strategy, Spring Boot graceful shutdown, a pre-stop sleep of a few seconds so endpoint removal propagates before the app stops accepting connections, and clients that retry idempotent requests once.

Q: Readiness versus liveness?

A: Readiness controls traffic, liveness controls restarts. Downstream health (the database) belongs in neither liveness nor, usually, readiness: if every pod's readiness checks the database and it blips,

the Service has no endpoints and you cause a total outage.

Q: Why does a pod still get requests after it starts shutting down?

A: Removing the pod from endpoints and sending it SIGTERM happen at about the same time, and kube-proxy rules and callers' connection pools update a little later. Without a pre-stop delay the app refuses connections that are still being routed to it.

Q: What do you lose by dropping Eureka and Spring Cloud LoadBalancer?

A: Per-client features like zone preference and retry on another instance. Kubernetes Services balance per connection, so long-lived HTTP/2 or gRPC connections stick to one pod. A service mesh, topology-aware routing or client-side balancing over a headless Service restores request-level balancing.

Q: How did you migrate without breaking calls?

A: Strangler-style: run both systems at once. Pods first registered with an in-cluster Eureka, then I switched callers one by one to DNS names, checked Eureka could be stopped with no errors, and only then removed it. Each step was verified under load.

Q: What happens when a ConfigMap changes?

A: Files mounted from a ConfigMap update after a delay (eventually consistent), and Spring Cloud Kubernetes can reload properties. Environment variables taken from a ConfigMap never change without a pod restart — a common surprise.

Q: How did you test it?

A: k6 runs during every change — rolling update, scale up, scale down, config change — and asserts zero non-2xx responses. I made the app report unready and checked its endpoint disappeared, and validated manifests with `kubectl apply --dry-run=server`.

Q: Which Spring Boot settings support Kubernetes probes and shutdown?

A: Actuator exposes `/actuator/health/liveness` and `/actuator/health/readiness` (auto-enabled when Boot detects Kubernetes). Graceful shutdown is the default in recent Boot versions (`server.shutdown=graceful`), with `spring.lifecycle.timeout-per-shutdown-phase` bounding the wait. Add `lifecycle.preStop` with a short sleep in the pod spec.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Putting database checks in the liveness probe, which turns a database blip into restart loops.
- Assuming Kubernetes balances per request. A Service balances per connection.
- Believing env vars from a ConfigMap update live.

TL;DR

Move from a client-side registry to Kubernetes Services without dropping a request, and learn what the platform gives you and what it takes away.

19. Distributed Rate Limiter for the Gateway

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 1–2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 7

What it is

A **rate limiter** for an API gateway that enforces per-client quotas ("100 requests per second, burst 200") consistently across many gateway instances, using Redis as the shared counter store. A *rate limiter* rejects requests over an agreed rate, usually with HTTP 429 Too Many Requests. You implement the *token bucket* algorithm (a bucket refills with tokens at a fixed rate, each request takes one, empty bucket means reject) and compare it with a sliding-window counter.

The problem it solves

Without limits, one buggy client in a retry loop or one scraper can starve everyone. Limiting inside each gateway instance is easy but wrong: with 10 instances, a client gets 10 times its quota, and the

share changes as you scale. A shared store gives one global count, but adds latency and a dependency that can fail.

Real-world examples

- Stripe's write-up of the four kinds of limiters they run, including concurrency limiters and load shedders: Scaling your API with rate limiters.
- GitHub publishes its API limits and the headers that tell clients how much quota is left: Rate limits for the REST API.
- Microsoft's rate-limiting pattern for calls to throttled services: Rate Limiting pattern.

Requirements

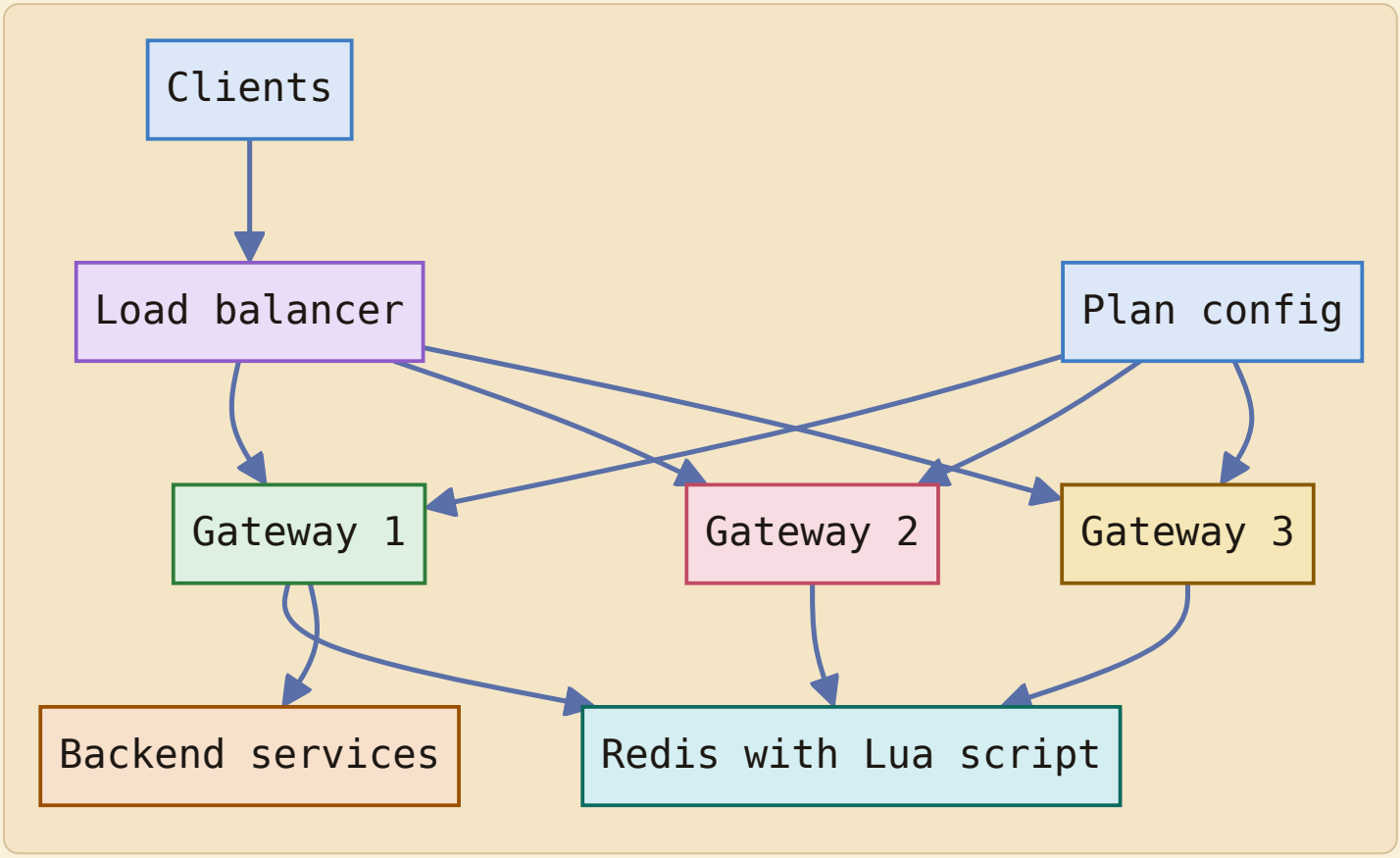
Functional

- Limits per API key and per plan (free 10 per second, pro 100 per second), configured centrally.
- Token bucket with rate and burst capacity.
- Responses include `RateLimit-Limit`, `RateLimit-Remaining` and `Retry-After` on 429.
- Different limits per route group (search is cheaper than checkout).

Non-functional

- Limiter adds under 2 ms p95 at 20,000 requests per second across 4 gateway instances.
- Global accuracy within 5% of the configured rate.
- If Redis is down, fail open with a local per-instance limit, never fail closed for everyone.

The architecture



- **Gateway filter** — computes the key (api key plus route group), runs the limiter, and either forwards or returns 429.
- **Redis Lua script** — reads tokens and last refill time, refills, takes one token and writes back atomically in one round trip. Lua scripts run atomically in Redis, so no two gateways interleave.
- **Local fallback** — a per-instance Bucket4j bucket sized at quota divided by instance count.
- **Plan config** — from the config server (Project 8).

Data model

Redis key	Value	TTL
`rl:{apiKey}:{group}`	hash: tokens, lastRefillMs	2 times the refill period
`plan:{apiKey}`	plan name	Cached in gateway memory

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Gateway	Spring Cloud Gateway	Has a Redis rate limiter to compare with
Store	Redis	Fast atomic scripts
Local fallback	Bucket4j	Token buckets in Java
Load	k6 with many API keys	Accuracy and latency tests

Milestones

1. **Local token bucket.** *Done when* one gateway enforces 10 per second with burst 20.
2. **Show the scaling bug.** *Done when* 4 local-only gateways let a client through at about 40 per second.
3. **Redis-backed limiter.** *Done when* 4 gateways together hold the client to 10 per second within 5%.
4. **Headers and plans.** *Done when* clients receive remaining quota and Retry-After, and pro keys get 100 per second.
5. **Redis failure.** *Done when* killing Redis switches to local limits within 1 s and back when it returns.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Atomicity. "Read tokens, compute, write" from the gateway is a race: two gateways read 1 token and both allow. Do the whole calculation inside Redis in one Lua script so it is atomic. Use Redis server time or pass the gateway clock consistently to avoid clock skew between gateways.

Hot keys. A single very busy client means one Redis key gets all the traffic and lands on one Redis shard. Options: local pre-aggregation (each gateway takes a small batch of tokens at once), or splitting the key into sub-buckets.

Fail open or closed. If the limiter store is down, rejecting everything turns a Redis problem into a full outage. Allowing everything removes protection. The local fallback is the middle ground: approximate limits without the dependency.

Token bucket versus sliding window. Token buckets allow bursts up to capacity, which suits real clients. Sliding windows give smoother limits but cost more memory per key. Implement both and compare behaviour under bursty load.

Testing strategy

Unit-test the bucket maths with a fake clock. Integration tests with Testcontainers Redis and several gateway instances in one test. A k6 accuracy test: drive 50 per second from one key across all gateways and assert about 10 per second succeed. A latency benchmark with and without the limiter.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Global limits cost a network round trip per request. Local limits are free but inaccurate. Redis becomes critical — run it replicated. Failure modes: clock skew, hot keys, memory growth from many idle keys (TTLs fix it), and clients that ignore Retry-After and hammer anyway.

Stretch goals

- Concurrency limiter: max in-flight requests per client, not per second.
- Cost-based limits where expensive endpoints use more tokens.
- Batch token leasing to cut Redis calls by 10 times.

Skills practised

- Gateway responsibilities: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Isolating clients from each other: Ch 7 — Bulkhead
- Central configuration: Ch 13 — Config Externalization

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a distributed rate limiter for an API gateway that holds each API key to its plan — say 100 requests per second with a burst of 200 — across four gateway instances, using a token bucket stored in Redis. The whole read-refill-take step runs in one Lua script, so it is atomic and needs one round trip. The key decision was failing open to a local per-instance Bucket4j limit when Redis is down, instead of blocking everyone or removing protection. The result is global accuracy within 5% at 20,000 requests per second, with under 2 ms p95 added, plus `RateLimit-*` and `Retry-After` headers on every 429.

Key terms to know:

- **Rate limiter** — rejects requests above an agreed rate, usually with HTTP 429 Too Many Requests.
- **Token bucket** — a bucket refills at a fixed rate up to a capacity; each request takes a token; an empty bucket means reject. Capacity is the allowed burst.
- **Fixed window vs sliding window** — counting per clock window (allows double bursts at edges) versus counting over a rolling window (smoother, more memory).
- **Atomic Lua script** — Redis runs a script without interleaving other commands, so two gateways cannot both take the last token.
- **Fail open vs fail closed** — when the limiter store fails, allow traffic or reject it.
- **Hot key** — one very busy client whose key concentrates load on one Redis shard.
- **`Retry-After` and `RateLimit-*` headers** — tell clients how long to wait and how much quota remains.
- **Concurrency limiter** — limits requests in flight rather than per second (a stretch goal).

Q: How do you rate-limit across many gateway instances?

A: Keep counters in a shared fast store like Redis and update them atomically with a script, so all instances see one global count. The alternative is dividing the quota by instance count locally, which is free but inaccurate and changes whenever you scale.

Q: Token bucket versus fixed window?

A: A fixed window allows up to double the limit in a short burst across a window edge (end of one second plus start of the next). A token bucket allows controlled bursts up to its capacity and refills smoothly, which matches how real clients behave.

Q: What happens when Redis is down?

A: I fall back to a local token bucket per instance sized at quota divided by instance count — approximate limits without the dependency — and switch back when Redis returns. Failing closed would turn a Redis problem into a full outage; failing fully open would remove protection.

Q: Why a Lua script instead of GET and SET from Java?

A: "Read tokens, compute, write" from two gateways is a race: both read one token and both allow. The script runs atomically inside Redis and does it in one round trip, which also keeps latency low.

Q: How do you deal with clock skew between gateways?

A: Use one clock for refill maths: either Redis's own `TIME` inside the script or a consistent timestamp. If each gateway passes its own clock and they differ, a bucket can refill too fast or not at all.

Q: What breaks first at 10x traffic?

A: Redis round trips and hot keys. One very busy client sends all its traffic to one key on one shard. Fixes are leasing tokens in batches (a gateway takes 10 tokens at once and spends them locally) and splitting a hot key into sub-buckets. Redis itself must be replicated because it is now critical.

Q: Why did four local-only gateways let a client through at 40 per second?

A: Each instance enforced 10 per second independently, and the load balancer spread the client across all four, so the effective limit was 10 × 4. That is the scaling bug that shows why a shared counter is needed.

Q: How did you test accuracy?

A: Unit tests check the bucket maths with a fake clock. Integration tests run Testcontainers Redis with several gateway instances in one test. A k6 test drives 50 requests per second from one key across all gateways and asserts about 10 per second succeed.

Q: Does Spring Cloud Gateway have this built in?

A: Yes. The WebFlux gateway has a `RequestRateLimiter` filter with a Redis token-bucket limiter (`replenishRate`, `burstCapacity`) and a `KeyResolver` bean that picks the key; the Web MVC gateway has a rate-limit filter built on Bucket4j. I wrote my own to understand it and compared the two.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Limiting per instance and calling it a global limit.
- Read-modify-write from the application instead of an atomic operation.
- Failing closed when the limiter store is down.

TL;DR

Token buckets in Redis, updated atomically by a Lua script, give fair global quotas across gateways — with a local fallback when the store fails.

20. GraphQL BFF with Batched Aggregation

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 4, Ch 6

What it is

A **GraphQL** BFF for a streaming-style catalogue (shows, episodes, cast, ratings, watch progress) that sits in front of five REST services. *GraphQL* is a query language where the client asks for exactly the fields it wants in one request, and the server resolves each field, possibly from different backends. You add **batching** (DataLoader) to avoid N+1 calls and **per-field resilience** so one failing backend returns a partial result.

The problem it solves

Different screens need different combinations of data, and REST BFFs end up with an endpoint per screen. GraphQL lets the front end compose queries itself while the BFF handles fan-out. But a naive GraphQL server turns one query into hundreds of backend calls, and one slow service can stall the whole response.

Real-world examples

- Netflix describes moving its API to federated GraphQL: How Netflix Scales its API with GraphQL Federation.
- DataLoader, the batching and caching utility that defined the approach: graphql/dataloader.
- Spring for GraphQL, used here, which has batch loading built in: Spring for GraphQL reference.

Requirements

Functional

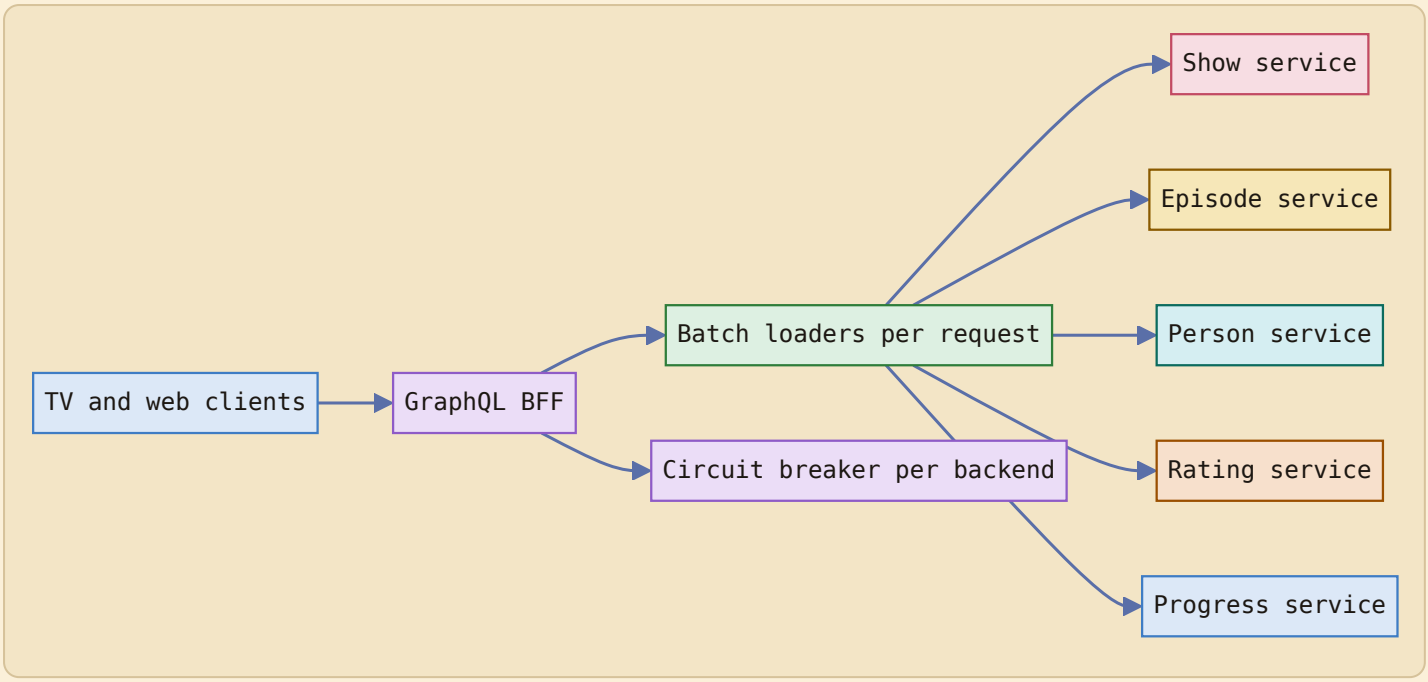
- Schema: `Show { id title episodes cast rating progress }`, queries `show(id)`, `home(userId)` returning rows of shows.
- Resolvers call show, episode, person, rating and progress services.
- Batch loaders so `home` with 40 shows calls ratings once, not 40 times.

- If ratings is down, `rating` is null with an error entry, and the rest is returned.

Non-functional

- `home` query p95 under 200 ms with backend latency 30 ms each.
- At most one call per backend per query depth level.
- Query depth limit 6 and complexity limit to stop abusive queries.

The architecture



- **Schema** — the contract with front-end teams, versioned by adding fields and deprecating old ones rather than with URL versions.
- **Batch loaders** — collect all ids requested in one execution tick and make one bulk call per backend. Created fresh per request so caching never leaks between users.
- **Circuit breakers** — wrap each backend client (Resilience4j), so a failing service quickly returns nulls instead of timing out every field.

Data model

GraphQL type	Backed by	Bulk endpoint needed
`Show`	show service	`GET /shows?ids=`
`Episode`	episode service	`GET /episodes?showIds=`
`Person`	person service	`GET /people?ids=`
`Rating`	rating service	`GET /ratings?showIds=`
`Progress`	progress service	`GET /progress?userId=&showIds=`

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
GraphQL	Spring for GraphQL with `@BatchMapping`	Batch loading built in
HTTP	`RestClient` on virtual threads	Simple fan-out
Resilience	Resilience4j breakers and timeouts	Partial results
Protection	Max depth and complexity instrumentation	Stops expensive queries

Milestones

1. **Schema and naive resolvers.** *Done when* `home` works and logs show the N+1 call count.
2. **Batching.** *Done when* `home` makes five backend calls in total and latency drops accordingly.
3. **Partial failure.** *Done when* stopping ratings returns data with null ratings and one error entry, in under 250 ms.
4. **Query limits.** *Done when* a deliberately deep query is rejected before execution.
5. **Persisted queries.** *Done when* production clients send a query hash instead of query text, and unknown hashes are rejected.

Deep dive: the hard parts

N+1 in disguise. Each `Show.rating` resolver looks innocent, but 40 shows means 40 calls. Batch loaders defer the call until all ids for that level are known. Backends must offer bulk endpoints — often the real work of this project is adding them.

Errors are data. GraphQL returns HTTP 200 with an `errors` array even when some fields failed. Front ends must handle null fields. Decide per field whether it is nullable — making `rating` non-null means a ratings outage nulls the whole parent object.

Caching is harder than REST. Every query is a POST to one URL, so HTTP caches do not help. Persisted queries turn queries into stable GET requests that can be cached, and they double as an allow-list.

Testing strategy

Use Spring for GraphQL's `GraphQlTester` for schema-level tests with mocked backend clients. Count backend calls per query in tests to lock in batching. Failure tests with WireMock returning 500 for one backend. Load test `home` with k6.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

GraphQL moves query flexibility to clients and complexity to the server. Cost control (depth, complexity, persisted queries) is mandatory for public APIs. One GraphQL BFF owned by a central team can become a bottleneck — federation, where each domain team owns part of the graph, is the advanced answer.

Stretch goals

- Federation: split the schema into two subgraphs owned by different services.
- Subscriptions for live watch progress over WebSocket.
- Field-level metrics to find unused fields before removing them.

Skills practised

- Client-shaped aggregation: Ch 4 — BFF
- Fan-out at the edge: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Per-dependency breakers: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a GraphQL BFF for a streaming-style catalogue that resolves shows, episodes, cast, ratings and watch progress from five REST services. The key decision was batch loading with Spring for GraphQL's `@BatchMapping`, so the `home` query with 40 shows makes five backend calls instead of hundreds. Each backend is wrapped in a Resilience4j breaker and timeout, so if ratings is down the response still returns with `rating: null` and one error entry. Depth and complexity limits plus persisted queries stop abusive queries, and `home` stays under 200 ms p95 with 30 ms backends.

Key terms to know:

- **GraphQL** — a query language where the client names exactly the fields it wants, and the server resolves each field.
- **Resolver / schema mapping** — the code that produces one field's value, possibly from a different backend.
- **N+1 problem** — resolving a list, then one backend call per item for a nested field.
- **DataLoader / batch loader** — collects all ids requested at one level and makes one bulk call; created per request so caching never leaks between users.
- **Partial result** — GraphQL returns data plus an `errors` array, so one failed field does not fail the query.
- **Nullability** — whether a field may be null. A failing non-null field nulls its parent.
- **Depth and complexity limits** — rejecting queries that nest too deeply or would cost too much, before execution.
- **Persisted queries** — clients send a hash of a known query instead of query text; works as an allow-list and enables GET caching.
- **Federation** — splitting one graph into subgraphs owned by different teams.

Q: What is the N+1 problem in GraphQL and how do you fix it?

A: Resolving a list of 40 shows and then each show's rating calls the rating service 40 times. Batch loaders defer the call until all ids at that level are known and make one bulk call per backend per level — which means backends need bulk endpoints like `GET /ratings?showIds=`.

Q: How do you protect a GraphQL API from expensive queries?

A: Depth and complexity limits enforced before execution, timeouts per backend, and persisted queries so only known queries run in production.

Q: GraphQL BFF versus REST BFF?

A: GraphQL lets clients compose data without the BFF team adding endpoints for every screen, at the cost of harder caching and the need for cost control. REST BFFs are simpler when screens are few and stable.

Q: Why does GraphQL return HTTP 200 when a field failed?

A: Because the response is a mix of data and errors: other fields succeeded. The client must read the `errors` array and handle null fields. That is why I made `rating` nullable — a non-null rating would make a ratings outage null the whole `Show`.

Q: Why is caching harder than with REST?

A: Every query is usually a POST to one URL, so HTTP caches and CDNs cannot key on it. Persisted queries turn queries into stable GET requests with a hash that can be cached, and batch loaders give per-request caching inside the server.

Q: What happens when the progress service is slow?

A: Its breaker and timeout bound the wait, the `progress` fields come back null with an error entry, and the rest of `home` returns on time. Without per-backend timeouts, one slow service would stall the whole response because GraphQL waits for all fields.

Q: What changes with ten teams and 10x the schema?

A: One central BFF team becomes a bottleneck for every schema change. Federation lets each domain team own a subgraph while a router composes them. Field-level metrics show unused fields so they can be deprecated and removed.

Q: How did you lock in the batching?

A: Tests with `GraphQlTester` and mocked backend clients count calls per query and fail if `home` makes more than five backend calls. WireMock returning 500 for one backend tests partial results, and k6 load-tests `home`.

Q: Show a batch mapping in Spring for GraphQL.

A: One method resolves `rating` for every `Show` in the current level with one bulk call:

```
@BatchMapping
Map<Show, Rating> rating(List<Show> shows) {
  var ids = shows.stream().map(Show::id).toList();
  var byId = ratingsClient.forShows(ids);   // one HTTP call
  return shows.stream().collect(toMap(s -> s, s -> byId.get(s.id())));
}
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying GraphQL solves the N+1 problem by itself. It creates it unless you batch.
- Sharing a DataLoader cache across requests, which leaks one user's data to another.
- Making every field non-null, so one backend outage blanks large parts of the response.

TL;DR

One GraphQL endpoint that fans out with batch loaders, survives a dead backend with partial results, and refuses queries that would hurt it.

21. Feature Flag Service with Gradual Rollout

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 2, Ch 13

What it is

A self-hosted **feature flag service**: an admin API and UI to define flags with targeting rules ("10% of users", "users in country NL", "internal staff"), a server that evaluates them, and a Java SDK that caches rules locally and evaluates flags in-process in microseconds. It follows the **OpenFeature** API, a vendor-neutral standard for flag evaluation, so applications are not tied to your server.

The problem it solves

Deploying code and releasing a feature are different events. Flags let you ship code switched off, turn it on for a few users, watch the metrics, and switch it off in seconds if something breaks — without a deploy. A simple config value (Project 8) cannot express "5% of users, sticky, excluding enterprise customers". Flags are also how the strangler fig migration in Project 1 is often driven in practice.

Real-world examples

- Pete Hodgson's article on Martin Fowler's site classifies flag types (release, experiment, ops, permission): Feature Toggles.
- OpenFeature, the CNCF standard API and SDKs: OpenFeature introduction.
- Unleash, an open-source flag server with local SDK evaluation: Unleash documentation.

Requirements

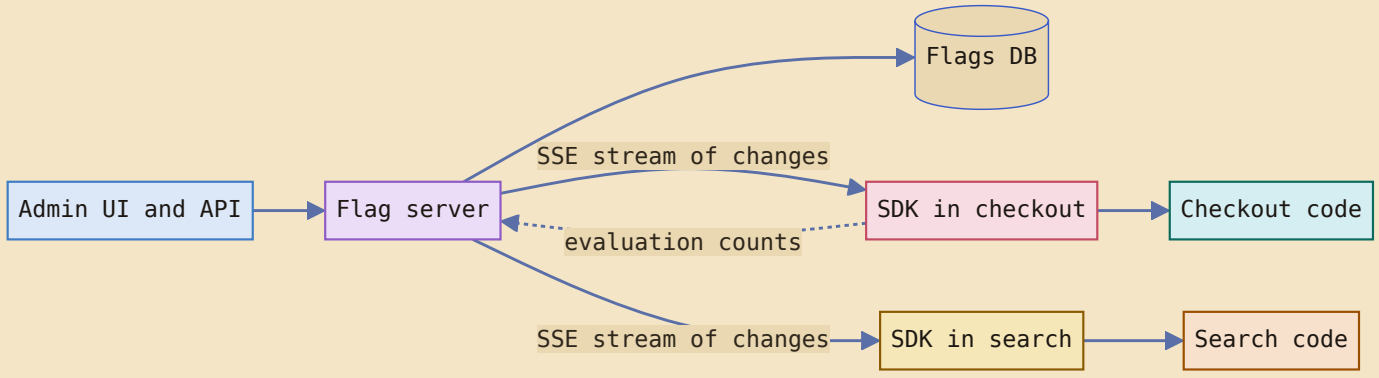
Functional

- Flags: boolean and string variants. Rules: user list, attribute match, percentage rollout.
- Percentage rollouts are sticky: a user's bucket does not change as the percentage grows.
- SDK fetches all rules at start-up, streams changes, evaluates locally.
- Kill switch: set a flag to off for everyone with one call.
- Audit log of every change with author and reason.

Non-functional

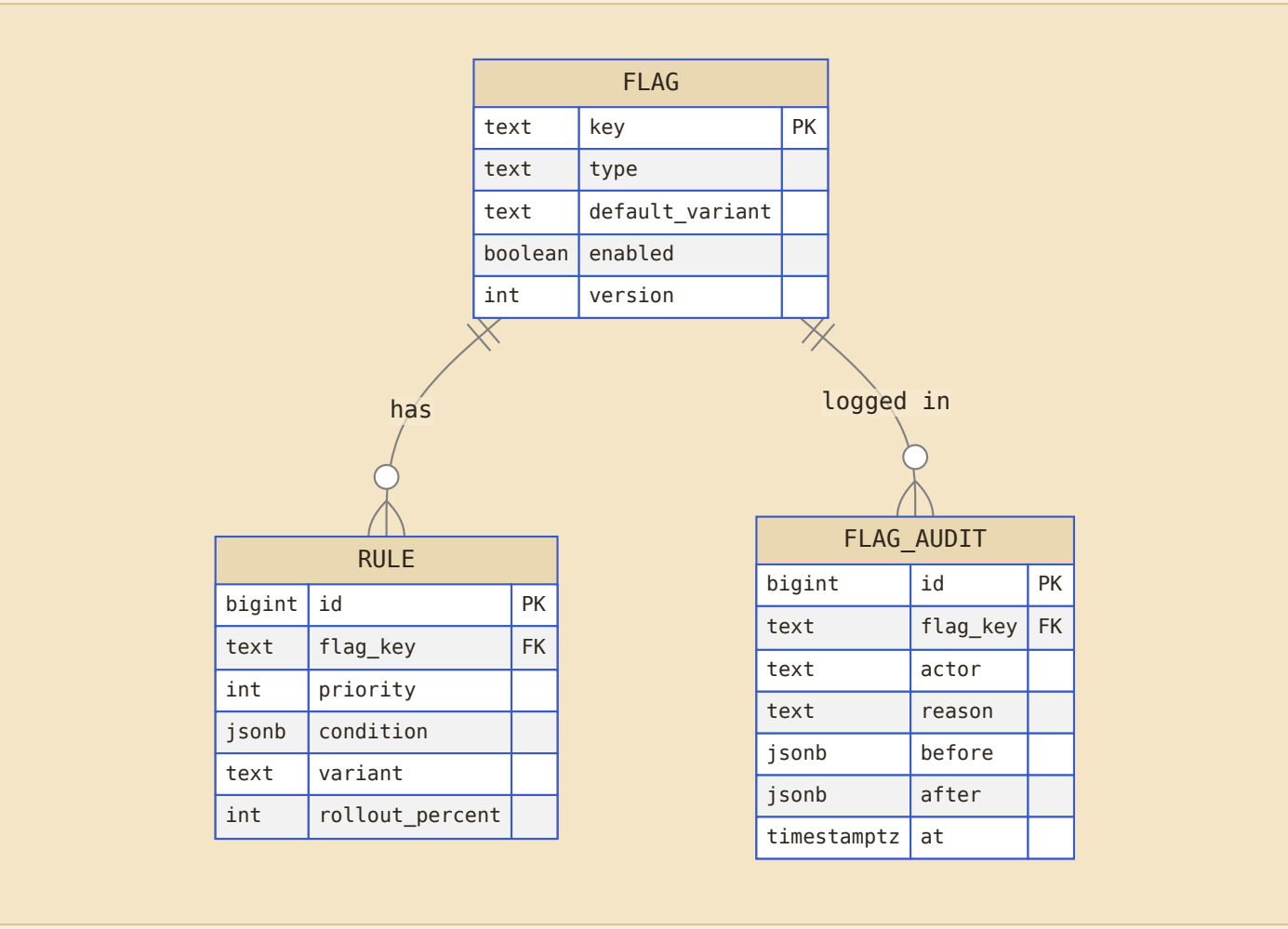
- In-process evaluation under 10 microseconds.
- Changes reach all SDKs within 5 s.
- If the flag server is down, SDKs keep the last rules. Unknown flags return the coded default.
- 1,000 flags, 100 SDK clients.

The architecture



- **Flag server** — stores flags and rules, serves a full snapshot, and pushes changes over Server-Sent Events (SSE — a one-way HTTP stream from server to client).
- **SDK** — an OpenFeature provider that holds the rules in memory and evaluates locally. Sends evaluation counts in batches so you can tell which flags are still used.
- **Admin UI** — create, edit, roll out and kill flags, with a required reason.

Data model



Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Server	Spring Boot 4.1.1 + PostgreSQL	Familiar, transactional audit
Push	SSE via Spring MVC `SseEmitter`	Simple streaming, works through proxies
SDK	OpenFeature Java SDK provider	Standard API, swap providers later
Hashing	MurmurHash3 of flagKey and userId	Stable, uniform buckets

Milestones

1. **Static flags in the SDK.** *Done when* code calls the OpenFeature client and gets defaults.
2. **Server and snapshot fetch.** *Done when* changing a flag in the DB changes behaviour after a restart.
3. **Streaming updates.** *Done when* changes apply within 5 s without restart.
4. **Sticky percentage rollout.** *Done when* increasing from 10% to 20% keeps all original 10% users enabled.
5. **Resilience and audit.** *Done when* the server can be down and apps keep working, and every change shows in the audit log.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Stable bucketing. Hash `flagKey + userId` into 0–9,999. A user is in the rollout if their bucket is below `percent * 100`. Including the flag key means users are not always the same "first 10%" for every flag, which would bias experiments.

Evaluation context. Rules need attributes (country, plan). The app must provide them at evaluation time. Keep the context small and avoid sending personal data to the server — local evaluation means attributes never leave the process.

Flag debt. Every flag is an `if` that doubles the code paths. Track last evaluation time per flag and flag the stale ones for removal. Release flags should live weeks, not years.

Consistency across services. Checkout and payment may see a change a second apart. For features that span services, evaluate once at the edge and pass the result in a header, rather than evaluating separately in each service.

Testing strategy

Unit-test the evaluator with table-driven rule cases. Test bucketing distribution: 100,000 random user ids at 25% should give 25% within half a percent. Integration test the SSE stream with reconnects. Benchmark evaluation with JMH (the Java microbenchmark harness).

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Local evaluation is fast and resilient but the SDK must be written per language. Server-side evaluation is simpler but adds a network call per flag. A bad flag change is as dangerous as a bad deploy, so require reasons, reviews for production and an easy rollback.

Stretch goals

- Scheduled rollouts: 1%, 5%, 25%, 100% over a week with automatic pause on error spikes.
- A/B experiment variants with exposure events to Kafka.
- Use the flags to drive the routing rule in Project 1's strangler facade.

Skills practised

- Runtime configuration: Ch 13 — Config Externalization
- Gradual migration by percentage: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a self-hosted feature flag service: an admin API stores flags and targeting rules in PostgreSQL with an audit log, pushes changes to SDKs over Server-Sent Events, and a Java SDK implemented as an OpenFeature provider evaluates flags in-process. The key decision was local evaluation — the SDK holds all rules in memory, so a flag check takes microseconds, needs no network call, and keeps working when the flag server is down. The hardest part was sticky percentage rollouts: I hash flag key plus user id into 10,000 buckets, so going from 10% to 20% keeps every original user enabled. Changes reach all SDKs within 5 seconds, and a kill switch turns a feature off everywhere with one call.

Key terms to know:

- **Feature flag** — a runtime switch that separates deploying code from releasing a feature.
- **Flag types** — release (temporary), experiment (A/B), ops (kill switch), permission (per customer tier).
- **Targeting rule** — a condition like "country = NL" or "10% of users" that picks a variant.
- **Sticky bucketing** — a stable hash of `flagKey + userId` so a user's bucket never changes as the percentage grows.
- **Local (in-process) evaluation** — the SDK evaluates rules from an in-memory copy instead of calling the server per check.
- **Server-Sent Events (SSE)** — a one-way HTTP stream from server to client, used to push rule changes.
- **OpenFeature** — a CNCF vendor-neutral API for flag evaluation; your server is plugged in as a provider.
- **Evaluation context** — the attributes (user id, country, plan) passed in for a flag check.
- **Flag debt** — old flags that stay in code and multiply code paths.

Q: How do you make a percentage rollout sticky?

A: Hash a stable user id together with the flag key into a bucket from 0 to 9,999 and enable the user if the bucket is below `percent × 100`. Raising the percentage only adds users. Including the flag key means the same users are not always first for every flag, which would bias experiments.

Q: Why evaluate flags locally in the SDK?

A: Microsecond latency, no dependency on the flag server per request, and user attributes never leave the process. The cost is an SDK per language and a short delay before changes arrive.

Q: What is the hidden cost of flags?

A: Every flag is an `if` that doubles the code paths, and stale flags pile up. I track the last evaluation time per flag and list unused ones for removal; release flags should live weeks, not years.

Q: What happens if the flag server is down?

A: SDKs keep their last rules and keep evaluating. A new instance that cannot fetch rules uses the default coded at the call site, so the default must always be the safe choice — usually "off". SSE clients reconnect with backoff and fetch a full snapshot to catch up.

Q: Why SSE rather than polling or WebSockets?

A: SSE is plain HTTP, works through most proxies, reconnects automatically and only needs server-to-client messages, which is all flag updates need. Polling adds load and latency; WebSockets add two-way complexity we do not use.

Q: Two services evaluate the same flag a second apart and disagree. How do you handle it?

A: For features that span services, evaluate once at the edge and pass the result in a header, so checkout and payment act on the same decision. Otherwise, for a few seconds after a change, one request could take the new path in one service and the old in another.

Q: Flags versus config values from Project 8?

A: A config value is the same for everyone; a flag is evaluated per user or request with targeting rules and percentages. Flags also need audit, kill switches and usage tracking. Both are runtime configuration, but flags are about who gets what.

Q: What changes at 100x SDK clients?

A: Each holds an open SSE connection, so the server needs connection-friendly handling (virtual threads or a reactive stack) and several instances behind a load balancer. Snapshot fetches on mass restart can spike load, so cache them. Evaluation itself scales for free because it is local.

Q: How did you test bucketing and evaluation?

A: Table-driven unit tests cover rule cases. A distribution test hashes 100,000 random user ids at 25% and checks 25% within half a percent. A stickiness test raises the percentage and asserts no user drops out, and JMH benchmarks evaluation under 10 microseconds.

Q: What does flag evaluation look like in code?

A: Through the OpenFeature client, with a safe default and an evaluation context:

```
var ctx = new MutableContext(userId).add("country", "NL");
boolean express = client.getBooleanValue("checkout.express", false, ctx);
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Using `random()` per request for percentages, which flips users between variants.
- Choosing an unsafe default, so an SDK that cannot reach the server turns a feature on for everyone.
- Treating flags as permanent configuration and never removing them.

TL;DR

Rules stored centrally, streamed to SDKs, evaluated locally with stable hashing — so you can release, ramp and kill features without deploying.

22. Chaos Lab for Resilience Tuning

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 6, Ch 7, Ch 8

What it is

A repeatable **chaos engineering** lab: a four-service system under steady load, a fault injector (Toxiproxy) between every pair of services, scripted experiments ("payment adds 2 s latency for 60 s", "inventory returns 50% errors"), and dashboards that show whether circuit breakers, bulkheads, retries and timeouts behave as intended. *Chaos engineering* is running deliberate, controlled failure experiments to learn how a system really behaves, instead of guessing.

The problem it solves

Resilience settings are usually copied from examples and never tested. A 3-retry policy at three layers becomes 27 calls, breakers that never open, timeouts longer than the caller's timeout. The only way to know is to inject failure and measure. This lab turns resilience tuning into experiments with hypotheses and numbers.

Real-world examples

- Netflix's Chaos Monkey, which randomly terminates instances so teams build for failure: Chaos Monkey.
- Shopify's Toxiproxy, a TCP proxy for simulating network conditions in tests: Shopify/toxiproxy.
- AWS on how retries amplify load and how to bound them: Timeouts, retries and backoff with jitter.

Requirements

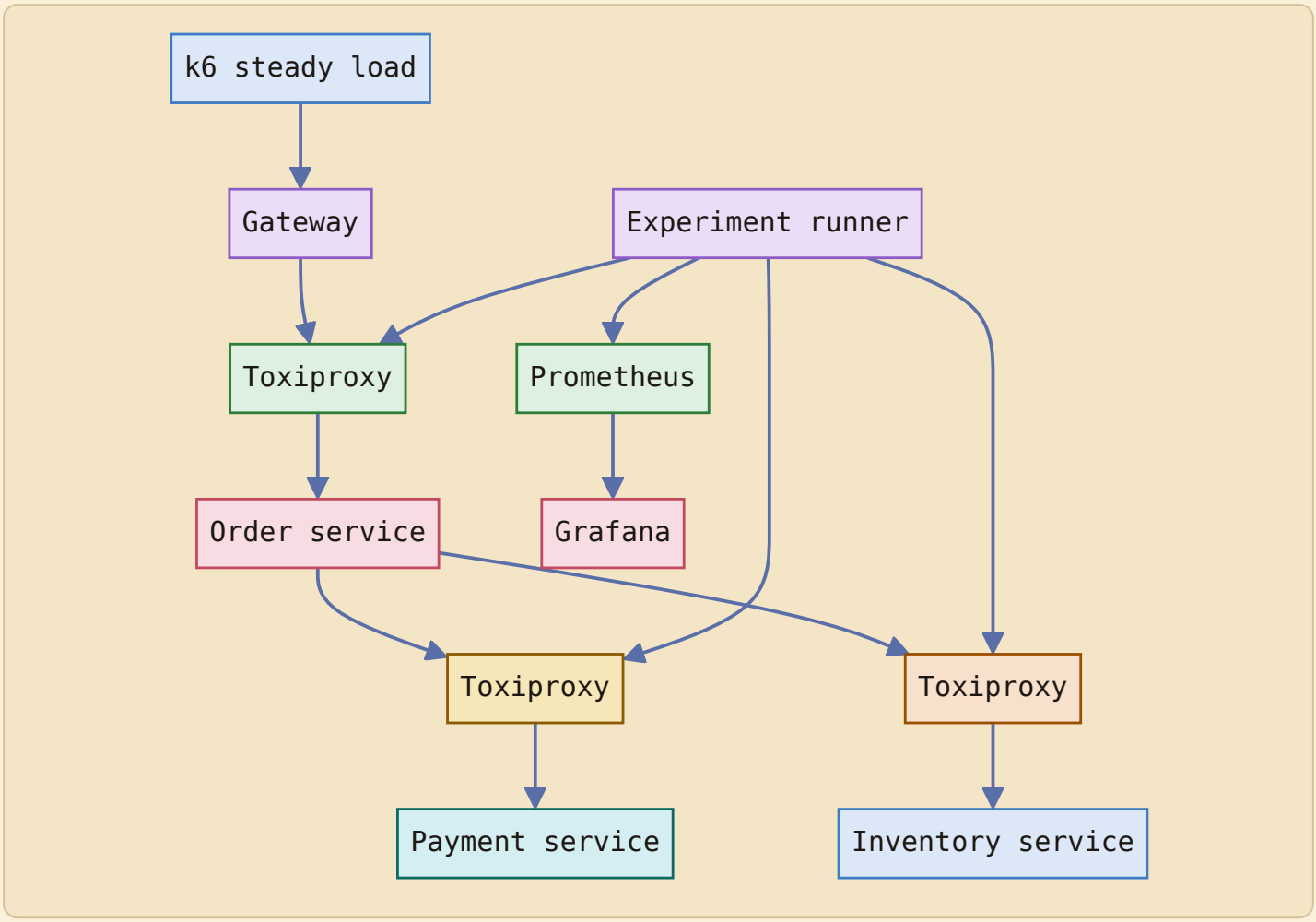
Functional

- System: gateway → order → (payment, inventory) with Resilience4j on every client.
- Toxiproxy between each caller and callee, controlled by an experiment runner.
- Experiments defined in YAML: target, fault (latency, errors, bandwidth, cut connection), duration, hypothesis.
- Runner applies faults, keeps load running, records metrics, writes a report.

Non-functional

- Steady load of 200 requests per second from k6.
- Each experiment has a pass or fail hypothesis, such as "order p99 stays under 500 ms and error rate under 1% while inventory has 2 s latency".
- Experiments are reproducible: same YAML gives similar results.

The architecture



- **Toxiproxy** — each service calls its dependency through a proxy port. The runner adds "toxics" (latency, timeouts, resets) over Toxiproxy's HTTP API.
- **Experiment runner** — a small Java app: load YAML, check steady state, inject, wait, remove, compare metrics to the hypothesis.
- **Dashboards** — breaker states, bulkhead permits, retry counts, latency percentiles per hop.

Data model

Type	Fields	Notes
`Experiment`	name, target, fault, durationSec, hypothesis	YAML
`Hypothesis`	metric query, operator, threshold	PromQL expression
`Result`	experiment, passed, observed values, timeline	Written as Markdown or JSON

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Fault injection	Toxiproxy	Network-level faults without code changes
Resilience	Resilience4j	The settings under test
Metrics	Micrometer, Prometheus, Grafana	Per-hop latency and states
Load	k6	Constant arrival rate

Milestones

1. **Steady state.** *Done when* the system holds 200 requests per second with stable p99 and dashboards for every resilience component.
2. **Latency experiment, default settings.** *Done when* you have a failing report showing what goes wrong (thread pile-up, timeouts at the edge).
3. **Tune timeouts.** Make each layer's timeout shorter than its caller's. *Done when* the latency experiment passes.
4. **Error experiment and retries.** *Done when* you can show the retry amplification number and reduce it with a retry budget.
5. **Breakers and bulkheads.** *Done when* a dead payment service leaves inventory-only operations healthy and the breaker opens within the expected window.
6. **Report.** *Done when* a single page lists each experiment, hypothesis, before and after results.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Timeout budgets. If the gateway times out at 1 s but order waits 2 s for payment, order keeps working on requests nobody is waiting for. Set timeouts top-down: each layer's total (including retries) must fit inside its caller's. Propagating a deadline header is the advanced version.

Retry amplification. If gateway, order and the payment client each retry 3 times, one failing request can become 27 calls to payment exactly when it is struggling. Retry at one layer only (usually the one closest to the failure), and use a *retry budget* — for example retries may add at most 10% extra load.

Choosing the blast radius. Start with one dependency and one fault type. Running many faults at once makes results unreadable. Keep an abort condition (stop if overall error rate exceeds 20%).

Testing strategy

The experiments are the tests. Add a CI job that runs two short experiments against a Compose stack on every change to resilience settings, and fails the build if a hypothesis fails.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

A lab is safer than production chaos but less realistic: real networks, real traffic mixes and real dependencies differ. The lesson is still valuable because most resilience bugs are configuration bugs. Watch for experiments that leave toxics behind — always remove faults in a `finally` step.

Stretch goals

- Deadline propagation via a header so downstream services skip work for expired requests.
- Pod-kill experiments on Kubernetes with Chaos Mesh.
- Game day: someone else picks the fault, you diagnose from dashboards alone.

Skills practised

- Breaker thresholds: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker
- Resource isolation: Ch 7 — Bulkhead
- Retry budgets and jitter: Ch 8 — Retry

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a chaos lab: four services under a steady 200 requests per second from k6, Toxiproxy between every caller and callee, and an experiment runner that reads YAML experiments, injects one fault, checks a written hypothesis against Prometheus metrics, and always removes the fault. The default settings failed: a 2-second latency fault caused thread pile-up and edge timeouts because inner timeouts were longer than outer ones. I fixed it by setting timeouts top-down and retrying at one layer only with a retry budget, which cut the retry amplification from up to 27 calls per request to at most 10% extra load. Every experiment now has a before-and-after report, and two run in CI on every resilience change.

Key terms to know:

- **Chaos engineering** — deliberate, controlled failure experiments to learn how a system really behaves.
- **Steady state** — measurable normal behaviour (p99, error rate) checked before injecting faults.
- **Hypothesis** — a pass/fail statement such as "order p99 stays under 500 ms while inventory has 2 s latency".
- **Toxiproxy and toxics** — a TCP proxy that adds latency, errors, timeouts or resets on demand via an HTTP API.
- **Blast radius** — how much of the system an experiment can affect. Start with one dependency and one fault.
- **Abort condition** — a threshold (error rate above 20%) that stops the experiment early.
- **Timeout budget** — each layer's total time including retries must fit inside its caller's timeout.
- **Retry amplification and retry budget** — retries at several layers multiply load; a budget caps retries at a share of traffic.
- **Deadline propagation** — passing the remaining time in a header so downstream services skip expired work.

Q: How do you choose timeouts in a chain of services?

A: From the outside in: each caller's timeout must cover the callee's timeout plus its retries, so inner layers give up first. If the gateway gives up at 1 s but order waits 2 s for payment, order keeps working on requests nobody is waiting for.

Q: Why can retries make an outage worse?

A: They multiply load on a dependency that is already failing: three layers retrying three times each turns one request into up to 27 calls. Retry at one layer only (usually closest to the failure), with backoff, jitter and a budget such as "retries may add at most 10% load".

Q: What makes a good chaos experiment?

A: A steady-state baseline, a single fault, a measurable hypothesis, a limited blast radius, an abort condition, and guaranteed clean-up of the fault in a `finally` step.

Q: What did the first latency experiment actually show?

A: With default settings, requests waiting on the slow service held threads and connections, queues grew, and the gateway timed out while inner services kept working on abandoned requests. Only after aligning timeouts and adding a bulkhead did p99 stay inside the hypothesis.

Q: Why inject faults at the network with Toxiproxy instead of in code?

A: Network-level faults test the real client stack — connection pools, timeouts, retries — without changing the services, and the same experiment works for any language. Faults coded into the app test only what you thought to code.

Q: Why not just run chaos in production?

A: Production is more realistic and teams like Netflix do it, but you need mature observability, small blast radius and quick aborts first. A lab is the safe place to find configuration bugs, and most resilience bugs are configuration bugs.

Q: What happens if the runner crashes mid-experiment?

A: The toxic stays in place and the system stays broken. The runner removes faults in a `finally` block, sets toxics with a duration where possible, and has a "reset all proxies" command — leftover faults are a real failure mode.

Q: How do you make experiments reproducible?

A: Fix the load (k6 constant arrival rate), define every fault in YAML, run each experiment from a clean steady state, and compare metrics over the same windows. The same YAML should give similar numbers each run.

Q: How do you keep resilience settings from regressing?

A: A CI job brings up the Compose stack and runs two short experiments whenever resilience configuration changes, failing the build if a hypothesis fails. The experiments are the tests.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Describing chaos engineering as "randomly breaking things". It is a controlled experiment with a hypothesis and an abort condition.
- Adding retries at every layer "for safety".
- Setting inner timeouts longer than outer ones.

TL;DR

Inject one fault at a time under steady load, measure against a written hypothesis, and tune timeouts, retries, breakers and bulkheads until the numbers pass.

23. Database Strangling with Change Data Capture

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2–3 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 2, Ch 11

What it is

The data side of a strangler-fig migration. A monolith owns a `customers` table that many parts of it read and write. You extract a customer service with its own database and keep both copies in sync during the migration using **change data capture** — Debezium streams every committed change from the monolith's PostgreSQL write-ahead log to Kafka, and the new service applies it. Later you reverse the direction so the new service is the owner and the monolith receives changes.

The problem it solves

Routing HTTP traffic to a new service is the easy half of strangling. The hard half is that the monolith still has code reading and writing the same data, often with joins. Dual writes from application code are unreliable. Shared databases defeat the point of extraction. CDC gives you a reliable, ordered stream of changes without touching the monolith's code.

Real-world examples

- Debezium, the open-source CDC platform used here: Debezium.
- PostgreSQL logical replication, the mechanism Debezium reads from: Logical Replication.
- Microsoft's strangler fig pattern notes the challenge of shared resources such as databases during migration: Strangler Fig pattern.

Requirements

Functional

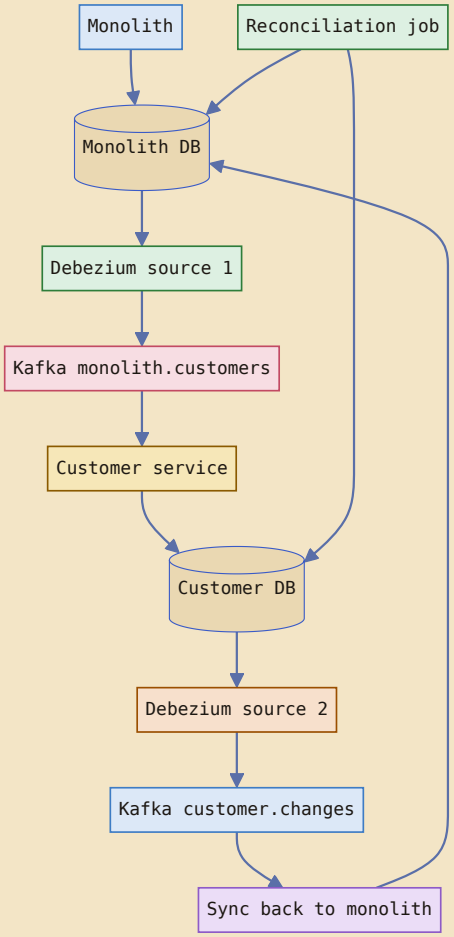
- Phase 1: monolith owns customers. CDC streams changes to Kafka. Customer service builds its own table from the stream and serves reads.
- Phase 2: writes move to the customer service. The monolith receives changes back via CDC from the new database (reverse sync).
- Phase 3: monolith's customer table becomes a read-only replica, then is removed.

- A reconciliation job compares both tables and reports drift.

Non-functional

- Sync lag under 1 s p95 at 500 changes per second.
- No lost or reordered changes per customer.
- Each phase switch is reversible within minutes.
- No loop: changes must not bounce between databases forever.

The architecture



- **Debezium source 1** — active in phase 1, carries monolith changes forward.
- **Customer service** — applies changes idempotently, keyed by customer id, using the source log position as a version.
- **Debezium source 2 and sync back** — active in phase 2, so legacy monolith code that still reads customers sees new data.
- **Reconciliation job** — hashes rows on both sides in chunks and lists mismatches.

Data model

CUSTOMER		
bigint	id	PK
text	email	UK
text	name	
text	tier	
timestamptz	updated_at	
bigint	source_lsn	
text	origin	

RECON_RUN		
bigint	id	PK
timestamptz	started_at	
int	checked	
int	mismatched	

`source_lsn` is the log sequence number (position in the WAL) of the change last applied. `origin` records which side wrote the row, used to stop loops.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
CDC	Debezium PostgreSQL connector on Kafka Connect	Reads the WAL, no app changes
Topics	Keyed by primary key, compacted	Per-row order and snapshots
Service	Spring Boot 4.1.1 + Spring Kafka	Applies changes
Reconciliation	Chunked hash comparison in SQL	Cheap drift detection

Milestones

1. **Initial snapshot.** *Done when* Debezium's snapshot fills the customer DB with all existing rows.
2. **Streaming forward.** *Done when* monolith updates appear in the new DB in under 1 s.
3. **Reads moved.** Route customer reads to the new service through the facade. *Done when* reconciliation shows zero drift for a day of simulated traffic.
4. **Writes moved with reverse sync.** *Done when* writes go to the customer service, the monolith sees them, and no change loops.
5. **Rollback drill.** *Done when* you switch writes back to the monolith and resync without data loss.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Breaking loops. In phase 2 both directions can be active during the switch. A change written by sync-back into the monolith is captured by source 1 and sent forward again. Tag each write with its origin (a column or a transaction-level marker) and have each side drop changes that originated from itself.

Schema translation. The monolith's table is rarely the shape the new service wants. Map in the consumer, not in Debezium, so the new model can evolve freely. Keep the mapping in one class with tests — it is an *anti-corruption layer*, a translation boundary that stops the old model leaking into the new one.

Single writer at a time. Allowing writes on both sides at once leads to conflicting updates that no sync can resolve cleanly. Use a feature flag (Project 21) to switch write ownership atomically, with a short write freeze if necessary.

Monolith joins. Monolith code that joins customers with orders still works in phase 2 only because the replica copy exists. Track every such query — they are the remaining coupling you must remove before phase 3.

Testing strategy

Integration tests with Testcontainers PostgreSQL, Kafka and Debezium: insert, update, delete in the monolith and assert the new DB. Loop test: write on each side and assert each change is applied exactly once per side. Random-operation soak test followed by reconciliation, which must report zero mismatches.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

CDC is reliable but adds Kafka Connect, replication slots and lag. During migration, two copies exist and drift is possible — reconciliation is not optional. Failure modes: replication slot filling the monolith's disk, schema changes in the monolith breaking the connector, and long-running monolith transactions delaying changes.

Stretch goals

- Extract a second table (addresses) with a foreign key to customers.
- Use Debezium's incremental snapshots to re-sync one table without downtime.
- Measure and graph end-to-end lag from WAL position to applied row.

Skills practised

- Incremental migration including data: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig
- Change streams and ordering: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Projections as replicas: Ch 12 — CQRS

In the interview

30-second answer: I did the data half of a strangler migration: a monolith's `customers` table moved into a new customer service with its own database. Debezium streams every committed change from the monolith's write-ahead log to Kafka, the new service applies it idempotently using the log position as a version, and after reads moved I switched write ownership and reversed the sync so legacy monolith code still sees new data. The hardest problems were sync loops and single ownership: each row carries its origin so neither side re-applies its own changes, and a feature flag switches the single writer atomically. A daily reconciliation job compares chunk hashes on both sides and reported zero drift, with sync lag under 1 s p95 at 500 changes per second.

Key terms to know:

- **Change data capture (CDC)** — reading committed changes from the database's log instead of changing application code.
- **Write-ahead log (WAL) and LSN** — PostgreSQL's change log and a position in it; `source_lsn` records the last applied change.
- **Initial snapshot** — Debezium first copies all existing rows, then streams changes.
- **Reverse sync** — after ownership moves, changes flow from the new database back to the monolith.
- **Sync loop** — a change bouncing between databases forever. Prevented with an `origin` marker.
- **Single writer** — only one side may accept writes for an entity at a time.
- **Anti-corruption layer** — one mapping class that translates the monolith's model so it does not leak into the new service.
- **Reconciliation** — comparing both copies (here by chunked hashes) and reporting mismatches.
- **Replication slot** — the PostgreSQL object that holds WAL until Debezium confirms it.

Q: How do you split a shared database during a migration?

A: Give the new service its own copy, keep it in sync with CDC, move reads first, then move write ownership with reverse sync, and finally make the old table read-only and remove it once nothing reads it.

Q: Why CDC rather than dual writes in the app?

A: Dual writes can partially fail and need changes in every monolith code path that touches customers, including ones you do not know about. CDC captures every committed change from the log, in commit order, without touching the monolith's code.

Q: How do you prevent sync loops?

A: Mark each write with its origin (a column or a transaction-level marker) and have each side drop changes that originated from itself. Without it, a change synced back to the monolith is captured again and sent forward forever.

Q: Why not let both sides accept writes during the switch?

A: Concurrent writes to the same customer on both sides produce conflicts that no sync can resolve correctly — which update wins? I switch the single writer with a feature flag, with a brief write freeze if needed, so there is always exactly one owner.

Q: How do you roll back after moving writes?

A: Flip the flag back so the monolith owns writes again, let reverse sync drain, and resume forward sync. Reconciliation confirms nothing was lost. I practised it as a drill, because a rollback you have never run is not a plan.

Q: What happens if Debezium is down for hours?

A: The replication slot keeps WAL on the monolith's disk, which grows until the database runs out of space. Changes are not lost — Debezium resumes from its stored offset — but you must monitor slot lag and disk and alert early.

Q: What still couples the two systems in phase 2?

A: Monolith queries that join customers with other tables. They work only because the replica copy exists. I listed every such query; each must be replaced by an API call or a local read model before the monolith's table can be removed.

Q: What changes at 10x change volume?

A: Lag grows if the consumer applies rows one by one, so batch apply and partition the topic by customer id for parallelism while keeping per-customer order. Long-running monolith transactions also delay changes, since CDC only sees commits.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Testcontainers runs PostgreSQL, Kafka and Debezium: insert, update and delete in the monolith and assert the new database. A loop test writes on each side and checks each change is applied exactly once per side, and a random-operation soak test ends with reconciliation reporting zero mismatches.

> **Common mistakes in answers:**

- Thinking HTTP routing finishes a strangler migration. The shared data is the hard half.
- Allowing writes on both sides at once.
- Treating reconciliation as optional — with two copies, drift will happen and must be detected.

> **TL;DR**

Use CDC to keep old and new databases in step while you move reads, then writes, then delete the old table — and reconcile constantly.

24. Event-Sourced Wallet

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2–3 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 11, Ch 12

What it is

A digital wallet whose state is stored as an append-only log of events — `WalletOpened`, `FundsDeposited`, `FundsWithdrawn`, `TransferSent` — rather than a balance column. *Event sourcing* means the event log is the source of truth, and current state (the balance) is computed by replaying events. Read models (statement, monthly summary) are CQRS projections built from the same events.

The problem it solves

A balance column tells you the balance, not how it got there. Financial systems need a full, tamper-evident history anyway, and debugging "why is this balance wrong?" is far easier when every change is recorded. Event sourcing also lets you build new read models later from the full history. The cost is complexity in concurrency, schema evolution and replay performance — which this project makes concrete.

Real-world examples

- Martin Fowler's description of event sourcing and its benefits for audit and replay: Event Sourcing.
- Microsoft's pattern page lists issues such as eventual consistency and event versioning: Event Sourcing pattern.
- Chris Richardson's write-up connects event sourcing to sagas and CQRS: Pattern: Event sourcing.

Requirements

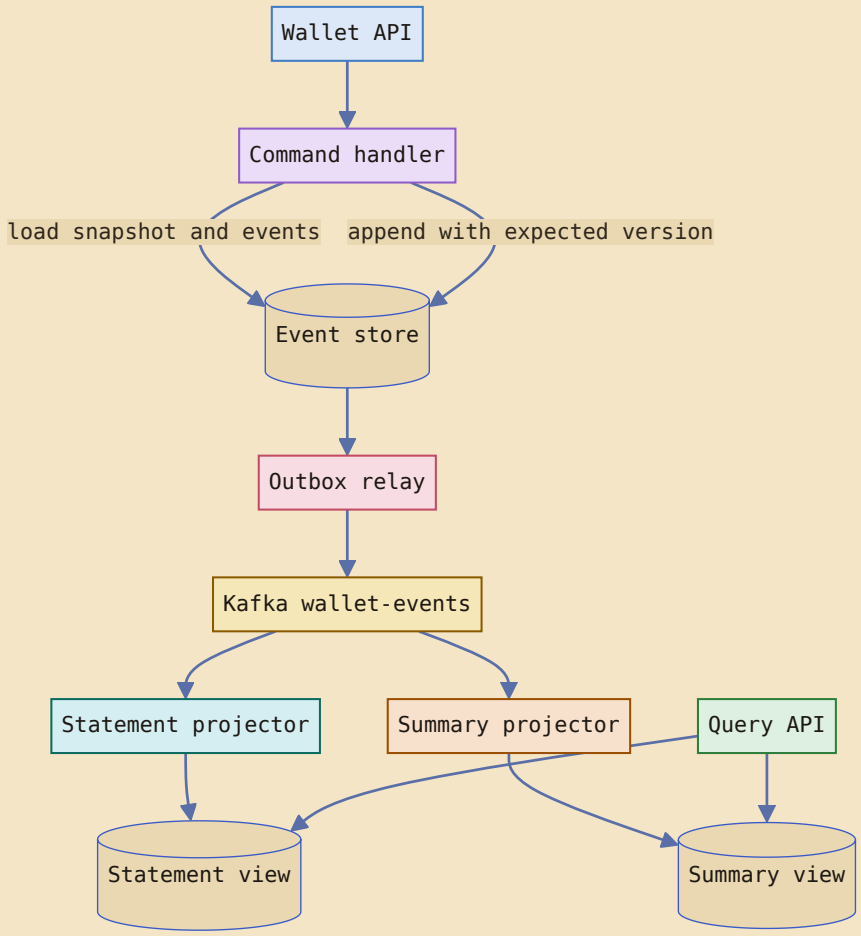
Functional

- Commands: open wallet, deposit, withdraw (no overdraft), transfer between wallets.
- Events stored per wallet stream with a sequence number.
- Balance computed from events, with snapshots every 100 events.
- Read models: statement (paged list), monthly summary, total money in the system.
- Rebuild any read model from the event store.

Non-functional

- Command handling p95 under 20 ms for wallets with 100,000 events (thanks to snapshots).
- No lost updates under concurrent withdrawals (optimistic concurrency).
- Events immutable: no updates or deletes on the events table.

The architecture



- **Event store** — a PostgreSQL table with a unique constraint on (stream id, sequence). That constraint is your concurrency control.
- **Command handler** — loads the latest snapshot plus later events, rebuilds the wallet aggregate, checks rules, appends new events with the expected next sequence number.
- **Outbox relay** — publishes appended events (the events table doubles as the outbox).
- **Projectors** — build read views and track their own position.

Data model

EVENT		
bigint	global_position	PK
uuid	stream_id	
int	seq	
text	type	
int	schema_version	
jsonb	data	
timestamptz	at	

SNAPSHOT		
uuid	stream_id	PK
int	seq	
jsonb	state	

PROJECTOR_CHECKPOINT		
text	projector	PK
bigint	position	

STATEMENT_LINE		
bigint	id	PK
uuid	wallet_id	
numeric	amount	
numeric	balance_after	
timestamptz	at	

Add a unique index on (`stream_id`, `seq`) in the event table.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Event store	PostgreSQL table	Transactions and constraints you understand
Domain	Plain Java 25 records and sealed interfaces	Events as types, exhaustive `switch`
Messaging	Kafka via outbox	Projectors in other services
Alternatives to compare	Axon Framework, KurrentDB (formerly EventStoreDB)	Purpose-built tools

Milestones

1. **Aggregate from events.** *Done when* deposit and withdraw produce events and the balance is computed by replay in a unit test.
2. **Persistent store with concurrency.** *Done when* two concurrent withdrawals of the full balance result in one success and one conflict, never a negative balance.
3. **Projections.** *Done when* statement and summary views update from Kafka and can be rebuilt from position 0.
4. **Snapshots.** *Done when* a wallet with 100,000 events loads in under 20 ms.
5. **Event upcasting.** Change `FundsDeposited` to include a currency. *Done when* old events load through an upcaster (a function that converts an old event version to the new one) without rewriting the table.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Optimistic concurrency. Read the stream at sequence 41, decide, then insert events 42 and 43. If another request inserted 42 meanwhile, the unique constraint fails and you retry the command with fresh state. No locks are held while thinking.

Transfers across streams. A transfer touches two wallets — two streams. Appending to both in one transaction works in a single database but couples the streams. The event-sourced way is a small saga: `TransferSent` on the source, then a reaction appends `TransferReceived` on the target, with compensation if the target is closed.

Events are forever. You cannot fix a wrong event by editing it. You append a correcting event. Schema changes need versioned events and upcasters. Personal data inside events complicates deletion requests — keep personal data out of events or encrypt it per user so deleting the key "forgets" it.

Testing strategy

Given-when-then tests on the aggregate: given these past events, when this command, then these new events or this error. Concurrency tests with parallel threads. Projection tests replay a fixed event list and compare to an expected view. A property test: for any random command sequence, the projected balance equals the replayed balance.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

You gain audit, replay and new read models for free. You pay with a harder mental model, versioning work forever, and eventual consistency for every read view. Event sourcing suits domains where history matters (money, inventory movements, workflows), and is overkill for plain CRUD.

Stretch goals

- Temporal queries: balance as of any past date.
- Replace PostgreSQL with KurrentDB and compare.
- Hash-chain events so tampering is detectable.

Skills practised

- Read models from events: Ch 12 — CQRS

- Publishing events reliably: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Cross-aggregate flows: Ch 10 — Saga

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a wallet whose source of truth is an append-only event log — `WalletOpened`, `FundsDeposited`, `FundsWithdrawn`, `TransferSent` — stored in a PostgreSQL table, with the balance computed by replaying events. Concurrency is optimistic: every append carries the expected sequence number and a unique constraint on (stream id, sequence) rejects the second writer, so two concurrent withdrawals of the full balance give one success and one retry, never a negative balance. Snapshots every 100 events keep a 100,000-event wallet loading in under 20 ms. Read models such as the statement are projections that can be rebuilt from position 0, and old event versions are upcast at read time, never rewritten.

Key terms to know:

- **Event sourcing** — storing every change as an immutable event and deriving current state by replay.
- **Event stream and sequence** — all events for one wallet, numbered 1, 2, 3 …
- **Aggregate** — the wallet object rebuilt from its events, which checks rules like "no overdraft".
- **Optimistic concurrency** — append with the expected next sequence; a unique constraint rejects conflicts, which are retried.
- **Snapshot** — saved state at a sequence number, so loading replays only later events.
- **Projection / read model** — statement and summary views built from events, each with its own checkpoint.
- **Upcaster** — a function that converts an old event version to the current shape when loading.
- **Correcting event** — fixing a mistake by appending a new event, never by editing an old one.
- **Crypto-shredding** — encrypting personal data per user so deleting the key "forgets" it.

Q: How do you handle concurrent updates in an event store?

A: Optimistic concurrency: read the stream at sequence 41, decide, then insert events 42 and 43. If another request already inserted 42, the unique constraint fails and the command is retried with fresh state. No locks are held while deciding.

Q: How do you keep loading fast with long histories?

A: Snapshot the state every N events (100 here), then load the latest snapshot and replay only the events after it. Snapshots are a cache — you can delete and rebuild them from events at any time.

Q: How do you change an event's schema?

A: Give events a `schema_version` and upcast old versions to the new shape at read time. Never rewrite history, because the log is your audit trail and other consumers may have already read it.

Q: Event sourcing versus a balance column with an audit table?

A: With an audit table, the balance column is the truth and the audit can drift from it. With event sourcing the history is the truth, so it cannot disagree with the state, and you can build new read models from all past events later. The cost is a harder mental model, versioning forever and eventually consistent views.

Q: How do you do a transfer between two wallets?

A: It touches two streams. Appending to both in one database transaction works but couples the streams. The event-sourced way is a small saga: append `TransferSent` on the source, a reaction appends `TransferReceived` on the target, and a compensating event refunds the source if the target is closed.

Q: A user asks to be deleted. Events are immutable — what now?

A: Keep personal data out of events where possible (store an id, not the name), and encrypt what must be there with a per-user key. Deleting the key makes that data unreadable while the event log stays intact.

Q: What happens if a projector has a bug?

A: Fix the code, reset its checkpoint to 0 and replay all events into a fresh view. That is one of event sourcing's biggest advantages — read models are disposable.

Q: What changes at 100x wallets and events?

A: The single events table grows fast, so partition it by time or stream and archive old events behind snapshots. Projection rebuilds get slow, so build into a new table in the background and swap. Hot wallets with many concurrent writers see more optimistic-lock retries.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Given-when-then tests on the aggregate: given these past events, when this command, then these new events or this error. Parallel-thread tests for concurrency, and a property test that for any random command sequence the projected balance equals the replayed balance.

Q: Why Java sealed interfaces for events?

A: A sealed interface lists every event type, so a `switch` over events is checked for completeness by the compiler — add a new event and every `apply` that misses it fails to compile:

```
sealed interface WalletEvent permits Deposited, Withdrawn {}
Wallet apply(WalletEvent e) {
  return switch (e) {
    case Deposited d -> withBalance(balance.add(d.amount()));
    case Withdrawn w -> withBalance(balance.subtract(w.amount()));
  };
}
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Equating event sourcing with "publishing events to Kafka". Event sourcing is about how state is stored.
- Saying you can fix a bad event by updating it.
- Recommending event sourcing for plain CRUD domains where history does not matter.

TL;DR

Store every change as an immutable event, rebuild state by replay with snapshots, and project the history into whatever views the business needs.

25. Zero-Trust Token Relay Gateway

Level: Intermediate · **Time:** 2 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 9

What it is

An authentication and authorization setup for microservices where the gateway logs users in with **OAuth 2.0 / OpenID Connect (OIDC)**, and every service still validates tokens itself — nothing is trusted just because it is "inside the network". *Zero trust* means every call is authenticated and authorized, regardless of where it comes from. Services that call other services use **token exchange** to get a narrower token for the downstream call, and service-to-service traffic is encrypted with mutual TLS (both sides present certificates).

The problem it solves

A common shortcut is "the gateway checks the user, services trust anything from the gateway". Then any compromised pod can call any service as anyone. Passing the user's full token everywhere is also risky: one leaky service holds a token valid for every API. This project builds a design where identity flows end to end and each hop gets only the permissions it needs.

Real-world examples

- Spring's OAuth 2.1 and OIDC authorization server, which moved into Spring Security as of 7.0 (the Boot 4 generation): Spring Security — OAuth2 Authorization Server.
- RFC 8693 defines OAuth token exchange for delegation between services: OAuth 2.0 Token Exchange.
- Istio's security model applies mutual TLS and per-request authorization at the sidecar: Istio security concepts.

Requirements

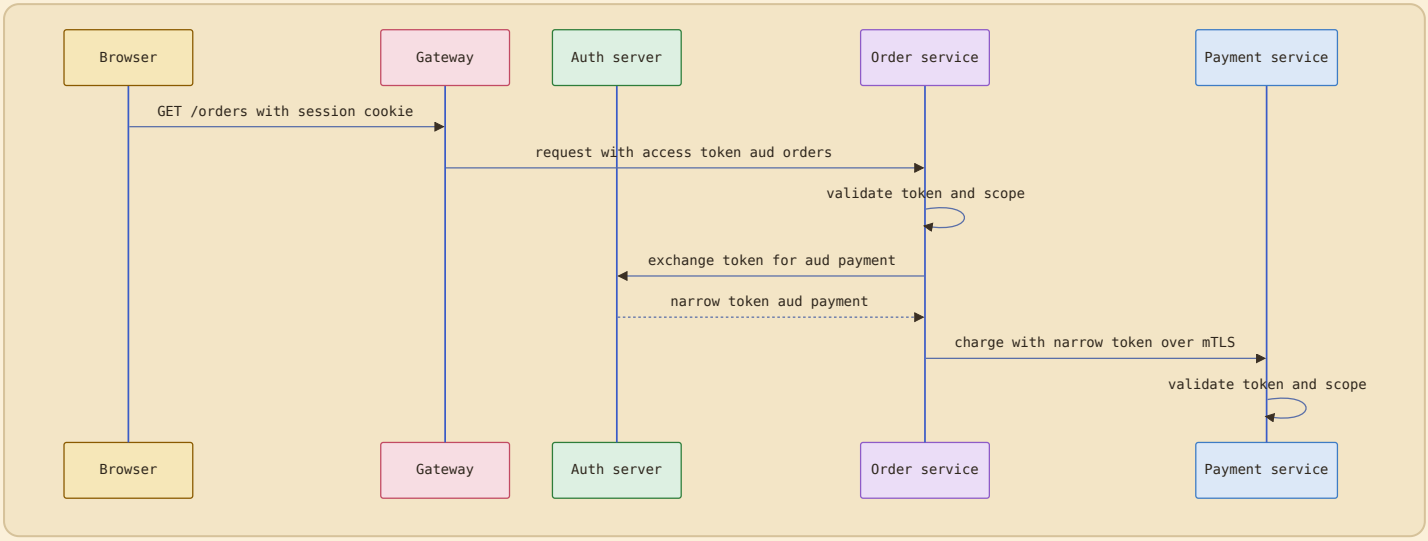
Functional

- Gateway handles browser login (authorization code flow with PKCE) and keeps tokens server-side. The browser only holds a session cookie.
- Gateway relays an access token to services. Each service validates signature, issuer, audience and expiry.
- Order service calls payment with an exchanged token: audience `payment`, scope `payment:charge`, still carrying the user's subject.
- Authorization rules per endpoint use scopes and roles.
- Service-to-service traffic uses mutual TLS.

Non-functional

- Token validation under 1 ms (public keys cached locally from the JWKS endpoint).
- Access tokens live 5 minutes. Key rotation without downtime.
- A stolen payment-scoped token cannot call the order or user APIs.

The architecture



- **Auth server** — Spring Authorization Server or Keycloak. Issues JWTs (JSON Web Tokens — signed JSON with claims like subject, audience, scopes).
- **Gateway** — Spring Cloud Gateway with OAuth2 client and the token relay filter. It is the only component handling browser sessions.
- **Services** — Spring Security resource servers that validate JWTs with cached public keys.
- **mTLS** — certificates from a local CA, or a mesh sidecar (Project 27) that handles them automatically.

Data model

Claim	Example	Checked by
`sub`	user id	Everyone, for ownership checks
`aud`	`orders`, `payment`	Each service accepts only its own audience
`scope`	`orders:read payment:charge`	Endpoint rules
`act`	the order service's client id	Payment, to know who is acting for the user
`exp`	5 minutes ahead	Everyone

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Auth server	Spring Authorization Server or Keycloak	Standards-based, local
Gateway	Spring Cloud Gateway with token relay	BFF-style session handling
Services	Spring Security OAuth2 resource server	JWT validation built in
mTLS	Local CA with cert-manager, or Istio	Encrypted, authenticated hops

Milestones

1. **Login at the gateway.** *Done when* a browser logs in and the gateway relays a token to order.
2. **Every service validates.** *Done when* calling order directly without a token gets 401, and with a token for the wrong audience gets 401.
3. **Scopes.** *Done when* a read-only user gets 403 on `POST /orders`.
4. **Token exchange.** *Done when* order calls payment with a payment-audience token, and that token is rejected by order.
5. **mTLS and key rotation.** *Done when* plain HTTP between services fails, and rotating the signing key causes no errors.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Audience is the forgotten check. A token signed by your auth server is valid for every service unless each checks `aud`. Without audience checks, a token issued for a low-risk service can be replayed against payment.

Tokens in browsers. Single-page apps holding access tokens in local storage are exposed to cross-site scripting. Keeping tokens in the gateway (the "BFF for auth" approach) and giving the browser only an HttpOnly cookie removes that exposure.

Key rotation. Services cache the auth server's public keys. When the server starts signing with a new key, services must accept both old and new for a while. Publish the new key in the JWKS (the JSON list of public keys) before signing with it, and let services refetch on an unknown key id.

Service identity versus user identity. mTLS proves which service is calling. The token proves on whose behalf. Authorization often needs both: "only order service may charge, and only for this user's orders".

Testing strategy

Spring Security test support for unit tests with mock JWTs. Integration tests with a Keycloak Testcontainer: token for wrong audience, expired token, missing scope, exchanged token reuse. A rotation test that switches signing keys during load.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Validating everywhere costs a little CPU and complexity, but removes the "soft interior". Token exchange adds a call to the auth server per downstream hop — cache exchanged tokens until near expiry.

The auth server becomes critical: if it is down, logins and exchanges fail, but existing tokens still validate locally.

Stretch goals

- Fine-grained authorization with Open Policy Agent.
- Short-lived service credentials from a workload identity system (SPIFFE).
- Audit log of every authorization decision with trace ids.

Skills practised

- Authentication at the edge: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Security as a sidecar concern: Ch 9 — Sidecar
- Auth-aware BFFs: Ch 4 — BFF

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a zero-trust auth setup: the gateway logs users in with OpenID Connect (authorization code flow with PKCE), keeps tokens server-side and gives the browser only an HttpOnly session cookie, then relays an access token to services. Every service validates the JWT itself — signature, issuer, expiry and especially audience — with public keys cached from the JWKS endpoint, so validation takes under 1 ms. When order calls payment it exchanges its token for a narrower one with audience `payment` and scope `payment:charge`, and the hop runs over mutual TLS. A stolen payment-scoped token is rejected by the order and user APIs, and signing keys rotate under load with zero errors.

Key terms to know:

- **Zero trust** — no call is trusted because of where it comes from; every call is authenticated and authorized.
- **OAuth 2.0 / OpenID Connect** — OAuth issues access tokens; OIDC adds login and an ID token on top.
- **Authorization code flow with PKCE** — the browser login flow; PKCE stops a stolen authorization code from being redeemed.
- **JWT** — a signed JSON token with claims like `sub`, `aud`, `scope`, `exp`.
- **Audience (`aud`)** — which service a token is for. Each service accepts only its own.
- **Scope** — what the token allows (`payment:charge`).
- **Token relay** — the gateway forwards the user's access token to downstream services.
- **Token exchange (RFC 8693)** — swapping a token for a narrower one for a downstream call, keeping the user as subject and recording the caller in `act`.
- **mTLS** — both sides present certificates, so the connection proves which service is calling and is encrypted.
- **JWKS and key rotation** — the published list of public keys; new keys are published before use so services accept both.

Q: Why validate tokens in every service if the gateway already did?

A: Zero trust: a compromised pod or a misrouted request should not be able to call services freely. Local validation is cheap — a signature check with cached public keys — and removes the "soft interior".

Q: What is token exchange for?

A: Getting a narrower token for a downstream call, limited in audience and scope, while keeping the user's identity. If payment leaks that token, it cannot be used against the order or user APIs, unlike the user's full token.

Q: mTLS or JWTs?

A: Both, because they answer different questions. mTLS authenticates which service is calling and encrypts the hop; the JWT says on whose behalf and with what permissions. A rule like "only order may

charge, and only for this user's orders" needs both.

Q: Why is the audience check so important?

A: Every token signed by your auth server has a valid signature. Without an `aud` check, a token issued for a low-risk service can be replayed against payment. It is the most commonly forgotten check.

Q: Why keep tokens in the gateway instead of the browser?

A: Access tokens in browser storage can be stolen by cross-site scripting. With the gateway acting as a BFF for auth, the browser only holds an HttpOnly, Secure, SameSite cookie that scripts cannot read, and tokens never reach the browser. You then need CSRF protection on the cookie session.

Q: How do you rotate signing keys without downtime?

A: Publish the new public key in the JWKS first, wait until services have fetched it, then start signing with it, and remove the old key after the longest token lifetime has passed. Services refetch the JWKS when they see an unknown key id.

Q: What happens if the auth server is down?

A: Existing tokens still validate locally until they expire (5 minutes here), so running traffic continues. New logins and token exchanges fail. That is why the auth server runs highly available and exchanged tokens are cached until near expiry.

Q: What changes at 10x traffic?

A: Validation scales with services because it is local. Token exchange adds an auth-server call per new downstream token, so caching exchanged tokens per user and audience is essential, and the auth server must scale. Certificate issuance and rotation for mTLS is usually handed to a mesh or SPIFFE.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Spring Security test support gives mock JWTs for unit tests. Integration tests with a Keycloak Testcontainer cover wrong audience, expired token, missing scope and reuse of an exchanged token, and a rotation test switches signing keys during load.

Q: How do you configure a Spring Boot resource server to check audience?

A: Point it at the issuer and list accepted audiences; Spring Security then validates signature, issuer, expiry and audience:

```
spring.security.oauth2.resourceserver.jwt:
  issuer-uri: https://auth.local/realms/shop
  audiences: payment
```

Endpoint rules then use `hasAuthority("SCOPE_payment:charge")`.

Common mistakes in answers:

- "The gateway checked it, so internal services can trust the request."
- Forgetting the audience check and accepting any token from the issuer.
- Passing the user's full, broad token to every downstream service.

TL;DR

Log in at the gateway, validate everywhere, narrow tokens at each hop and encrypt every connection — so being inside the network grants nothing.

26. Monolith-to-Microservices Migration with Parallel Run

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 2, Ch 3, Ch 11

What it is

A complete, staged migration of a realistic e-commerce monolith (catalogue, cart, checkout, orders, customers, notifications — about 20 endpoints and a shared schema) into services, using every strangler technique: an edge facade, **shadow traffic** and **parallel run** to compare old and new answers before

switching, event interception to move side effects, CDC for data, and a written migration plan with exit criteria per capability. *Parallel run* means both systems handle the same request, the old answer is returned, and differences are recorded.

The problem it solves

Real migrations fail less on technology than on uncertainty: "does the new service really behave the same?", "what else reads this table?", "who owns which data now?". This project builds the tooling that removes that uncertainty — difference reports, dependency maps, rollback switches — and forces you to sequence a migration so the system is releasable at every step.

Real-world examples

- Martin Fowler's original framing, including incremental replacement and event interception: StranglerFigApplication.
- GitHub's Scientist library runs old and new code side by side and reports mismatches: github/scientist.
- Diffy, originally from Twitter, compares responses from old and new service versions to find regressions: opendiffy/diffy.

Requirements

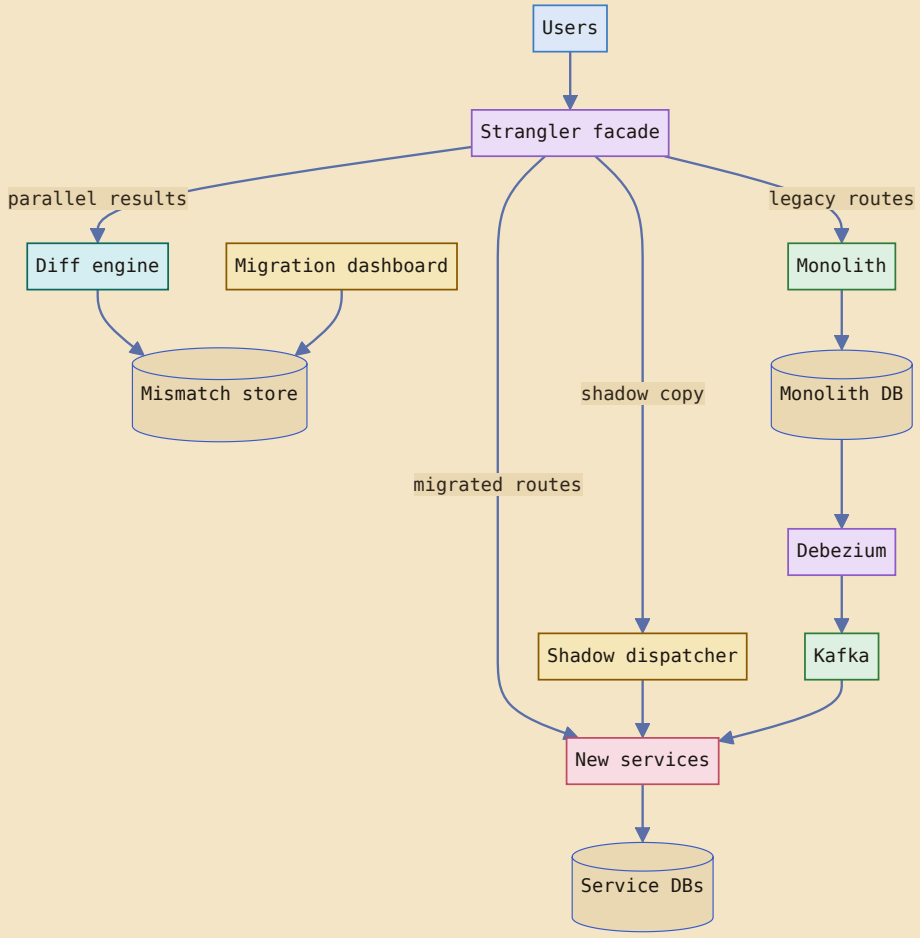
Functional

- Facade in front of the monolith with per-route modes: `legacy`, `shadow`, `parallel`, `new`, `new-with-fallback`.
- Shadow mode: copy requests to the new service asynchronously, discard its response, log latency and errors.
- Parallel mode: call both, return legacy, diff responses with field-level ignore rules (timestamps, generated ids).
- Extract catalogue, then customers, then orders, each with its own database and CDC sync (Project 23 technique).
- Event interception: monolith's "order placed" side effects (email, loyalty) move to events consumed by new services.
- A migration dashboard: per route, mode, traffic share, mismatch rate, error rate.

Non-functional

- Shadow traffic must never affect user latency (fire-and-forget with its own bulkhead).
- Mismatch rate below 0.1% for 7 days is the exit criterion for switching a route.
- Rollback of any route within 1 minute.
- No step requires downtime.

The architecture



- **Facade** — Spring Cloud Gateway with route modes from a flag service (Project 21), so switching is a config change.
- **Shadow dispatcher** — async copies with a bounded queue. When full, drop copies, never block users.
- **Diff engine** — normalises both JSON responses (sort arrays where order does not matter, drop ignored fields) and stores mismatches with request ids.
- **CDC and Kafka** — keep new service databases in sync while the monolith is still the writer.
- **Dashboard** — the single source of truth on migration progress.

Data model

ROUTE_MODE		
text	route	PK
text	mode	
int	percent_new	
timestamptz	changed_at	
text	changed_by	

MISMATCH		
bigint	id	PK
text	route	
text	request_id	
jsonb	legacy_body	
jsonb	new_body	
jsonb	diff	
timestamptz	at	

CAPABILITY		
text	name	PK
text	owner_team	
text	phase	
text	exit_criteria	

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Facade	Spring Cloud Gateway + custom filters	Route-level modes
Mode switching	Feature flags (Project 21 or OpenFeature provider)	Instant, audited rollback
Diff	JSON normalisation + JSON Patch diff	Readable field-level differences
Data	Debezium CDC to Kafka	Keeps new stores in sync
Observability	OpenTelemetry traces with `migration.mode` attribute	Compare latency by path

Milestones

1. **Map the monolith.** *Done when* a document lists every endpoint, the tables it touches, and the side effects it triggers, with a proposed extraction order (least coupled, most valuable first).
2. **Facade at 100% legacy.** *Done when* all traffic passes through with mode `legacy` and no measurable latency change.
3. **Catalogue: shadow, parallel, switch.** *Done when* catalogue reaches 0.1% mismatch for a simulated week, switches to `new`, and a rollback drill succeeds.
4. **Customers with CDC and write ownership switch.** *Done when* writes move and reconciliation shows zero drift.
5. **Event interception for orders.** *Done when* emails and loyalty are triggered by events from the monolith's outbox, and the old in-process calls are removed.
6. **Orders and decommission.** *Done when* orders runs in the new service, the monolith's orders code and tables are deleted, and the dashboard shows the monolith serving only what is left.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Parallel run with writes. Running both systems on a read is safe. Running both on a write would create two orders. For writes, run the new path in "dry-run" mode (validate and compute, but do not commit) and compare the computed result, or replay recorded writes against a copy of the database.

Noise in diffs. Raw diffs are full of false positives: timestamps, ids, float formatting, list order. Without good normalisation rules, people stop reading the report. Build the ignore list per route and review it — an ignored field must be a decision, not a convenience.

Extraction order. Start with something read-heavy and loosely coupled (catalogue) to build tooling and confidence. Leave the most entangled capability (orders, which touches everything) for last. Some capabilities are better left in the monolith for good — a migration plan should say which.

The long middle. Migrations stall at 70%: the remaining parts are the hardest, and the old system must still be operated. Make the cost of the middle visible (two systems, sync jobs, on-call load) so finishing is prioritised.

Testing strategy

The diff engine is itself the main test harness. Add unit tests for normalisation rules. Replay a recorded production-like traffic file through the facade in `parallel` mode as a regression suite. Contract tests (Project 17) between facade and new services. Rollback drills scripted and run on every route before switching.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Shadow and parallel modes double load on whatever they touch — size the new services for it and cap shadow rate. Two systems mean two sources of bugs. CDC adds lag that the diff engine will report as mismatches unless it knows to wait. The worst failure mode is a half-finished migration that never ends.

Stretch goals

- Record and replay real traffic with a capture proxy.

- Automate the switch: move to `new` automatically when mismatch and error rates stay below thresholds for N days.
- A "dependency radar" that detects new monolith code touching migrated tables and fails the build.

Skills practised

- Full strangler lifecycle: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig
- The facade as gateway: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Event interception and CDC: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Mode switching through config: Ch 13 — Config Externalization

In the interview

30-second answer: I migrated an e-commerce monolith with about 20 endpoints into services, route by route, behind a strangler facade whose per-route mode — legacy, shadow, parallel, new, new-with-fallback — comes from a feature flag, so switching or rolling back is a config change that takes under a minute. Shadow mode copies traffic to the new service without affecting users; parallel mode calls both, returns the old answer and diffs the two with per-route ignore rules. The exit criterion for switching a route is a mismatch rate under 0.1% for 7 days. Data moved with CDC, side effects moved with event interception, and the migration counted as done only when the monolith's code and tables were deleted.

Key terms to know:

- **Strangler facade with route modes** — one proxy that decides per route whether the old or new system answers, or both.
- **Shadow traffic** — an asynchronous copy of a request sent to the new service; its response is discarded and only errors and latency are logged.
- **Parallel run** — both systems handle the request, the old answer is returned, and differences are recorded.
- **Diff normalisation and ignore rules** — removing timestamps, generated ids and list-order noise before comparing JSON.
- **Exit criterion** — the measurable condition for switching a route (mismatch under 0.1% for 7 days).
- **Dry-run write** — the new path validates and computes but does not commit, so writes can be compared safely.
- **Event interception** — moving side effects (email, loyalty) from in-process calls to events that new services consume.
- **Decommissioning** — deleting old code and tables, the real end of a migration.
- **The long middle** — the stall at around 70% where the remaining parts are the hardest and two systems must be operated.

Q: How do you know the new service behaves like the old one?

A: Shadow traffic first to check it is stable under real load, then parallel run returning the old answer and diffing it with the new one. I switch only when the mismatch rate stays under the exit criterion for a week, and every remaining mismatch is either fixed or explicitly accepted.

Q: How do you handle writes during a parallel run?

A: Never double-commit, or you create two orders. Run the new path in dry-run mode and compare the computed result, or replay recorded writes against a copy of the database.

Q: Which capability do you extract first?

A: One that is valuable, loosely coupled and mostly read-only — here the catalogue — so you build the tooling and confidence with low risk. The most entangled capability, orders, comes last, and some parts may be better left in the monolith for good.

Q: When is the migration done?

A: When the old code and tables are deleted, not when traffic is switched. Until then you pay for two systems, sync jobs and on-call load. I track decommissioning as a deliverable on the migration dashboard.

Q: How do you stop shadow traffic hurting users?

A: It is fire-and-forget through its own bounded queue and bulkhead; when the queue is full, copies are dropped, never blocking the user's request. Shadow calls also double load on the new service, so I cap the shadow rate and size the service for it.

Q: Why do diffs need so much normalisation?

A: Raw diffs are full of false positives — timestamps, ids, float formatting, list order — and when the report is noisy people stop reading it. Each ignore rule is reviewed, because ignoring a field must be a decision, not a convenience.

Q: What does CDC lag do to your diffs?

A: If the new service's database is a second behind, a read right after a write differs and the diff engine reports a false mismatch. The engine needs to know about lag — retry the comparison after a delay, or compare only when the replica has caught up to the request's time.

Q: What happens if a switched route starts failing?

A: The `new-with-fallback` mode falls back to the monolith for reads automatically, and for anything else the flag goes back to `legacy` within a minute. Every route has a scripted rollback drill that runs before it is switched.

Q: How did you test the migration tooling?

A: Unit tests cover the normalisation rules. A recorded, production-like traffic file replayed through the facade in parallel mode acts as a regression suite. Contract tests cover facade-to-service APIs, and rollback drills are scripted.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Parallel-running writes in both systems.
- Declaring victory when traffic is switched while the old code still runs.
- Ignoring diff noise, so the mismatch report becomes useless.

TL;DR

Strangle a real monolith route by route with shadow traffic, parallel-run diffs, CDC and one-minute rollbacks, and finish by deleting the old code.

27. Service Mesh Platform with Istio

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 3–4 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 5, Ch 6, Ch 8, Ch 9

What it is

A Kubernetes platform where networking concerns — mutual TLS, retries, timeouts, circuit breaking (outlier detection), traffic splitting and telemetry — are handled by a **service mesh** instead of application libraries. A *service mesh* is a dedicated infrastructure layer of proxies (Envoy, in Istio's sidecar mode) that intercept all traffic between services, controlled by a central *control plane* that pushes configuration to them. You move a system that uses Resilience4j to mesh policies and compare.

The problem it solves

Resilience and security in libraries means every service, in every language, must include and configure them correctly — and they drift. A mesh provides consistent, centrally managed behaviour for all traffic. But it adds latency, resource cost and a complex control plane. This project lets you measure both sides instead of believing marketing.

Real-world examples

- Lyft built Envoy for exactly this purpose and described why: Announcing Envoy.
- Istio's traffic management model (VirtualService, DestinationRule): Traffic Management.
- Envoy's outlier detection, which ejects misbehaving hosts — a per-host circuit breaker: Outlier detection.

Requirements

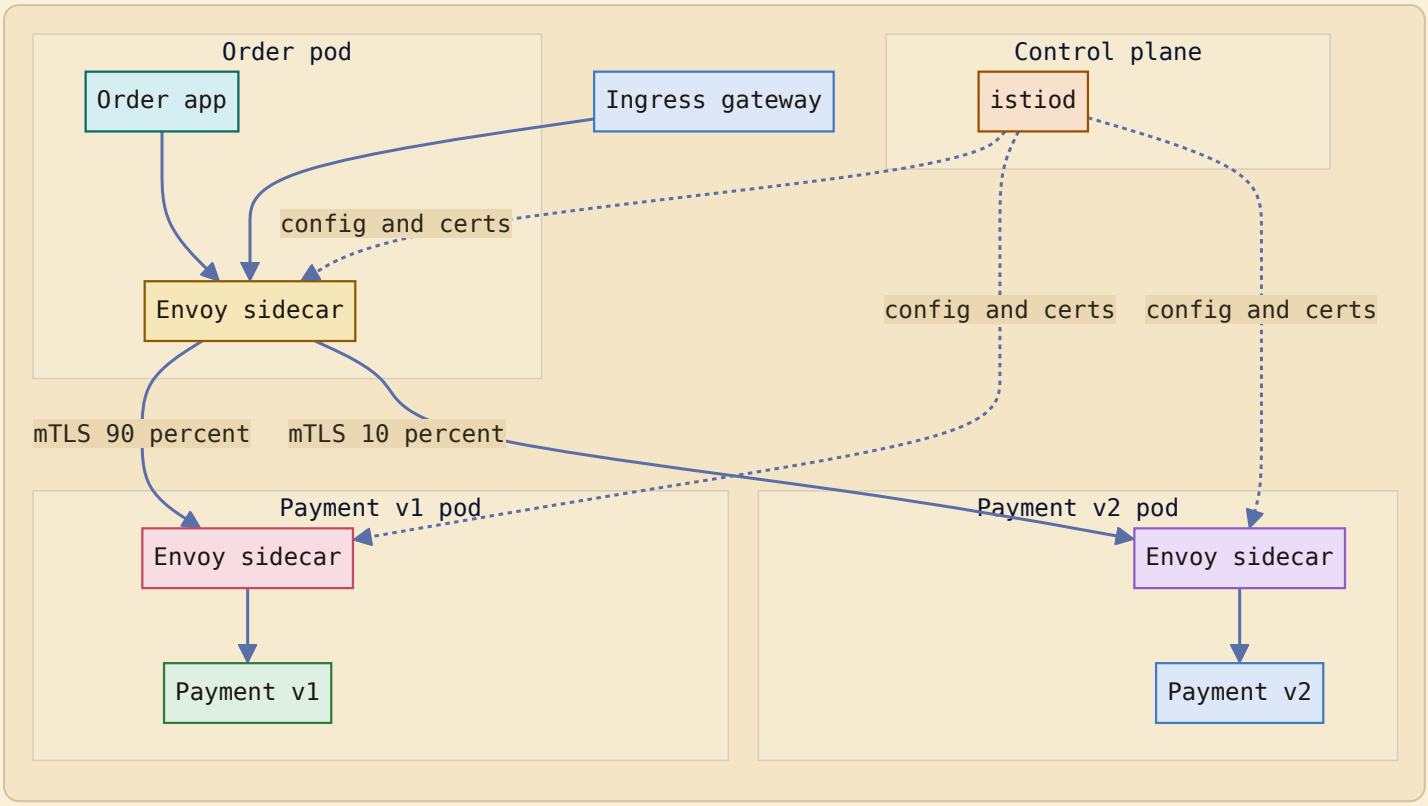
Functional

- Six services in a kind cluster with Istio installed. Sidecar injection on the app namespace.
- Strict mTLS across the namespace. AuthorizationPolicies: only order may call payment.
- Timeouts and retries per route in VirtualServices. Outlier detection and connection pools in DestinationRules.
- Canary: 90/10 traffic split between payment v1 and v2, and header-based routing for testers.
- Telemetry: metrics in Prometheus, traces in Jaeger, service graph in Kiali.

Non-functional

- Measure and report added p50 and p99 latency per hop and memory per sidecar.
- A host returning 5xx is ejected within 30 s and returns after recovery.
- Policy change applied cluster-wide within 10 s.

The architecture



- **istiod** — the control plane: turns Istio resources into Envoy config, acts as the certificate authority, and distributes service discovery data.
- **Envoy sidecars** — intercept inbound and outbound traffic in each pod, enforce mTLS, retries, timeouts and routing.
- **Ingress gateway** — an Envoy at the edge for north-south traffic (in and out of the cluster), while sidecars handle east-west (between services).
- **Observability add-ons** — Prometheus, Jaeger, Kiali.

Data model

Istio resource	Controls	Example
`PeerAuthentication`	mTLS mode	STRICT for the namespace
`AuthorizationPolicy`	Who may call whom	principal order may POST /charge
`VirtualService`	Routing, retries, timeouts	90/10 split, 2 retries, 1 s timeout
`DestinationRule`	Subsets, pools, outlier detection	eject after 5 consecutive 5xx
`Gateway`	Edge listeners	host and TLS for ingress

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Cluster	kind with 3 nodes	Local, realistic scheduling
Mesh	Istio (sidecar mode, then try ambient mode)	Feature-complete, Envoy based
Alternative	Linkerd for comparison	Lighter-weight mesh
Apps	Spring Boot 4.1.1 services	Remove Resilience4j as you go
Load	k6 or Fortio	Latency overhead numbers

Milestones

1. **Baseline without mesh.** *Done when* you have latency and resource numbers for the system with Resilience4j.
2. **Install and inject.** *Done when* all pods run sidecars and Kiali shows the service graph.
3. **Strict mTLS and authorization.** *Done when* a debug pod without a sidecar cannot reach payment, and inventory gets 403 calling payment.
4. **Resilience in the mesh.** *Done when* retries, timeouts and outlier detection replace the library settings and pass the Project 22 experiments.
5. **Canary.** *Done when* 10% of traffic hits v2, header-based routing sends testers to v2, and rollback is one resource change.
6. **Report.** *Done when* you have a written comparison: latency overhead, memory per pod, config lines, and what the mesh cannot do that the library could.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Double retries. If the app still retries and the mesh also retries, you get the multiplication problem from Project 22. Pick one layer for each concern. The mesh cannot know whether `POST /charge` is idempotent — only the app can — so keep retries off for non-idempotent routes or retry only on connection failures.

What the mesh cannot do. It sees requests, not business meaning. Fallbacks ("return cached price"), bulkheads per business operation, and partial results remain application concerns. Outlier detection ejects bad hosts, but it is not a full circuit breaker for a whole service.

Start-up and shutdown ordering. If the app starts before its sidecar is ready, its first outbound calls fail. If the sidecar exits first on shutdown, in-flight requests fail. Native sidecar containers and Istio's hold-application-until-proxy-starts setting fix this — verify it.

Sidecar versus ambient. Istio's ambient mode uses a per-node proxy for L4 (mTLS) and optional waypoint proxies for L7, removing per-pod sidecars. Measure memory and latency in both modes.

Testing strategy

Policy tests: scripted curl from different pods asserting allowed and denied calls. Re-run Project 22 chaos experiments against mesh settings. Use `istioctl analyze` in CI to catch misconfigurations. Load tests to quantify overhead.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

A mesh gives uniform security and traffic control for every language, at the cost of per-pod resources, extra latency per hop, and a control plane that must be upgraded carefully. If istiod is down, existing proxies keep their last config, but new pods cannot get certificates. Misconfigured policies can black-hole traffic cluster-wide in seconds.

Stretch goals

- Locality-aware load balancing with failover between zones.
- Fault injection via VirtualService instead of Toxiproxy.
- Egress gateway controlling calls to external APIs.

Skills practised

- Sidecar proxies at scale: Ch 9 — Sidecar
- Discovery in the mesh: Ch 5 — Service Discovery
- Outlier ejection as breaking: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker
- Retries at the right layer: Ch 8 — Retry
- Connection pool limits: Ch 7 — Bulkhead

In the interview

30-second answer: I moved a six-service Kubernetes system's networking concerns from application libraries into Istio: strict mutual TLS across the namespace, AuthorizationPolicies so only order may call payment, retries and timeouts in VirtualServices, outlier detection and connection pools in DestinationRules, and a 90/10 canary for payment v2 with header routing for testers. The key decision was splitting responsibilities: the mesh handles uniform transport concerns, and the app keeps anything that needs business meaning — fallbacks, idempotency and which calls are safe to retry. I measured the sidecars' cost in added p50/p99 latency per hop and memory per pod, and compared sidecar mode with ambient mode.

Key terms to know:

- **Service mesh** — an infrastructure layer of proxies that intercept all service-to-service traffic, configured by a control plane.
- **Data plane vs control plane** — the Envoy proxies that carry traffic, versus istiod, which turns Istio resources into Envoy config, issues certificates and distributes discovery data.
- **Sidecar injection** — automatically adding an Envoy container to every pod in a labelled namespace.
- **PeerAuthentication (STRICT mTLS)** — requires mutual TLS for all traffic to workloads.
- **AuthorizationPolicy** — rules on which service identity may call which path.
- **VirtualService / DestinationRule** — routing, retries, timeouts and traffic splits / subsets, connection pools and outlier detection.
- **Outlier detection** — ejecting a misbehaving host (e.g. after 5 consecutive 5xx) for a while — a per-host breaker.
- **North-south vs east-west traffic** — in and out of the cluster (ingress gateway) versus between services (sidecars).
- **Ambient mode** — Istio without per-pod sidecars: a per-node proxy (ztunnel) for mTLS and optional waypoint proxies for L7.

Q: What does a service mesh give you?

A: Uniform mTLS, authorization, retries, timeouts, traffic splitting and telemetry for all services in any language, without code changes, and managed centrally so settings do not drift between teams.

Q: What should stay in the application?

A: Anything that needs business knowledge: fallbacks like "return cached price", idempotency keys, partial responses, bulkheads per business operation, and which operations are safe to retry. The mesh sees requests, not meaning.

Q: What does it cost?

A: CPU and memory per proxy, extra latency per hop (two proxies per call in sidecar mode), and the operational complexity of the control plane and its upgrades. A bad policy can also black-hole traffic cluster-wide in seconds.

Q: What goes wrong if both the app and the mesh retry?

A: The multiplication problem: app retries 3 times and mesh retries 3 times gives up to 9 calls per request. Pick one layer for each concern. The mesh cannot know whether `POST /charge` is idempotent, so turn mesh retries off for non-idempotent routes or limit them to connection failures.

Q: Is outlier detection a circuit breaker?

A: Partly. It ejects individual bad hosts from the load-balancing pool, which is great when one pod is broken. It does not give a fallback or stop calls when the whole service is down — that is still an application breaker's job.

Q: What happens if istiod goes down?

A: Existing proxies keep their last configuration and traffic keeps flowing. New pods cannot get configuration or certificates, config changes do not apply, and certificates eventually expire if it stays down. That is why the control plane runs replicated and is upgraded carefully, often canary-style.

Q: Why did the app's first calls fail at start-up?

A: The app started before its sidecar was ready, so outbound calls had no proxy. Istio's `holdApplicationUntilProxyStarts` or native sidecar containers fix start-up, and they also make the sidecar outlive the app on shutdown so in-flight requests finish.

Q: How do you do a canary in the mesh?

A: Define subsets v1 and v2 in a DestinationRule by pod label, then a VirtualService with weights 90/10 and a match rule that sends requests with a tester header to v2. Rollback is setting the weight back to 0 — one resource change, no redeploy.

Q: What changes with 10x services?

A: Sidecar memory adds up per pod, and the control plane pushes larger configs to every proxy. You scope config with `Sidecar` resources so each proxy only learns about services it calls, or move to ambient mode to remove per-pod proxies.

Q: How did you test the policies?

A: Scripted curl from different pods asserts allowed and denied calls, including from a debug pod without a sidecar (blocked by strict mTLS). `istioctl analyze` runs in CI to catch misconfigurations, and the Project 22 chaos experiments are re-run against mesh settings.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Saying a mesh removes the need for resilience code in apps. Business-aware behaviour stays in the app.
- Enabling retries in both the app and the mesh.
- Claiming a mesh is free. Measure latency and memory per pod.

TL;DR

Move mTLS, retries, timeouts and canaries into Envoy sidecars managed by Istio, measure the overhead, and keep business-aware resilience in the app.

28. Multi-Tenant SaaS Platform

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 7, Ch 13

What it is

A business SaaS product (a project-tracking tool) served to many customer organisations — *tenants* — from shared infrastructure, with three isolation tiers: **pooled** (shared database with row-level security), **bridge** (schema per tenant) and **silo** (dedicated database and service instances for premium tenants). Tenant context flows from the gateway through every service, Kafka message and log line. Per-tenant rate limits, bulkheads and configuration stop one tenant hurting the others.

The problem it solves

SaaS economics need shared infrastructure, but customers need their data isolated and their performance protected from "noisy neighbours" (other tenants consuming shared resources). Enterprise customers may demand dedicated infrastructure. Building tenancy in from the start — context propagation, data isolation, per-tenant limits and onboarding — is far cheaper than retrofitting it.

Real-world examples

- AWS's whitepaper on silo, pool and bridge isolation models: SaaS Tenant Isolation Strategies.
- AWS's SaaS architecture fundamentals cover control plane versus application plane and onboarding: SaaS Architecture Fundamentals.
- PostgreSQL row-level security, the mechanism for pooled isolation: Row Security Policies.

Requirements

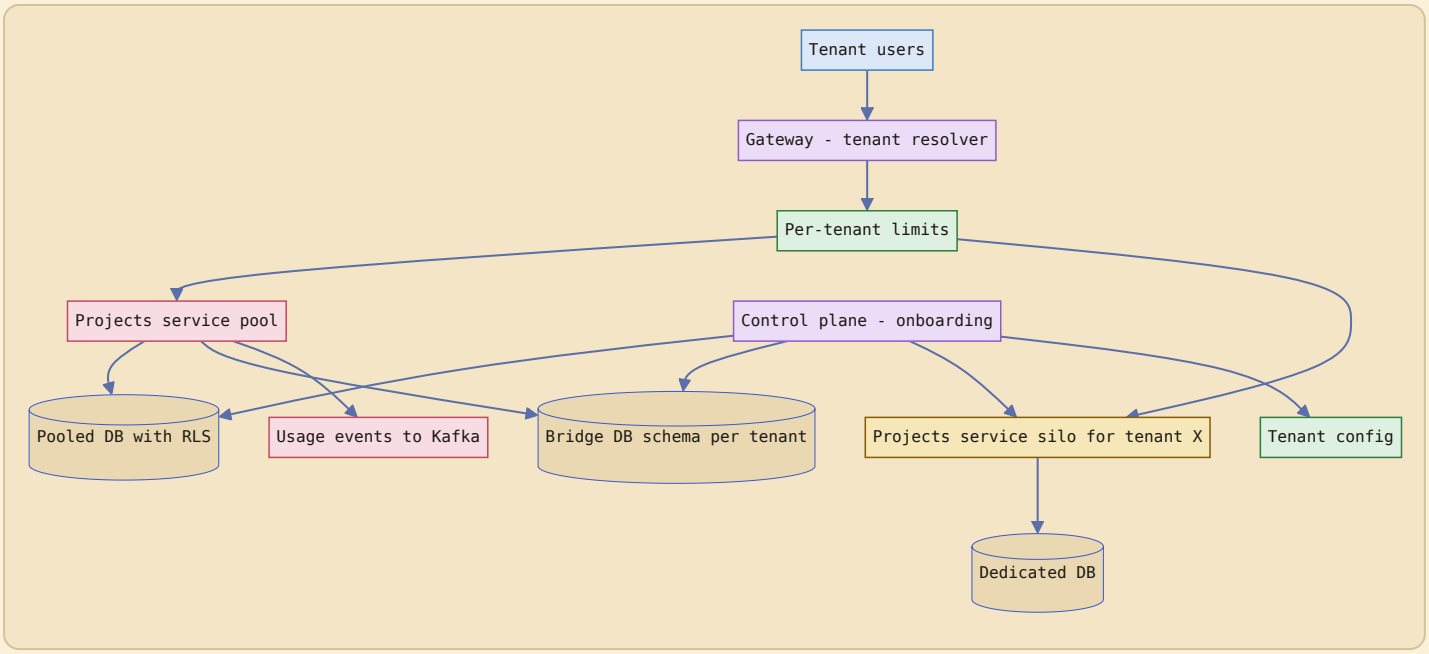
Functional

- Tenant onboarding API: create tenant, choose tier, provision resources (schema or database), create admin user.
- Gateway resolves tenant from subdomain or token claim and adds a signed tenant header.
- Projects and tasks services enforce isolation: pooled via row-level security, bridge via schema routing, silo via a dedicated deployment.
- Per-tenant rate limits and concurrency bulkheads by tier.
- Per-tenant config (feature flags, limits) from the config service.
- Per-tenant usage metering events to Kafka for billing.

Non-functional

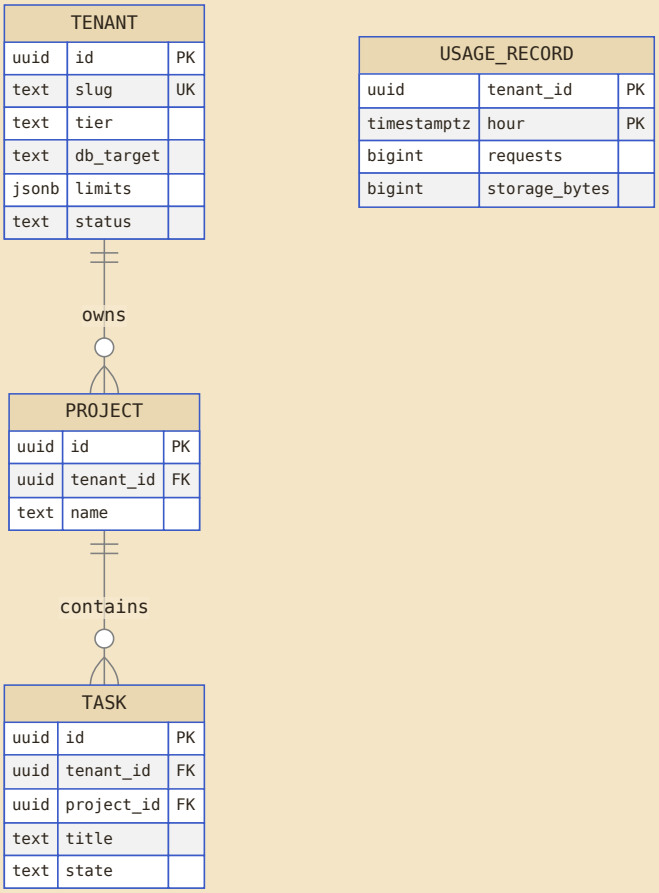
- Cross-tenant data access impossible even with a bug in a query (proved by tests).
- A tenant at 10 times its normal load raises other tenants' p95 by less than 10%.
- Onboarding a pooled tenant under 10 s, a silo tenant under 10 minutes.
- 1,000 pooled tenants on one database cluster.

The architecture



- **Control plane** — tenant registry, onboarding, tier changes, billing integration. Separate from the application plane that serves users.
- **Tenant resolver** — gateway filter that maps host or claim to tenant id and tier, then routes silo tenants to their own deployment.
- **Data access layer** — sets `app.tenant_id` on each database connection for RLS, or switches schema, chosen from the tenant's tier.
- **Usage events** — per-request counts and storage used, aggregated for billing.

Data model



Every pooled table carries `tenant_id`, and an RLS policy restricts rows to `current_setting('app.tenant_id')`.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Gateway	Spring Cloud Gateway	Tenant resolution and routing
Isolation	PostgreSQL RLS, schemas, separate databases	All three tiers
Limits	Redis token buckets per tenant (Project 19)	Fairness
Deployment	Kubernetes namespaces per silo tenant, Helm or Kustomize	Repeatable provisioning
Context	OTel baggage plus MDC logging	Tenant on every span and log

Milestones

1. **Pooled tenancy with RLS.** *Done when* a query that forgets the tenant filter still returns only the current tenant's rows.
2. **Tenant context everywhere.** *Done when* tenant id appears on every log line, span and Kafka message, and async consumers restore it.
3. **Noisy-neighbour protection.** *Done when* a 10x load test from one tenant leaves others within 10% of baseline p95.
4. **Bridge and silo tiers.** *Done when* the same code serves a schema-per-tenant tenant and a dedicated deployment, selected by tier.
5. **Onboarding and tier migration.** *Done when* a tenant can be created via API and moved from pooled to silo with a short write freeze.

6. **Metering.** *Done when* hourly usage per tenant is available for billing.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Context leaks. Tenant id in a thread-local is lost when work moves to another thread or a Kafka consumer, and worse, a pooled connection can keep the previous tenant's setting. Set the tenant on the connection at checkout and reset it on return, and test with deliberately interleaved tenants on the same thread.

Fairness under load. Rate limits cap requests, but one tenant's expensive report can still saturate the database. Add per-tenant concurrency bulkheads on heavy operations, and consider separate pools or read replicas for reporting.

Tier migration. Moving a tenant from pooled to silo means copying their rows to a new database while they keep working. Use the CDC technique from Project 23 for that tenant's rows, then switch routing in the tenant registry.

Operational load of silos. Each silo is another deployment to upgrade. Automate everything through the control plane, and keep silos on the same version as the pool.

Testing strategy

Isolation tests are the most important: a suite that creates two tenants, writes data as A, and tries every API and query as B. Run it against all three tiers. Load tests for noisy neighbours. Onboarding and tier-migration tests in CI against a kind cluster.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Pooled is cheapest and easiest to operate but has the weakest isolation and noisiest neighbours. Silo is strongest and most expensive. Bridge sits between, but thousands of schemas strain migrations and connection pools. Failure modes: a missing tenant filter (RLS is your safety net), context lost in async code, and one huge tenant outgrowing the pool.

Stretch goals

- Tenant-aware sharding: spread pooled tenants across several database clusters.
- Per-tenant encryption keys.
- Self-service tenant admin portal with usage dashboards.

Skills practised

- Tenant-aware edge: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Per-tenant isolation of resources: Ch 7 — Bulkhead
- Per-tenant config and flags: Ch 13 — Config Externalization
- Metering events: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a multi-tenant project-tracking SaaS with three isolation tiers from one codebase: pooled tenants share tables protected by PostgreSQL row-level security, bridge tenants get a schema each, and premium silo tenants get their own database and deployment. The gateway resolves the tenant from the subdomain or token and passes it on, and tenant id travels on every log line, span and Kafka message. The hardest problems were context leaks and noisy neighbours: the tenant setting is applied per transaction on each connection and cleared on return, and per-tenant rate limits and bulkheads keep a tenant at 10x load from raising others' p95 by more than 10%. A cross-tenant test suite runs every API as tenant B against tenant A's data in all three tiers.

Key terms to know:

- **Tenant** — one customer organisation sharing the platform.

- **Pool, bridge, silo** — shared tables with a tenant column, schema per tenant, dedicated database and services.
- **Row-level security (RLS)** — a PostgreSQL policy that filters rows by `current_setting('app.tenant_id')`, even if the query forgets.
- **Tenant context propagation** — carrying tenant id through threads, HTTP headers, Kafka headers, logs (MDC) and spans (OTel baggage).
- **Noisy neighbour** — one tenant consuming shared resources and slowing others.
- **Per-tenant rate limit and bulkhead** — caps on requests per second and on concurrent heavy operations per tenant.
- **Control plane vs application plane** — onboarding, tiers and billing versus serving users.
- **Tier migration** — moving a tenant from pooled to silo by copying its rows with CDC, then switching routing.
- **Usage metering** — per-tenant usage events aggregated hourly for billing.

Q: Silo, pool or bridge?

A: Pool for cost and scale with many small tenants, silo for strict isolation, compliance or very large tenants, bridge as a middle ground. Many products offer more than one tier and price them accordingly.

Q: How do you guarantee one tenant cannot see another's data?

A: Tenant id on every row, database-enforced row-level security as the safety net, tenant context set per connection, and automated cross-tenant tests. Application filters alone are not enough — one forgotten `WHERE` leaks data.

Q: How do you deal with noisy neighbours?

A: Per-tenant rate limits and concurrency bulkheads, separate pools or read replicas for heavy work like reports, and moving very large tenants to their own resources.

Q: How can tenant context leak?

A: Two ways. A thread-local is lost when work moves to another thread or a Kafka consumer, so requests run with no tenant. Worse, a pooled connection can keep the previous tenant's setting, so the next request reads the wrong tenant's rows. I set the tenant at the start of every transaction and test with interleaved tenants on the same thread.

Q: What is the RLS gotcha in PostgreSQL?

A: Superusers and roles with `BYPASSRLS` always skip policies, and by default so does the table owner — use `ALTER TABLE … FORCE ROW LEVEL SECURITY` and run the app as a non-owner role. Set the tenant per transaction so it cannot outlive the request:

```
CREATE POLICY tenant_rows ON task
  USING (tenant_id = current_setting('app.tenant_id')::uuid);
SELECT set_config('app.tenant_id', :tenant, true); -- true = this transaction only
```

Q: How do you move a tenant from pooled to silo?

A: Provision the new database through the control plane, copy the tenant's rows with CDC while they keep working, take a short write freeze to let it catch up, switch routing in the tenant registry, and keep the old rows until reconciliation passes.

Q: What breaks at 10x tenants?

A: In the bridge tier, thousands of schemas strain migrations and connection pools. In the pool, one database cluster fills up, so you shard tenants across clusters with the tenant registry as the map. Silos multiply upgrade work, so everything must be automated through the control plane.

Q: How do you verify noisy-neighbour protection?

A: A load test drives one tenant at 10x its normal rate and measures other tenants' p95 against a baseline, which must stay within 10%. Dashboards per tenant show rate-limit rejections and bulkhead usage.

Q: How did you test isolation?

A: A suite creates two tenants, writes data as A, then calls every API and runs representative queries as B, expecting nothing back — against all three tiers. It runs in CI with onboarding and tier-migration tests on a kind cluster.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Relying only on `WHERE tenant_id = ?` in application code.
- Forgetting async paths (Kafka consumers, executors) when propagating tenant context.
- Assuming rate limits alone stop noisy neighbours; expensive queries need concurrency limits too.

TL;DR

Resolve the tenant at the edge, carry it everywhere, enforce isolation in the database, cap each tenant's share of resources, and offer pooled, bridge and silo tiers from one codebase.

29. Food Delivery Platform

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 5–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 10, Ch 11, Ch 12

What it is

A food-delivery backend in the style of the classic "FTGO" example: consumer, restaurant, order, kitchen, delivery, payment and notification services. Placing an order runs a saga (validate, authorise payment, restaurant accepts, assign courier). Status changes flow as events. The customer's "where is my order" screen and the restaurant's order board are CQRS read models. Couriers send live locations. This project combines the data patterns into one coherent system.

The problem it solves

Individual patterns are easy in isolation. In a real domain they interact: a saga step depends on a read model that lags, a compensation races a status event, a courier location stream overwhelms a service built for orders. This project gives you a domain rich enough to hit those interactions and forces you to choose service boundaries deliberately.

Real-world examples

- Chris Richardson's FTGO example application, used throughout his microservices patterns material: Pattern: Saga and Pattern: CQRS.
- His InfoQ series walks through aggregates, events and CQRS in a similar domain: Developing Transactional Microservices Using Aggregates, Event Sourcing and CQRS.
- Kafka Streams, useful for the location and ETA stream processing: Kafka Streams.

Requirements

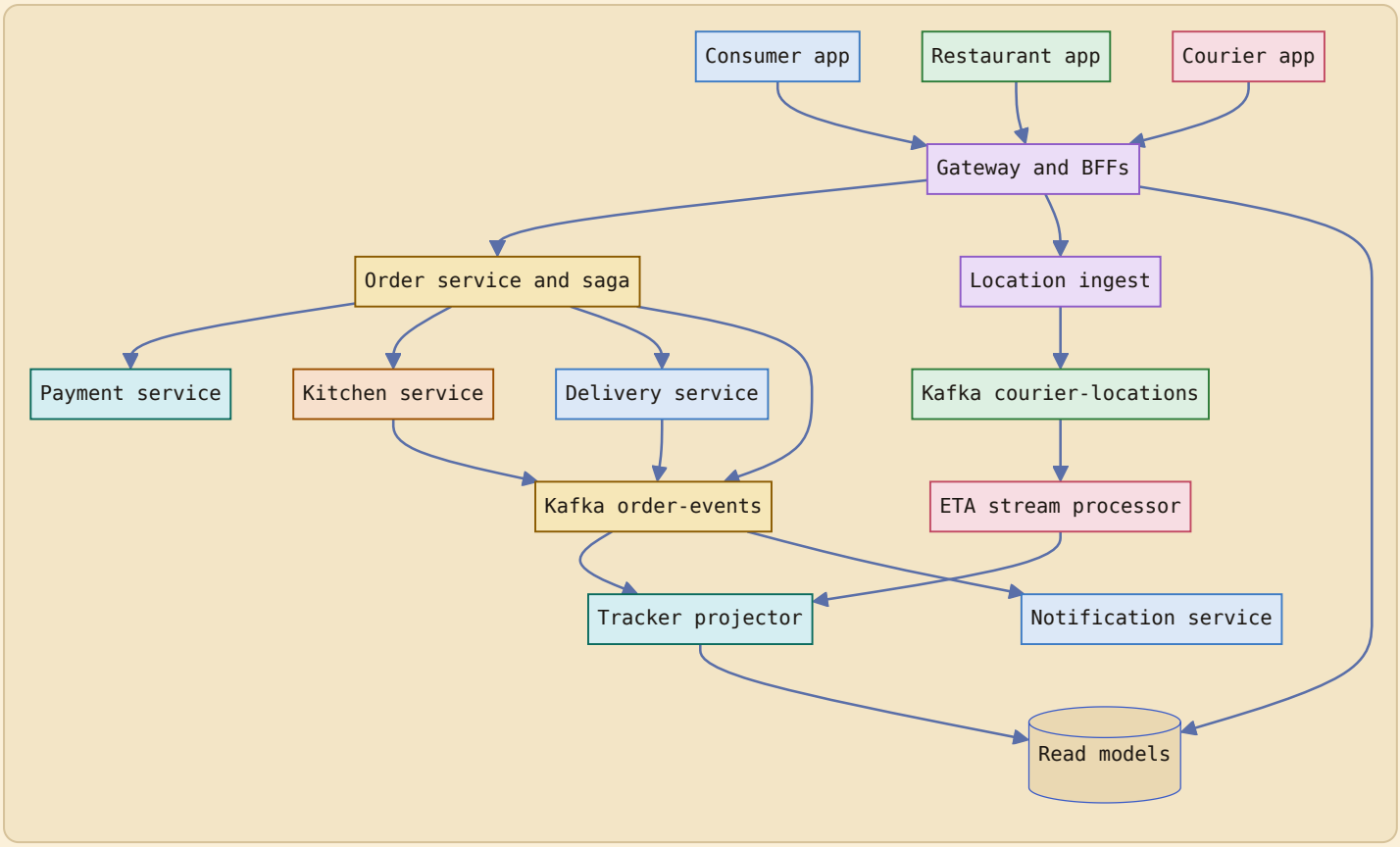
Functional

- Browse restaurants and menus. Place order with items, address and payment.
- Create-order saga: validate consumer and menu → authorise payment → restaurant accepts or rejects within 3 minutes → kitchen ticket created → courier assigned → order CONFIRMED. Compensations for every step.
- Order lifecycle events: ACCEPTED, PREPARING, READY, PICKED_UP, DELIVERED, CANCELLED.
- Courier app posts location every 5 s. Consumer sees courier position and ETA.
- Read models: consumer order history, live order tracker, restaurant order board.
- Cancellation by consumer before PREPARING, with refund.

Non-functional

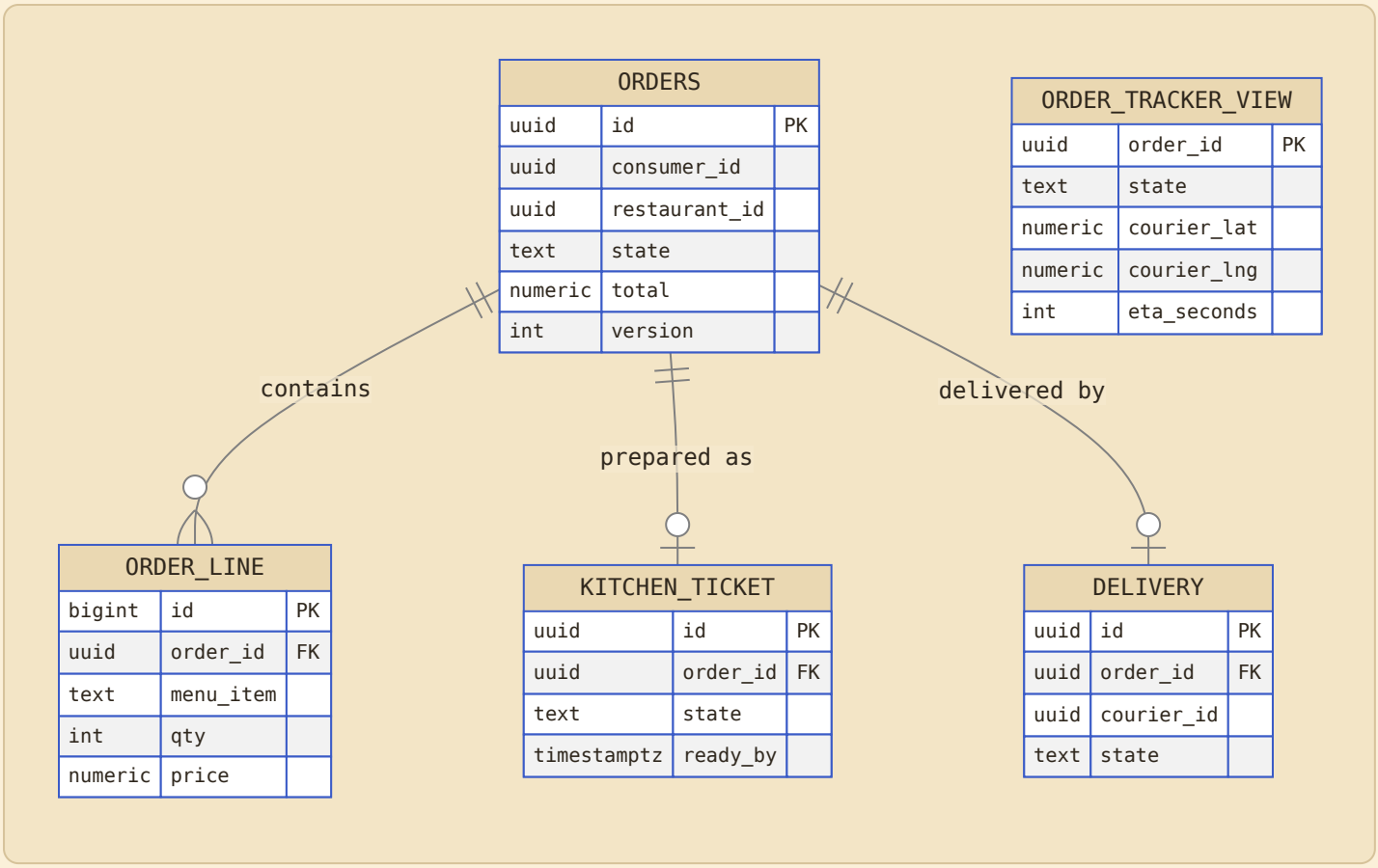
- 500 orders per minute peak, 10,000 active couriers sending locations.
- Order tracker updates within 2 s of a status change.
- No order charged without being delivered or refunded (end-of-day reconciliation proves it).
- A payment provider outage pauses new orders gracefully rather than failing them halfway.

The architecture



- **Order service** — owns orders and orchestrates the create-order saga (orchestration, because it has many steps and timeouts).
- **Kitchen, delivery, payment** — participants with their own databases, publishing status events through outboxes.
- **Location ingest** — a thin, horizontally scaled service that validates and writes locations to a high-throughput topic. It never touches the order database.
- **ETA processor** — Kafka Streams joins latest courier location with the order's destination and emits ETA updates.
- **Tracker projector** — builds read models from order events and ETA updates.

Data model



The tables live in different services' databases. Relationships are by id, not foreign keys across services.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Services	Spring Boot 4.1.1 on Java 25	Consistent stack
Messaging	Kafka with outbox per service	Reliable events
Streams	Kafka Streams for ETA	Stateful joins on streams
Read models	PostgreSQL views plus Redis for live tracker	Fast reads, short-lived data
Push to apps	Server-Sent Events from the BFF	Live updates
Runtime	Kubernetes (kind), Helm or Kustomize	Realistic deploys

Milestones

1. **Domain and boundaries.** *Done when* a short document defines each service's data, commands and events, and justifies why order and kitchen are separate.
2. **Create-order saga.** *Done when* happy path and all compensations pass, including restaurant timeout after 3 minutes.
3. **Status events and read models.** *Done when* order history and restaurant board update within 2 s.
4. **Courier locations and ETA.** *Done when* 10,000 simulated couriers stream locations and the tracker shows moving positions and ETAs.
5. **Cancellation and refunds.** *Done when* consumer cancellation before PREPARING refunds, and after PREPARING is refused.
6. **Reconciliation and chaos.** *Done when* a daily job proves every charged order is delivered or refunded, including after payment and Kafka outages during a load test.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Separating hot and cold data. Locations are high-volume, short-lived and can be lost occasionally. Orders are low-volume and must never be lost. Mixing them in one service or topic means order processing waits behind location floods. Separate ingest, topics, retention and storage.

Timeouts as business events. "Restaurant did not respond in 3 minutes" is a timer, not a message. The saga needs durable timers (a scheduled table scanned by the orchestrator, or a workflow engine). In-memory timers vanish on restart.

Cancellation racing the saga. A consumer cancels while the saga is waiting for courier assignment. The order aggregate must define which transitions are allowed from each state, and the saga must check state before each step. A state machine diagram for the order is not optional.

Read model lag in decisions. Do not let the saga read from the tracker view to make decisions — it lags. Decisions use the owning service's data, read models are for display only.

Testing strategy

Saga tests with fake participants for every branch. Contract tests on all events. A domain simulator generates consumers, restaurants and couriers with realistic delays and failure rates for end-to-end and load tests. The reconciliation job doubles as a correctness test after every chaos run.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Many services mean many deploys, dashboards and on-call paths. Gains: kitchen, delivery and location ingest scale independently, and a notification outage never blocks ordering. Failure modes: stuck sagas, lost timers, location floods, read models lagging during peak, and duplicated notifications.

Stretch goals

- Courier assignment as a matching problem (nearest available courier, batching two orders).
- Surge pricing from demand and supply streams.
- Replace the hand-written saga with a durable workflow engine (Project 33).

Skills practised

- Sagas with timeouts and cancellation: Ch 10 — Saga
- Events and streams: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Read models for live tracking: Ch 12 — CQRS
- Per-client backends: Ch 4 — BFF

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a food-delivery backend in the style of FTGO: consumer, restaurant, order, kitchen, delivery, payment and notification services. Placing an order is an orchestrated saga in the order service — validate, authorise payment, restaurant accepts within 3 minutes, kitchen ticket, courier assigned — with compensations for every step and durable timers stored in the database. Status changes go out as events through outboxes and feed CQRS read models for order history, the restaurant board and a live tracker. The key design decision was separating hot from cold data: 10,000 couriers' location updates go through their own ingest service and topic to a Kafka Streams ETA processor, so they never slow down order processing. A daily reconciliation proves every charged order was delivered or refunded.

Key terms to know:

- **Orchestrated saga** — the order service drives the create-order steps and compensations from a durable state machine.
- **Durable timer** — "restaurant did not answer in 3 minutes" stored in a table or workflow engine, not in memory.

- **Order state machine** — the allowed transitions between ACCEPTED, PREPARING, READY, PICKED_UP, DELIVERED and CANCELLED.
- **Outbox per service** — each service publishes status events reliably with its business change.
- **CQRS read models** — history, restaurant board and tracker views built from events, used for display only.
- **Hot vs cold data** — high-volume, short-lived courier locations versus low-volume, must-not-lose orders.
- **Kafka Streams** — a library for stateful stream processing; used to join courier location with order destination for ETAs.
- **Reconciliation** — a daily job that checks every charge against delivery or refund.
- **Server-Sent Events** — pushing tracker updates from the BFF to apps.

Q: How would you design order placement across payment, restaurant and courier?

A: An orchestrated saga in the order service with durable state, compensations per step, durable timers for restaurant acceptance, and outbox-published events for status. Orchestration fits because the flow has many steps, timeouts and branches that need to be visible in one place.

Q: How do you handle courier location updates at scale?

A: A separate, stateless ingest path writes to a high-throughput topic with short retention, a stream processor computes ETAs, and a cache-backed read model serves the tracker — fully isolated from order processing.

Q: Can the tracker view be used to make decisions?

A: No. It is eventually consistent and for display only. Decisions such as "can this order still be cancelled?" read the owning service's data.

Q: A consumer cancels while the saga is waiting for a courier. What happens?

A: The order aggregate defines which transitions are allowed from each state; cancellation before PREPARING is allowed. The saga checks the order state before each step, sees CANCELLED, stops, and runs compensations — void payment, cancel the kitchen ticket. After PREPARING, cancellation is refused.

Q: Why can't the restaurant timeout be an in-memory timer?

A: It disappears when the instance restarts, leaving the order stuck forever. I store a deadline in a table that the orchestrator scans, or use a workflow engine with durable timers (Project 33).

Q: What happens during a payment provider outage?

A: A circuit breaker opens and new orders are refused politely at the start ("try again shortly") instead of failing halfway through the saga. Orders already past payment continue, and nothing is charged without a matching delivery or refund.

Q: Why are order and kitchen separate services?

A: They change for different reasons and at different rates: order owns the customer's purchase and its lifecycle, kitchen owns preparation and restaurant workflow. Keeping them separate lets the restaurant side evolve and scale independently, at the cost of one more saga step.

Q: What breaks first at peak?

A: Read models lag as event volume spikes, so the tracker shows old states; the location stream can flood consumers; and notification duplicates appear on retries. Partitioning, separate consumers per topic and idempotent notifications address them.

Q: How did you prove correctness?

A: Saga tests with fake participants cover every branch, contract tests cover all events, and a domain simulator drives consumers, restaurants and couriers with realistic failures. After every chaos run the reconciliation job must show zero orders charged but neither delivered nor refunded.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Putting courier locations through the same service and topic as orders.
- Using in-memory timers for business deadlines.

- Making saga decisions from a read model that lags.

TL;DR

A full delivery backend where an orchestrated saga places orders, events drive status, streams compute ETAs, and read models power live screens — with hot and cold data kept apart.

30. Ride-Hailing Dispatch with Event Streams

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 5, Ch 11, Ch 12

What it is

The core of a ride-hailing backend: drivers stream locations, riders request trips, a **dispatch** service matches requests to nearby available drivers using a geospatial index, and trip lifecycle events feed pricing, ETA and history read models. The geospatial index uses **H3**, a hexagonal grid system that maps a latitude and longitude to a cell id at a chosen resolution, so "nearby" becomes "same or neighbouring cells".

The problem it solves

Matching is a real-time, high-write, geographically partitioned problem: thousands of location updates per second, each request needing the nearest few available drivers within a second, and two dispatchers must never assign the same driver. A relational query like "order by distance" on every request does not scale. This project teaches partitioning by geography, in-memory state built from streams, and exactly-one assignment under concurrency.

Real-world examples

- Uber's introduction of H3, its open-source hexagonal grid for geospatial indexing: H3: Uber's Hexagonal Hierarchical Spatial Index.
- Uber's description of grouping microservices into domains with clear gateways, relevant to splitting dispatch from the rest: Introducing Domain-Oriented Microservice Architecture.
- Kafka Streams for building state stores from event streams: Kafka Streams.

Requirements

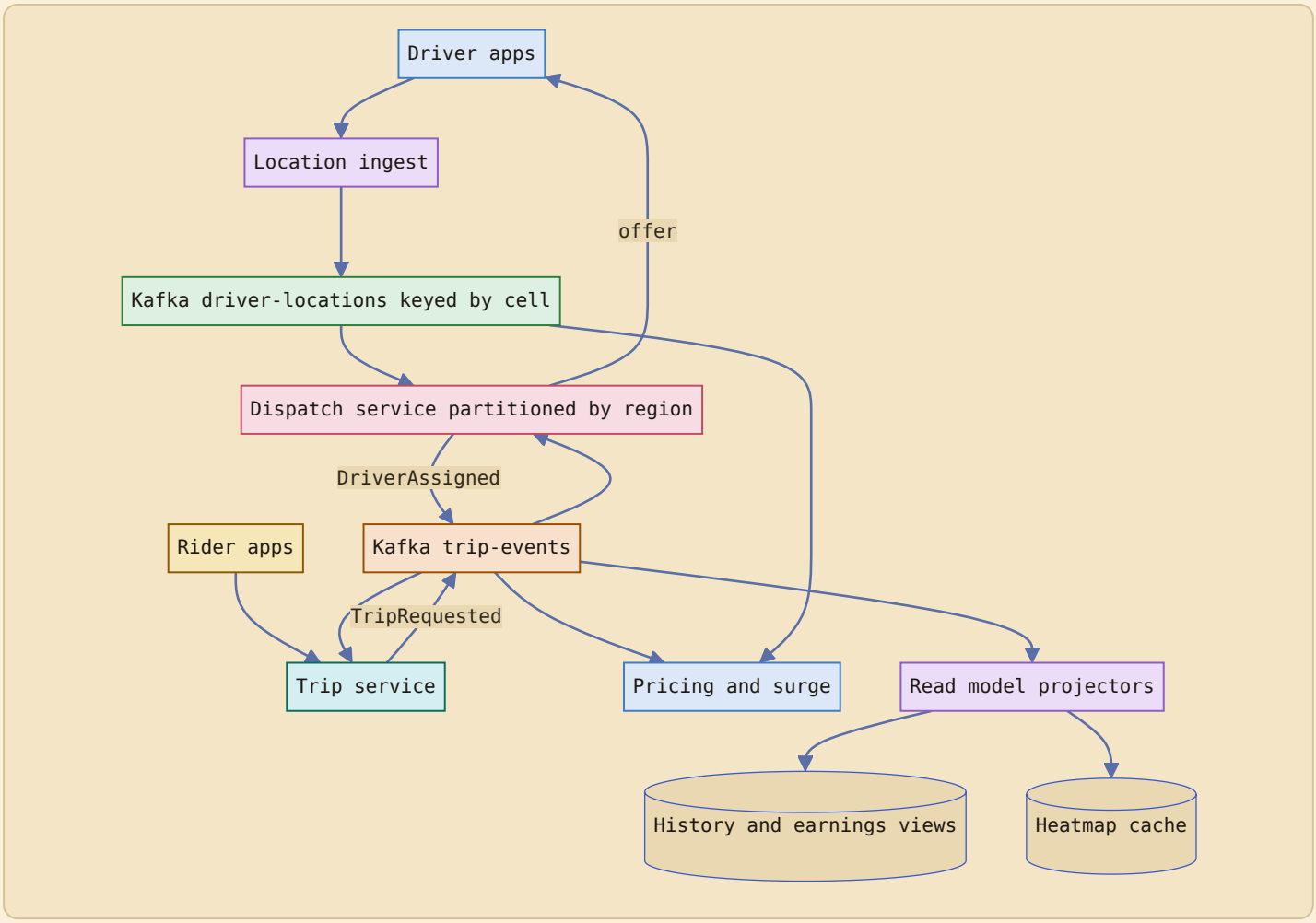
Functional

- Driver app sends location and status (available, on trip, offline) every 4 s.
- Rider requests a trip with pickup and drop-off. Dispatch finds the 5 nearest available drivers, offers to one at a time with a 10 s timeout.
- Driver accepts or declines. On accept, the driver is locked to the trip.
- Trip lifecycle: REQUESTED, MATCHED, ARRIVING, IN_PROGRESS, COMPLETED, CANCELLED.
- Fare estimate from distance, time and a surge multiplier per cell.
- Read models: rider trip history, driver earnings, live city heatmap of supply and demand.

Non-functional

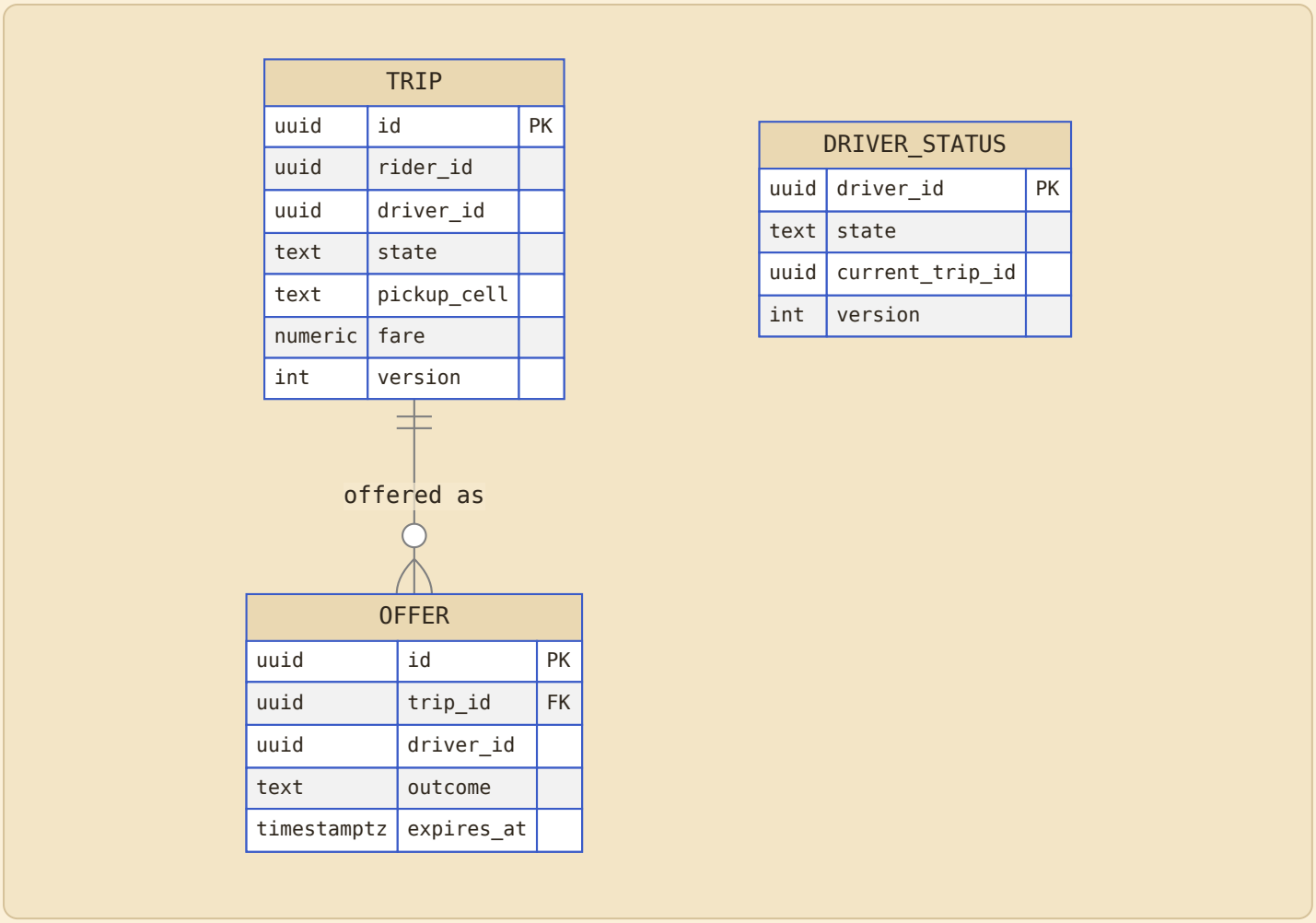
- 50,000 drivers, 12,500 location updates per second in one city simulation.
- Match latency p95 under 1 s from request to first offer.
- A driver is never assigned to two trips at once.
- Dispatch for one city partition survives an instance crash within 10 s.

The architecture



- **Location ingest** — validates and converts each update to an H3 cell, then publishes keyed by a region derived from the cell.
- **Dispatch service** — each instance owns a set of regions (Kafka partitions) and keeps an in-memory index: cell id to available drivers. Kafka's consumer-group assignment acts as the partition-to-instance discovery.
- **Trip service** — owns trips and their state machine, durable in PostgreSQL.
- **Pricing** — counts open requests and available drivers per cell over a sliding window to set surge.
- **Projectors** — build history, earnings and the heatmap.

Data model



`DRIVER_STATUS.version` enables a conditional update — assign only if the driver is still AVAILABLE at the version you read.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Geo index	H3 Java bindings	Uniform hexagon neighbours
Streams	Kafka, partitioned by region	Locality and ordering
State	In-memory index rebuilt from compacted topic	Speed, recoverable
Assignment lock	PostgreSQL conditional update, or Redis	Exactly one trip per driver
Simulator	Java 25 app with virtual threads	50,000 simulated drivers

Milestones

1. **Simulator and ingest.** *Done when* 12,500 location updates per second land in Kafka keyed by region.
2. **Geo index.** *Done when* a dispatch instance answers "5 nearest available drivers" in under 5 ms from memory.
3. **Matching with offers.** *Done when* a request produces offers, timeouts move to the next driver, and accept creates a MATCHED trip.
4. **No double assignment.** *Done when* 1,000 concurrent requests over a small area never assign a driver twice.
5. **Failover.** *Done when* killing a dispatch instance moves its regions to another, which rebuilds its index and resumes within 10 s.

6. **Surge and read models.** *Done when* the heatmap and surge multipliers update live during a simulated demand spike.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Partitioning by geography. Partition by region so all updates for an area go to one dispatch instance and its index is complete. But a pickup near a region border needs drivers from the neighbouring region. Either query the neighbour's owner, or have each instance also consume a halo of neighbouring cells read-only.

Exactly one assignment. Two dispatch decisions can pick the same driver if regions overlap or an offer times out just as the driver accepts. The final assignment must be a single atomic conditional write ("set driver to ON_TRIP where state is AVAILABLE and version is N"). The in-memory index is a hint, the database is the truth.

Rebuilding state fast. A new owner must rebuild its index. With a compacted topic of last-known driver status plus the live location stream, it reads only the latest record per driver. Measure rebuild time — it is your failover time.

Backpressure. Location bursts must not delay trip requests. Separate topics and consumer threads for locations and trip events, and allow dropping stale locations (only the latest matters).

Testing strategy

Unit tests for H3 neighbour lookups and offer state transitions. Concurrency tests for assignment. A full simulation with metrics on match latency, match rate and double assignments (must be zero). Failover tests killing dispatch instances under load.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

In-memory, partitioned state is fast but must be rebuilt on failover and requires careful border handling. Strong consistency only where it matters (assignment) keeps the rest fast. Failure modes: hot regions (an airport) overloading one partition — split it finer — stale locations, and offers to drivers whose app has gone offline.

Stretch goals

- Batch matching: collect requests for 2 s and solve an assignment problem for the batch.
- Pool rides with route compatibility checks.
- Multi-city deployment where each city is its own cell (Project 39).

Skills practised

- Partition ownership as discovery: Ch 5 — Service Discovery
- Event streams and state: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Read models for history and heatmaps: Ch 12 — CQRS
- Backpressure and isolation: Ch 7 — Bulkhead

In the interview

30-second answer: I built the core of a ride-hailing dispatch: 50,000 simulated drivers stream locations at 12,500 updates per second, each mapped to an H3 hexagon cell and published to Kafka keyed by region. Each dispatch instance owns a set of regions and keeps an in-memory index of available drivers per cell, so "5 nearest drivers" takes under 5 ms. The hardest guarantee was never assigning a driver twice: the in-memory index is only a candidate list, and the real assignment is one atomic conditional update on the driver's status and version in PostgreSQL. When an instance dies, Kafka reassigns its partitions and the new owner rebuilds its index from a compacted status topic within 10 seconds.

Key terms to know:

- **Geospatial index / H3** — a hexagonal grid that maps a latitude and longitude to a cell id; "nearby" becomes the same or neighbouring cells.
- **Partitioning by geography** — all updates for one region go to one Kafka partition and one dispatch instance.
- **Consumer-group assignment as discovery** — Kafka decides which instance owns which regions.
- **In-memory state built from streams** — the dispatch index is rebuilt from a compacted topic of latest driver status.
- **Conditional update / optimistic locking** — assign only if the driver is still AVAILABLE at the version you read.
- **Offer with timeout** — a trip is offered to one driver at a time for 10 s.
- **Border (halo) handling** — pickups near a region edge also need neighbouring regions' drivers.
- **Backpressure** — keeping location bursts from delaying trip requests; stale locations may be dropped.
- **Surge** — a price multiplier per cell from demand and supply over a sliding window.

Q: How do you find nearby drivers quickly?

A: Index drivers by a geospatial cell id like H3 in memory, partitioned by region, and search the pickup cell plus its ring of neighbours, widening the ring if too few are found. A distance sort over all drivers in a database on every request would not scale.

Q: How do you prevent assigning one driver to two riders?

A: Make assignment a single atomic conditional update on the driver's status with a version check; if zero rows change, someone else won and you try the next candidate. The in-memory index is only a hint:

```
UPDATE driver_status SET state = 'ON_TRIP', current_trip_id = :trip,
       version = version + 1
WHERE driver_id = :d AND state = 'AVAILABLE' AND version = :v;
```

Q: What happens when a dispatch node dies?

A: Its partitions are reassigned by the consumer group, and the new owner rebuilds its index from a compacted status topic plus the live stream, reading only the latest record per driver. Rebuild time is your failover time, so I measured it.

Q: Why hexagons rather than square grid cells?

A: Every hexagon's six neighbours are the same distance from its centre, while a square's corner neighbours are farther than its edge neighbours. That makes "ring of neighbours" a fair approximation of a radius and keeps neighbour lookups simple.

Q: What about a pickup right on a region border?

A: The owning instance only knows its own region's drivers. Either it asks the neighbouring region's owner for candidates, or each instance also consumes a read-only halo of neighbouring cells. The atomic assignment still protects against two regions choosing the same driver.

Q: What if the driver accepts just as the offer times out?

A: Both events race. The offer row has an `expires_at` and an outcome, and the assignment is a conditional write, so only one result commits: either the accept wins and the trip is MATCHED, or the timeout wins and the accept gets "offer expired".

Q: What breaks first at 10x?

A: Hot regions — an airport or stadium overloads one partition. Split hot regions into finer cells or more partitions. Location volume also grows, so the ingest stays stateless and scaled, and only the latest location per driver is kept.

Q: Why keep state in memory instead of a database?

A: Speed: thousands of location writes per second and sub-5 ms lookups are easy in memory and expensive in a database. It is safe because the state is recoverable from Kafka, and the one thing that needs

strong consistency — assignment — still goes to the database.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Unit tests cover H3 neighbour lookups and offer state transitions. A concurrency test fires 1,000 requests over a small area and asserts zero double assignments. The full simulation reports match latency and match rate, and failover tests kill dispatch instances under load.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Trusting the in-memory index for the final assignment.
- Forgetting region borders, so riders near an edge get poor matches.
- Using one global database query sorted by distance for every request.

TL;DR

Partition the city into hexagon cells, keep available drivers in memory per region, match with offers and an atomic assignment, and rebuild state from streams on failover.

31. Payments Platform with Idempotency and Reconciliation

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–5 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 8, Ch 10, Ch 11

What it is

An internal payments platform that other services call to charge, refund and pay out. It talks to two external payment service providers (PSPs — companies like card processors that actually move money), routes between them, guarantees that a retried request never charges twice using **idempotency keys**, records every money movement in a **double-entry ledger** (each movement is two entries, a debit and a credit, that must sum to zero), and runs daily **reconciliation** against the providers' settlement reports.

The problem it solves

Payments sit where every distributed-systems problem becomes expensive. A timeout on a charge call means you do not know whether the customer was charged. Retrying might double-charge. Not retrying might lose the sale. Providers send webhooks late, twice or out of order. And at the end of the day, your records must match the provider's to the cent. This project turns those risks into explicit mechanisms.

Real-world examples

- Stripe explains how idempotency keys make retries safe for payment APIs: Designing robust and predictable APIs with idempotency.
- Stripe's API reference for the `Idempotency-Key` header behaviour: Idempotent requests.
- The microservices.io idempotent consumer pattern for handling duplicate messages: Pattern: Idempotent Consumer.

Requirements

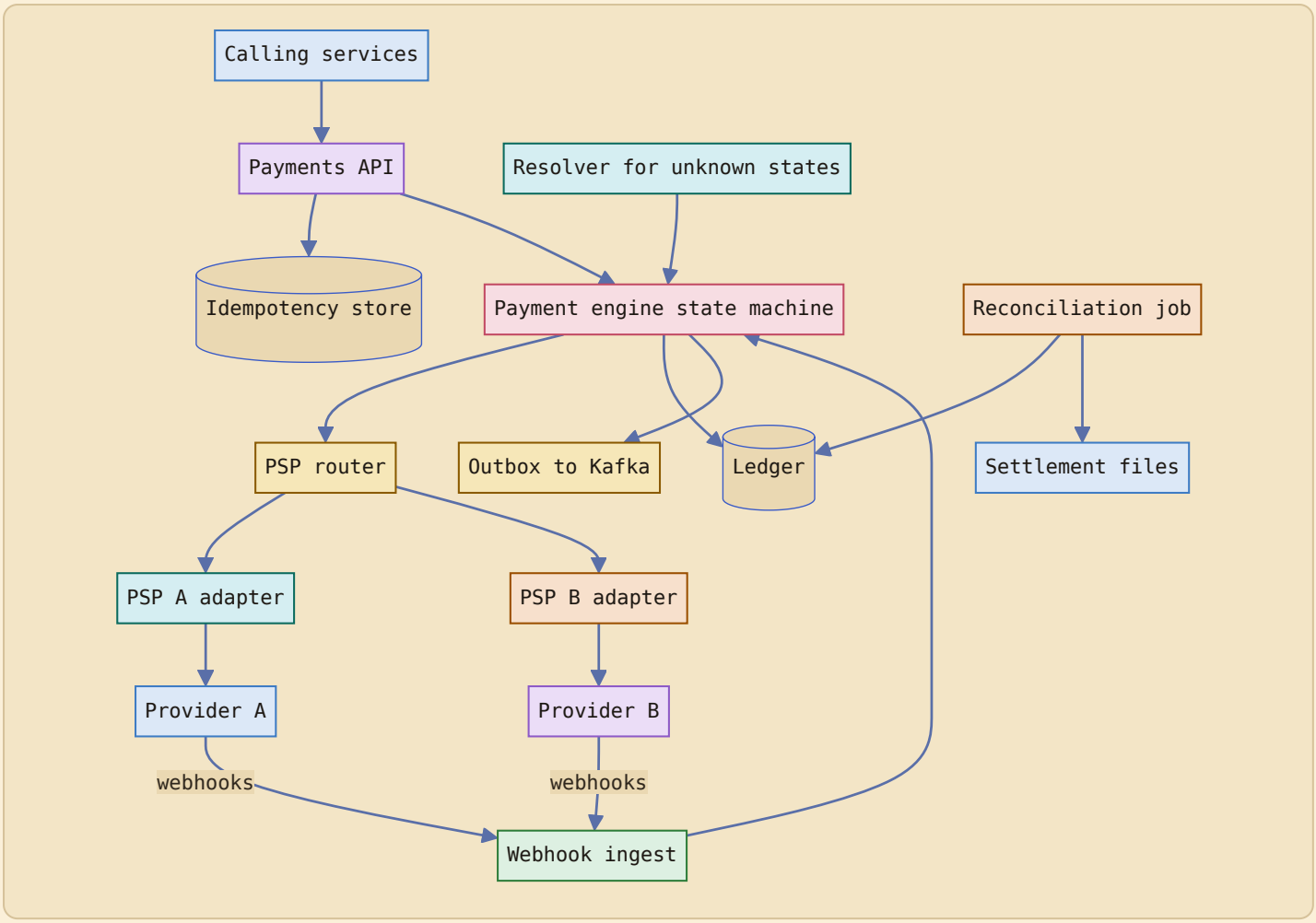
Functional

- `POST /payments` with an `Idempotency-Key` header: authorise and capture a card payment via a PSP.
- Same key and same body returns the original result. Same key with a different body is rejected.
- Refunds (full and partial) and payouts.
- PSP router: choose provider by currency and health, fail over on provider outage for new payments only.
- Webhook ingestion from PSPs, deduplicated and applied in a valid order.
- Double-entry ledger: every state change posts balanced entries.
- Daily reconciliation against provider settlement files, producing a list of breaks (mismatches).

Non-functional

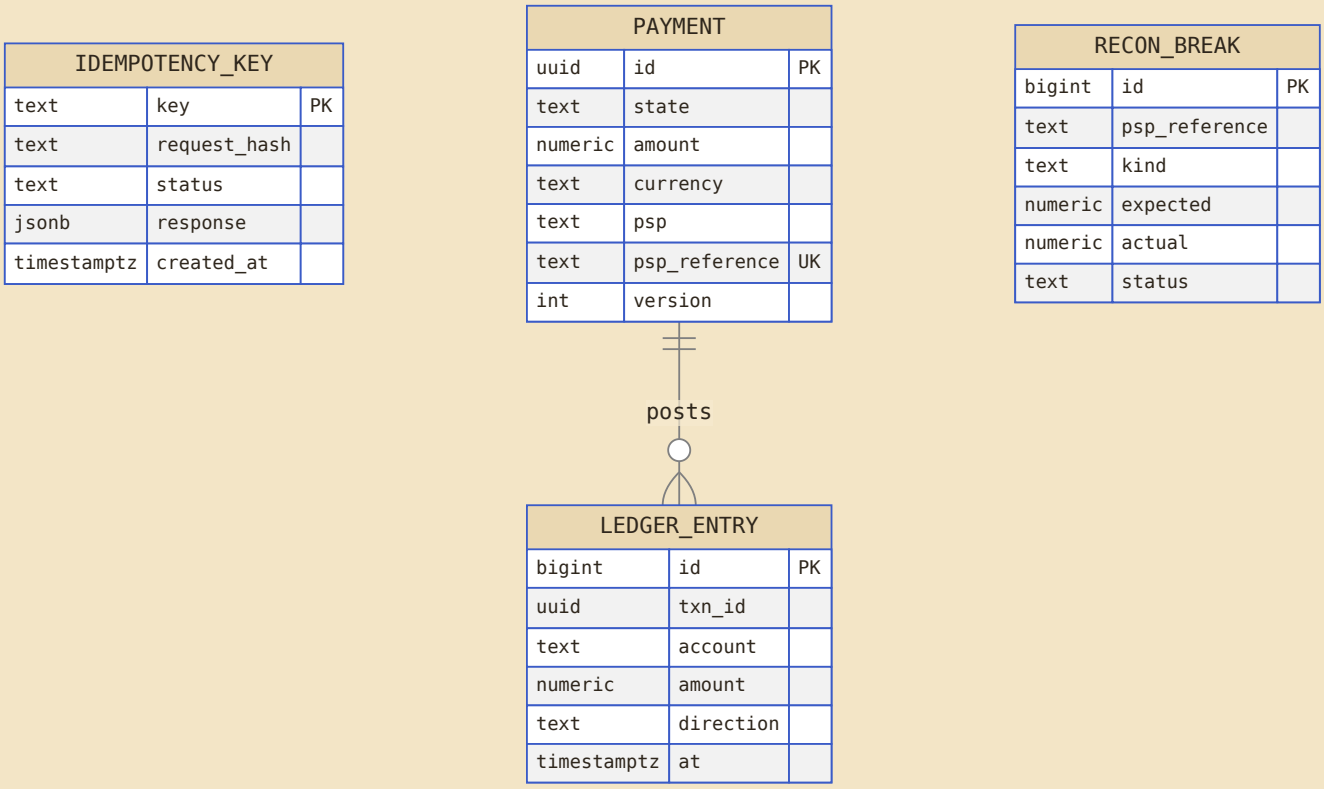
- Zero double charges under any combination of client retries, timeouts and crashes (proved by tests).
- p95 under 800 ms for a payment, dominated by the provider.
- Ledger is append-only and always balances to zero per transaction.
- Every payment in an unknown state is resolved within 15 minutes.

The architecture



- **Idempotency store** — key, request hash, status (in progress or done) and stored response. Inserted with a unique constraint before doing any work.
- **Payment engine** — a state machine per payment: CREATED, AUTHORISING, AUTHORISED, CAPTURED, FAILED, UNKNOWN, REFUNDED.
- **PSP adapters** — each provider behind one interface, with its own circuit breaker and timeouts. Each call sends our payment id as the provider's own idempotency key.
- **Resolver** — periodically asks providers for the status of UNKNOWN payments.
- **Ledger** — accounts and entries. Balances computed from entries.
- **Reconciliation** — matches ledger entries to settlement lines by provider reference and amount.

Data model



Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Services	Spring Boot 4.1.1, Java 25	Records and sealed types for states
Store	PostgreSQL, serializable transactions for ledger posting	Money needs strong guarantees
Resilience	Resilience4j breakers per PSP, no automatic retry on capture	Control over retries
Events	Outbox to Kafka	Payment status to other services
Fake PSPs	WireMock with timeouts, duplicate webhooks, delays	Repeatable chaos

Milestones

1. **Idempotent API.** *Done when* 100 parallel identical requests produce exactly one provider call and 100 identical responses.
2. **State machine and ledger.** *Done when* every transition posts balanced entries and a ledger check query returns zero for every transaction.
3. **Unknown outcomes.** *Done when* a provider timeout leaves the payment UNKNOWN, and the resolver settles it correctly without a second charge.
4. **Webhooks.** *Done when* duplicated and out-of-order webhooks never move a payment backwards or double-post.
5. **Routing and failover.** *Done when* provider A's outage routes new payments to B while in-flight A payments are resolved on A.
6. **Reconciliation.** *Done when* injected mismatches (missing, amount differs, unknown reference) all appear as breaks.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Idempotency key lifecycle. Insert the key with status IN_PROGRESS before calling the provider. A concurrent duplicate sees IN_PROGRESS and waits or gets 409 Conflict. On completion, store the response. If the process crashes mid-call, the key stays IN_PROGRESS — the resolver must finish it, and duplicates must not start a second attempt.

Timeouts are not failures. A timeout means "unknown". Never mark it failed and never blindly retry with a new provider request. Pass your own payment id as the provider's idempotency key, so a retry to the same provider is safe, and query status before deciding.

Monotonic state. Webhooks arrive late and twice. Define allowed transitions and ignore events that would move backwards (a late "authorised" after "captured"). Store processed webhook ids.

Ledger invariants. Entries are never updated. A refund posts new reversing entries. Enforce "sum of a transaction's entries equals zero" in the posting function and verify it with a scheduled check.

Testing strategy

Property-based tests over random sequences of client retries, timeouts, crashes and webhook orders, checking: provider charged at most once per payment, ledger balanced, final state consistent with provider. Fake PSPs with scripted misbehaviour. Reconciliation tests with crafted settlement files.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Correctness costs latency (synchronous idempotency inserts, serializable ledger writes). Multi-provider routing improves availability but doubles integration and reconciliation work. Failure modes: stuck UNKNOWN payments, duplicate webhooks, provider-side partial captures, currency rounding differences, and clock differences in settlement cut-off times.

Stretch goals

- Payouts to merchants with batching and a separate approval workflow.
- Multi-currency with FX rates recorded on each entry.
- Ledger partitioning by account for high write volume.

Skills practised

- Safe retries with idempotency keys: Ch 8 — Retry
- Multi-step money flows and compensation: Ch 10 — Saga
- Reliable status events and webhooks: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Per-provider breakers: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker

In the interview

30-second answer: I built an internal payments platform that charges, refunds and pays out through two external providers. Every client request carries an `Idempotency-Key` that is inserted with a unique constraint before any work, and every provider call carries our payment id as the provider's own idempotency key, so retries at either end can never charge twice. The hardest problem was timeouts: a timed-out charge goes to an UNKNOWN state and a resolver asks the provider for the real outcome, instead of failing or retrying blindly. Every movement posts balanced entries to an append-only double-entry ledger, and a daily reconciliation against settlement files lists every mismatch. 100 parallel identical requests produce exactly one provider call.

Key terms to know:

- **PSP (payment service provider)** — the external company that actually moves money, such as a card processor.
- **Idempotency key** — a client-chosen id that makes a repeated request return the original result instead of acting again.
- **Request hash** — stored with the key, so the same key with a different body is rejected.

- **UNKNOWN state** — the outcome after a timeout: the charge may or may not have happened.
- **Resolver** — a job that queries providers for UNKNOWN payments and settles them within 15 minutes.
- **Monotonic state machine** — payment states only move forward; late or duplicate webhooks cannot move them back.
- **Double-entry ledger** — every movement is a debit and a credit that sum to zero, and entries are never updated.
- **Reconciliation and breaks** — matching ledger entries with the provider's settlement lines; each mismatch is a break.
- **PSP routing and failover** — choosing a provider per payment, and sending new payments to the other provider during an outage.

Q: How do you prevent double charges on retries?

A: Clients send an idempotency key. The server records it with status IN_PROGRESS before doing any work and returns the stored result for repeats. Calls to the provider carry our payment id as their idempotency key too, so even our own retries to the provider are safe.

Q: What do you do when the provider times out?

A: Mark the payment UNKNOWN, do not retry blindly and do not send it to the other provider. The resolver queries the provider for that payment id and acts only on the real answer. A timeout is "I don't know", not "no".

Q: Why double-entry?

A: Every movement is balanced, so errors show up as a non-zero sum, and balances are derived from an immutable history that auditors can verify. A refund posts new reversing entries rather than editing old ones.

Q: What is reconciliation for?

A: Proving your records match the provider's settlements and catching anything the online path missed — a webhook that never arrived, a partial capture, a rounding difference. It is the final safety net for correctness.

Q: What happens when two identical requests arrive at the same moment?

A: Both try to insert the same key; the unique constraint lets only one win. The loser sees IN_PROGRESS and either waits for the stored response or gets 409 Conflict. Exactly one provider call is made — my test fires 100 in parallel to prove it.

Q: What if the process crashes after inserting the key but before the provider answers?

A: The key stays IN_PROGRESS. A duplicate must not start a second attempt; instead, the resolver finds stuck payments and asks the provider, then completes the key with the real outcome so later retries get the right answer.

Q: How do you handle duplicate or out-of-order webhooks?

A: Store processed webhook ids to drop duplicates, and only allow forward transitions — a late "authorised" after "captured" is ignored. Each transition and its ledger entries are written in one transaction with a version check.

Q: Provider A goes down. What happens?

A: A's circuit breaker opens and the router sends new payments to B. Payments already in flight on A stay with A and are resolved there later, because moving them could charge twice.

Q: What changes at 10x volume?

A: The ledger becomes a write hotspot, so partition entries by account or time and keep posting transactions short. Idempotency keys need expiry and cleanup. Reconciliation moves from one daily job to streaming matching, and per-provider rate limits start to matter.

Q: How did you test "zero double charges"?

A: Property-based tests generate random sequences of client retries, timeouts, crashes and webhook orders against fake providers in WireMock, and check invariants: the provider charged at most once per

payment, the ledger is balanced, and the final state matches the provider. Reconciliation is tested with crafted settlement files.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Treating a timeout as a failure and retrying with a new provider request.
- Generating the idempotency key on the server per request — it must come from the client and stay the same across retries.
- Updating ledger rows instead of posting reversing entries.

TL;DR

Idempotency keys at both ends, a monotonic state machine, an append-only double-entry ledger and daily reconciliation — so retries and timeouts can never cost a customer twice.

32. Active-Active Multi-Region Deployment

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 5, Ch 6, Ch 13

What it is

A user-profile and preferences service (plus a small shopping-list feature) deployed **active-active** in two regions: both regions serve reads and writes at the same time, users are routed to the nearest healthy region, data replicates asynchronously between them, and either region can take all traffic if the other fails. You simulate regions with two kind clusters and a latency-injecting network between them.

The problem it solves

A single-region system is down when that region is down. Active-passive failover often fails when needed because the passive side was never tested under load. Active-active keeps both sides proven, but introduces the hardest problems in distributed data: concurrent writes in two places, replication lag, and deciding where each request goes.

Real-world examples

- Netflix describes its move to active-active across AWS regions and the traffic shifting it needed: Active-Active for Multi-Regional Resiliency.
- Microsoft's deployment stamps pattern covers independent regional copies of an application: Deployment Stamps pattern.
- Kafka's documentation covers geo-replication between clusters with MirrorMaker: Apache Kafka documentation.

Requirements

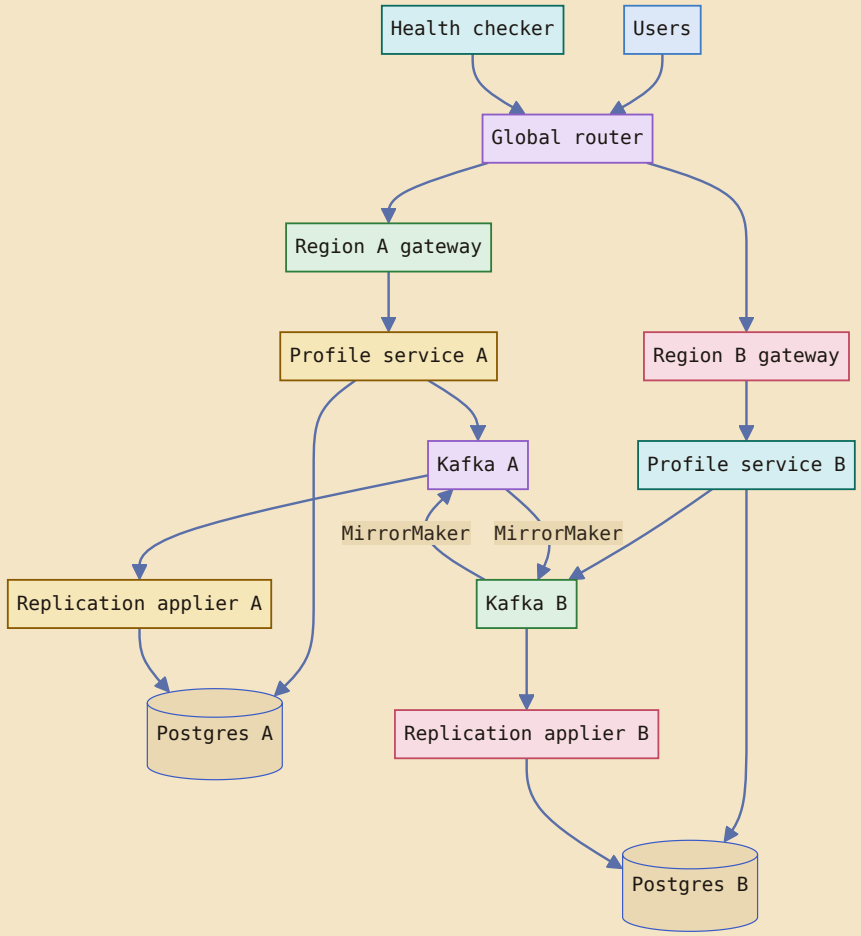
Functional

- Global router sends each user to their home region if healthy, otherwise to the other region.
- Profile writes in either region replicate to the other within seconds.
- Conflicting concurrent edits resolve deterministically (field-level last-writer-wins with hybrid timestamps, and shopping lists merged as sets).
- Region evacuation: drain a region via a config change.
- Region-local config with global overrides.

Non-functional

- Replication lag p95 under 2 s with 80 ms simulated inter-region latency.
- Failover of all traffic to one region in under 60 s, with no manual steps beyond one command.
- Each region can absorb 100% of traffic (capacity tested).
- No request crosses regions synchronously on the hot path.

The architecture



- **Global router** — in production a DNS or anycast load balancer. Locally, an Envoy instance with health checks and weighted routing.
- **Regional stacks** — complete copies: gateway, services, databases, Kafka. No shared runtime dependency between regions.
- **Replication** — each service writes changes to its local Kafka via an outbox. MirrorMaker 2 copies topics across. Appliers in the other region merge changes into the local database.
- **Health checker** — synthetic requests per region feeding the router.

Data model

PROFILE		
uuid	user_id	PK
text	home_region	
text	display_name	
text	display_name_hlc	
text	language	
text	language_hlc	

LIST_ITEM		
uuid	id	PK
uuid	user_id	
text	item	
boolean	removed	
text	hlc	
text	origin_region	

APPLIED_CHANGE		
uuid	change_id	PK
text	origin_region	
timestamptz	applied_at	

Each field carries a hybrid logical clock value (HLC — a timestamp combining wall-clock time with a counter, so ordering is consistent even with small clock skew). List removals are tombstones (`removed = true`) so a delete is not undone by a late add.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Regions	Two kind clusters on separate Docker networks	Cheap simulation
Latency	tc netem or Toxiproxy between clusters	Realistic lag
Replication	Outbox → Kafka → MirrorMaker 2 → applier	Asynchronous, replayable
Router	Envoy with active health checks	Weighted and failover routing
Config	Region-scoped config server profiles	Evacuation switch

Milestones

1. **Two independent regions.** *Done when* each region serves its own users end to end with no cross-region calls.
2. **One-way replication.** *Done when* writes in A appear in B within 2 s.
3. **Two-way with conflict resolution.** *Done when* simultaneous edits of the same profile in both regions converge to the same result in both databases.
4. **Routing and evacuation.** *Done when* one command drains region A and traffic moves to B within 60 s with no errors.
5. **Failure drill.** *Done when* cutting the inter-region link for 10 minutes, then restoring it, leaves both regions consistent with no lost writes.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Choose which data can be multi-master. Preferences and shopping lists merge well. Account balances or unique usernames do not. For those, use a *home region* per user: writes go to the home region only (routed there even if slightly farther), and the other region serves reads. Many real systems mix both approaches.

Conflict resolution. Last-writer-wins per field with HLC timestamps is simple and deterministic but silently drops one edit. Sets with tombstones (a simple CRDT — a data type designed to merge concurrent changes without conflicts) merge adds and removes correctly. Decide per field, and document what users may see.

Replication loops and ordering. A change applied from A must not be re-published by B back to A. Tag changes with origin region and skip them. Within a user, changes must apply in HLC order, so key topics by user id.

Capacity for failover. If each region runs at 70% utilisation, failover doubles load and both fail in turn. Keep each region below 50% or be able to scale up fast, and test it.

Testing strategy

Convergence tests: random concurrent edits in both regions, then wait and assert both databases are identical. Partition tests with the link cut. Failover drills under load with error-rate checks. Clock-skew tests (shift one region's clock by 500 ms).

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Active-active doubles infrastructure and operational complexity, and forces you to accept eventual consistency across regions. The benefit is real availability and lower latency for distant users. Failure modes: split-brain writes during partitions, replication backlog after long outages, silent last-writer-wins data loss, and failover overloading the surviving region.

Stretch goals

- A third region and a quorum-based health decision.
- Per-user home region migration when a user moves continents.
- Measure the recovery point (data lost) and recovery time in each drill.

Skills practised

- Routing to healthy locations: Ch 5 — Service Discovery
- Failing over instead of failing: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker
- Region-scoped config and evacuation: Ch 13 — Config Externalization
- Asynchronous replication via events: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I deployed a profile and shopping-list service active-active in two simulated regions — two kind clusters with 80 ms of injected latency between them. Both regions take reads and writes, a global router sends each user to their home region if healthy, and changes replicate asynchronously through an outbox, Kafka and MirrorMaker 2 to an applier in the other region. The hardest problem was concurrent edits: simple fields use last-writer-wins with hybrid logical clocks, shopping lists merge as sets with tombstones, and data that cannot conflict stays home-region only. Replication lag is under 2 s p95, and one command drains a region in under 60 s; after cutting the inter-region link for 10 minutes, both regions converged with no lost writes.

Key terms to know:

- **Active-active** — every region serves reads and writes at the same time.
- **Active-passive** — one region serves; the other waits to take over.
- **Asynchronous replication** — changes are copied after commit, so regions can briefly disagree (eventual consistency).
- **Home region** — the one region allowed to write a user's strongly consistent data.
- **Last-writer-wins (LWW)** — the change with the later timestamp wins; simple but silently drops one edit.
- **Hybrid logical clock (HLC)** — wall-clock time plus a counter, giving a consistent order despite small clock skew.
- **CRDT and tombstones** — data types that merge concurrent changes without conflict; a tombstone marks a delete so a late add does not undo it.
- **Region evacuation** — draining all traffic from a region through config.
- **RPO / RTO** — how much data you can lose and how long recovery takes.

Q: Active-active or active-passive?

A: Active-passive is simpler but the passive side is rarely tested under real load and failover is slow, so it often fails exactly when needed. Active-active keeps both sides proven and serves users nearby, at the cost of multi-region write conflicts and double infrastructure.

Q: How do you resolve conflicting writes?

A: Per data type: last-writer-wins with hybrid clocks for simple fields, merges or CRDTs for sets and counters, and a single home region for data that must be strongly consistent, such as account balances or unique usernames.

Q: What must you test?

A: Evacuation and failover under load, link partitions and convergence afterwards, clock skew, and that one region can carry all traffic.

Q: Why can't usernames be multi-master?

A: Two regions can both accept "alice" for different users during the replication delay, and no merge rule makes both correct. Uniqueness needs one place that decides, so those writes go to a home region or a global strongly consistent store.

Q: How do you prevent replication loops?

A: Tag each change with its origin region and change id. Appliers skip changes that originated locally and record applied change ids, so a change from A applied in B is never re-published back to A.

Q: Why is a hybrid logical clock better than wall-clock time?

A: Wall clocks on different machines drift; with plain timestamps, a write that happened later can lose because its machine's clock was behind. An HLC moves forward past any timestamp it has seen, so causally later changes always have larger values, even with small skew.

Q: What happens during a network partition between regions?

A: Both regions keep serving their users and queue changes for replication. Conflicting edits are possible (split-brain writes for multi-master data). When the link returns, MirrorMaker catches up, appliers merge by the conflict rules, and the convergence test checks both databases are identical.

Q: What breaks if each region normally runs at 70% load?

A: On failover the surviving region gets 140% and falls over too — a cascading failure. Keep each region under 50%, or be able to scale up very quickly, and prove it with a capacity test at 100% of traffic.

Q: How did you prove convergence?

A: Random concurrent edits in both regions, then wait and assert both databases are identical. Partition tests cut the link, clock-skew tests shift one region by 500 ms, and failover drills under load check error rates.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Making cross-region synchronous calls on the hot path, which ties both regions' latency and availability together.
- Using last-writer-wins everywhere without admitting it silently loses edits.
- Never testing that one region can carry all the traffic.

TL;DR

Two complete regions serving at once, asynchronous replication with deterministic conflict rules, a home region for data that cannot conflict, and drills that prove failover works.

33. Durable Workflow Engine

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 8, Ch 10

What it is

A small **durable execution** engine in Java: developers write a workflow as ordinary sequential code (`charge(); reserve(); ship();` with sleeps and waits for signals), and the engine makes it survive crashes, restarts and deploys by recording every step's result in an event history and *replaying* the code to rebuild its state. *Activities* are the side-effecting steps (calling a service) that the engine retries with backoff. This is the core idea behind Temporal and Cadence, built small enough to understand.

The problem it solves

Sagas, timeouts and retries written by hand (Projects 11 and 29) spread a business process across state tables, timers and message handlers. The logic becomes hard to read and easy to break. A workflow engine lets you write the process as plain code while the engine handles persistence, timers, retries and recovery.

Real-world examples

- Temporal, the durable execution platform that grew out of Uber's Cadence: Temporal documentation.
- Netflix Conductor, an orchestration engine now maintained by the community as Conductor OSS: conductor-oss/conductor.
- The 1987 sagas paper, whose long-lived transaction idea these engines implement: Sagas (PDF).

Requirements

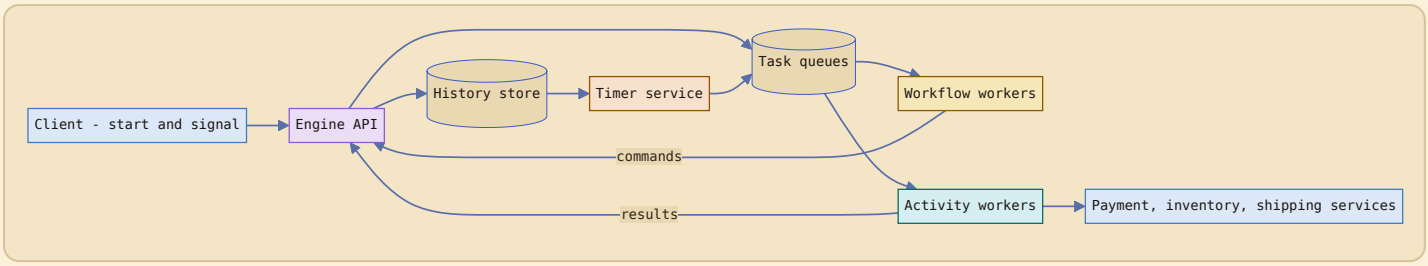
Functional

- Workflow API: `@WorkflowMethod`, activity stubs, `Workflow.sleep(Duration)`, `Workflow.await(signal)`.
- Engine persists a history: workflow started, activity scheduled, activity completed or failed, timer fired, signal received.
- Workers poll task queues for workflow tasks and activity tasks.
- Activity retries with exponential backoff, maximum attempts and non-retryable error types.
- Durable timers that fire after restarts (sleeping for days is fine).
- Query current workflow state and send signals over HTTP.
- Port the order saga from Project 11 onto the engine.

Non-functional

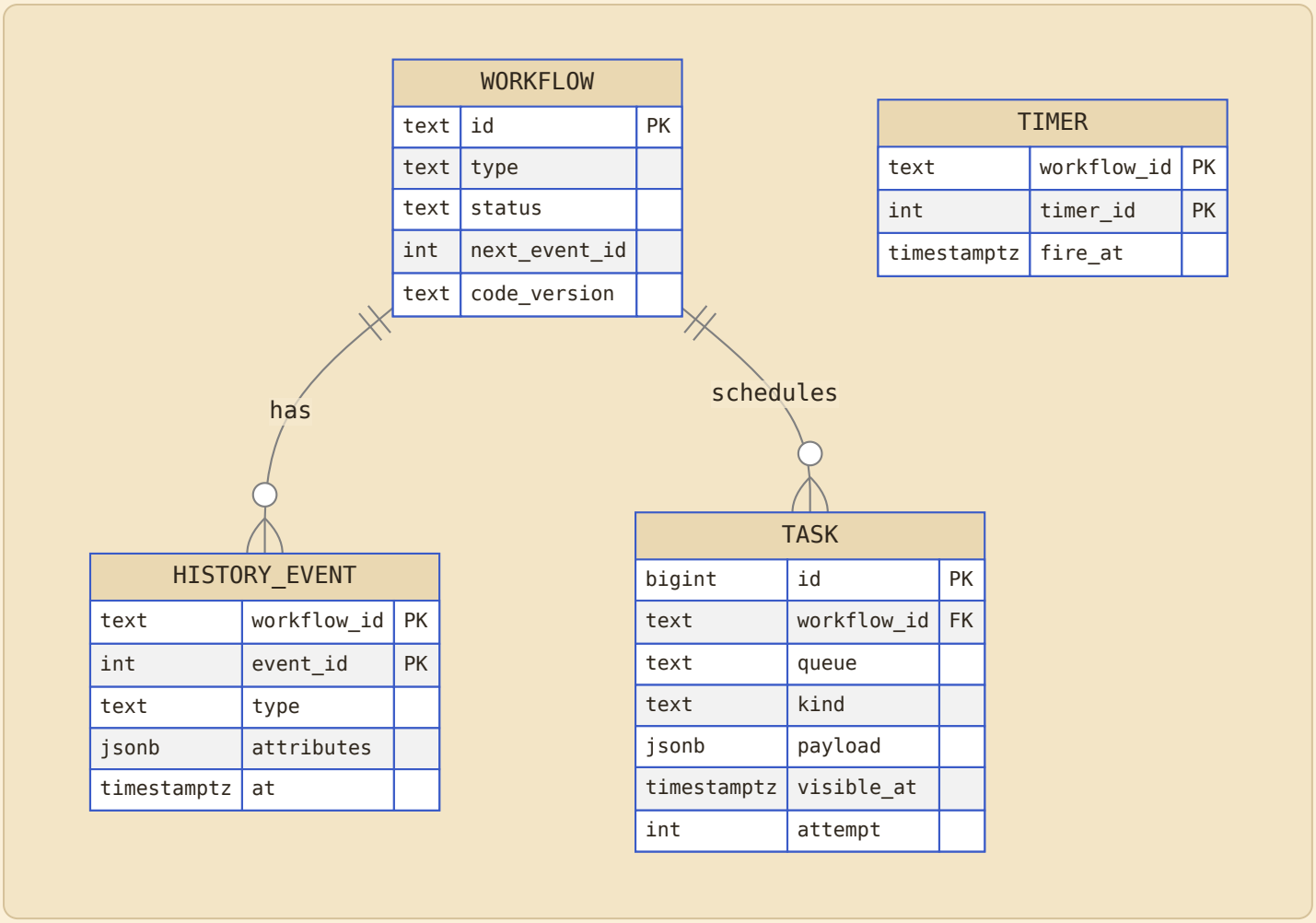
- A worker crash at any point resumes the workflow on another worker with no duplicated completed activities.
- 1,000 concurrent workflows, 100 activity executions per second on a laptop.
- Workflow code changes must not break running workflows (versioning).

The architecture



- **History store** — PostgreSQL table of events per workflow id, appended with optimistic concurrency.
- **Task queues** — PostgreSQL tables polled with `FOR UPDATE SKIP LOCKED` (simple and transactional).
- **Workflow worker** — loads history, replays the workflow code from the start, feeding recorded results to each call, until it reaches new work. It then returns commands (schedule activity, start timer, complete).
- **Activity worker** — runs the real side effect and reports the result.
- **Timer service** — scans for due timers and enqueues workflow tasks.

Data model



Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Engine	Plain Java 25 + Spring Boot 4.1.1 for the API	Readable core
Store and queues	PostgreSQL	One transactional store
Workflow execution	Virtual threads, one per replay	Sequential code that blocks cheaply
Comparison	Temporal Java SDK	Check your design against the real thing

Milestones

1. **History and replay.** *Done when* a three-activity workflow completes and replaying its history reproduces the same commands without calling activities again.
2. **Crash recovery.** *Done when* killing workers at random during 1,000 workflows still completes all of them, with each activity's side effect performed once per successful completion record.
3. **Retries and timers.** *Done when* failing activities retry with backoff and a 1-hour sleep (shortened clock in tests) survives an engine restart.
4. **Signals and queries.** *Done when* an approval workflow waits for a human signal and exposes its state.
5. **Port the saga.** *Done when* Project 11's order saga is one readable method with try/catch compensations.
6. **Versioning.** *Done when* changing the workflow code does not break workflows started on the old version.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Determinism. Rebuilding state by re-running the code is safe only when, fed the same history, the code issues exactly the same commands as before. Calls to `System.currentTimeMillis()`, random numbers, direct HTTP calls or iterating a `HashMap` break it. Provide engine versions (`Workflow.now()`, `Workflow.random()`) that return recorded values, and detect non-determinism by comparing replayed commands with history.

Activities run at least once. A worker can complete the side effect and crash before reporting. The engine retries, so activities must be idempotent — pass the workflow id and activity id as an idempotency key to downstream services.

Versioning running workflows. A workflow started last week replays with today's code. Inserting a new step shifts every later event. Use version markers (`Workflow.getVersion("add-fraud-check", 1)`) so old histories follow the old branch.

History growth. A workflow that loops forever accumulates unbounded history. Provide "continue as new": complete the current run and start a fresh one with carried-over state.

Testing strategy

Replay tests: record histories from runs and replay them against the current code in CI — any mismatch is a non-determinism bug. Crash-injection tests at every engine step. A time-skipping test clock to test long timers instantly.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Durable execution makes complex processes readable and reliable, but imposes determinism rules on developers and makes the engine a critical dependency. PostgreSQL queues are fine for moderate scale. Real engines shard history and queues. Failure modes: non-determinism after deploys, stuck workflows waiting for signals that never come, and history bloat.

Stretch goals

- Child workflows and parallel activity fan-out with `Promise.all`-style joins.
- Shard workflows across several databases by workflow id hash.
- A small UI to inspect history and reset a workflow to an earlier point.

Skills practised

- Sagas as code: Ch 10 — Saga
- Retry policies with backoff: Ch 8 — Retry
- Events as history: Ch 11 — Event-Driven

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a small durable execution engine in the style of Temporal: developers write a workflow as plain sequential Java — charge, reserve, ship, sleep, wait for a signal — and the engine records every step's result in a PostgreSQL event history. After a crash, a worker replays the code from the start, feeding recorded results back, until it reaches new work. Activities, the steps with side effects, are retried with backoff and must be idempotent because they run at least once. The hardest rule is determinism, which I enforce by replaying recorded histories against new code in CI. I ported the Project 11 order saga into one readable method with try/catch compensations, and 1,000 workflows complete correctly while workers are killed at random.

Key terms to know:

- **Durable execution** — code whose progress survives crashes and deploys because every step is recorded.
- **Workflow vs activity** — the deterministic orchestration code versus the side-effecting steps it calls.

- **Event history** — the append-only record of a workflow: started, activity scheduled/completed, timer fired, signal received.
- **Replay** — re-running workflow code with recorded results substituted to rebuild its state.
- **Determinism** — given the same history, the code issues the same commands. Time, randomness and I/O must go through the engine.
- **Task queue** — workflow and activity tasks in PostgreSQL tables, taken with `FOR UPDATE SKIP LOCKED`.
- **Durable timer** — a sleep stored as a row with `fire_at`, so it survives restarts.
- **Signal and query** — sending an external event into a running workflow, and reading its current state.
- **Workflow versioning** — `getVersion` markers so old histories follow old code paths.
- **Continue-as-new** — ending a long-running workflow and starting a fresh one to bound history size.

Q: How does a durable workflow survive a crash?

A: Every step's result is stored in a history. On recovery, the code is replayed from the beginning with recorded results substituted, until it reaches the first step that has not happened yet, and continues from there.

Q: Why must workflow code be deterministic?

A: Replay must make the same decisions as the original run, or the recorded history no longer matches the commands the code produces. `System.currentTimeMillis()`, random numbers, direct HTTP calls and `HashMap` iteration order all break it, so the engine provides `Workflow.now()` and `Workflow.random()` that return recorded values.

Q: When would you use a workflow engine instead of choreography?

A: For long-running, multi-step processes with timers, human steps and compensations, where readability and recovery matter more than full decoupling.

Q: Why do activities run at least once?

A: A worker can perform the side effect and crash before reporting completion; the engine sees no result and retries. So activities pass the workflow id plus activity id as an idempotency key to downstream services.

Q: How do you change workflow code while old workflows are still running?

A: A workflow started last week replays with today's code, and inserting a step shifts every later event. Wrap the change in a version marker — `Workflow.getVersion("add-fraud-check", 1)` — that is recorded in history, so old runs take the old branch and new runs the new one.

Q: How does a one-hour (or one-week) sleep work?

A: `Workflow.sleep` records a timer with a `fire_at` time and the workflow stops running. The timer service scans for due timers and enqueues a workflow task; a worker replays the history, sees the timer fired, and continues. Nothing sits in memory, so restarts do not matter.

Q: Hand-written saga versus workflow engine?

A: The hand-written saga spreads one process across state tables, timers and message handlers. The engine lets you write it as one method with try/catch compensations, at the cost of determinism rules and a critical new dependency.

Q: What breaks first at 100x workflows?

A: PostgreSQL task queues and history writes become hot, and replaying long histories gets slow. Real engines shard history and queues by workflow id, cache workflow state in workers to avoid full replays, and use continue-as-new to bound history.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Replay tests record histories from real runs and replay them against the current code in CI — any mismatch is a non-determinism bug. Crash-injection tests kill workers at every engine step, and a time-skipping clock tests long timers instantly.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Thinking the workflow code itself runs once. It is re-executed on every replay; only activities have real effects.
- Calling external services or reading the clock directly in workflow code.
- Saying activities run exactly once. They run at least once and must be idempotent.

TL;DR

Record every step, replay the code to recover, make activities idempotent and keep workflow code deterministic — and sagas become ordinary methods.

34. Observability Platform with Tail Sampling and SLOs

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 3–4 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 6, Ch 9

What it is

A complete observability pipeline for a 10-service system: OpenTelemetry collectors deployed as agents (per node) and as a gateway tier, **tail-based sampling** that keeps every error and slow trace but only a fraction of normal ones, metrics derived from spans, logs correlated with traces, and **SLOs** — service level objectives, explicit targets such as "99.5% of checkout requests succeed in under 800 ms over 28 days" — with **burn-rate alerts** that fire when the error budget is being spent too fast.

The problem it solves

Tracing everything is too expensive at scale, and head sampling throws away the very traces you need. Alerting on CPU or on every error page wakes people for nothing. A good platform keeps the interesting data, reduces the rest, and alerts on user-visible symptoms measured against an agreed target.

Real-world examples

- Google's SRE workbook chapter on alerting on SLOs and multi-window burn rates: Alerting on SLOs.
- OpenTelemetry's explanation of head and tail sampling: Sampling.
- The OTel Collector architecture with agents and gateways: OpenTelemetry Collector.

Requirements

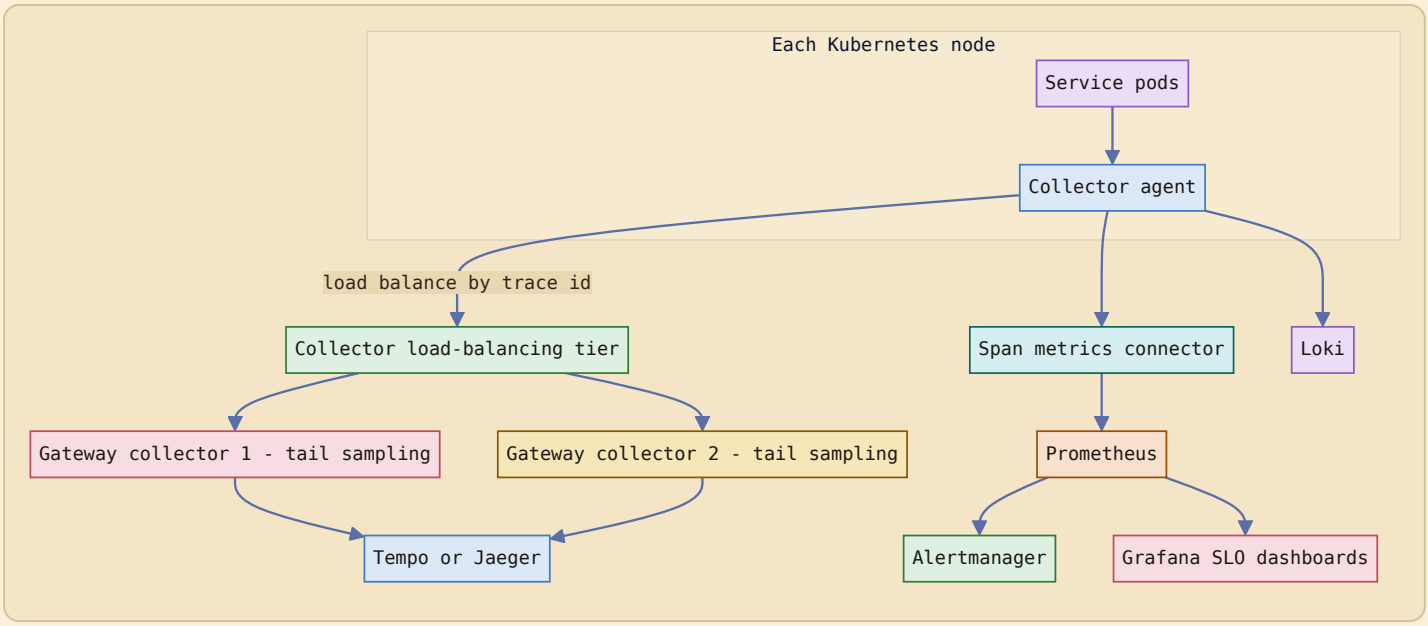
Functional

- All services emit OTLP traces, metrics and logs.
- Agent collectors (DaemonSet) forward to a gateway tier. The gateway tier does tail sampling: keep 100% of traces with errors or duration over 1 s, 100% for a "debug" tenant, 5% of the rest.
- Span metrics: request rate, errors and duration per service and route, computed before sampling.
- SLOs for checkout availability and latency, with error budget dashboards.
- Multi-window burn-rate alerts (fast: 1 h and 5 min windows, slow: 6 h and 30 min).

Non-functional

- Pipeline handles 20,000 spans per second with under 1% drop.
- Trace storage reduced by at least 80% compared with keeping everything.
- Alert fires within 5 minutes of a fast budget burn, and does not fire for a 2-minute blip.

The architecture



- **Agents** — receive OTLP from local pods, add Kubernetes metadata, compute span metrics from all spans, and forward traces.
- **Load-balancing tier** — routes every span of a trace to the same gateway, keyed by trace id. Tail sampling needs the whole trace in one place.
- **Gateway collectors** — buffer traces for a decision window (for example 10 s), then apply sampling policies.
- **Prometheus and Alertmanager** — recording rules compute SLIs (service level indicators — the measured ratios) and burn rates, and alert rules page.

Data model

Concept	Definition	Example
SLI	good events divided by valid events	requests under 800 ms and not 5xx, over all requests
SLO	target for SLI over a window	99.5% over 28 days
Error budget	1 minus SLO	0.5% of requests may be bad
Burn rate	observed bad ratio divided by budget ratio	14.4 means a month's budget gone in about 2 days
Sampling policy	condition and keep rate	status ERROR keep 100%

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Collectors	OpenTelemetry Collector (contrib distribution)	Tail sampling, load balancing, span metrics
Traces	Grafana Tempo	Cheap object storage backend
Metrics and alerts	Prometheus + Alertmanager	Standard, PromQL recording rules
Logs	Loki	Trace id correlation
Load	k6 plus a fault injector	Generates errors and slow traces on demand

Milestones

1. **Agents and gateway.** *Done when* all 10 services' traces, metrics and logs reach their backends through the collector tiers.
2. **Span metrics before sampling.** *Done when* request rates in Prometheus match k6's numbers even though most traces are dropped.
3. **Tail sampling.** *Done when* every injected error trace is kept, about 5% of normal ones are, and storage drops by over 80%.
4. **SLOs and dashboards.** *Done when* dashboards show SLI, remaining error budget and burn rate for checkout.
5. **Burn-rate alerts.** *Done when* a 10% error injection pages within 5 minutes and a 2-minute blip does not.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Whole traces in one place. Spans of one trace arrive from many nodes. If they land on different gateways, each sees a partial trace and may make different decisions. The load-balancing exporter hashes trace id to a gateway. Scaling the gateway tier reshuffles the hash — expect a short period of split traces.

Metrics before sampling. If you compute request rates from sampled traces, numbers are wrong. Generate span metrics at the agent from every span, then sample traces.

Burn-rate alerting. Alerting when the error ratio exceeds the SLO pages on every short spike. Burn-rate alerts ask "at this rate, how fast will the budget run out?" and require both a long and a short window to agree, so they fire quickly on real incidents and reset quickly once fixed.

Cardinality. Span metrics with a `user_id` label would create millions of series. Allow-list attributes that become metric labels.

Testing strategy

Pipeline tests that send synthetic traces with known properties and assert which are kept. Load tests at 20,000 spans per second measuring drops (collector metrics expose them). Alert tests using Prometheus rule unit tests (`promtool test rules`) with synthetic series.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Tail sampling needs memory for buffered traces and a stateful routing tier. Decision windows delay trace availability. SLOs need agreement with product owners on what "good" means. Failure modes: collector memory pressure dropping data, broken trace routing after scaling, alert fatigue from badly chosen SLOs, and dashboards nobody uses.

Stretch goals

- Exemplars: link a latency histogram bucket directly to an example trace.
- Per-tenant sampling and SLOs.
- Automated SLO reports per service each week.

Skills practised

- Collectors as sidecars and agents: Ch 9 — Sidecar
- Seeing resilience mechanisms in action: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker
- Request ids and edges: Ch 3 — API Gateway

In the interview

30-second answer: I built an observability pipeline for a 10-service system: OpenTelemetry collector agents on every node send to a load-balancing tier that routes all spans of a trace, by trace id, to the same gateway collector, which tail-samples — keeping every error and slow trace but only 5% of normal ones. Span metrics are computed at the agent from every span before sampling, so request rates stay exact while trace storage dropped by over 80%. On top I defined

SLOs for checkout with error budgets, and multi-window burn-rate alerts that page within 5 minutes for a real incident but stay quiet for a 2-minute blip. The pipeline handles 20,000 spans per second with under 1% drop.

Key terms to know:

- **Tail-based sampling** — deciding whether to keep a trace after it is complete, so errors and slow traces can always be kept.
- **Agent vs gateway collector** — a per-node collector close to the apps, and a central tier that does heavier processing such as tail sampling.
- **Load-balancing exporter** — routes all spans of a trace to the same gateway by hashing the trace id.
- **Span metrics** — rate, errors and duration computed from spans, before sampling, so they count every request.
- **SLI** — service level indicator: good events divided by valid events.
- **SLO** — a target for an SLI over a window (99.5% over 28 days).
- **Error budget** — 1 minus the SLO; the amount of failure you are allowed.
- **Burn rate** — how fast the budget is being spent relative to plan; 1 means exactly on budget.
- **Multi-window alert** — requires a long and a short window to both exceed the burn-rate threshold.
- **Cardinality** — number of distinct label combinations; high-cardinality labels explode metric storage.

Q: Why tail sampling instead of head sampling?

A: Tail sampling decides after seeing the whole trace, so it can keep all errors and slow requests while dropping most normal ones. Head sampling decides before anything has happened and drops errors at the same rate as successes.

Q: What is an error budget?

A: The amount of failure the SLO allows over a window — at 99.5%, 0.5% of requests may be bad. When it is being spent quickly, reliability work takes priority; when there is budget left, teams can ship faster. It turns reliability into a shared, measurable agreement.

Q: Why multi-window burn-rate alerts?

A: They page quickly for severe problems, ignore short blips, and stop alerting soon after recovery. The long window (for example 1 hour) proves the burn is significant; the short window (5 minutes) proves it is still happening.

Q: What does a burn rate of 14.4 mean?

A: You are spending budget 14.4 times faster than the steady rate that would use it exactly over the window. With a 30-day window, that empties the whole month's budget in about two days — and spends 2% of it in a single hour, which is why it is a common "page now" threshold.

Q: Why must spans of one trace reach the same gateway?

A: Tail sampling needs the whole trace to decide. If spans land on different gateways, each sees a partial trace and they may make different decisions, leaving broken traces. Hashing by trace id fixes it; scaling the gateway tier reshuffles the hash briefly.

Q: Why compute metrics before sampling?

A: If request rates come from sampled traces, they count only the kept 5% plus all errors, which makes rates far too low and error ratios far too high. Generating span metrics from every span at the agent keeps them exact.

Q: What happens when gateway collectors run out of memory?

A: Tail sampling buffers traces for the decision window (10 s here), so memory grows with throughput × window. Under pressure the collector's memory limiter refuses data and spans are dropped. Watch the collector's own drop metrics, scale the tier, or shorten the window.

Q: What changes at 10x span volume?

A: Scale agents and gateways horizontally, shorten decision windows, drop noisy spans (health checks) at the agent, and keep metric labels on an allow-list. Storage moves to cheap object storage like Tempo uses.

Q: How do you test alerts without waiting for an incident?

A: Prometheus rule unit tests (`promtool test rules`) feed synthetic series — a 10% error rate for 10 minutes, a 2-minute blip — and assert which alerts fire. Pipeline tests send synthetic traces with known properties and assert which are kept.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Alerting whenever the error rate exceeds the SLO, which pages on every short spike.
- Deriving request-rate metrics from sampled traces.
- Choosing SLOs without product owners, so they do not reflect what users care about.

TL;DR

Route whole traces to tail samplers, compute metrics before sampling, define SLOs with product owners, and page only when the error budget burns too fast.

35. Adaptive Load-Shedding Gateway

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 3–4 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 6, Ch 7

What it is

A gateway (and a matching server-side filter for services) that protects itself and its backends under overload using **adaptive concurrency limits** — a limit on in-flight requests that adjusts automatically based on observed latency, inspired by TCP congestion control — plus **load shedding** by priority: when over capacity, reject low-priority traffic first (prefetch, analytics) to keep critical traffic (checkout, login) healthy. *Load shedding* means deliberately rejecting some requests early so the system can serve the rest well.

The problem it solves

Static limits are always wrong: too low wastes capacity, too high lets queues build until latency explodes and everything times out. During overload, a system that tries to serve everything serves nothing. Adaptive limits find the real capacity continuously, and priority-based shedding chooses which work to drop instead of letting chance choose.

Real-world examples

- Netflix's concurrency-limits library and its description of latency-based adaptive limits: Netflix/concurrency-limits.
- AWS on load shedding, prioritisation and why goodput matters more than throughput: Using load shedding to avoid overload.
- Google's SRE book chapter on handling overload and criticality levels: Handling Overload.

Requirements

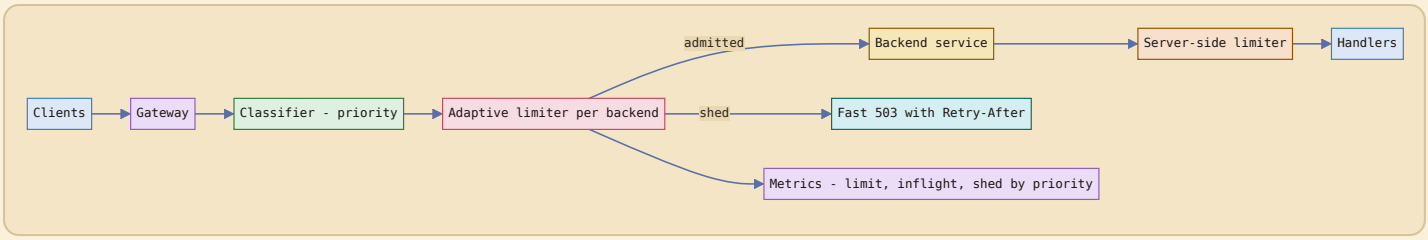
Functional

- Requests carry a priority: CRITICAL, DEFAULT, SHEDDABLE (from route config or a header set by the edge).
- Adaptive limiter per backend using a gradient algorithm: compare short-term latency with a long-term baseline and raise or lower the limit.
- When at the limit, reject SHEDDABLE first, then DEFAULT. CRITICAL gets a reserved share.
- Rejected requests get 503 with Retry-After quickly (under 1 ms).
- Services run the same limiter server-side so they protect themselves even from direct callers.
- Client-side: callers back off on 503 and respect Retry-After.

Non-functional

- At 3 times capacity, CRITICAL success rate stays over 99% with p99 under 2 times normal.
- Goodput (successful requests per second within the latency target) stays within 10% of peak capacity during overload.
- The limit converges to within 20% of measured capacity in under 30 s after a capacity change.

The architecture



- **Classifier** — maps route and caller to a priority. Defaults matter: unknown traffic is DEFAULT.
- **Adaptive limiter** — tracks minimum or long-term latency and current latency. When current rises above baseline, queues are forming, so it lowers the limit. When latency is near baseline, it probes upward.
- **Priority admission** — a partitioned limiter: CRITICAL may use the whole limit, DEFAULT up to 80%, SHEDDABLE up to 50%.
- **Server-side limiter** — a servlet filter with the same algorithm inside each service.

Data model

State	Meaning	Updated
`limit`	Current max in-flight requests	Every sample window
`inflight`	Requests in progress	On admit and complete
`rttNoLoad`	Baseline latency	Slow moving average or windowed minimum
`rttActual`	Recent latency	Per window
Priority shares	Fraction of limit per class	Config

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Limiter	Netflix concurrency-limits, then your own gradient implementation	Learn by comparing
Gateway	Spring Cloud Gateway filter	Edge enforcement
Services	Servlet filter on Spring Boot 4.1.1	Self-protection
Load	k6 with mixed priorities, open-model arrival rate	Realistic overload
Capacity change	CPU throttling via container limits	Simulate degraded backends

Milestones

1. **Find capacity.** *Done when* you have a latency-versus-load curve for the backend and know where it breaks.
2. **Static limit.** *Done when* a fixed concurrency limit protects the backend at its measured capacity — then show it fail when capacity halves.
3. **Adaptive limit.** *Done when* the limit tracks capacity changes within 30 s.
4. **Priority shedding.** *Done when* at 3 times load CRITICAL succeeds over 99% while SHEDDABLE is mostly rejected.

5. **Server-side and client cooperation.** *Done when* direct callers are also limited and well-behaved clients reduce their rate on 503.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Concurrency, not rate. Request-per-second limits ignore that slow requests hold resources longer. Concurrency limits (Little's law again) naturally adapt: when latency rises, the same concurrency means fewer requests per second.

Measuring the baseline. If the baseline drifts upward during a long overload, the limiter starts treating overloaded latency as normal. Use a windowed minimum or reset the baseline periodically, and smooth noisy samples.

Shedding early and cheaply. Rejecting after reading the body, authenticating and querying the database wastes the capacity you are trying to save. Shed at the very start of the request path, before any expensive work.

Retries during overload. Shed requests that are retried immediately just add load. Clients need backoff, jitter and retry budgets, and the server should signal "do not retry" when appropriate.

Testing strategy

Open-model load tests (fixed arrival rate regardless of response time — closed-model tests hide overload). Scenarios: steady overload, sudden spike, capacity halved mid-test, recovering backend. Measure goodput and per-priority success. Unit-test the limiter algorithm with synthetic latency sequences.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Adaptive limits are self-tuning but can oscillate or react slowly. Priority shedding requires everyone to agree on priorities — and everyone wants CRITICAL. Limits are per instance, so total admitted load scales with instance count. Failure modes: misclassified traffic, baseline drift, and client retry storms that cancel out shedding.

Stretch goals

- Deadline-aware shedding: drop requests whose deadline has already passed.
- Per-tenant fairness inside each priority class.
- Compare gradient and AIMD (additive increase, multiplicative decrease) algorithms.

Skills practised

- Overload protection at the edge: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Failing fast under stress: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker
- Concurrency limits as bulkheads: Ch 7 — Bulkhead
- Client cooperation via backoff: Ch 8 — Retry

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a gateway filter and a matching server-side filter that protect services under overload with adaptive concurrency limits: the limit on in-flight requests rises while latency stays near its no-load baseline and drops when latency climbs, because rising latency means queues are forming. Requests are classified CRITICAL, DEFAULT or SHEDDABLE, and when the limit is reached the least important traffic is rejected first with a fast 503 and `Retry-After`. The key decision was shedding at the very start of the request, before authentication or database work. At 3x capacity, CRITICAL requests still succeed over 99% with p99 under twice normal, and the limit tracks a halved backend capacity within 30 seconds.

Key terms to know:

- **Load shedding** — deliberately rejecting some requests early so the rest are served well.
- **Concurrency limit** — a cap on requests in flight rather than requests per second.

- **Adaptive (gradient) limit** — adjusting the limit by comparing current latency with a baseline, like TCP congestion control.
- **AIMD** — additive increase, multiplicative decrease: raise the limit slowly, cut it sharply on overload.
- **Goodput** — successful requests per second that also meet the latency target.
- **Priority classes** — CRITICAL, DEFAULT, SHEDDABLE, with reserved shares of the limit.
- **Little's law** — concurrency = throughput × latency, the link between rate and concurrency limits.
- **Open vs closed load model** — fixed arrival rate regardless of responses versus a fixed number of users who wait; only open models show real overload.
- **Retry storm** — shed requests retried immediately, cancelling out the shedding.

Q: Why limit concurrency instead of request rate?

A: Concurrency reflects resources actually in use. When latency grows, a concurrency limit automatically admits fewer requests per second (Little's law), whereas a fixed rate limit keeps admitting the same number while each request now holds resources longer.

Q: How does an adaptive limiter know the system is overloaded?

A: Latency rises above its no-load baseline because queues are forming. The limiter lowers the limit until latency recovers, then probes upward again while latency stays near baseline.

Q: What is load shedding by priority?

A: Under overload, reject the least important traffic first — prefetch and analytics before checkout and login — so critical operations keep working, rather than degrading everything equally and letting chance choose.

Q: Why not just set a static limit?

A: A static limit is right for one capacity only. When the backend slows (a noisy neighbour, a degraded node, CPU throttling) the old limit lets queues build until everything times out; when it gets faster, you waste capacity. I showed a static limit failing when capacity halved.

Q: Why must shedding be cheap?

A: Rejecting a request after reading its body, authenticating and querying the database spends the very capacity you are trying to save. The filter runs first in the chain and rejects in under 1 ms.

Q: How can the baseline go wrong?

A: During a long overload, an averaged baseline drifts upward and the limiter starts treating overloaded latency as normal. Use a windowed minimum or reset the baseline periodically, and smooth noisy samples.

Q: Shed requests are retried immediately. What happens?

A: The retries add load and can cancel out the shedding entirely. Clients must honour `Retry-After`, back off with jitter and use retry budgets, and the server can mark some rejections as "do not retry".

Q: What changes with 10x gateway instances?

A: Limits are per instance, so the total admitted load grows with instance count. That is why the services run their own server-side limiter: they protect themselves no matter how many callers there are. Priorities also need governance — every team wants CRITICAL.

Q: How did you test it?

A: Open-model k6 tests at a fixed arrival rate, because closed-model tests slow down with the server and hide overload. Scenarios cover steady overload, a sudden spike, capacity halved mid-test and recovery, measuring goodput and success rate per priority. Unit tests feed synthetic latency sequences to the limiter algorithm.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Confusing load shedding with rate limiting. Rate limits enforce per-client fairness; shedding protects capacity regardless of who is calling.
- Measuring overload with a closed-model load test.

- Shedding late in the request path.

TL;DR

Let latency tell you the real capacity, admit only that much concurrency, and when full, drop the least important requests first — fast and cheaply.

36. Flash-Sale Inventory Reservation System

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–5 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 7, Ch 10, Ch 11, Ch 12

What it is

The backend for a flash sale: 10,000 units of a product go on sale at a fixed time, and 500,000 people try to buy within the first minute. A **reservation service** holds stock for a buyer for 10 minutes while they pay, a checkout saga turns reservations into orders or releases them, a **virtual waiting room** admits users at a controlled rate, and a CQRS read model shows "units left" without touching the hot path.

The problem it solves

Flash sales concentrate huge demand on a single row: the stock count for one product. A naive `UPDATE stock SET qty = qty - 1` serialises on one lock and collapses. Overselling (selling stock you do not have) and underselling (holding stock for buyers who never pay) both cost money and trust. This project teaches contention management, admission control and time-bounded reservations.

Real-world examples

- AWS on admission control and shedding to protect goodput under bursts: Using load shedding to avoid overload.
- Microsoft's throttling pattern for controlling resource use under bursts: Throttling pattern.
- Stripe's rate limiter write-up includes reserving capacity for critical requests: Scaling your API with rate limiters.

Requirements

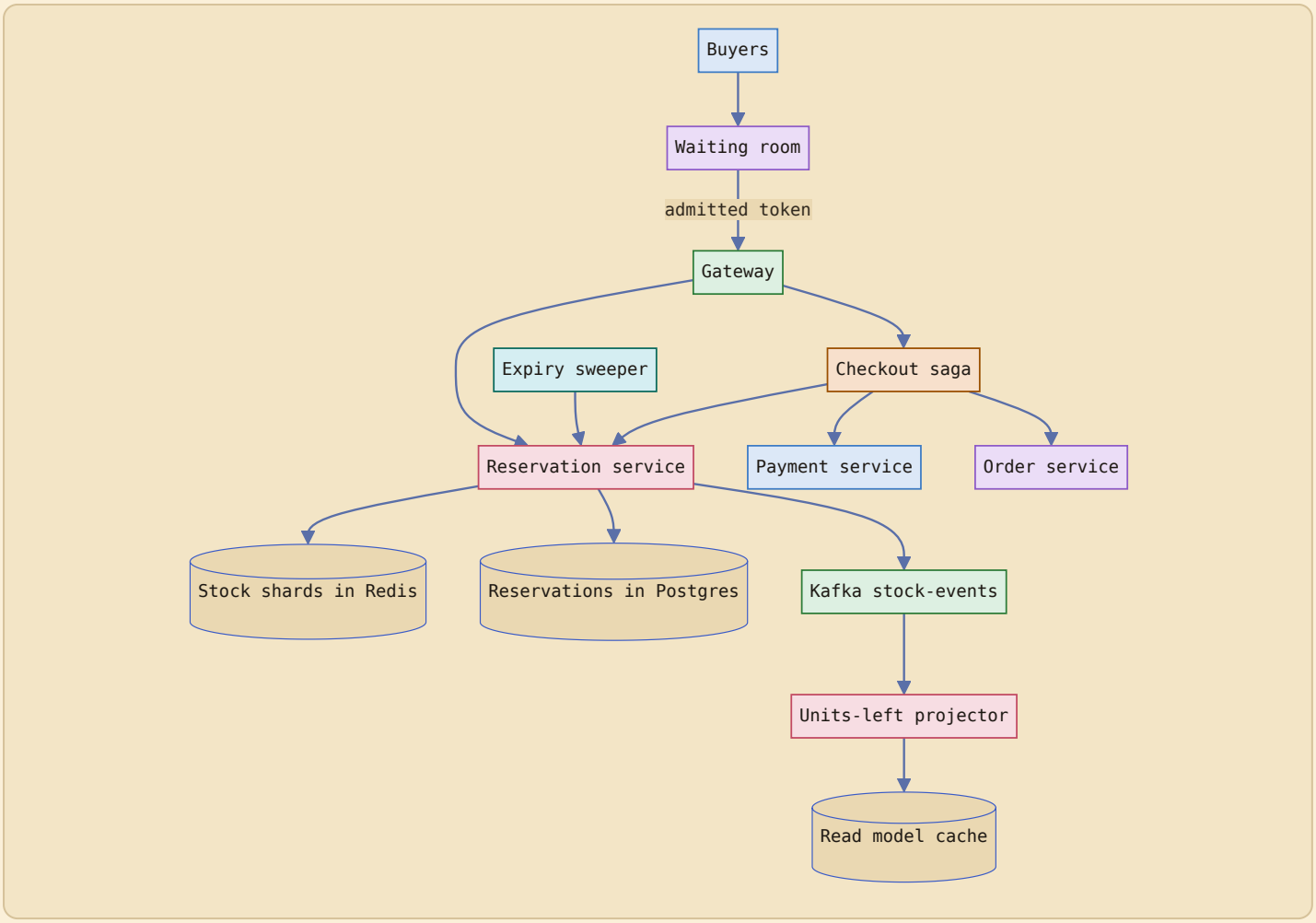
Functional

- Waiting room: users get a queue token and are admitted at N per second.
- Reserve: admitted users reserve 1–2 units. Reservation expires after 10 minutes.
- Checkout saga: reserve → pay → confirm order, or release reservation on failure or expiry.
- "Units left" counter and "sold out" banner from a read model.
- Per-user limit: at most 2 units per sale.

Non-functional

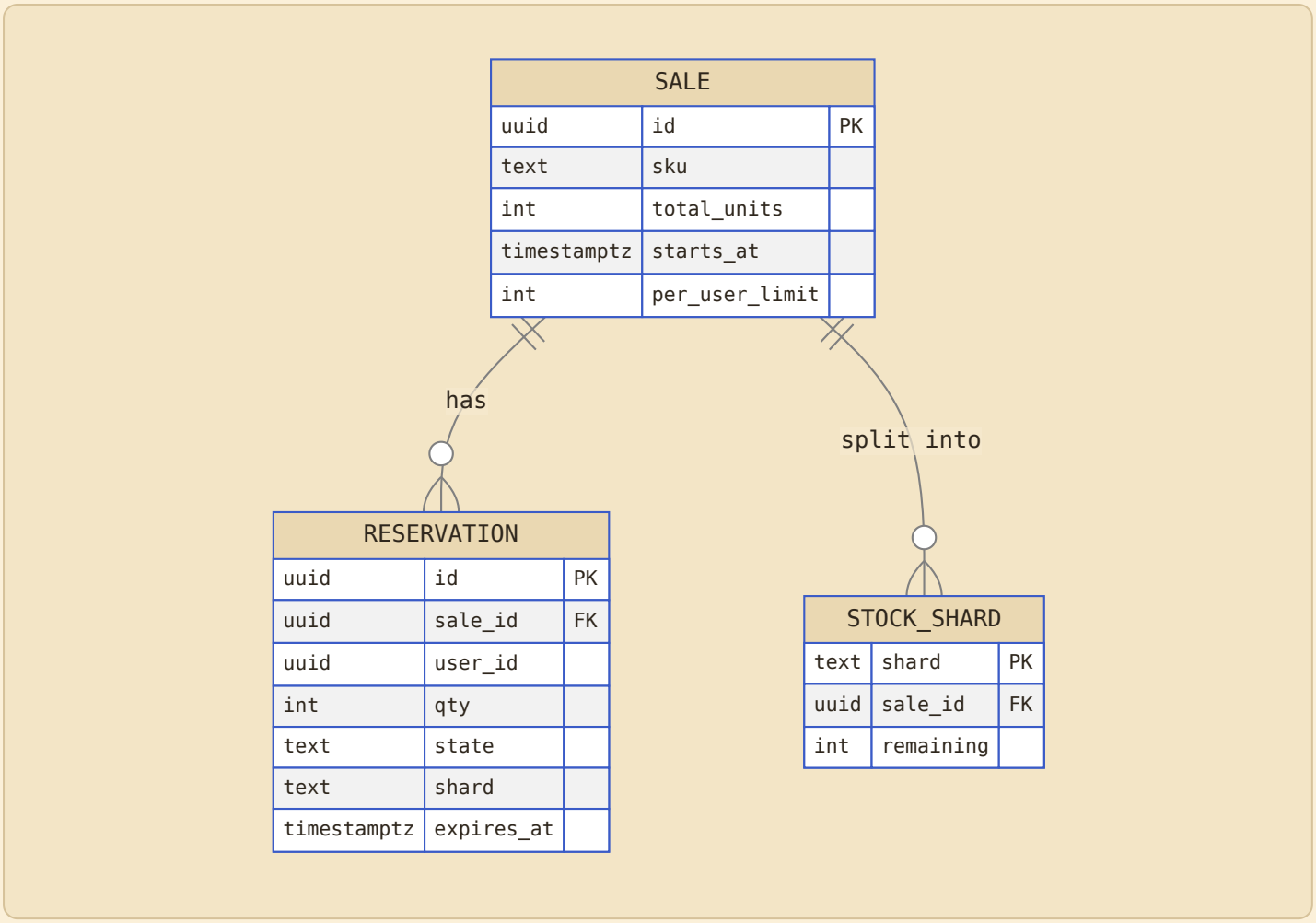
- Never oversell (sold plus actively reserved never exceeds stock) — proven under load.
- Reserve endpoint p99 under 50 ms at 5,000 requests per second admitted.
- Waiting room handles 500,000 users joining in 60 s.
- Expired reservations return to stock within 15 s of expiry.
- Normal catalogue and checkout traffic for other products unaffected.

The architecture



- **Waiting room** — issues signed tokens with a position, admits positions at a steady rate. Static polling page served from a CDN in production.
- **Reservation service** — decrements stock atomically and records the reservation. Stock is split into shards to spread contention.
- **Checkout saga** — orchestrated (Project 11 style), with release as the compensation.
- **Expiry sweeper** — finds expired reservations and releases them.
- **Units-left projector** — aggregates stock events into a cached number. Displays may lag a second.
- **Bulkhead** — the sale runs in its own deployment and connection pools, so it cannot starve normal shopping.

Data model



Reservation state: HELD, CONFIRMED, RELEASED, EXPIRED. A unique index on (`sale_id`, `user_id`) for active reservations enforces the per-user limit.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Hot counter	Redis with Lua decrement-if-positive per shard	Atomic, fast
Durable record	PostgreSQL reservations	Source of truth for orders
Waiting room	Small Spring Boot service with signed tokens	Admission control
Saga	Orchestrator with outbox	Release on failure
Load	k6 at 500,000 virtual arrivals	Realistic spike

Milestones

1. **Naive baseline.** *Done when* a single-row `UPDATE` design under load shows its throughput ceiling and lock waits.
2. **Atomic Redis counter.** *Done when* 1 million concurrent reserve attempts on 10,000 units produce exactly 10,000 successes.
3. **Durable reservations and expiry.** *Done when* expired holds return to stock within 15 s, and the Redis count matches the database after a reconciliation pass.
4. **Sharded stock.** *Done when* stock split into 16 shards lifts throughput, and the last units are still sold correctly when shards empty unevenly.
5. **Waiting room and bulkhead.** *Done when* 500,000 arrivals are admitted at a steady rate, and the normal shop's p95 does not change.

6. **Checkout saga.** *Done when* payment failures release stock, and the final tally of confirmed orders equals units sold.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Contention on one counter. Every buyer wants the same row. Options: atomic in-memory counters (Redis), sharded counters (split stock into 16 buckets and pick one at random, then try others when it is empty), or pre-allocated tokens (generate 10,000 "unit tickets" and hand them out from a queue). Each trades simplicity for throughput.

Two stores, one truth. Redis is fast but not your system of record. Write the reservation to PostgreSQL after the Redis decrement, and if that fails, increment Redis back. A periodic reconciliation compares Redis remaining with `total minus active reservations` and corrects drift.

Expiry is a compensation. A reservation that expires while the user is on the payment page must not later be confirmed. The confirm step checks the state with a conditional update (`HELD` to `CONFIRMED` only if not expired), and the sweeper does `HELD` to `EXPIRED` the same way — whichever wins, the other fails cleanly.

Admission beats rejection. Letting 500,000 requests hit the reserve endpoint and rejecting most wastes capacity and frustrates users. A waiting room turns a spike into a steady stream and gives users honest feedback.

Testing strategy

Invariant tests under load: at every moment, confirmed plus held must be at most total units. Chaos tests: kill reservation instances and Redis replicas during the spike. Expiry tests with a controllable clock. Isolation test: run normal shop traffic alongside the sale and compare latencies.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Speed comes from moving the counter out of the database, which adds a reconciliation burden. Shards improve throughput but make "exactly sold out" harder. Waiting rooms add user-visible delay. Failure modes: Redis failover losing recent decrements (reconcile from the database), bots grabbing tokens (add per-user limits and challenges), and expiry sweeper lag holding stock too long.

Stretch goals

- Pre-generated unit tickets in a Kafka topic as an alternative to counters — compare.
- Fair queueing with randomised positions for everyone who arrived before start time.
- Live "units left" via SSE with throttled updates.

Skills practised

- Isolating a hot event: Ch 7 — Bulkhead
- Reservation and release as a saga: Ch 10 — Saga
- Stock events: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- A read model off the hot path: Ch 12 — CQRS

In the interview

30-second answer: I built the backend for a flash sale where 500,000 people try to buy 10,000 units in a minute. A virtual waiting room turns the spike into a steady admitted rate, and the reservation service decrements stock with an atomic decrement-if-positive Lua script in Redis, split across 16 shards so not every buyer queues on one counter. Each reservation is then recorded durably in PostgreSQL and holds stock for 10 minutes, and a checkout saga confirms it or releases it on payment failure or expiry. The hardest guarantee was "never oversell": 1 million concurrent reserve attempts produced exactly 10,000 successes, and a reconciliation pass keeps Redis and the database in agreement. The sale runs in its own bulkhead, so normal shopping p95 did not change.

Key terms to know:

- **Hot row / contention** — every buyer updating the same stock count, which serialises on one lock.
- **Overselling / underselling** — selling stock you do not have, or holding stock for buyers who never pay.
- **Atomic check-and-decrement** — a Lua script that decrements only if the count is above zero, in one step.
- **Sharded counter** — stock split into 16 buckets; a buyer tries a random shard, then others when it is empty.
- **Reservation with TTL** — a time-bounded hold (10 minutes) in states HELD, CONFIRMED, RELEASED, EXPIRED.
- **Conditional state transition** — `HELD → CONFIRMED` or `HELD → EXPIRED` only if still HELD, so exactly one wins.
- **Virtual waiting room** — signed queue tokens admitted at N per second (admission control).
- **Reconciliation** — comparing Redis remaining with total minus active reservations, and correcting drift.
- **Bulkhead for a hot event** — separate deployment and connection pools so the sale cannot starve normal traffic.

Q: How do you avoid overselling under massive concurrency?

A: Decrement stock atomically in a fast store with a check-and-decrement script, record reservations durably, and reconcile the two. Never read-then-write from application code, because two requests can both read "1 left".

Q: How do you deal with the hot row?

A: Move the counter to memory, shard it, or pre-allocate units as tokens, and put an admission queue in front so demand arrives at a rate the system can handle.

Q: How do reservations expire safely?

A: Conditional state transitions: confirm only if still held and not expired, expire only if still held. Exactly one wins, and the loser fails cleanly — a buyer whose hold expired on the payment page gets a clear "reservation expired".

Q: Redis says the unit is reserved, but the PostgreSQL insert fails. What now?

A: Increment Redis back immediately so the unit returns to stock. If the process crashes before that, the periodic reconciliation sees Redis lower than "total minus active reservations" and corrects it. PostgreSQL is the source of truth; Redis is the fast gate.

Q: What problem do shards create?

A: Near the end, some shards are empty while others still have units, so a buyer who hits an empty shard must try the others before seeing "sold out". Sharding raises throughput but makes "exactly sold out" harder to report, so the last units are found by scanning remaining shards.

Q: Why a waiting room instead of just rejecting excess requests?

A: Letting 500,000 requests hit the reserve endpoint and rejecting most wastes capacity and frustrates users who retry in a loop, which adds even more load. A waiting room admits at a steady rate and gives honest feedback about position.

Q: What happens if a Redis primary fails over mid-sale?

A: Asynchronous replication can lose the most recent decrements, so the new primary shows more stock than really remains. Reconciliation from PostgreSQL reservations corrects it, and until then the per-reservation insert with a unique (sale, user) index still stops one user taking extra units.

Q: What changes at 10x buyers?

A: The waiting room serves a static page from a CDN and its admission rate stays the same, which is the point. More shards or pre-generated unit tickets in a queue raise reserve throughput, and bot defences (per-user limits, challenges) matter more.

Q: How did you prove "never oversell"?

A: An invariant check under load: at every moment, confirmed plus held is at most total units. The 1-million-attempt test must give exactly 10,000 successes, chaos tests kill reservation instances and Redis replicas during the spike, and expiry tests use a controllable clock.

Q: Show the atomic decrement.

A: A Lua script runs atomically in Redis, so no other command interleaves:

```
local left = tonumber(redis.call('GET', KEYS[1]) or '0')
if left >= tonumber(ARGV[1]) then
  return redis.call('DECRBY', KEYS[1], ARGV[1])
end
return -1
```

Common mistakes in answers:

- Using `SELECT qty` then `UPDATE` in application code.
- Treating Redis as the system of record without reconciliation.
- Forgetting expiry: unpaid holds silently undersell the event.

TL;DR

Admit buyers at a steady rate, decrement sharded counters atomically, hold stock with expiring reservations released by a saga, and reconcile fast and durable stores continuously.

37. Progressive Delivery with Automated Canary Analysis

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 3–4 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 2, Ch 9, Ch 13

What it is

A deployment pipeline on Kubernetes where every new version is released as a **canary** — a small share of real traffic goes to the new version while most stays on the old — and an automated **canary analysis** compares the canary's metrics with the baseline's (error rate, latency, business metrics) and promotes or rolls back without a human. *Progressive delivery* is the general practice of releasing gradually with automated checks at each step.

The problem it solves

Tests never catch everything. Many bugs only appear with real traffic and real data. Big-bang deploys expose all users at once and depend on someone watching dashboards. Canary releases limit the blast radius, and automated analysis removes human judgement from the critical minutes. The canary idea is the strangler fig applied to versions rather than features.

Real-world examples

- Martin Fowler's description of canary releases: CanaryRelease.
- Kayenta, the open-source canary analysis service from Google and Netflix, runs statistical tests on canary metrics and returns a score used to promote or fail a release: Introducing Kayenta.
- Argo Rollouts, a Kubernetes controller for canary and blue-green with analysis steps: Argo Rollouts.

Requirements

Functional

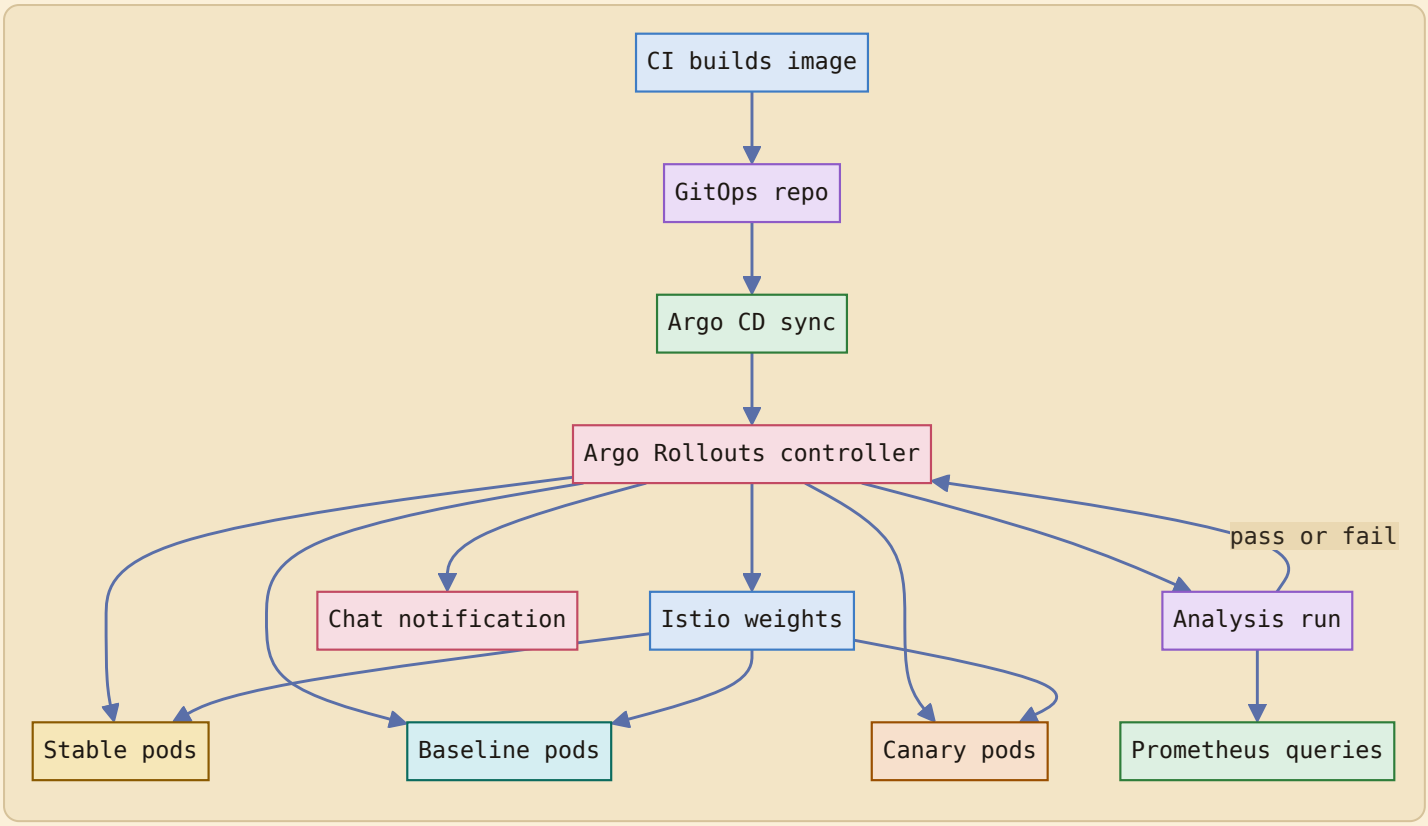
- Rollout steps: 5%, 25%, 50%, 100%, with an analysis run at each step.
- Traffic split by the mesh (Istio) or ingress, using weights.
- Analysis compares canary versus baseline (a fresh copy of the old version started at the same time) on error rate, p99 latency and checkout conversion.
- Automatic rollback on failed analysis, with a notification and a link to the evidence.
- Manual pause, resume, promote and abort.

- Database migrations follow expand and contract so either version can run against the schema.

Non-functional

- A deliberately bad version (2% extra errors) is rolled back before reaching 25%.
- A good version reaches 100% in under 30 minutes without human action.
- False rollback rate under 5% over 20 good releases.

The architecture



- **GitOps** — the desired version lives in a Git repo. Argo CD applies it to the cluster.
- **Rollouts controller** — replaces the Deployment. Runs steps, sets traffic weights, starts analysis.
- **Baseline pods** — a new copy of the old version receiving the same share as the canary. Comparing canary with a fresh baseline removes "long-running pods behave differently" bias.
- **Analysis run** — PromQL queries per metric with pass thresholds, repeated over the step.

Data model

Object	Purpose	Key fields
`Rollout`	Versioned app with steps	strategy, steps, traffic routing
`AnalysisTemplate`	Reusable checks	metrics, queries, success conditions, interval, count
`AnalysisRun`	One evaluation	results per metric, phase
Release record	Audit	version, outcome, duration, failed metric

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Rollouts	Argo Rollouts	Canary steps with analysis
Alternative	Flagger	Compare an operator-style tool
Delivery	Argo CD with GitOps	Declarative, auditable
Traffic	Istio (from Project 27)	Precise weights
Metrics	Prometheus with per-version labels	Canary versus baseline queries

Milestones

1. **Version-labelled metrics.** *Done when* Prometheus can show error rate and p99 split by version label.
2. **Manual canary.** *Done when* changing Istio weights by hand sends 5% to a new version.
3. **Rollout with steps.** *Done when* Argo Rollouts walks 5, 25, 50, 100 with pauses.
4. **Automated analysis.** *Done when* a bad build rolls back automatically and a good one promotes.
5. **Baseline comparison and business metric.** *Done when* analysis compares canary with baseline and includes checkout conversion.
6. **Release scorecard.** *Done when* 20 good and 5 bad releases have been run and the false-positive and false-negative counts are recorded.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Statistics on small traffic. At 5% of a small service, the canary may see 50 requests in a step. One error is 2%. Require a minimum sample size before judging, compare against baseline rather than fixed thresholds, and lengthen early steps rather than lowering standards.

Schema compatibility. During a canary, old and new versions run at once against the same database. A migration that renames a column breaks the old version. Use expand and contract: add the new column, write both, migrate readers, and only drop the old column several releases later.

Sticky users. With per-request random splits, a user may bounce between versions within one session, seeing inconsistent behaviour. Use header or cookie-based routing to keep a user on one version during the rollout.

What to measure. Technical metrics catch crashes. Business metrics (conversion, add-to-cart rate) catch "works but wrong". Business metrics are noisier — use them with wider thresholds or longer windows.

Testing strategy

Build intentionally bad versions: higher error rate, slower responses, a bug that only affects conversion, and a memory leak that shows after 10 minutes. Run each through the pipeline and record whether it was caught and at which step. Test schema migrations by running both versions against the migrated database in CI.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Canaries slow releases down and need good metrics per version. Baseline pods cost extra resources during rollout. Automated analysis can give false confidence if metrics miss the bug. Failure modes: too little traffic to judge, noisy business metrics causing false rollbacks, and incompatible migrations breaking the stable version.

Stretch goals

- Feature-flag-based progressive release (Project 21) combined with version canaries.
- Canary for Kafka consumers: route a share of partitions to the new version.
- Automatic analysis template generation from each service's SLOs (Project 34).

Skills practised

- Gradual replacement: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig

- Traffic control in sidecars: Ch 9 — Sidecar
- Rollout configuration as code: Ch 13 — Config Externalization

In the interview

30-second answer: I built a progressive-delivery pipeline on Kubernetes: every version goes through Argo Rollouts canary steps of 5%, 25%, 50% and 100%, with Istio setting the traffic weights and an automated analysis at each step comparing the canary with a freshly started baseline of the old version on error rate, p99 latency and checkout conversion. Failed analysis rolls back automatically and posts the evidence. Database changes use expand and contract so both versions run on the same schema. Over 20 good and 5 deliberately bad releases, bad builds with 2% extra errors were rolled back before 25%, good ones reached 100% in under 30 minutes, and I recorded the false-rollback rate.

Key terms to know:

- **Canary release** — sending a small share of real traffic to the new version first.
- **Progressive delivery** — releasing in steps with automated checks at each step.
- **Automated canary analysis** — metric queries with pass conditions that promote or roll back without a human.
- **Baseline** — a fresh copy of the old version receiving the same traffic share as the canary, for a fair comparison.
- **Argo Rollouts / AnalysisTemplate** — a Kubernetes controller replacing the Deployment; templates define the PromQL checks.
- **GitOps** — the desired version lives in Git and Argo CD applies it.
- **Expand and contract** — schema changes in steps (add, dual write, migrate readers, drop later) so old and new code both work.
- **Blast radius** — the share of users exposed to a bad version.
- **False positive / negative rollback** — rolling back a good version, or promoting a bad one.

Q: How does automated canary analysis decide?

A: It compares the canary's metrics with a baseline running the old version under the same conditions, over enough samples, against thresholds, and fails if any key metric is significantly worse.

Q: Why a separate baseline instead of comparing with stable?

A: Long-running stable pods differ in warm caches, memory state and traffic share. A fresh baseline started at the same time and given the same share removes that bias, so differences come from the code.

Q: How do you handle database changes during canaries?

A: Expand and contract, so every schema version works with both the old and the new code: add a new column, write both, move readers, and drop the old column several releases later. A rename in one step would break the stable version mid-rollout.

Q: What if the canary only gets 50 requests in a step?

A: One error is 2%, so the result is noise. Require a minimum sample size before judging, compare against the baseline rather than fixed thresholds, and lengthen early steps instead of lowering standards.

Q: Why include business metrics like conversion?

A: Technical metrics catch crashes and slowness; business metrics catch "works but wrong", such as a broken add-to-cart button that returns 200. They are noisier, so they get wider thresholds or longer windows.

Q: What happens to a user who bounces between versions?

A: With random per-request splits, a user can see old and new behaviour in one session. I use header or cookie-based routing so each user stays on one version during the rollout.

Q: What does a canary not catch?

A: Bugs that only appear at 100% load, slowly growing problems like a memory leak after hours, and anything the chosen metrics do not measure. I deliberately built a version with a 10-minute memory leak to see which step caught it.

Q: What changes with 100 services releasing daily?

A: Analysis templates must be shared and generated from each service's SLOs, baseline pods cost resources during every rollout, and release records become an audit trail. Low-traffic services need longer steps or synthetic traffic.

Q: How did you test the pipeline itself?

A: I built intentionally bad versions — higher error rate, slower responses, a conversion-only bug, a memory leak — ran each through the pipeline and recorded whether and at which step it was caught. CI also runs both versions against the migrated schema.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Comparing the canary against fixed thresholds only, with no baseline.
- Renaming or dropping columns in the same release that stops using them.
- Judging a canary on too few requests.

TL;DR

Release every version to a small slice first, compare it with a fresh baseline automatically, and let the pipeline promote or roll back — with schemas that tolerate both versions.

38. Event Schema Governance Platform

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 3–4 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 11, Ch 12

What it is

A governance layer for an event-driven system with 30 topics and 15 teams: a **schema registry** that stores versioned Avro or Protobuf schemas for every topic and enforces **compatibility rules** at publish time, CI checks that block incompatible schema changes, an **event catalogue** (who produces, who consumes, owner, meaning of each field), and patterns for evolving events — upcasting, topic versioning and deprecation.

The problem it solves

In event-driven systems, the event schema is the API — but there is no compiler between producer and consumer. A producer renames a field, deploys, and three consumers in other teams break hours later, or worse, silently write nulls. Projections that rebuild from history (Projects 15 and 24) must also read events written years ago. Governance turns schema changes into checked, visible, reversible decisions.

Real-world examples

- Confluent Schema Registry, with compatibility modes (backward, forward, full, transitive): Schema Registry overview.
- Martin Fowler's site on consumer-driven contracts, which apply to messages as well as APIs: Consumer-Driven Contracts.
- Spring Cloud Contract supports messaging contracts between producer and consumer: Spring Cloud Contract reference.

Requirements

Functional

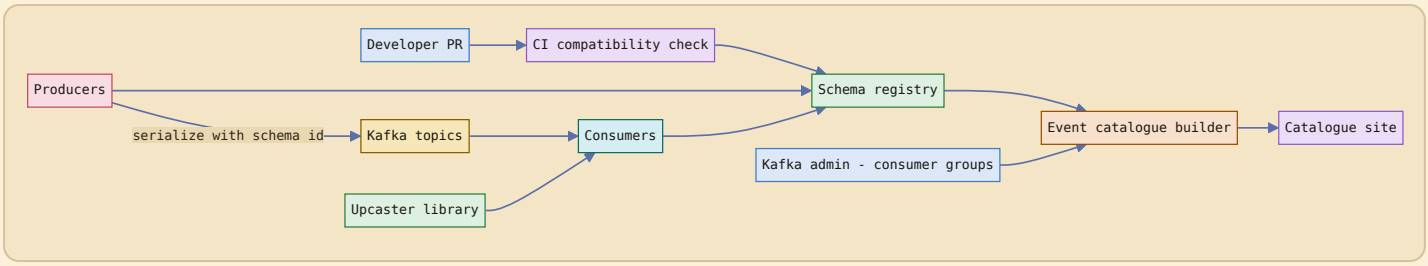
- Schemas for every topic registered under a subject, versioned, with compatibility mode per subject.
- Producers serialise with the registry. Unregistered or incompatible schemas are rejected.
- CI plugin: on pull request, check proposed schemas against the registry and fail if incompatible.

- Event catalogue web page generated from schemas plus metadata (owner, description, producers, consumers from consumer-group data).
- Deprecation workflow: mark a field deprecated, see which consumers still read it, remove later.
- Breaking change workflow: new topic version (`orders.v2`), dual publishing for a period, consumer migration tracking.

Non-functional

- Schema lookup cached in clients, so the registry is not on the hot path per message.
- Registry outage must not stop producers that use already-cached schemas.
- Catalogue updates within 5 minutes of a schema change.

The architecture



- **Schema registry** — stores schemas and assigns ids. Each message carries the schema id in a small header, so consumers fetch the writer's schema once and cache it.
- **CI check** — a Gradle task that calls the registry's compatibility endpoint for each changed schema.
- **Catalogue builder** — combines schemas, ownership metadata files and live consumer group data into a searchable site.
- **Upcaster library** — converts old event versions to the current in-memory model, for consumers that replay history.

Data model

Concept	Meaning	Example
Subject	Name under which versions are stored	`orders-value`
Version	One schema revision	7
Compatibility	Rule for allowed changes	BACKWARD_TRANSITIVE
Schema id	Global id carried in each message	1042
Owner metadata	Team, description, PII flags	YAML next to schema

Backward compatible means new consumers can read old data (for example, adding a field with a default). Forward compatible means old consumers can read new data (for example, removing an optional field). *Transitive* checks against all previous versions, not just the last.

Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Registry	Confluent Schema Registry (community licence) or Apicurio Registry	Compatibility checks
Format	Avro (or Protobuf)	Schema evolution rules built in
Build	Gradle plugin for codegen and checks	Generated Java classes
Catalogue	Static site generated by a small Java tool	Cheap and searchable
Consumers	Spring Kafka with schema-aware deserialisers	Standard integration

Milestones

1. **Register and serialise.** *Done when* three services publish Avro events with schema ids, and consumers deserialise them.
2. **Compatibility enforcement.** *Done when* a producer trying to register an incompatible schema is rejected at start-up or publish.
3. **CI gate.** *Done when* a pull request that removes a required field fails with a clear message naming the subject.
4. **Catalogue.** *Done when* the site lists every topic, owner, schema history, producers and consumers.
5. **Breaking change by topic version.** *Done when* `orders.v2` is introduced with dual publishing, consumers migrate one by one, and `orders.v1` is retired with evidence that nobody reads it.
6. **Replay with upcasting.** *Done when* a projection rebuilds from events spanning five schema versions.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Choosing compatibility modes. For event topics consumed by many teams, BACKWARD_TRANSITIVE (consumers upgrade first, can read all history) is a common default. For topics replayed from the beginning, transitive matters — non-transitive checks allow version 3 to be incompatible with version 1.

Semantic changes. A schema can stay compatible while meaning changes: `amount` switching from cents to euros passes every check and breaks every consumer. Governance needs human review and descriptions for meaning, not just types.

Dual publishing without inconsistency. Publishing to `v1` and `v2` from application code is a dual write. Publish `v2` via the outbox and derive `v1` with a small stream processor, so both come from one source.

Personal data. Events live in topics with long retention and in projections. Mark PII fields in schema metadata so the catalogue can show where personal data flows, and design for deletion (keys per user, or keeping PII out of events).

Testing strategy

CI tests run the compatibility checker on fixture schema pairs (allowed and forbidden changes). Consumer tests deserialise golden sample messages from every historical schema version. An end-to-end test performs the topic-version migration with live consumers.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Governance slows schema changes slightly and adds a registry to operate, but prevents silent breakage. Binary formats (Avro, Protobuf) are compact and evolvable but harder to inspect than JSON. Failure modes: registry outage on producer start-up, teams bypassing the registry with "just JSON" topics, and catalogues that drift from reality if not generated automatically.

Stretch goals

- Data contracts with quality rules (value ranges, required patterns) checked at publish.
- Lineage graph: which projections depend on which fields.
- Automatic consumer notifications when a field they read is deprecated.

Skills practised

- Events as contracts: Ch 11 — Event-Driven
- Projections that replay history: Ch 12 — CQRS
- Migrating consumers gradually: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** I built schema governance for an event-driven system with 30 topics and 15 teams. Every topic's Avro schema is registered in a schema registry with a compatibility mode — usually BACKWARD_TRANSITIVE — and producers cannot publish an incompatible schema. A CI check fails any pull request that would break compatibility and names the subject, and an event

catalogue generated from schemas, owner metadata and live consumer groups shows who produces and consumes every field. Breaking changes go through a new topic version, `orders.v2`, with `v1` derived from it by a stream processor until every consumer has moved. A projection rebuilds correctly from events spanning five schema versions using upcasters.

Key terms to know:

- **Schema registry** — stores versioned schemas per subject, assigns ids and checks compatibility.
- **Subject** — the name under which versions of one schema are stored (`orders-value`).
- **Schema id in each message** — a small prefix so consumers fetch the writer's schema once and cache it.
- **Backward compatibility** — new readers can read old data (e.g. adding a field with a default). Consumers upgrade first.
- **Forward compatibility** — old readers can read new data (e.g. removing an optional field). Producers upgrade first.
- **Full and transitive** — full is both directions; transitive checks against every previous version, not just the last.
- **Topic versioning** — publishing a breaking change to a new topic and migrating consumers.
- **Upcaster** — converts old event versions to the current model during replay.
- **Semantic change** — same type, different meaning (cents to euros), which no registry can catch.
- **Event catalogue** — generated documentation of topics, owners, schemas, producers, consumers and PII flags.

Q: How do you evolve an event schema without breaking consumers?

A: Use a registry with a compatibility rule, make additive changes with defaults, and for breaking changes publish a new topic version alongside the old and migrate consumers one by one.

Q: Backward versus forward compatibility?

A: Backward: new readers can read old data. Forward: old readers can read new data. Full is both. Transitive applies the rule across all past versions, which matters for topics replayed from the beginning.

Q: What can a registry not catch?

A: Semantic changes — same type, different meaning, like `amount` switching from cents to euros. Those need human review, field descriptions and consumer contracts.

Q: Why BACKWARD_TRANSITIVE for shared topics?

A: Consumers can upgrade first and still read every historical event, which is what projections replaying from offset 0 need. Non-transitive checks allow version 3 to be incompatible with version 1 even if each step was compatible.

Q: How do you dual-publish v1 and v2 without inconsistency?

A: Publishing both from application code is a dual write — one can succeed and the other fail. Publish v2 through the outbox and derive v1 from it with a small stream processor, so both topics come from one source.

Q: What happens if the registry is down?

A: Producers and consumers that have already cached their schemas keep working, because the registry is not on the per-message path. New schema registrations and fresh clients that need an uncached schema fail, so the registry runs replicated.

Q: How do you know nobody reads `orders.v1` any more?

A: The catalogue combines consumer-group data with lag and offsets: once every group on `v1` has migrated and no group has committed offsets for a period, you have evidence to retire it, rather than asking in a channel.

Q: Why Avro or Protobuf rather than JSON?

A: They have explicit schemas with evolution rules, are compact, and generate typed classes. The cost is that messages are harder to inspect by eye, and teams sometimes bypass governance with "just JSON" topics — which the CI check and catalogue make visible.

Q: What changes at 10x topics and teams?

A: Manual review cannot keep up, so ownership metadata, PII flags and the catalogue must be generated and enforced in CI. Data contracts with value-range rules and lineage (which projections use which fields) become worth building.

Q: How did you test it?

A: CI tests run the compatibility checker on fixture pairs of allowed and forbidden changes. Consumer tests deserialise golden sample messages from every historical schema version, and an end-to-end test performs the topic-version migration with live consumers.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Mixing up backward and forward compatibility.
- Believing a passing compatibility check means the change is safe in meaning.
- Dual-publishing two topic versions directly from application code.

TL;DR

Register every event schema, enforce compatibility in CI and at publish, publish a catalogue of who uses what, and handle breaking changes with versioned topics.

39. Cell-Based Architecture with a Cell Router

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 4–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 3, Ch 5, Ch 7

What it is

A SaaS application split into **cells** — complete, independent copies of the whole service stack, each serving a fixed subset of customers — behind a thin **cell router** that maps each customer to their cell. A failure, bad deploy or noisy customer affects one cell, not everyone. A *cell* is a bulkhead at the scale of the whole system. You build the router, a control plane for placing and moving customers, and a deployment pipeline that rolls out cell by cell.

The problem it solves

Even with all the resilience patterns, a shared system has shared fate: a poison request, a bad config push or a database overload can take down every customer at once. Cells cap the blast radius at the size of a cell. They also give a natural unit of scaling (add cells) and of safe deployment (one cell at a time).

Real-world examples

- AWS's guidance on reducing the scope of impact with cell-based architecture: Reducing the Scope of Impact with Cell-Based Architecture.
- Slack's migration to a cellular design, siloing traffic by availability zone so it can drain a zone quickly: Slack's Migration to a Cellular Architecture.
- AWS on shuffle sharding, a related technique for isolating customers: Workload isolation using shuffle-sharding.

Requirements

Functional

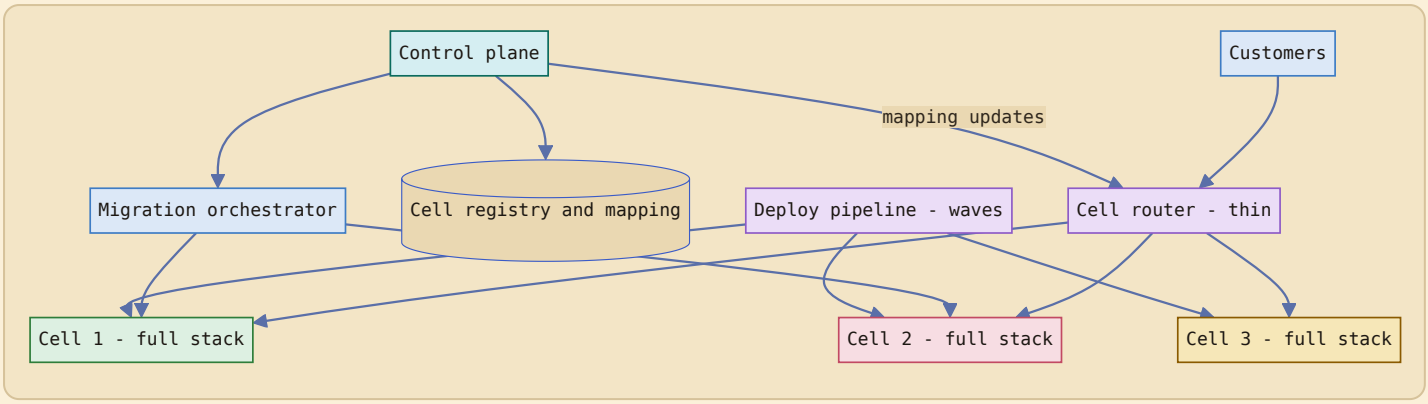
- Each cell: gateway, three services, PostgreSQL, Kafka — fully independent, no cross-cell calls.
- Cell router: maps customer id (from subdomain or token) to a cell, forwards the request.
- Control plane: cell registry, customer-to-cell mapping, placement of new customers, migration of a customer between cells.

- Deployment pipeline: deploy to a canary cell, then waves of cells, with automatic halt on errors.
- Cell health dashboard and per-cell SLOs.

Non-functional

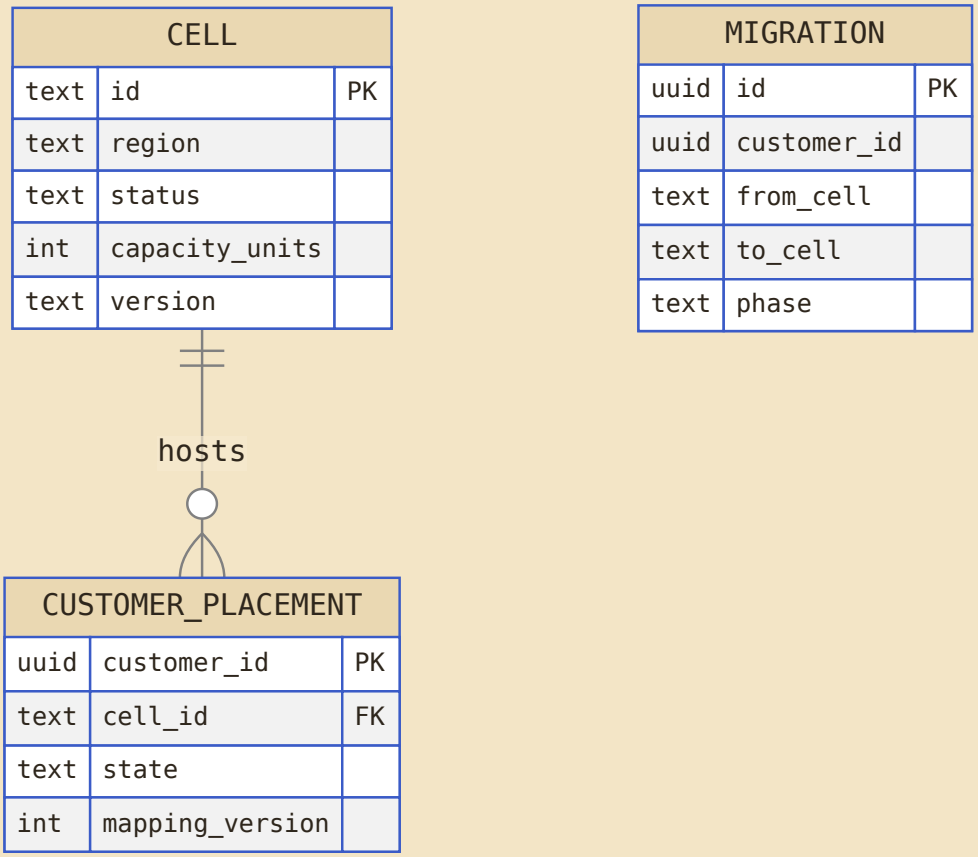
- Router adds under 2 ms p95 and holds no per-request state.
- Router keeps working if the control plane is down (cached mapping).
- A failure injected into one cell leaves other cells' error rate unchanged.
- Customer migration between cells with under 1 minute of write unavailability.

The architecture



- **Cell router** — as simple as possible, because it is the one shared component: look up the customer's cell in a local cache, forward. No business logic.
- **Cells** — identical stacks deployed from the same templates, each in its own Kubernetes namespace (or cluster).
- **Control plane** — not on the request path. Owns placement and migrations, publishes mapping changes to routers.
- **Deploy pipeline** — one cell first, wait, then waves of increasing size.

Data model



Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Router	Envoy with a small control service, or a minimal Spring Cloud Gateway	Thin, fast, cacheable mapping
Cells	Kubernetes namespaces from one Kustomize base	Identical stacks
Control plane	Spring Boot 4.1.1 + PostgreSQL	Placement and migrations
Migration data copy	CDC per customer (Project 23 technique)	Move with little downtime
Delivery	Argo CD ApplicationSets	One app definition, many cells

Milestones

1. **Two cells, static mapping.** *Done when* customers in a config file are routed to the right cell end to end.
2. **Control plane and cached mapping.** *Done when* the router keeps routing with the control plane stopped.
3. **Blast radius test.** *Done when* a poison request that crashes services takes down only its cell.
4. **Wave deployments.** *Done when* a bad build stops after the first cell and is rolled back automatically.
5. **Customer migration.** *Done when* a customer moves from cell 1 to cell 2 with under a minute of write freeze and no data loss.

6. **Placement.** *Done when* new customers are placed by capacity and a full cell triggers creation of a new cell.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Keep the router dumb. The router is shared by all cells, so its failure is everyone's failure. No database lookups per request, no business logic, minimal dependencies, and deployed even more carefully than cells.

Cross-cell needs. Some features want global data: a user who belongs to two customers, global search, or billing across cells. Each one weakens isolation. Serve them from separate global services that are not on the critical path, fed asynchronously from cells.

Cell size. Small cells give small blast radius but more overhead and more cells to operate. Large cells are efficient but each failure hurts more. Choose a size from your largest customer and the blast radius you can accept, and fix the maximum size so cells stay testable.

Moving customers. Migration needs data copy, a write freeze, mapping switch, and router cache invalidation in order. Use a versioned mapping: routers reject stale versions after the switch so no request lands in the old cell.

Testing strategy

Blast radius tests per failure type (poison request, database overload, bad config, crash loop) asserting other cells are untouched. Migration tests under load. Router tests with control plane outages. Deployment tests with deliberately bad builds.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

Cells cost more (duplicated infrastructure) and make global features harder. They give contained failures, predictable scaling and safe deployments. Failure modes: router as single point of failure, a very large customer outgrowing a cell, cross-cell dependencies creeping in, and cells drifting apart in version or config.

Stretch goals

- Shuffle sharding for shared dependencies so each customer shares resources with a different random subset.
- Cells across regions with region-aware placement.
- Per-cell canary analysis in the wave pipeline (Project 37).

Skills practised

- A thin edge router: Ch 3 — API Gateway
- Mapping customers to locations: Ch 5 — Service Discovery
- Bulkheads at system scale: Ch 7 — Bulkhead
- Moving data with CDC: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig

In the interview

30-second answer: I split a SaaS application into cells — complete, independent copies of the stack, each with its own gateway, services, PostgreSQL and Kafka, serving a fixed subset of customers — behind a thin cell router that maps each customer to a cell from a cached, versioned mapping. A separate control plane places new customers by capacity and migrates customers between cells with CDC and a write freeze under a minute. Deployments roll out to one canary cell, then waves, halting automatically on errors. The key result is blast radius: a poison request that crashes services takes down only its cell, and the router keeps routing even with the control plane stopped, adding under 2 ms p95.

Key terms to know:

- **Cell** — a full, independent copy of the system serving a subset of customers; a bulkhead at system scale.
- **Blast radius** — the share of customers affected by one failure or bad deploy.
- **Cell router** — the thin, shared component that maps customer to cell and forwards.
- **Control plane vs data plane** — placement and migrations (off the request path) versus serving requests.
- **Versioned mapping** — customer-to-cell entries with a version so stale router caches can be detected.
- **Wave deployment** — deploy to one cell, wait, then increasingly large groups of cells.
- **Customer migration** — copy data, freeze writes, switch mapping, invalidate router caches.
- **Shuffle sharding** — giving each customer a different random subset of shared resources so failures overlap less.
- **Shared fate** — when one problem can affect every customer at once; what cells remove.

Q: What is a cell and why use one?

A: A complete, independent copy of the stack serving a subset of customers. It limits the blast radius of any failure, poison request or bad deploy to that subset, and gives a natural unit for scaling and safe rollout.

Q: What is the riskiest component?

A: The router, because it is shared by all cells — its failure is everyone's failure. Keep it thin, stateless, cached and dependency-free, with no business logic and no database lookup per request, and deploy it more carefully than any cell.

Q: How do you deploy to cells?

A: In waves: one canary cell, then increasing groups, halting automatically when health checks or SLOs fail. A bad build hurts one cell's customers for a few minutes instead of everyone.

Q: How is a cell different from a microservice or a region?

A: A microservice splits by function, so every customer still depends on every service. A cell splits by customer and contains all functions. A region is a location; cells can live inside one region, and a region can hold many cells.

Q: How do you move a customer between cells?

A: Copy their data with CDC while they keep working, freeze writes briefly, switch the mapping with a new version, and invalidate router caches. Routers reject stale mapping versions after the switch, so no request lands in the old cell.

Q: What happens if the control plane is down?

A: Nothing on the request path: routers use their cached mapping. You cannot place new customers or migrate existing ones until it returns. That separation is deliberate.

Q: What about features that need data across cells?

A: Global search, billing or a user in two customers weaken isolation. Serve them from separate global services fed asynchronously from cells and keep them off the critical path, so a global-service outage does not stop cells serving.

Q: How do you choose cell size?

A: Small cells mean small blast radius but more overhead and more cells to operate; large cells are efficient but each failure hurts more. I sized from the largest customer and the blast radius we can accept, and fixed a maximum so cells stay testable — a full cell triggers a new one.

Q: What breaks first as you grow?

A: A very large customer outgrowing a cell, cross-cell dependencies creeping in, and cells drifting apart in version or config. Templates (one Kustomize base), Argo CD ApplicationSets and per-cell dashboards keep them identical and visible.

Q: How did you test isolation?

A: Blast-radius tests per failure type — poison request, database overload, bad config, crash loop — assert that other cells' error rates are unchanged. Migration tests run under load, router tests run with the control plane down, and the pipeline is tested with deliberately bad builds.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Putting logic or per-request database lookups in the router.
- Calling a microservice split "cells" — cells partition customers, not functions.
- Allowing synchronous cross-cell calls, which re-creates shared fate.

TL;DR

Copy the whole stack into independent cells, route customers through a dumb cached router, deploy in waves, and a bad day hurts one cell instead of everyone.

40. Golden-Path Microservice Platform

Level: Advanced · **Time:** 5–6 weeks · **Prerequisites:** Ch 2–13

What it is

An internal developer platform that makes the right way the easy way: a **service template** (a generator that creates a new Spring Boot 4.1.1 service with all the patterns from this book pre-wired), a shared **platform starter** library, a service catalogue, and a deployment path to Kubernetes. A new team runs one command and gets a service with config externalization, health probes, tracing, metrics, Resilience4j defaults, an outbox, contract tests, a Helm chart or Kustomize base, CI and catalogue registration — the **golden path**, a supported, opinionated way to build and run services.

The problem it solves

Every pattern in this book is easy to get slightly wrong, and with 50 services each team gets it wrong differently: different timeout defaults, missing trace propagation, no graceful shutdown. Copy-paste spreads mistakes. A golden path encodes the patterns once, keeps them consistent, and makes upgrades (like moving to a new Spring Boot version) a platform task rather than 50 separate efforts.

Real-world examples

- Spotify describes golden paths as a response to fragmentation in its software ecosystem: How We Use Golden Paths to Solve Fragmentation.
- Backstage, Spotify's open-source developer portal with software templates and a catalogue: Backstage.
- Segment's account of moving back from many microservices to a monolith is a useful warning about operational cost without a platform: Goodbye Microservices.

Requirements

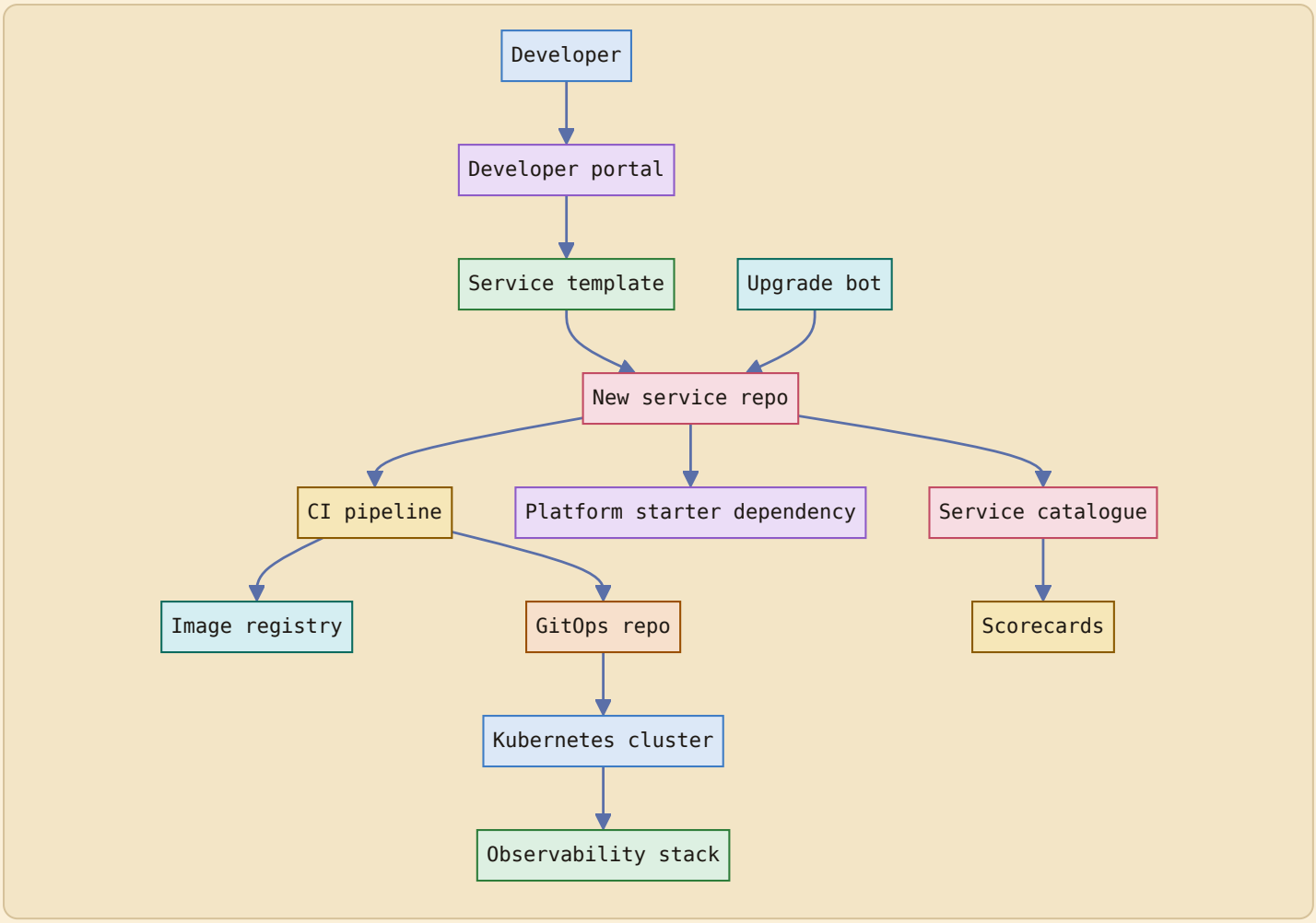
Functional

- Template generator: name, team, database yes or no, Kafka yes or no → a buildable service repository.
- Platform starter (a Spring Boot auto-configuration library) providing: tracing and log correlation, standard metrics, Resilience4j defaults per client, outbox and inbox, graceful shutdown, health groups for probes, tenant context (optional), standard error format.
- Deployment base: Kustomize or Helm with probes, resource requests, pod disruption budget, network policy.
- CI pipeline: build, unit tests, contract tests, image build, security scan, deploy to dev.
- Catalogue: every generated service registered with owner, dependencies, API and event docs.
- Scorecards: checks per service (on latest starter, has SLO, has contract tests, has runbook).

Non-functional

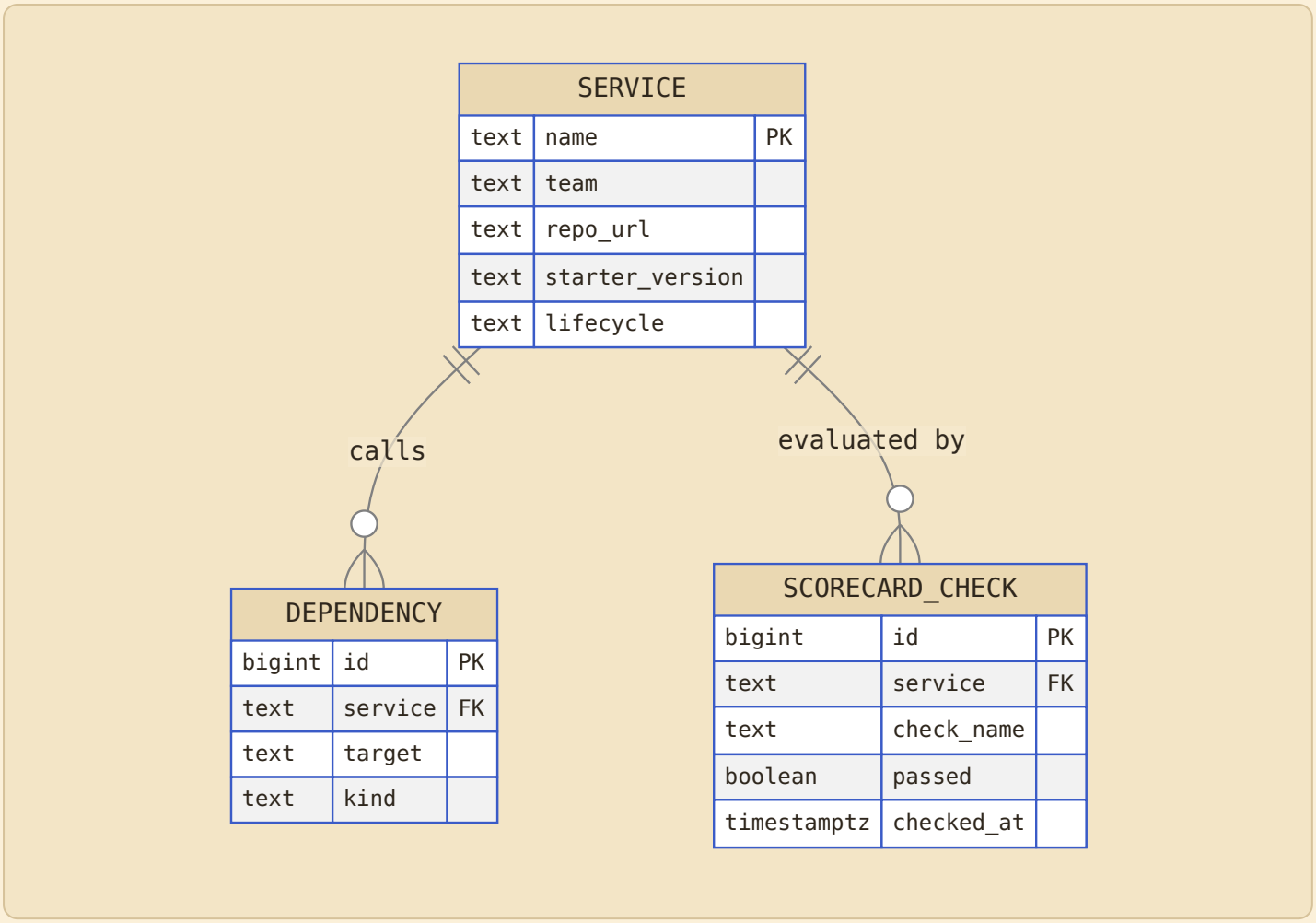
- New service from command to running in dev in under 15 minutes.
- Upgrading the starter across all services is a version bump, with automated pull requests.
- Template changes do not break existing services (they are not regenerated — they depend on the starter).

The architecture



- **Developer portal** — Backstage, or a simple CLI plus a static catalogue site.
- **Service template** — generates code that is thin, because most behaviour lives in the starter.
- **Platform starter** — the heart of the platform. Auto-configures the patterns with safe defaults, allows overrides via configuration properties.
- **GitOps and cluster** — Argo CD deploys from a repo. Base manifests come from the platform.
- **Upgrade bot** — opens pull requests to bump the starter version, so the fleet stays current.
- **Scorecards** — computed from repository contents and runtime data, visible in the catalogue.

Data model



Tech stack

Component	Choice	Why
Services	Java 25, Spring Boot 4.1.1, Spring Cloud	Book's stack
Starter	Spring Boot auto-configuration module	Opinionated defaults with overrides
Portal	Backstage software templates and catalogue	Widely used
Delivery	GitHub Actions, Argo CD, Kustomize	GitOps
Platform services	Config server, Kafka, PostgreSQL operator, OTel Collector, Istio	From earlier projects

Milestones

1. **Platform starter v1.** *Done when* adding one dependency gives a service tracing, metrics, health groups, graceful shutdown and standard errors, proven by tests.
2. **Template.** *Done when* the generator produces a service that builds, passes tests and runs locally with Docker Compose.
3. **Path to production.** *Done when* the generated service deploys to a kind cluster via GitOps with probes, limits and network policy.
4. **Data and messaging modules.** *Done when* opting in gives an outbox, inbox and Kafka configuration that pass Project 13's failure tests.
5. **Catalogue and scorecards.** *Done when* five generated services appear with owners, dependencies and scores.

6. **Fleet upgrade.** *Done when* releasing starter v2 opens upgrade pull requests on all five services and they pass CI.

Deep dive: the hard parts

Library versus template. Anything put only into generated code is frozen at generation time and drifts. Anything in the starter can be upgraded centrally. Keep templates thin — mostly wiring and examples — and put behaviour in versioned libraries.

Opinionated but escapable. Teams will have valid reasons to differ (a batch job does not need a circuit breaker on every client). Make every default overridable with documented properties, and track overrides in scorecards rather than forbidding them.

Good defaults are hard. What timeout should every HTTP client have? What retry policy? Use the lessons from Projects 5, 6 and 22: short timeouts, retries only on idempotent calls with jitter and a budget, breakers on by default, bulkheads per client. Document the reasoning next to the default.

Adoption. A platform nobody uses is waste. Measure time to first deploy, number of services on the latest starter, and incidents traced to non-standard setups. Treat the platform as a product with users.

Testing strategy

The starter has its own test suite with Spring Boot's `ApplicationContextRunner` for each auto-configuration. The template is tested by generating a service in CI and running its build and tests. A nightly job generates, deploys and smoke-tests a fresh service end to end on a kind cluster.

Trade-offs, scaling and failure modes

A platform team becomes a dependency for everyone — keep it responsive or teams route around it. Strong defaults reduce variety and incidents, but a bug in the starter now affects every service at once, so the starter itself needs canary releases. The biggest failure mode is a golden path that is harder than doing it yourself.

Stretch goals

- A second golden path for event-processing services (no HTTP, Kafka Streams).
- Automatic SLO and dashboard generation per new service.
- Cost reporting per service and team from resource requests and usage.

Skills practised

- Migration via platform adoption: Ch 2 — Strangler Fig
- Edge and client-specific backends: Ch 3 — API Gateway, Ch 4 — BFF
- Discovery on Kubernetes: Ch 5 — Service Discovery
- Resilience defaults: Ch 6 — Circuit Breaker, Ch 7 — Bulkhead, Ch 8 — Retry
- Platform sidecars and collectors: Ch 9 — Sidecar
- Data patterns as modules: Ch 10 — Saga, Ch 11 — Event-Driven, Ch 12 — CQRS
- Config everywhere: Ch 13 — Config Externalization

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** I built an internal developer platform whose golden path creates a new Spring Boot 4.1 service with one command: a thin generated repository that depends on a versioned platform starter, a Kustomize deployment base, a CI pipeline and a catalogue entry. The key decision was putting behaviour in the starter, not the template — tracing, metrics, health groups for probes, graceful shutdown, Resilience4j defaults, outbox and inbox, and a standard error format are auto-configured with documented overrides — so a fleet upgrade is a version bump opened as pull requests by a bot. Scorecards show which services are on the latest starter and have SLOs and contract tests. A new service goes from command to running in dev in under 15 minutes.

Key terms to know:

- **Golden path** — a supported, opinionated way to build and run services that is easier than the alternatives.
- **Service template** — a generator for a new repository; frozen at generation time, so kept thin.
- **Platform starter** — a Spring Boot auto-configuration library that wires the patterns with safe defaults.
- **Auto-configuration** — `@AutoConfiguration` classes listed in `META-INF/spring/org.springframework.boot.autoconfigure.AutoConfiguration.imports`, applied conditionally.
- **Conditional beans** — `@ConditionalOnMissingBean` and similar, so a team's own bean or property overrides the default.
- **Service catalogue** — every service with owner, dependencies, APIs and events (e.g. Backstage).
- **Scorecard** — automated checks per service: latest starter, SLO, contract tests, runbook.
- **Upgrade bot** — opens pull requests that bump the starter across the fleet.
- **Platform as a product** — measuring adoption and developer time, not just shipping features.

Q: How do you keep 50 services consistent without central control of every team?

A: Provide a golden path — a template plus versioned libraries with good defaults, a deployment base and a catalogue — that is easier than the alternative, and measure adoption with scorecards.

Q: Template or shared library?

A: Both, but behaviour goes in the library so it can be upgraded centrally. Anything only in generated code is frozen at generation time and drifts. Templates stay thin — wiring and examples.

Q: What are the risks of a platform starter?

A: A bug affects every service at once, and teams may feel boxed in. Release the starter itself with canaries, make every default overridable and documented, and treat the platform as a product with users.

Q: What defaults do you pick for HTTP clients?

A: From the earlier experiments: short timeouts set below the caller's budget, retries only for idempotent calls with backoff, jitter and a budget, a breaker on by default, and a bulkhead per client. The reasoning is documented next to each default so teams know when to change it.

Q: How do teams opt out of a default?

A: Every default is a bean guarded by `@ConditionalOnMissingBean` or a documented property, so a team defines its own bean or sets a property. Overrides are allowed but tracked in scorecards rather than forbidden — a batch job may rightly skip breakers.

Q: What does a minimal auto-configuration look like?

A: A class registered in the `AutoConfiguration.imports` file that backs off when the app supplies its own bean:

```
@AutoConfiguration
@EnableConfigurationProperties(PlatformHttpProperties.class)
class PlatformHttpAutoConfiguration {
  @Bean @ConditionalOnMissingBean
  RestClient.Builder platformRestClientBuilder(PlatformHttpProperties p) {
    return RestClient.builder().requestFactory(timeouts(p)); // timeouts() is a helper
  }
}
```

Q: How do you upgrade Spring Boot across the fleet?

A: Upgrade and test the starter once, release it, and let the bot open pull requests on every service; CI on each repo proves compatibility. Services that fail show up in the scorecard. Without a starter, this is 50 separate migrations.

Q: How do you know the platform is working?

A: Measure time to first deploy, share of services on the latest starter, scorecard pass rates, and incidents traced to non-standard setups. If teams route around the golden path, it is harder than doing it themselves, and that is the platform's bug.

Q: How did you test the platform?

A: Each auto-configuration has tests with Spring Boot's `ApplicationContextRunner`, which starts small contexts with and without user beans and properties. CI generates a service from the template and runs its build, and a nightly job generates, deploys and smoke-tests a fresh service on a kind cluster.

Common mistakes in answers:

- Putting behaviour into templates, where it can never be upgraded.
- Building a platform that forbids exceptions, so teams work around it.
- Treating the platform as done once built, instead of a product with adoption metrics.

TL;DR

Package every pattern in this book as a versioned starter, a thin template and a deployment path, so the right way to build a microservice is also the fastest.

Appendix: Concepts you need

This appendix lists, in alphabetical order, every technical term, acronym, library and tool used in the 40 briefs above, each explained in plain English in a sentence or two. Terms that come from general system design — latency, caching, load balancing, replication, consistency and the like — are explained in depth in System Design Fundamentals. Where a chapter of this book teaches a concept, the entry links to it, and "Used in projects" tells you which briefs rely on it.

A

- **A/B test** — Showing two versions of a feature to different groups of users and comparing a metric to see which works better. Used in project 21. (Ch 2)
- **Abort condition** — A rule in a chaos experiment or rollout that stops it automatically when a metric gets too bad. Used in projects 22, 37.
- **Access log** — A log line written for every request, recording method, path, status and duration. Used in project 2. (Ch 3)
- **ACID** — The guarantees of a classic database transaction: Atomic (all or nothing), Consistent (rules hold), Isolated (concurrent transactions don't see each other's half-done work) and Durable (committed data survives crashes). Used in project 11. (Ch 10)
- **Active-active / active-passive** — Active-active runs live traffic in several regions at once; active-passive keeps a standby region that only takes over when the main one fails. Used in project 32. (Ch 1)
- **Activity (workflow)** — In a workflow engine such as Temporal, one step that does real work (calls a service, writes a database). Activities may run more than once, so they must be idempotent. Used in project 33. (Ch 10)
- **Actuator** — Spring Boot's built-in module that exposes health, metrics and management endpoints such as `/actuator/health`. Used in projects 5, 6, 8, 18. (Ch 13)
- **Adapter / ambassador sidecar** — Two sidecar roles: an adapter converts the app's output into a standard form (for example metrics format); an ambassador handles outbound calls on the app's behalf. Used in project 7. (Ch 9)
- **Adaptive concurrency limit** — A limit on in-flight requests that adjusts itself from measured latency (for example with AIMD or a gradient algorithm) instead of being fixed by hand. Used in project 35. (Ch 7)
- **Aggregate** — A cluster of objects treated as one unit for changes, with one identity and its own consistency rules — for example one wallet or one order. Used in projects 13, 24, 29. (Ch 12)
- **Aggregation (request aggregation)** — One endpoint that calls several services and merges their answers into a single response. Used in projects 2, 3, 15, 19, 20, 28. (Ch 3)

- **AIMD** — Additive Increase, Multiplicative Decrease — raise a limit slowly while things are healthy and cut it sharply when they are not (the same idea TCP uses). Used in project 35.
- **Alertmanager** — The Prometheus component that groups, routes and sends alerts (email, chat, pager). Used in project 34.
- **Ambient mode** — An Istio mode that moves the mesh proxy out of each pod into shared per-node and per-namespace proxies, so there is no sidecar per pod. Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **Anti-corruption layer** — A translation layer that converts between an old system's model and a new one, so the old design doesn't leak into the new service. Used in project 23. (Ch 2)
- **API** — Application Programming Interface — the set of requests a service accepts and the responses it returns. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 5, 8, 13, 15, 16, 17, 18, 19, 20, 21, 22, 23, 24, 25, 26, 27, 28, 31, 33, 34, 35, 36, 38, 39, 40. (Ch 1)
- **API gateway** — The single front door that clients call instead of calling each service directly; it routes requests and handles cross-cutting concerns like auth and rate limiting. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 19, 25, 26, 28, 35, 39. (Ch 3)
- **API key** — A secret string a client sends (often in a header) to identify itself to an API. Used in projects 2, 8, 19. (Ch 3)
- **Apicurio Registry** — An open-source schema registry, an alternative to Confluent Schema Registry. Used in project 38. (Ch 11)
- **Argo CD** — A GitOps tool that keeps a Kubernetes cluster in sync with manifests stored in Git. ApplicationSets let it deploy the same app to many clusters or cells. Used in projects 37, 39, 40.
- **Argo Rollouts / AnalysisTemplate** — A Kubernetes controller for canary and blue-green releases; an AnalysisTemplate defines the metric queries that decide whether a rollout continues. Used in project 37.
- **Asynchronous** — Work where the caller does not wait for the result; it sends a message or starts a task and carries on. Used in projects 16, 26, 28, 32, 36, 39. (Ch 11)
- **At-least-once delivery** — A messaging guarantee where every message arrives, but some may arrive more than once, so consumers must handle duplicates. Used in projects 9, 13. (Ch 11)
- **Atomic operation / check-and-decrement** — An atomic operation happens as one indivisible step that no other request can interleave with — for example checking a stock counter and decreasing it only if it is still positive, so two buyers can't take the last item. Used in projects 4, 11, 15, 19, 23, 30, 36.
- **Audience (`aud`)** — The JWT claim naming which service a token is meant for. A service must reject tokens addressed to someone else. Used in project 25.
- **Audit log / audit trail** — A permanent, tamper-resistant record of who did what and when. Used in projects 8, 14, 21, 24, 25, 26, 31, 37.
- **Authentication / authorization** — Authentication checks who the caller is; authorization checks what that caller is allowed to do. Used in projects 2, 11, 25, 27, 29, 31, 35. (Ch 3)
- **Authorization code flow with PKCE** — The standard OAuth 2.0 login flow for browser and mobile apps: the app gets a short-lived code and swaps it for tokens, and PKCE (a one-time secret) stops a stolen code being used. Used in project 25.
- **AuthorizationPolicy** — An Istio resource that says which services may call which others, checked using mTLS identities. Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **Auto-configuration** — Spring Boot's mechanism for creating beans automatically when a library is on the classpath, unless the application defines its own. Used in project 40. (Ch 13)
- **Automated canary analysis** — Comparing a canary's metrics against the baseline with statistics and deciding automatically whether to promote or roll back. Used in projects 37, 39.
- **Avro / Protobuf** — Compact binary formats for messages, each with a schema that defines the fields; used with a schema registry to evolve events safely. Used in projects 9, 38. (Ch 11)
- **AWS** — Amazon Web Services, Amazon's cloud platform. Used in projects 1, 5, 14, 22, 28, 32, 35, 36, 39.
- **Axon Framework** — A Java framework for CQRS and event sourcing, with command handlers, aggregates and projections. Used in project 24. (Ch 12)

B

- **Backend for Frontend (BFF)** — A small server owned by one client team that calls shared services and returns exactly the shape that client needs. Used in projects 2, 3, 17, 20, 25, 29, 40. (Ch 4)
- **Backoff (exponential)** — Waiting longer between each retry — typically doubling the delay — so a struggling service gets room to recover. Used in projects 5, 11, 14, 21, 22, 33, 35, 40. (Ch 8)
- **Backpressure** — A slow consumer signalling (or forcing) a fast producer to slow down instead of being overwhelmed. Used in project 30. (Ch 11)
- **Backstage** — An open-source developer portal (from Spotify) with a service catalogue and software templates for creating new services. Used in project 40.
- **Backward / forward compatibility** — A backward-compatible change lets new code read old data; a forward-compatible change lets old code read new data. Both matter when evolving event schemas. Used in projects 17, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Baseline** — The reference measurement or version you compare against — for example the old version's metrics during a canary, or performance before a change. Used in projects 6, 9, 14, 18, 22, 27, 28, 35, 36, 37.
- **Batch endpoint / batch loader** — An endpoint or loader that fetches many items in one call instead of one call per item, the standard fix for the N+1 problem. Used in projects 3, 13, 15, 16, 19, 20, 21, 23, 29, 30, 31, 40. (Ch 4)
- **Bean** — An object that Spring creates and manages for you, injecting it wherever it's needed. Used in projects 8, 14, 19, 40.
- **Bean Validation** — The Java standard for declaring input rules on fields (`@NotNull`, `@Size`) that are checked automatically. Used in project 8.
- **Big-bang rewrite** — Replacing a whole system in one cut-over instead of gradually. Used in projects 1, 37. (Ch 2)
- **Blast radius** — How much of the system (or how many users) one failure or bad change can affect. Used in projects 22, 37, 39. (Ch 7)
- **Blocking vs non-blocking** — A blocking call holds its thread until the result comes back; a non-blocking call frees the thread to do other work meanwhile. Used in projects 2, 3, 5, 13, 14, 16, 19, 26. (Ch 7)
- **Border (halo) handling** — When searching a map grid, also checking the neighbouring cells around the target cell, so nearby drivers just across a cell border aren't missed. Used in project 30.
- **Bottleneck** — The one part of a system that limits overall throughput — speeding up anything else doesn't help. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 7, 11, 12, 20. (Ch 1)
- **Broker** — A server that stores messages from producers and hands them to consumers, such as a Kafka broker. Used in projects 9, 12, 13, 17. (Ch 11)
- **Bucket4j** — A Java rate-limiting library based on the token-bucket algorithm. Used in project 19.
- **Bulk indexing** — Sending many documents to a search engine in one request, which is far faster than one request per document. Used in project 15.
- **Bulkhead** — Isolating resources (thread pools, connection limits) per dependency so one slow dependency can't use up everything. Used in projects 2, 5, 6, 19, 22, 26, 27, 28, 30, 35, 36, 39, 40. (Ch 7)
- **Burn rate** — How fast a service is using up its error budget compared with the allowed pace; a burn rate of 1 uses exactly the budget over the SLO window. Used in project 34. (Ch 1)
- **Business logic / business rules** — Code that implements the domain itself (pricing, eligibility, stock rules), as opposed to plumbing such as routing or logging. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 10, 11, 17, 39. (Ch 3)

C

- **Cache** — A fast store of recently used data so repeated requests skip the slow work. Used in projects 2, 3, 4, 5, 8, 10, 18, 19, 20, 21, 24, 25, 27, 29, 30, 33, 36, 37, 38, 39. (Ch 1)
- **Cadence / Conductor** — Workflow engines similar to Temporal (Cadence is Temporal's predecessor at Uber; Conductor came from Netflix). Used in project 33.
- **Canary release** — Releasing a new version to a small share of traffic first and widening it only if its metrics stay healthy. Used in projects 27, 37, 39, 40. (Ch 2)

- **Cardinality** — The number of distinct values a label or field can take. High-cardinality metric labels (like user id) explode storage costs. Used in projects 7, 16, 34.
- **CDN** — Content Delivery Network — servers around the world that cache content close to users. Used in projects 20, 36. (Ch 1)
- **Cell / cell-based architecture** — Splitting a system into many identical, independent copies (cells), each serving a fixed set of customers, so one failure only hits one cell. Used in projects 30, 39.
- **Cell router** — The thin routing layer that sends each request to the cell that owns its customer. Used in project 39. (Ch 3)
- **cert-manager / CA** — A certificate authority (CA) signs certificates that prove identities; cert-manager is a Kubernetes tool that issues and renews certificates automatically. Used in project 25.
- **Change data capture (CDC)** — Reading a database's change log and publishing every insert, update and delete as an event, without changing the application. Used in projects 1, 13, 23, 26, 28, 39. (Ch 2)
- **Chaos engineering** — Deliberately injecting failures (latency, errors, crashed instances) in a controlled experiment to check the system copes as expected. Used in projects 4, 11, 22, 27, 29, 31, 36. (Ch 6)
- **Chaos Monkey / Chaos Mesh** — Chaos-engineering tools: Netflix's Chaos Monkey randomly kills instances; Chaos Mesh injects faults into Kubernetes workloads. Used in project 22.
- **Choreography** — A saga style where services react to each other's events and no central coordinator exists. Used in projects 11, 12, 33. (Ch 10)
- **CI/CD** — Continuous Integration / Continuous Delivery — automatically building and testing every change, and releasing it through a pipeline. Used in projects 14, 16, 17, 22, 27, 28, 33, 34, 37, 38, 39, 40.
- **{cipher} values** — Encrypted property values in a Spring Cloud Config repository, prefixed with `{cipher}`, that the config server decrypts before handing them out. Used in project 8. (Ch 13)
- **Circuit breaker** — A wrapper that stops calling a dependency after repeated failures, fails fast for a while, then lets a few trial calls through to check recovery. Used in projects 1, 2, 5, 6, 14, 20, 22, 27, 29, 31, 32, 34, 35, 40. (Ch 6)
- **CLI** — Command-line interface — a tool you run by typing commands in a terminal. Used in project 40.
- **Client cache (discovery)** — A copy of the registry's answer kept in each client, so calls continue if the registry is briefly down. Used in projects 4, 39. (Ch 5)
- **Client-side vs server-side discovery** — In client-side discovery the caller asks the registry and picks an instance itself; in server-side discovery a load balancer or platform (like a Kubernetes Service) does it. Used in projects 4, 18. (Ch 5)
- **Cluster** — A group of machines (or Kubernetes nodes) managed together as one system. Used in projects 4, 6, 18, 27, 28, 32, 37, 39, 40.
- **CNCF** — Cloud Native Computing Foundation — the body that hosts Kubernetes, OpenTelemetry and many related projects. Used in project 21.
- **CNI** — Container Network Interface — the plug-in layer that gives Kubernetes pods their network. Used in project 18.
- **Command** — A request to change state, named as an instruction (`PlaceOrder`). In CQRS, commands go to the write side. Used in projects 10, 11, 12, 15, 19, 23, 24, 29, 30, 33, 36, 38, 40. (Ch 12)
- **Command/reply messaging** — An orchestrator sends a command message to a participant and waits for a reply message on another topic, instead of making an HTTP call. Used in project 11. (Ch 10)
- **Compacted topic / log compaction** — A Kafka topic setting that keeps only the latest message per key, so the topic acts like a table of current values. Used in projects 15, 23, 30. (Ch 11)
- **Compensating transaction** — A new action that undoes the business effect of an earlier saga step, such as a refund for a charge. It is not a rollback: both records remain. Used in projects 11, 12, 24, 29, 31, 33, 36. (Ch 10)
- **Concurrency limit** — A cap on how many requests may be in progress at once. Used in projects 19, 28, 35. (Ch 7)
- **Conditional beans** — Spring beans created only when a condition holds (`@ConditionalOnMissingBean`), so a starter's defaults can be overridden by the application. Used in project 40.

- **Conditional state transition** — Changing a record's state only if it is currently in the expected state (`UPDATE … WHERE status = 'HELD'`), so two racing requests can't both win. Used in project 36.
- **Conditional update / optimistic locking** — Updating a row only if it still has the version (or value) you read, so a concurrent change makes your update fail instead of silently overwriting it. Used in projects 11, 24, 30, 31, 33, 36. (Ch 12)
- **Config server (Spring Cloud Config Server)** — A service that hands configuration to other services at startup or on refresh, usually backed by a Git repository. Used in projects 1, 8, 18, 19, 32, 40. (Ch 13)
- **ConfigMap** — A Kubernetes object that holds configuration as key-value pairs or files, mounted into pods. Used in projects 8, 18. (Ch 13)
- **Connection pool** — A set of open connections (to a database or service) reused across requests instead of opening a new one each time. Used in projects 2, 6, 8, 18, 22, 27, 28, 36. (Ch 7)
- **Consumer / producer** — A producer writes messages to a topic or queue; a consumer reads and processes them. Used in projects 6, 9, 12, 13, 14, 15, 16, 17, 23, 24, 28, 29, 30, 31, 37, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Consumer group** — A set of Kafka consumers that share a topic's partitions, so each message is processed by one member of the group. Used in projects 9, 12, 30, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Consumer lag** — How far a consumer is behind the newest message in a partition — a key health metric for event-driven systems. Used in projects 9, 10, 13, 14, 15, 16, 23, 26, 29, 32, 36, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Consumer-driven contract testing** — The consumer of an API writes down what it expects as a contract; the provider's build verifies it still meets every consumer's contract. Used in projects 17, 38. (Ch 4)
- **Consumer-group assignment as discovery** — Using Kafka's partition assignment to decide which instance owns which data (for example which region), instead of a separate registry. Used in project 30. (Ch 5)
- **Container** — A packaged application plus everything it needs, running isolated from other software on the same machine. Used in projects 1, 2, 4, 7, 18, 27, 35. (Ch 9)
- **Context propagation** — Passing request context (trace id, tenant, user, deadline) from one service to the next, across HTTP calls, messages and threads. Used in projects 2, 16, 18, 22, 28, 40.
- **Continue-as-new** — A Temporal feature that ends a long-running workflow and starts a fresh one with the same id, to keep its history from growing forever. Used in project 33.
- **Contract parity** — A replacement service returning exactly the same responses (fields, status codes, nulls) as the old one. Used in project 1. (Ch 2)
- **Control plane vs data plane** — The data plane carries the actual traffic (proxies, cells); the control plane configures it (decides routes, pushes settings). Used in projects 27, 28, 39. (Ch 9)
- **Correcting event** — A new event that fixes the effect of an earlier wrong one, since stored events are never edited. Used in project 24. (Ch 12)
- **Correlation id / request id** — A unique id attached to a request at the edge and passed to every service and log line, so one request can be followed end to end. Used in projects 2, 16, 26, 34, 40. (Ch 3)
- **CORS** — Cross-Origin Resource Sharing — browser rules about which other websites may call your API from JavaScript. Used in project 2. (Ch 3)
- **CPU** — The processor; CPU time is how much processing a task consumes. Used in projects 2, 7, 16, 25, 27, 34, 35.
- **CQRS** — Command Query Responsibility Segregation — handling writes (commands) and reads (queries) with separate models, often with separate stores. Used in projects 10, 12, 15, 23, 24, 29, 30, 36, 38, 40. (Ch 12)
- **CRDT and tombstones** — A CRDT (conflict-free replicated data type) is a data structure that merges concurrent changes from several regions automatically and always the same way. A tombstone is a marker that records a deletion so it isn't undone by a late update. Used in projects 15, 32.
- **Critical vs optional dependency** — A critical dependency must answer for the request to succeed; an optional one can fail and the response is just degraded. Used in project 6. (Ch 7)
- **Cross-cutting concern** — Something every service needs but that isn't any one service's job — authentication, logging, metrics, rate limiting. Used in projects 2, 3. (Ch 3)

- **CRUD** — Create, Read, Update, Delete — the four basic data operations. Used in projects 3, 10, 24. (Ch 12)
- **Crypto-shredding** — Encrypting each person's personal data with their own key and deleting the key to "erase" it — the way to forget data in an immutable event log. Used in project 24.
- **CSRF** — Cross-Site Request Forgery — an attack where another website tricks a logged-in browser into sending requests to your app. Used in project 25.
- **curl** — A command-line tool for sending HTTP requests, handy for testing APIs. Used in projects 1, 2, 27.
- **Customer migration (cells)** — Moving one customer's data and traffic from one cell to another without downtime. Used in project 39.
- **Cut-over** — The moment traffic or ownership switches from the old system to the new one. Used in project 1. (Ch 2)
- **Cyclic dependency** — Services that depend on each other in a loop (A reacts to B, B to C, C to A), which makes failures and changes hard to reason about. Used in project 12. (Ch 10)

D

- **DaemonSet (node-level agent)** — A Kubernetes object that runs one copy of a pod on every node — the usual way to run a log or metrics agent per machine instead of per pod. Used in projects 7, 34. (Ch 9)
- **Dapper** — Google's internal tracing system, whose paper inspired today's distributed tracing tools. Used in project 16.
- **Dashboard** — A screen of live graphs showing a system's health. Used in projects 5, 6, 10, 11, 13, 22, 26, 28, 29, 34, 37, 39, 40.
- **DataLoader** — A batching helper (originally from GraphQL) that collects the individual lookups made while resolving one request and sends them as a single batch call. Used in projects 3, 20. (Ch 4)
- **Dead-letter queue / topic (DLQ / DLT)** — Where messages that keep failing are parked after retries run out, so they don't block the rest and a person can inspect and replay them. Used in project 14. (Ch 8)
- **Deadline propagation** — Passing the time remaining for a request to every downstream call, so later hops don't keep working after the caller has given up. Used in projects 11, 22, 29, 35. (Ch 8)
- **Debezium** — An open-source change-data-capture tool that reads a database's change log and publishes the changes to Kafka. Its outbox event router turns outbox rows into proper events. Used in projects 13, 23, 26. (Ch 2)
- **Decommissioning** — Permanently switching off and removing an old system or code path once nothing uses it. Used in project 26. (Ch 2)
- **Deployment (Kubernetes)** — The Kubernetes object that says which container image to run, how many replicas, and how to roll out new versions. Used in projects 18, 28, 32, 37, 39, 40.
- **Depth and complexity limits** — GraphQL safeguards that reject queries nested too deeply or estimated to be too expensive, so one client can't overload the server. Used in project 20.
- **DestinationRule / VirtualService** — Istio resources: a VirtualService defines routing rules (timeouts, retries, traffic splits); a DestinationRule defines policies for a destination (connection pools, outlier detection, mTLS). Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **Determinism** — Producing exactly the same decisions every time from the same inputs — required of workflow code so it can be replayed from history. Used in projects 32, 33.
- **Diff / diff normalisation** — Comparing two outputs field by field; normalisation first removes harmless differences (timestamps, ordering) so only real mismatches are reported. Used in projects 1, 10, 15, 26. (Ch 2)
- **DNS** — Domain Name System — turns names like `orders.default.svc` into IP addresses. Used in projects 4, 18, 32. (Ch 5)
- **Docker / Docker Compose** — Docker packages and runs applications as containers; Docker Compose starts several containers together from one YAML file. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 7, 8, 17, 18, 32, 40.
- **Domain event** — An event describing a business fact in past tense, such as `OrderPlaced`. Used in projects 10, 12. (Ch 11)

- **Double-entry ledger** — An accounting record where every money movement is written as equal debit and credit entries, so the books always balance and errors show up. Used in projects 9, 11, 31.
- **Downstream / upstream** — Downstream services are the ones you call; upstream services are the ones that call you. Used in projects 2, 3, 6, 18, 22, 25, 33.
- **Downtime** — Time when a system is unavailable to users. Used in projects 15, 18, 23, 25, 26, 39. (Ch 1)
- **Dry-run write** — Running a write path in the new system without committing it, just to compare the result with the old system. Used in projects 18, 26. (Ch 2)
- **DTO (data transfer object)** — A plain class shaped for sending over the wire, with no business logic. Used in projects 3, 5. (Ch 4)
- **Dual write** — Writing the same change to a database and to a message broker (or two databases) as two separate steps — if one fails, they disagree. The outbox pattern fixes this. Used in projects 9, 13, 23, 37, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Durable execution / durable timer** — A workflow engine saves every step's result so a workflow resumes exactly where it was after a crash; a durable timer is a wait (even of days) that survives restarts. Used in projects 11, 29, 30, 33, 36. (Ch 10)

E

- **Elasticsearch / OpenSearch** — Search engines that index documents for fast full-text search, filtering and facets. OpenSearch is the open-source fork of Elasticsearch. Used in project 15. (Ch 12)
- **EndpointSlice** — The Kubernetes object that lists the current IP addresses of the ready pods behind a Service. Used in project 18. (Ch 5)
- **Envoy** — A high-performance proxy used as the sidecar in Istio and as an edge or cell router. Used in projects 6, 7, 27, 32, 39. (Ch 9)
- **Error budget** — The amount of failure an SLO allows over a window (for 99.9%, 0.1% of requests). When it's used up, teams slow releases. Used in project 34. (Ch 1)
- **ETA** — Estimated time of arrival. Used in projects 29, 30.
- **Eureka** — Netflix's open-source service registry, used through Spring Cloud Netflix for client-side discovery. Used in projects 4, 18. (Ch 5)
- **Evaluation context** — The facts about a request (user id, country, plan) that a feature-flag rule is evaluated against. Used in project 21. (Ch 13)
- **Event** — A record that something happened, named in the past tense. It can't be refused, only reacted to. Used in projects 8, 9, 10, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 16, 17, 21, 23, 24, 26, 28, 29, 30, 31, 32, 33, 34, 36, 38, 40. (Ch 11)
- **Event catalogue** — A browsable list of every event type, its schema, owner, producers and consumers. Used in projects 12, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Event interception** — Capturing the events or calls a legacy system makes so a new system can process them too, during a migration. Used in project 26. (Ch 2)
- **Event sourcing** — Storing an entity as the full sequence of events that changed it, and rebuilding its state by replaying them. Used in projects 10, 24. (Ch 12)
- **Event store / event stream** — An event store is an append-only database of events; each entity's events form its own ordered stream with sequence numbers. Used in projects 12, 15, 24, 30. (Ch 12)
- **Event-driven architecture (EDA)** — Services communicate by publishing and reacting to events instead of calling each other directly. Used in projects 8, 9, 10, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 16, 17, 23, 24, 26, 28, 29, 30, 31, 32, 33, 36, 38, 40. (Ch 11)
- **Eventual consistency** — Copies of data may disagree briefly after a change but converge once updates propagate. Used in projects 9, 10, 11, 15, 18, 24, 29, 32. (Ch 1)
- **Eviction** — Removing an entry automatically — for example a registry dropping an instance whose heartbeats stopped. Used in project 4. (Ch 5)
- **Exactly-once** — Processing each message exactly one time. True exactly-once across systems is very hard; in practice you get at-least-once delivery plus idempotent handling. Used in projects 9, 13. (Ch 11)

- **Exit criterion** — The measurable condition that must be met before a migration step is considered done. Used in project 26. (Ch 2)
- **Expand and contract** — Changing a schema in safe steps: add the new form, migrate readers and writers, then remove the old form — so old and new versions can run side by side. Used in project 37.
- **Externalized configuration** — Keeping configuration outside the deployable artifact (config server, ConfigMap, environment) so it can change without a rebuild. Used in projects 7, 8, 18, 19, 21, 26, 28, 32, 37, 40. (Ch 13)

F

- **Facade** — A front component that hides one or more systems behind a single interface — in a migration, the router in front of old and new. Used in projects 1, 21, 23, 26. (Ch 2)
- **Facets** — Counts of results per filter value ("Brand: Acme (12)") shown next to search results. Used in project 15.
- **Fail fast** — Returning an error immediately rather than waiting, when success is unlikely. Used in projects 5, 6. (Ch 6)
- **Fail open vs fail closed** — When a protective component (rate limiter, auth check) breaks, fail open lets traffic through; fail closed blocks it. Used in project 19.
- **Failover** — Automatically switching to a backup (instance, provider or region) when the primary fails. Used in projects 27, 30, 31, 32, 36. (Ch 1)
- **Fallback** — The safe answer used when the real call fails or is blocked — cached data, a default, or a degraded response. Used in projects 1, 5, 6, 8, 19, 26, 27. (Ch 6)
- **Fan-out** — Sending one request to several services in parallel and merging the results. Used in projects 2, 3, 6, 12, 16, 20, 33. (Ch 3)
- **Fault injection / Toxiproxy** — Deliberately adding latency, errors or dropped connections to test resilience. Toxiproxy is a TCP proxy whose "toxics" inject such faults. Used in projects 5, 22, 27, 32, 34. (Ch 6)
- **Feature flag** — A configuration switch that turns behaviour on or off (or for some users) without deploying code. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 5, 8, 11, 12, 13, 16, 21, 23, 26, 28, 37, 38. (Ch 13)
- **Federation (GraphQL)** — Combining several teams' GraphQL schemas into one graph served through a single gateway. Used in project 20. (Ch 4)
- **Filter (gateway)** — A step in a gateway's request chain that changes or checks a request or response (adds a header, checks a key, logs). Used in projects 1, 2, 14, 15, 19, 25, 26, 28, 35. (Ch 3)
- **Fixed window vs sliding window** — Two ways to count requests for rate limiting: a fixed window resets every minute; a sliding window always looks back the last N seconds, avoiding bursts at window edges. Used in projects 5, 19, 30. (Ch 8)
- **Flag debt** — Old feature flags left in the code after their rollout finished, adding dead branches and confusion. Used in project 21. (Ch 13)
- **Flag types** — Kinds of feature flags with different lifetimes: release toggles, experiments, operational kill switches and permission flags. Used in project 21. (Ch 13)
- **Flagger** — A Kubernetes tool for automated canary releases using a service mesh's traffic splitting. Used in project 37.
- **Fleet** — All the running instances, services or clusters you operate; a fleet-wide change touches every one of them. Used in project 40.
- **Fluent Bit** — A lightweight log shipper that tails log files and forwards them to a log store. Used in project 7. (Ch 9)

G

- **Gatling / Fortio** — Load-testing tools (Gatling for JVM-based HTTP tests, Fortio from the Istio project) used like k6 to generate traffic. Used in projects 6, 27.
- **Geospatial index / H3** — A structure for finding things near a location fast. H3 is Uber's library that divides the map into hexagonal cells with ids. Used in project 30.
- **Git / GitHub Actions / Gitea** — Git is the version-control system; GitHub Actions is GitHub's CI service; Gitea is a small self-hosted Git server. Used in projects 4, 8, 17, 19, 26, 37, 40. (Ch

13)

- **GitOps** — Managing deployments by committing the desired state to Git and letting a tool (like Argo CD) make the cluster match it. Used in projects 37, 40.
- **Golden path** — The paved, supported way to build and run a service — templates, libraries and pipelines that make the right way the easy way. Used in project 40.
- **Goodput** — The rate of requests that succeed within their deadline — useful work, as opposed to raw throughput. Used in projects 35, 36. (Ch 1)
- **Graceful degradation** — Returning a useful but reduced response when a non-critical part fails, rather than an error. Used in projects 3, 6, 35. (Ch 6)
- **Graceful shutdown / preStop hook** — Stopping a service cleanly: stop taking new requests, finish in-flight ones, then exit. A Kubernetes preStop hook runs just before the container is told to stop, giving routing time to update. Used in projects 4, 18, 40. (Ch 5)
- **Gradle** — A build tool for Java projects; the demos use it to compile and run. Used in project 38.
- **Grafana** — A dashboard tool for graphing metrics, logs and traces. Loki stores logs and Tempo stores traces in the same family. Used in projects 5, 6, 7, 16, 22, 34.
- **GraphQL** — A query language for APIs where the client names exactly the fields it wants from one endpoint. Used in projects 3, 20. (Ch 4)

H

- **Half-open state** — The circuit-breaker state that lets a few trial calls through after a cooldown to see if the dependency has recovered. Used in project 5. (Ch 6)
- **Hash / hashing** — Turning a value into a repeatable, evenly spread number — used for sticky bucketing, partitioning and sharding. Used in projects 1, 19, 20, 21, 23, 24, 31, 33, 34. (Ch 2)
- **Head sampling vs tail-based sampling** — Head sampling decides at the start of a request whether to keep its trace; tail-based sampling waits until the trace is complete, so it can keep all slow or failed ones. Used in projects 7, 16, 34, 35, 37, 38.
- **Header (HTTP)** — A key-value field sent alongside an HTTP request or response, such as `Authorization` or `X-Request-Id`. Used in projects 1, 2, 11, 12, 14, 16, 19, 21, 22, 27, 28, 31, 35, 37, 38. (Ch 3)
- **Headless Service** — A Kubernetes Service with no virtual IP, whose DNS name returns the individual pod IPs, used for client-side load balancing. Used in project 18. (Ch 5)
- **Health check** — A periodic "are you alive and ready?" probe; failing instances are taken out of rotation. Used in projects 2, 4, 16, 32, 34, 39. (Ch 5)
- **Heartbeat** — A small "I'm still alive" message an instance sends at a fixed interval. Used in project 4. (Ch 5)
- **Helm / Kustomize** — Tools for producing Kubernetes manifests: Helm uses templated charts, Kustomize layers patches over a base. Used in projects 18, 28, 29, 39, 40.
- **High availability (HA)** — Designing a system to stay up nearly all the time, usually with redundant instances and automatic failover. Used in projects 1, 4, 8, 11, 25. (Ch 1)
- **Home region** — The region that owns a given customer's or record's writes in a multi-region system. Used in project 32.
- **Horizontal scaling** — Handling more load by adding more instances, rather than a bigger machine. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 16, 29, 34. (Ch 1)
- **Hot key / hot row** — One key or database row that receives a large share of traffic (a viral product, the last items in a sale), creating contention. Used in projects 19, 36. (Ch 1)
- **Hot vs cold data** — Hot data is recent and accessed often (keep it fast); cold data is old and rarely used (move it to cheaper storage). Used in project 29.
- **HTTP / REST** — HTTP is the request/response protocol of the web; a REST API exposes resources at URLs and uses HTTP methods (GET reads, POST creates, PUT/PATCH update, DELETE removes). Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9, 11, 15, 16, 17, 18, 19, 20, 21, 22, 23, 25, 27, 28, 31, 33, 36, 40. (Ch 1)
- **HTTP status codes** — Three-digit result codes: 2xx success, 4xx client error (401 unauthenticated, 403 forbidden, 409 conflict, 429 too many requests), 5xx server error (503 unavailable, 504 gateway timeout). Used in projects 2, 5, 6, 14, 19, 20, 25, 27, 31, 34, 35. (Ch 1)

- **HttpOnly / SameSite cookies** — Cookie settings: HttpOnly hides the cookie from JavaScript (limiting token theft); SameSite limits sending it on cross-site requests (limiting CSRF). Used in project 25.
- **Hybrid logical clock (HLC)** — A timestamp that combines wall-clock time with a counter, so events across regions get an order that respects causality even when clocks drift. Used in project 32.
- **Hypothesis (chaos)** — The prediction a chaos experiment tests, such as "if payments adds 2 s of latency, checkout error rate stays under 1%". Used in project 22.
- **Hystrix / Zuul** — Netflix's older Java libraries: Hystrix for circuit breaking (now in maintenance) and Zuul for an edge gateway. Used in projects 2, 5. (Ch 6)

I

- **Idempotency key** — A unique id the client sends with an operation and reuses on every retry, so the server can recognise duplicates and return the first result. Used in projects 5, 11, 27, 31, 33. (Ch 8)
- **Idempotent** — An operation is idempotent if doing it twice has the same effect as doing it once — essential wherever retries or at-least-once delivery happen. Used in projects 5, 9, 10, 11, 12, 13, 14, 18, 23, 27, 29, 31, 33, 40. (Ch 8)
- **In-memory state built from streams** — Keeping the current state (for example driver positions) in application memory, rebuilt by reading a compacted topic at startup. Used in project 30.
- **Inbox (processed-event table)** — A table where a consumer records the ids of messages it has handled, so duplicates are detected and skipped. Used in projects 12, 13, 40. (Ch 11)
- **Index alias** — A pointer name for a search index; you build a new index in the background and switch the alias to it in one step, with no downtime. Used in project 15.
- **Ingress / ingress gateway** — The entry point that brings outside traffic into a Kubernetes cluster or service mesh. Used in projects 27, 37. (Ch 3)
- **Initial snapshot** — The first full copy of existing table data that a CDC tool takes before it starts streaming changes. Used in project 23. (Ch 2)
- **Instance** — One running copy of a service. Used in projects 1, 2, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9, 11, 13, 15, 18, 19, 21, 22, 28, 29, 30, 32, 35, 36. (Ch 5)
- **Integration / end-to-end test** — An integration test checks a component together with real dependencies (database, broker); an end-to-end test runs the whole system the way a user would. Used in projects 1, 4, 6, 8, 10, 12, 13, 14, 15, 16, 17, 19, 21, 23, 25, 29, 38.
- **IP address** — The numeric network address of a machine or pod. Used in projects 4, 18. (Ch 5)
- **Istio / istiod** — A service mesh for Kubernetes; istiod is its control plane, and Envoy proxies are its data plane. Used in projects 25, 27, 37, 40. (Ch 9)

J

- **Jaeger / Tempo** — Trace storage and viewing tools: you send spans to them and look at a request's whole timeline. Used in projects 11, 16, 24, 27, 33, 34.
- **Java records / sealed interfaces** — Modern Java features: records are compact immutable data classes; a sealed interface lists all its allowed implementations, so the compiler knows every case. Used in projects 1, 7, 11, 14, 15, 17, 22, 23, 24, 31, 33, 36, 37.
- **Jitter** — Random variation added to retry delays so many clients don't all retry at the same instant. Used in projects 5, 14, 22, 35, 40. (Ch 8)
- **JMH** — Java Microbenchmark Harness — a tool for accurately measuring small pieces of Java code. Used in project 21.
- **JSON** — JavaScript Object Notation, the common text format for API data. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 7, 9, 12, 13, 17, 22, 25, 26, 38.
- **JSON Patch** — A standard format for describing the differences between two JSON documents as a list of operations. Used in project 26.
- **JUnit** — The standard Java unit-testing framework. Used in project 17.
- **JVM / JDK** — The Java Virtual Machine runs Java programs; the Java Development Kit is the toolset (compiler, runtime) for building them. Used in projects 17, 18.

- **JWKS and key rotation** — A JWKS (JSON Web Key Set) endpoint publishes the public keys used to verify tokens; key rotation means switching to new signing keys regularly without breaking verification. Used in project 25.
- **JWT** — JSON Web Token — a signed token carrying claims (who the user is, which audience and scopes) that a service can verify without calling the issuer. Used in projects 2, 25. (Ch 3)

K

- **k6** — A load-testing tool where you script virtual users or arrival rates in JavaScript. Used in projects 6, 18, 19, 20, 22, 27, 34, 35, 36.
- **Kafka** — Apache Kafka — a distributed, durable event log. Producers write messages to topics split into partitions; consumers read them at their own pace. Used in projects 8, 9, 10, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 16, 17, 21, 23, 24, 26, 28, 29, 30, 31, 32, 36, 37, 38, 39, 40. (Ch 11)
- **Kafka Connect / MirrorMaker 2** — Kafka Connect runs connectors (like Debezium) that move data between Kafka and other systems; MirrorMaker 2 copies topics between Kafka clusters, for example across regions. Used in projects 13, 23, 32. (Ch 11)
- **Kafka Streams** — A Java library for processing Kafka topics as streams (joins, aggregations, windows) inside your own application. Used in projects 29, 30, 40. (Ch 11)
- **Keycloak / Spring Authorization Server** — Identity servers that log users in and issue OAuth 2.0 / OpenID Connect tokens. Used in project 25.
- **Kiali** — A dashboard that visualises an Istio mesh's traffic and health. Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **kind / k3d** — Tools that run a small Kubernetes cluster inside Docker containers on a laptop. Used in projects 7, 18, 27, 28, 29, 31, 32, 33, 40.
- **KRaft / ZooKeeper** — KRaft is Kafka's built-in way of storing cluster metadata; it replaced the older external ZooKeeper coordination service. Used in project 9.
- **Kubernetes** — The standard platform for running containers across a cluster of machines: it schedules pods, restarts failed ones and routes traffic to them. Used in projects 4, 7, 8, 18, 22, 27, 28, 29, 34, 37, 39, 40. (Ch 9)
- **Kubernetes Service** — A stable name and virtual IP in Kubernetes that load-balances to the ready pods matching a label — server-side discovery built in. Used in projects 4, 18. (Ch 5)
- **KurrentDB (EventStoreDB)** — A database built specifically for event sourcing, storing streams of events. Used in project 24. (Ch 12)

L

- **L4 / L7** — Network layers: L4 load balancing works on TCP connections; L7 understands HTTP (paths, headers) and can route per request. Used in project 27.
- **Last-writer-wins (LWW)** — A conflict rule where the update with the latest timestamp wins; simple, but silently drops the other change. Used in project 32.
- **Latency / p95 / p99** — Latency is the time one request takes. p95 is the value 95% of requests beat (p99: 99%), which shows the slow tail that averages hide. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 5, 6, 7, 10, 11, 13, 15, 16, 19, 20, 21, 22, 23, 24, 26, 27, 28, 30, 31, 32, 34, 35, 36, 37, 39. (Ch 1)
- **Lease** — A registration or lock that expires unless renewed, so a crashed holder is cleaned up automatically. Used in project 4. (Ch 5)
- **Linkerd** — A lightweight service mesh, an alternative to Istio. Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **Little's law** — Requests in flight = arrival rate × time each spends in the system. Used to size thread pools, bulkheads and concurrency limits. Used in projects 6, 35. (Ch 1)
- **Liveness vs readiness probe** — Kubernetes checks: a liveness probe failing makes Kubernetes restart the container; a readiness probe failing just removes the pod from traffic. Used in projects 4, 18. (Ch 5)
- **Load balancer** — A component that spreads incoming requests across several instances. Used in projects 1, 2, 4, 18, 19, 21, 27, 32, 34. (Ch 1)
- **Load shedding** — Deliberately rejecting some requests early when overloaded, so the rest are still served well. Used in projects 19, 35, 36. (Ch 7)
- **Load test / open vs closed load model** — A load test generates traffic to measure behaviour. In a closed model a fixed number of users wait for each response; in an open model requests arrive at a

set rate no matter how slow the system is, which is how real overload looks. Used in projects 6, 18, 20, 27, 28, 29, 34, 35. (Ch 1)

- **Local evaluation** — Evaluating feature flags inside the application from a cached rule set, instead of calling the flag server for every check. Used in project 21. (Ch 13)
- **Log correlation** — Putting the trace id in every log line so logs and traces for one request can be joined. Used in projects 16, 40.
- **Log rotation** — Closing a log file when it gets big or old and starting a new one; a log shipper must track offsets so it doesn't lose or repeat lines. Used in project 7. (Ch 9)
- **Logback / MDC** — Logback is a Java logging library; MDC (mapped diagnostic context) holds per-request values like the trace id that are added to every log line. Used in projects 16, 28.
- **Loki** — Grafana's log store, which indexes labels rather than full text. Used in projects 7, 16, 34.
- **Lost isolation (saga)** — Because saga steps commit separately, other requests can see half-finished saga state; semantic locks and careful ordering limit the damage. Used in project 11. (Ch 10)
- **Lua script (Redis)** — A small script Redis runs atomically, so a read-check-write sequence can't be interrupted by another client. Used in projects 19, 36.

M

- **MailHog** — A fake email server for tests that catches outgoing mail so you can inspect it. Used in project 9.
- **Matchers (contract testing)** — Rules in a contract that check the shape or type of a field rather than an exact value, so contracts don't break on harmless data changes. Used in project 17.
- **Message contract** — A contract describing the events a provider publishes (topic, fields, types), tested like an HTTP contract. Used in project 17. (Ch 4)
- **Message key** — The value attached to a Kafka message that decides its partition; messages with the same key stay in order. Used in projects 5, 9, 12, 13, 15, 23, 30, 34. (Ch 11)
- **Metrics** — Numeric measurements collected over time — request counts, error rates, latency histograms. Used in projects 5, 6, 7, 9, 13, 16, 20, 21, 22, 27, 30, 34, 35, 37, 40.
- **Micrometer** — The metrics (and tracing) facade used by Spring Boot; it exports to Prometheus and other backends. Used in projects 5, 7, 16, 22.
- **Microservices** — An architecture where an application is built from small services that are deployed independently and each own their data. Used in projects 10, 12, 25, 29, 30, 31, 39, 40. (Ch 1)
- **Monolith** — An application built and deployed as a single unit. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 23, 26, 40. (Ch 2)
- **Monotonic state machine** — A state machine that only ever moves forward (never back to an earlier state), so late or duplicate messages can't undo progress. Used in project 31.
- **mTLS** — Mutual TLS — both sides of a connection present certificates, so each proves its identity and the traffic is encrypted. Used in projects 25, 27. (Ch 9)
- **Multi-tenant / tenant** — A tenant is one customer organisation; a multi-tenant system serves many tenants from shared infrastructure while keeping their data apart. Used in projects 6, 16, 28, 34, 35, 40. (Ch 7)
- **Multi-window alert** — A burn-rate alert that fires only when both a long and a short window are burning fast, catching real problems quickly without noisy pages. Used in project 34.

N

- **N+1 problem** — Making one call to get a list and then one more call per item. The fix is batching. Used in projects 3, 20. (Ch 4)
- **Namespace (Kubernetes)** — A named group of resources inside a Kubernetes cluster, used to separate teams, tenants or cells. Used in projects 7, 27, 28, 39.
- **Native sidecar container** — A Kubernetes feature (init container with `restartPolicy: Always`) that starts a sidecar before the app and stops it after, fixing ordering problems. Used in projects 7, 27. (Ch 9)
- **Noisy neighbour** — A tenant or workload that uses so much shared capacity that others slow down. Used in projects 16, 26, 28, 34, 35, 37, 39. (Ch 7)

- **North-south vs east-west traffic** — North-south traffic enters or leaves the system (clients to gateway); east-west traffic flows between internal services. Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **Nullability** — Whether a field may be empty (null). In GraphQL, nullable fields let one failing part return null while the rest of the response still succeeds. Used in projects 1, 15, 20.

O

- **OAuth 2.0 / OpenID Connect (OIDC)** — OAuth 2.0 is the standard for issuing access tokens that let a client call APIs on a user's behalf; OpenID Connect adds a login layer on top that says who the user is. Used in project 25.
- **Observability** — Being able to understand what a running system is doing from its metrics, logs and traces. Used in projects 12, 16, 22, 26, 27, 34, 40.
- **Offer with timeout** — Offering a ride to one driver and moving on to the next if they don't accept within a set time. Used in project 30.
- **Offset** — A message's position number in a Kafka partition; a consumer commits its offset to record how far it has read. Used in projects 7, 9, 12, 14, 15, 23, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Onboarding** — Bringing a new tenant, customer or team onto the platform. Used in project 28.
- **Open Policy Agent** — A general policy engine that evaluates authorization rules written in its Rego language. Used in project 25.
- **OpenAPI** — A standard format for describing HTTP APIs (paths, parameters, schemas), used for docs and code generation. Used in project 17.
- **OpenFeature** — A vendor-neutral standard API for feature flags, so application code doesn't depend on one flag vendor. Used in projects 21, 26. (Ch 13)
- **OpenTelemetry (OTel) / OTLP / Collector** — The open standard for producing traces, metrics and logs. OTLP is its wire protocol, and the Collector is a service that receives, processes (for example samples) and exports that data. Used in projects 16, 26, 28, 34, 40. (Ch 9)
- **Optimistic concurrency** — Letting writers proceed without locks and rejecting a write if the data changed since it was read (for example by checking an expected version number). Used in projects 11, 24, 30, 33. (Ch 12)
- **Orchestration / orchestrator** — A saga style where one central coordinator tells each participant what to do next and handles failures. Used in projects 3, 11, 12, 29, 33, 36, 39. (Ch 10)
- **Outbox (transactional outbox)** — Writing an event into an outbox table in the same database transaction as the business change, then publishing it separately, so the two can never disagree. Used in projects 9, 11, 13, 15, 24, 26, 29, 31, 32, 36, 38, 40. (Ch 10)
- **Outlier detection** — A proxy feature that temporarily ejects an instance from load balancing after repeated errors — a circuit breaker per instance. Used in project 27. (Ch 6)
- **Over-fetching / under-fetching** — Receiving more data than a screen needs, or needing several calls to get enough. Used in project 3. (Ch 4)
- **Overselling** — Selling more items than exist in stock, usually because two requests both saw the last unit as available. Used in project 36.

P

- **Pact / Pact Broker** — Pact is a consumer-driven contract-testing tool; the Pact Broker stores contracts and verification results and answers "can I deploy?" (`can-i-deploy`). Used in project 17. (Ch 4)
- **Parallel run** — Running the old and new implementations side by side on real traffic and comparing results before switching. Used in projects 1, 26. (Ch 2)
- **Partial failure** — Some parts of a request or system fail while others work; the design must decide what to return. Used in projects 2, 20, 27. (Ch 3)
- **Partition (Kafka)** — One ordered slice of a topic. Partitions let consumers work in parallel; order is only guaranteed within one partition. Used in projects 6, 9, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 23, 24, 29, 30, 31, 32, 35, 37, 39. (Ch 11)
- **Partition key** — The value used to choose a partition (for example order id), so all events for one entity stay in order. Used in projects 5, 9, 12, 13, 15, 23, 30, 34. (Ch 11)

- **Partition pause** — Temporarily stopping consumption from one partition (for example while a message waits for its retry time) without stopping the whole consumer. Used in project 14.
- **Payload** — The actual data carried in a request, response or message. Used in projects 3, 12, 13, 14, 17, 33.
- **Payload budget** — A measured limit on response size, enforced by a test. Used in project 3. (Ch 4)
- **PeerAuthentication** — The Istio resource that sets mTLS mode; STRICT means only mTLS traffic is accepted. Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **Per-source versioning** — Storing the last applied version from each source service in a read-model document, so late or out-of-order events are ignored. Used in project 15. (Ch 12)
- **Persisted queries** — GraphQL queries registered in advance and called by id, so clients can't send arbitrary expensive queries and requests are smaller. Used in project 20.
- **PII** — Personally identifiable information — data such as names, emails or addresses that identifies a person and needs careful handling. Used in projects 21, 24, 38.
- **Pivot transaction** — The saga step after which the saga commits to finishing: steps before it can be compensated, steps after it must be retried until they succeed. Used in project 11. (Ch 10)
- **Platform as a product** — Running an internal platform like a product: users (developers), adoption metrics, feedback and a roadmap. Used in project 40.
- **Platform starter / service template** — A versioned library that bundles a company's standard configuration (a Spring Boot starter), and a template that generates a new service already wired to use it. Used in projects 2, 13, 16, 37, 39, 40.
- **Pod** — Kubernetes' smallest unit: one or more containers that run together on the same machine and share a network address. Used in projects 7, 18, 22, 25, 27, 34, 37, 40. (Ch 9)
- **Poison pill** — A message that fails every time it's processed (for example malformed data) and would block its partition forever if not moved aside. Used in projects 14, 39. (Ch 8)
- **Polling relay / `SKIP LOCKED`** — An outbox relay that repeatedly queries for unpublished rows; `SELECT … FOR UPDATE SKIP LOCKED` lets several relay workers grab different rows without waiting on each other. Used in projects 4, 13, 21, 33, 36. (Ch 10)
- **Pool, bridge, silo** — Multi-tenancy models: pool shares everything (rows tagged by tenant), bridge shares compute but separates data (schema per tenant), silo gives a tenant its own stack. Used in project 28.
- **PostgreSQL** — A popular open-source relational database. Used in projects 1, 3, 9, 10, 11, 13, 14, 21, 23, 24, 28, 29, 30, 31, 32, 33, 36, 39, 40.
- **Predicate (gateway)** — A condition that decides whether a route matches a request, such as `Path=/api/users/**`. Used in projects 1, 2. (Ch 3)
- **Priority classes** — Labels that rank requests (critical, normal, sheddable) so overload protection drops the least important first. Used in projects 21, 26, 34, 35. (Ch 7)
- **Profile (Spring)** — A named set of configuration (dev, prod, a region) that is applied on top of the defaults. Used in projects 8, 16, 32. (Ch 13)
- **Progressive delivery** — Releasing in steps — canary, percentage rollouts, automated checks — and rolling back automatically when metrics degrade. Used in project 37.
- **Projection / projector / read model** — A read model is data reshaped for queries; a projector is the code that builds and updates it by applying events. Used in projects 10, 12, 15, 23, 24, 29, 30, 36, 38. (Ch 12)
- **Prometheus / PromQL** — Prometheus is an open-source system that scrapes and stores metrics and evaluates alert rules; PromQL is its query language. Used in projects 6, 7, 22, 27, 34, 37.
- **Provider state / provider verification** — In contract testing, the provider re-runs every consumer's contract against itself (verification), first setting up the data each interaction assumes (provider state). Used in project 17. (Ch 4)
- **Proxy / reverse proxy** — A proxy is a middleman that forwards traffic. A reverse proxy sits in front of servers and forwards client requests to them. Used in projects 1, 5, 6, 7, 16, 18, 21, 22, 26, 27. (Ch 1)
- **PSP (payment service provider)** — A company such as Stripe or Adyen that actually charges cards on a merchant's behalf. Used in project 31.

Q

- **Query** — A request to read data that changes nothing. In CQRS, queries go to the read side. Used in projects 7, 10, 13, 15, 16, 17, 20, 22, 23, 24, 28, 30, 31, 33, 37. (Ch 12)

R

- **Rate limiting / rate limiter** — Capping how many requests a client may make in a time window, rejecting the excess (HTTP 429). Used in projects 2, 3, 14, 19, 28, 31, 35, 36. (Ch 3)
- **Read replica** — A database copy kept in sync with the primary and used only for reads. Used in projects 10, 28. (Ch 1)
- **Read-your-own-writes** — A guarantee that a user who just changed something sees their change on the next read, even if read models lag. Used in project 10. (Ch 12)
- **Rebalance** — Kafka reassigning partitions among the consumers in a group when one joins or leaves; processing pauses briefly. Used in project 9. (Ch 11)
- **Reconciliation** — Comparing two records of the same facts (your ledger against a PSP's report, old database against new) and fixing differences, called breaks. Used in projects 23, 26, 28, 29, 31, 36. (Ch 10)
- **Redis** — A very fast in-memory key-value store, often used for caches, counters and rate limits. Used in projects 2, 5, 19, 28, 29, 30, 36.
- **@RefreshScope** — A Spring annotation that rebuilds a bean when configuration is refreshed, so new values take effect without a restart. Used in project 8. (Ch 13)
- **Region / region evacuation** — A region is a geographic group of data centres; evacuation moves all traffic out of a region on purpose, for example during an outage or drill. Used in projects 30, 32, 39.
- **Relay** — The process that reads events from an outbox (by polling or CDC) and publishes them to the broker. Used in projects 9, 11, 13, 24, 25. (Ch 10)
- **Replay** — Re-processing past messages or events — for example to rebuild a read model or to re-run a workflow's history. Used in projects 9, 11, 14, 15, 17, 24, 25, 26, 32, 33, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Replica** — An identical running copy of a pod or a copy of data on another server. Used in projects 6, 10, 18, 23, 26, 28, 36.
- **Replication / asynchronous replication** — Replication keeps copies of data on several machines or regions. Asynchronous replication copies writes after they commit locally, so writes stay fast but the copy can lag and the newest writes can be lost in a disaster. Used in projects 4, 13, 19, 23, 27, 32, 36, 38. (Ch 1)
- **Replication slot** — A PostgreSQL feature that keeps change-log data until a CDC reader has consumed it; an abandoned slot makes the disk fill up. Used in projects 13, 23. (Ch 2)
- **Request hash** — A hash of an API request's body stored with its idempotency key, so a retry with the same key but different content is rejected. Used in project 31. (Ch 8)
- **Reservation with TTL** — Holding an item for a buyer for a limited time; if the purchase isn't completed before the time-to-live runs out, the hold expires. Used in projects 4, 11, 15, 36. (Ch 10)
- **Resilience4j** — The standard Java library for resilience patterns: circuit breaker, retry, bulkhead, rate limiter and time limiter. Used in projects 5, 6, 11, 20, 22, 27, 31, 40. (Ch 6)
- **Resolver** — A component that works out one value for a request — in GraphQL, the function that fetches the data for one field; elsewhere, for example, a tenant resolver that decides which tenant a request belongs to, or a key resolver that picks the rate-limit key. Used in projects 19, 20, 28, 31. (Ch 4)
- **Resource exhaustion** — Running out of a limited resource (threads, connections, memory) so nothing else can proceed. Used in projects 6, 14, 24. (Ch 7)
- **RestClient** — Spring's modern synchronous HTTP client. Used in projects 2, 3, 5, 20, 40.
- **Retry** — Automatically trying a failed operation again, ideally only for transient errors and with backoff. Used in projects 4, 5, 9, 11, 13, 14, 16, 18, 19, 22, 24, 26, 27, 29, 31, 33, 35, 36, 40. (Ch 8)
- **Retry amplification / retry budget / retry storm** — When several layers each retry, one failure becomes many requests (amplification); a retry storm is many clients retrying at once. A retry

budget caps retries to a small share of traffic. Used in projects 5, 14, 22, 35. (Ch 8)

- **Retry topic** — A Kafka topic where a failed message waits before being retried, so the main topic keeps flowing (non-blocking retry). Used in project 14. (Ch 8)
- **Retry-After / RateLimit headers** — HTTP response headers that tell a client how long to wait before retrying (`Retry-After`) and how much of its quota is left (`RateLimit-*`). Used in projects 5, 19, 35. (Ch 3)
- **@RetryableTopic** — A Spring Kafka annotation that sets up retry topics and a dead-letter topic for a listener automatically. Used in project 14. (Ch 8)
- **Reverse sync** — During a database migration, copying changes from the new database back to the old one so the old system stays correct while it still runs. Used in project 23. (Ch 2)
- **RLS (row-level security)** — A PostgreSQL feature that filters rows automatically by a policy (for example by tenant id), so one tenant's query can never return another's data. Used in project 28.
- **Rollback** — Returning to the previous version or state — in a database by undoing a transaction, in a release by redeploying or rerouting to the old version. Used in projects 1, 11, 13, 21, 23, 26, 27, 37, 39. (Ch 2)
- **Rolling update / surge** — Replacing pods with a new version a few at a time; surge is how many extra pods may run during the swap. Used in projects 18, 29, 30.
- **Round trip** — A request going out and its response coming back. Used in projects 3, 19. (Ch 3)
- **Round-robin** — Sending each new request to the next instance in turn. Used in project 4. (Ch 5)
- **Route** — A rule that maps matching requests to a backend. Used in projects 1, 2, 4, 13, 17, 18, 19, 23, 26, 27, 28, 30, 31, 34, 35, 37, 39, 40. (Ch 3)
- **RPO / RTO** — Recovery Point Objective (how much recent data you may lose in a disaster) and Recovery Time Objective (how long recovery may take). Used in project 32.

S

- **SaaS** — Software as a Service — software sold as a hosted subscription rather than installed by the customer. Used in projects 28, 39.
- **Saga** — A business transaction split into local transactions across services, each with a compensating action that undoes it if a later step fails. Used in projects 11, 12, 13, 24, 29, 31, 33, 36, 40. (Ch 10)
- **Schema** — The defined structure of data — database tables and columns, or the fields and types of an event or API. Used in projects 9, 12, 13, 15, 17, 20, 23, 24, 26, 28, 37, 38.
- **Schema id in each message** — A small number at the start of each serialized message saying which registered schema to use to decode it. Used in project 38. (Ch 11)
- **Schema registry / subject** — A service that stores versions of message schemas and rejects incompatible changes; a subject is the name schemas are versioned under (often one per topic). Used in projects 9, 25, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Scientist** — GitHub's library for running old and new code side by side and comparing the results (a parallel run in code). Used in project 26.
- **Scope (OAuth)** — A permission string in a token (such as `orders:read`) limiting what the token may be used for. Used in projects 25, 27, 39.
- **Scorecard** — A per-service report showing whether it meets platform standards (latest starter, SLOs defined, alerts set). Used in projects 37, 40.
- **SDK** — Software development kit — a library for calling a service or platform from code. Used in projects 16, 21, 33.
- **Secrets manager / Vault** — A service built to store and hand out secrets (passwords, keys) securely, with rotation and audit. HashiCorp Vault is the best-known. Used in projects 8, 18. (Ch 13)
- **Self-preservation (Eureka)** — Eureka's mode where, if many heartbeats stop at once, it assumes a network problem and stops evicting instances. Used in project 4. (Ch 5)
- **Semantic change** — A change in what a field means (cents instead of pounds) without a change to its type — schema checks can't catch it. Used in project 38. (Ch 11)
- **Semantic lock** — A flag on a record (such as `PENDING`) that tells other requests a saga is in progress on it. Used in project 11. (Ch 10)

- **Semaphore bulkhead / thread-pool bulkhead** — Two ways to cap concurrent calls: a semaphore counts permits on the caller's thread; a thread pool runs calls on a separate, fixed set of threads. Used in project 6. (Ch 7)
- **Serializable isolation** — The strictest transaction isolation level: transactions behave as if run one after another, at the cost of retries on conflict. Used in project 31.
- **Server-Sent Events (SSE)** — A simple HTTP mechanism where the server keeps a connection open and pushes a stream of updates to the browser. Used in projects 21, 29, 36.
- **Service catalogue** — A directory of every service with its owner, docs, dependencies and health. Used in projects 18, 40.
- **Service discovery** — Finding where other services are currently running, by name, at runtime. Used in projects 4, 18, 27, 30, 32, 39, 40. (Ch 5)
- **Service mesh** — A layer of proxies beside every service, managed by a control plane, that handles service-to-service traffic: mTLS, retries, timeouts, routing and telemetry. Used in projects 6, 18, 25, 27, 37. (Ch 9)
- **Service registry** — The list of running service instances and their addresses that service discovery looks up. Used in projects 4, 5, 9, 13, 16, 18, 28, 38, 39, 40. (Ch 5)
- **Shadow traffic** — Copying real requests to a new system and comparing its answers without returning them to users. Used in projects 1, 26. (Ch 2)
- **Sharded counter** — Splitting one hot counter (such as stock for a sale) into several shards so updates don't all fight over one row. Used in projects 19, 28, 33, 36, 39. (Ch 1)
- **Shared fate** — When components share infrastructure, they fail together; cells reduce shared fate. Used in project 39.
- **Shuffle sharding** — Giving each customer a random small combination of cells or nodes, so two customers rarely share all of theirs and one bad customer can't take down everyone. Used in project 39.
- **Sidecar** — A helper container deployed next to each service instance (same pod) to handle concerns like logging, metrics or networking. Used in projects 7, 16, 25, 27, 34, 37, 40. (Ch 9)
- **Sidecar injection** — Istio automatically adding its proxy container to pods in labelled namespaces. Used in project 27. (Ch 9)
- **Signal / query (workflow)** — Ways to talk to a running Temporal workflow: a signal sends it data or an event; a query reads its current state. Used in project 33.
- **Single point of failure (SPOF)** — One component whose failure takes the whole system down. Used in projects 1, 2, 4, 12, 39. (Ch 1)
- **Single writer** — Only one system may write a given record at a time, which avoids conflicts during migrations and replication. Used in project 23. (Ch 2)
- **SLI / SLO / SLA** — A service level indicator is a measured metric (share of requests under 300 ms); an objective is the target for it (99.9% over 30 days); an agreement is a contractual promise with penalties. Used in projects 34, 37, 39, 40. (Ch 1)
- **Snapshot (event sourcing)** — A saved copy of an aggregate's state at some event number, so rebuilding starts there instead of replaying everything. Used in projects 15, 21, 23, 24. (Ch 12)
- **Source of truth** — The one system whose copy of a piece of data is authoritative when copies disagree. Used in projects 1, 24, 26, 36.
- **Span / trace / span link** — A trace is the record of one request across all services; it is made of spans, each timing one operation. A span link connects a span to another trace, for example a message consumer to its producer. Used in projects 7, 12, 16, 21, 25, 26, 27, 28, 34, 40. (Ch 9)
- **Span metrics** — Metrics (rates, errors, durations) computed from all spans before sampling, so dashboards stay accurate even if most traces are dropped. Used in project 34.
- **SPIFFE** — A standard for giving workloads cryptographic identities (used by Istio's mTLS certificates). Used in project 25.
- **Spring Boot / Spring Cloud** — Spring Boot is a Java framework for building production-ready services quickly; Spring Cloud adds microservice tools (gateway, config, discovery, circuit breakers). Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 7, 8, 10, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 16, 17, 18, 19, 21, 23, 25, 26, 27, 28, 29, 31, 33, 35, 36, 38, 39, 40.

- **Spring Cloud Bus** — Links service instances over a message broker so one refresh event updates configuration on all of them. Used in project 8. (Ch 13)
- **Spring Cloud Contract** — Spring's contract-testing tool, which generates provider tests and consumer stubs from contracts. Used in projects 17, 38. (Ch 4)
- **Spring Cloud Gateway** — Spring's API gateway, with routes, predicates and filters; comes in Web MVC (servlet) and WebFlux (reactive) variants. Used in projects 1, 2, 19, 25, 26, 28, 35, 39. (Ch 3)
- **Spring Cloud Kubernetes** — Spring Cloud integration that reads ConfigMaps and discovers Kubernetes Services. Used in projects 8, 18. (Ch 5)
- **Spring Data JDBC / JDBC** — JDBC is Java's standard API for talking to relational databases; Spring Data JDBC builds simple repositories on top of it. Used in projects 13, 16.
- **Spring for Apache Kafka / Spring Cloud Stream** — Spring libraries for producing and consuming Kafka messages (`@KafkaListener`, `KafkaTemplate`); Cloud Stream abstracts over several brokers. Used in projects 9, 11, 12, 14, 15, 23, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Spring Modulith** — A Spring project for structuring a monolith into well-separated modules that can later become services. Used in project 13.
- **Spring MVC / WebFlux** — Spring's two web stacks: MVC is the classic servlet (blocking) model; WebFlux is reactive (non-blocking). Used in projects 1, 2, 19, 21.
- **Spring Security / resource server** — Spring's security framework; a resource server is a service that accepts and validates OAuth 2.0 access tokens. Used in project 25.
- **spring.config.import** — The Spring Boot property that tells an application where to load extra configuration from, such as a config server. Used in project 8. (Ch 13)
- **SQL** — Structured Query Language, used to read and write relational databases. Used in projects 13, 16, 23.
- **SRE** — Site Reliability Engineering — running operations with software-engineering practices such as SLOs and error budgets. Used in projects 34, 35.
- **State machine** — A model where something is always in exactly one of a fixed set of states (for example an order: placed, paid, preparing, delivered, cancelled) and only defined events move it between them. Used in projects 5, 11, 29, 30, 31. (Ch 10)
- **Stateless** — A service that keeps no per-client data between requests, so any instance can serve any request and you can add or remove instances freely. Used in projects 1, 2, 3, 29, 30, 39. (Ch 1)
- **Steady state** — The measurable normal behaviour of a system (error rate, latency) that a chaos experiment checks is preserved. Used in project 22.
- **Sticky routing / sticky bucketing** — Sending the same user to the same backend or flag variant every time, usually by hashing their id into a fixed bucket. Used in projects 1, 21, 37. (Ch 2)
- **Strangler facade with route modes** — A migration facade where each route has a mode — legacy, shadow, parallel or new — so a capability moves through the stages safely. Used in project 26. (Ch 2)
- **Strangler fig pattern** — Replacing a legacy system one capability at a time behind a facade, until the old system can be switched off. Used in projects 1, 18, 21, 23, 26, 37, 38, 39, 40. (Ch 2)
- **Sync loop** — Two replications feeding each other's changes back and forth forever; must be broken by tagging changes with their origin. Used in projects 23, 32.
- **Synchronous** — The caller waits for the response before continuing. Used in projects 3, 9, 31, 32, 39. (Ch 11)

T

- **Targeting rule** — A feature-flag rule that decides who gets a variant ("country = UK and plan = pro", or 20% of users). Used in project 21. (Ch 13)
- **Task queue** — In Temporal, a named queue from which workers pick up workflow and activity tasks. Used in project 33.
- **TCP** — Transmission Control Protocol — the reliable connection layer that HTTP runs on. Used in projects 22, 27, 35. (Ch 1)
- **Team ownership** — One team owns a service end to end (code, deploys, on-call), so it can change it without waiting on others. Used in projects 3, 11, 12. (Ch 4)

- **Temporal** — An open-source durable-execution workflow engine: you write a workflow as ordinary code and it survives crashes by replaying recorded history. Used in projects 11, 24, 33. (Ch 10)
- **Tenant context propagation** — Carrying the current tenant id through every call, message, log line and database query (for example via baggage headers). Used in projects 16, 28, 40.
- **Testcontainers** — A library that starts throwaway Docker containers (PostgreSQL, Kafka, Redis) for integration tests. Used in projects 1, 9, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 19, 23.
- **The long middle** — The long, risky phase of a migration where old and new systems both run; it's where most migrations stall. Used in project 26. (Ch 2)
- **Thread / thread pool** — A thread is one line of execution in a program; a thread pool is a fixed set of reusable threads that run tasks. Used in projects 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 14, 16, 20, 21, 22, 24, 28, 30, 33. (Ch 7)
- **Throughput** — How many requests or messages a system completes per second. Used in projects 4, 6, 9, 11, 12, 18, 19, 22, 23, 28, 29, 30, 33, 34, 35, 36. (Ch 1)
- **Tier migration** — Moving a tenant between pool, bridge and silo isolation as their needs change. Used in project 28.
- **Timeline projector** — A read model that collects every event of one saga in time order, so you can see where a choreographed flow is. Used in project 12. (Ch 10)
- **Timeout / time limiter** — The maximum time to wait for a call before giving up; Resilience4j's time limiter enforces it. Used in projects 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 11, 12, 14, 18, 20, 22, 27, 29, 30, 31, 33, 40. (Ch 6)
- **Timeout budget** — The total time a request may take, divided across its hops so inner calls time out before outer ones. Used in project 22. (Ch 8)
- **Timeout watcher** — A component that notices sagas stuck in a step past their deadline and triggers compensation. Used in projects 11, 12, 29. (Ch 10)
- **TLS** — Transport Layer Security — the encryption behind HTTPS. Used in projects 7, 25, 27.
- **Token bucket** — A rate-limiting algorithm: a bucket refills with tokens at a steady rate, each request spends one, and an empty bucket means reject. A full bucket allows short bursts. Used in projects 19, 28. (Ch 3)
- **Token exchange (RFC 8693)** — A standard way for a service to trade the token it received for a new token meant for the next service, with a narrower audience and scopes. Used in project 25.
- **Token relay** — A gateway passing the user's access token on to downstream services with each call. Used in project 25.
- **Topic** — A named stream of messages in Kafka that producers write to and consumers read from. Used in projects 9, 11, 12, 13, 14, 15, 16, 23, 29, 30, 32, 36, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Topic versioning** — Publishing a breaking schema change to a new topic (`orders.v2`) and running both versions until consumers have moved. Used in project 38. (Ch 11)
- **Transaction** — A group of database changes that succeed or fail together. Used in projects 9, 10, 11, 12, 13, 23, 24, 28, 31, 33. (Ch 10)
- **@TransactionalEventListener** — A Spring annotation for a method that runs only after the surrounding database transaction commits (or rolls back). Used in project 10.
- **Transient vs permanent error** — A transient error goes away by itself (timeout, 503), so retrying helps; a permanent error (400, invalid data) will fail every time. Used in projects 5, 11, 14, 21. (Ch 8)
- **tsvector** — PostgreSQL's full-text search type; an index on it allows fast word searches. Used in project 10.
- **TTL (time-to-live)** — How long an entry, lock or reservation lasts before it expires automatically. Used in projects 2, 19, 36.
- **Two-phase commit (2PC)** — A protocol that makes several databases commit one transaction together: a coordinator first asks everyone to prepare, then tells everyone to commit. It blocks if the coordinator fails, which is why microservices prefer sagas. Used in project 11. (Ch 10)

U

- **UI** — User interface. Used in projects 6, 9, 10, 11, 14, 15, 21, 33.

- **Unit test** — A test that checks one small piece of code in isolation. Used in projects 1, 3, 4, 10, 15, 17, 19, 21, 24, 25, 26, 30, 34, 35, 40.
- **UNKNOWN state** — A payment status meaning "we don't know if it went through" (for example after a timeout); it must be resolved by asking the provider, never by retrying blindly. Used in project 31.
- **Upcaster** — Code that converts an old version of a stored event into the current shape as it is read, so old events never have to be rewritten. Used in projects 24, 38. (Ch 11)
- **Upgrade bot** — An automated tool that opens pull requests on every repository to bump a shared library or starter. Used in project 40.
- **URL** — A web address. Used in projects 3, 8, 20.
- **Usage metering** — Recording how much of a product each tenant uses, for billing and limits. Used in project 28.
- **UUID** — A randomly generated 128-bit identifier that is practically unique. Used in project 2.

V

- **Versioned mapping** — A customer-to-cell routing table with a version number, so routers and migrations agree on which copy is current. Used in project 39.
- **Virtual threads** — Lightweight Java threads (Java 21+) that make blocking calls cheap, so simple blocking code can handle high concurrency. Used in projects 2, 3, 5, 6, 16, 20, 21, 30, 33. (Ch 7)
- **Virtual waiting room** — A queue page that admits users to a busy sale at a controlled rate, so the backend only sees the load it can handle. Used in project 36. (Ch 7)

W

- **W3C Trace Context** — The standard HTTP headers (`traceparent`) for passing trace ids between services. Used in project 16.
- **Wave deployment** — Rolling a change out to cells or regions in waves — one small cell first, then larger groups — so a bad change hits few customers. Used in project 39.
- **Webhook** — An HTTP call a provider makes to your system to report an event (such as "payment captured"); it may arrive late or more than once. Used in projects 8, 17, 31.
- **WebSocket** — A connection type that keeps a two-way channel open between browser and server for real-time messages. Used in projects 20, 21.
- **WireMock** — A test tool that runs a fake HTTP server returning canned responses, delays or errors in place of a real service. Used in projects 2, 3, 5, 6, 14, 20, 31.
- **Workflow versioning** — Changing workflow code safely while old workflow runs are still in progress, so their replay still matches their history. Used in project 33.
- **Workflow vs activity** — In Temporal, the workflow is the deterministic orchestration code; activities are the steps that do real (non-deterministic) work. Used in projects 17, 24, 29, 31, 33, 38. (Ch 10)
- **Write-ahead log (WAL) and LSN** — The WAL is PostgreSQL's log of every change, written before the data files; an LSN (log sequence number) is a position in it. CDC tools read the WAL. Used in projects 13, 23. (Ch 2)

Y

- **YAML** — An indentation-based text format for configuration files. Used in projects 2, 5, 6, 8, 22, 38.

Z

- **Zero trust** — A security model where no caller is trusted because of its network location; every request is authenticated and authorized. Used in project 25.
- **Zero-downtime** — Making a change (deploy, rebuild, migration) without any period where users see errors. Used in projects 15, 18.